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The Lucani between Greece and Rome:

A Literary Analysis of Their History to the End of the Social War

A dissertation submitted in partial satisfaction of the

requirements for the degree Doctor of Philosophy

in History

by

Douglas Vincent Favelo

2010

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2010

To My Wife, Heather

TABLE OF CONTENTS

Chapter 1. Introduction 1
State of Scholarship 4
Key Primary Sources 13
Chapter Contents 17
Chapter 2. Lucanian Society and Culture 25
I. Origins of the Lucani 25
A. The *Ver Sacrum* and the Fifth-Century Samnite Invasions 27
B. Arguments for an Earlier Advent and the Ethnogenesis Model 32
C. The Ethnogenesis Model and the Pre-Samnite Inscriptions 33
II. Lucanian Origins in the Literary Sources 35
A. Earliest Southern Italy and Glimpses of the Lucani 35
B. Oenotri, Lucani, and the Conflation of the Two 40
III. Lucania, ΛΥΚΟΣ 50
A. Lucanian Adaptation to Greek Etymologies 51
B. Lucani, *Luciferae* 54
C. Lucani from the Soil Color 55
D. King Lucilius 55
E. Theories of Origin Involving an Italic Word for "grove" 56
F. Theories of Origin Involving Words Meaning "light, bright" etc. Based on the PIE Root **leuk-* 57
IV. Early Lucanian Culture 60
A. The Importance of Hospitality in Lucanian Society 60
B. Naturalization 61
C. Friendship (State and Private) 62
V. The Lucanian *Paideia* 65
A. The Identity of the Lucanian Shepherd-Teachers 66
VI. Lucania and the Development of Gladiatorial *Munera* 68
VII. Early Lucanian Political Organization 69
A. The Lucanian Quasi-Democracy 69
B. Lucanian Political-Military Offices: The *Meddices* 72
C. The Lucanian Senate 75
D. The Lucanian King 76
VIII. Lucanian Tribes 80
A. Alexander Molossus and the Lucanian Tribes 84
B. The Bruttii and the Lucani 85
C. *Maior Lucania* 87
D. Tribal Differences in the Second Punic War 90
E. Other Evidence from the Second Punic War 93
F. Greek and Roman Influence on Lucanian Tribal Differences 94
IX. Lucanian Class Distinctions and Social Conflicts 95
A. The Lucanian Elite 96
B. The Lucanian Free 99

C. Slavery in Lucania 99
D. The *Vereia* 101
X. Lucanian Religion 103
A. Sanctuaries 103
B. Mefitis 107
Conclusion 112

Chapter 3. Lucania and the Greeks through the Greek Archaic Period 113
I. Lucania and Mythological Heroes 113
A. Arcadians 115
B. Hercules 117
C. Jason 120
D. Odysseus and the Sirens 121
E. Philoctetes 125
F. Achaeans 126
G. Amazons 127
H. Epeius 128
I. Diomedes, Menelaos, Nestor's Pylians, and Other Heroes 129
II. The Greek Settlement of Magna Graecia and Its Impact on Lucania 131
A. Poseidonia 133
B. Velia 141
C. Pyxus 142
D. Laos 143
E. Thurii 145
F. Metapontum 145
III. "Hellenization" 148
A. Lucanian Uniqueness within Greek Practice 149
B. "Lucanianization" 153
Conclusion 154

Chapter 4. Lucania and the Greeks in the Greek Classical and Hellenistic Periods 156
I. *Condottieri* 157
A. Cleandridas, First *Condottiere* 158
B. Dionysius the Elder 160
C. Dionysius II 164
D. The Bruttian Schism 166
E. Timoleon 172
F. Archidamus III 173
G. Alexander Molossus of Epirus 175
H. Alexander the Great and the Lucani 180
I. Cleonymus 183
J. Conclusion: The *Condottieri* and the Lucani 186
II. Lucanian-Greek Connections 188

A. The Pythagoreans 189
B. Lucanian-Greek Friendships 197
C. The Poleis and the Lucani 198
D. Athens and the Lucani 198
Conclusion 200

Chapter 5. Lucani and Romans 201
I. Fourth-Century BC Roman-Lucanian Interaction 201
A. The Treaty of 330 BC 201
B. 326 BC, Lucania, Tarentum, and Rome 202
II. Third Samnite War 207
A. The Lucanian Role in the Outbreak of Hostilities 207
B. 298-296 BC 209
C. Sentinum (295 BC) 210
III. The Early Third Century BC and the Roman Conquest 213
A. Lucanian-Thurinian Conflict 213
B. Outbreak of the Roman-Tarentine War 217
C. Pyrrhus of Epirus 218
D. Asculum 222
E. Beneventum 226
IV. Aftermath of the Pyrrhic Wars 227
A. Paestum 227
B. The Picentine Settlement 229
C. 268-217 BC 232
V. The Second Punic War 234
A. The Role of the Lucani in the Second Punic War 235
B. Consequences for the Defector Lucani and Bruttii 238
VI. The Second Century BC 239
A. Buxentum 240
B. Other Colonies, Annexations, and Land Reform 241
VII. The Social War 245
A. Lucanian Entry 247
B. Lucanian High Command 248
C. Lucanian Performance 248
VIII. Social War, Civil War 249
A. The Battle of the Colline Gate 251
B. Aftermath for the Lucani 252
IX. The First and Second Triumvirates and Lucania 255
X. The Slave Armies of Lucania 256
A. Slave Armies in the Second Punic War 256
B. Spartacus 257
XI. Lucanian-Roman Connections 260
A. Development 260
B. Lucani and Romans in Augustus's "Age of Italy" 262

C. Lucanian Levies 263
D. Consequences of Lucanian-Roman Connections 265
XII. The Decline of Roman Lucania 266
Conclusion 271

Chapter 6. Greek and Roman Attitudes toward the Lucani 272
I. *Lucanus Perfidus* 272
A. Lucanian Treachery in the Fourth and Third Centuries BC 273
B. Lucanian Treachery in the Second Punic War 274
C. Lucanian Treachery in the Social War/Civil Wars 276
II. *Lucanus Fortis* 277
A. Individual Instances 277
B. The Lucani as Worthy (Defeated) Enemies 279
III. *Lucani Barbari* 280
IV. Ugly Lucania 283
A. *Silviae pastionesque* 285
B. The *Lucanica*: Food Fit for the *Barbaroi* 289
V. Wild Lucania: Bears, Boars, and *Boves* 292
A. Lucanian Bears 293
B. Lucanian Boars 294
C. Lucanian Cows 295
D. Shepherds of Ill Repute 297
VI. Beautiful Lucania 299
A. The Roses of Paestum 299
B. Magical Lucania 303
C. Lucanian Wine 306
VII. The Environment and Lifestyle of Coastal Lucania 308
A. *Ars Pestana* 308
B. *Loci Amoeni* 309
C. Pastures and Produce: Images of the Lucania Economy 315
Conclusion 317

Epilogue: Lucania in Late Antiquity 320

Conclusion 330

Appendix A: Timeline of Lucanian History 334

Map 1: Southern Italy 338

Bibliography 339

List of Maps

Map 1: Southern Italy 338

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ABSTRACT OF THE DISSERTATION

The Lucani between Greece and Rome:

A Literary Analysis of Their History to the End of the Social War

by

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While previous research on the history of the ancient Lucani has focused primarily on the archaeological material, this dissertation critically evaluates the Greek and Roman literary sources that treat the Lucani, though it also draws on inscriptional, archaeological, and numismatic evidence. This study seeks to understand better the social, political, religious, and cultural institutions of the Lucani between the colonization period of archaic Greece and the Social War. The results of this analysis indicate that the current historical picture of the Lucani needs to be modified in several ways. First, we

must acknowledge that Lucanian tribal differences played an important role in the development of Lucanian history. Second, Lucanian interaction with the Greeks and Romans was not the passive reception of the cultural and political hegemony of the latter two, as the inaccurate terms "Hellenization" and "Romanization" imply, but rather a two-way street whereby the Lucani also influenced the culture and history of Magna Graecia throughout the Greek and Roman periods. Finally, this study also considers how Greek and Roman writers ascribe a particular identity to the Lucani in order to construct or shape their own identity in a particular way. Ultimately, the success of this evaluation may be valuable to the future study of other heretofore ignored Italian peoples within the Greek and Roman world.

Chapter 1: Introduction

Alexander Molossus, king of Epirus and uncle to Alexander the Great, received a request from the Tarentines c. 332 BC for military aid against the Lucani, a Sabellian people who inhabited the area roughly corresponding to the modern regions of Basilicata and southern Campania. He succeeded for a time, but eventually made the error of trusting in a bodyguard drawn from supposedly loyalist Lucanian elites. Alexander died next to the Acheron River in southern Italy, pierced by a Lucanian spear. The tribes of the Lucani had successfully resisted a foreign invader, and had maintained the individuality and sovereignty that they had proudly cherished for centuries.

In recent decades scholarship has curtailed its hyper-Roman focus (in which the history of Rome *is* the history of Italy) and has become more periphery-oriented. Scholars now emphasize that the Greek and Roman worlds were comprised of numerous peoples and cultures, and by understanding better these once-"fringe" peoples we may get a better picture of the former. Decades ago, E.T. Salmon's groundbreaking *Samnium and the Samnites* did this very thing when he made explicit the rich history of Rome's most inveterate Italian enemies. But no complete literary analysis of the Lucani exists, an absence that this dissertation hopes to remedy. What research is available frequently has been wanting in one of two ways. On the one hand, early twentieth-century scholarly descriptions of the Lucani persist in referring to them as rude, uncultured peoples of Italy.

On the other hand, some scholars' findings are highly biased, apparently the product of nationalistic influence that skews an accurate picture of who the Lucani really were.[1]

As Salmon's work did for the Samnites, this dissertation hopes to illuminate the Lucanian people in antiquity, and to improve our understanding of their interaction with the Greeks, the Romans, and the other Italians from roughly the eighth century BC to the end of the Republic, when we can say definitively that Lucanian sovereignty ended and their society as a whole had significantly assimilated to something perhaps Roman, but certainly different from the Lucani 200 years earlier. In the past fifty years archaeology has improved our understanding of the Lucani somewhat, but, as always, archaeological data is only valuable when set within some kind of framework that the literary evidence provides. I intend to reexamine the history of the Lucani primarily through a reevaluation of the literary evidence, though I will utilize the archaeological and inscriptional evidence to mitigate the bias in our sources, since very little of the "Lucanian voice" remains; thus we must rely on Greek and Roman writers. By reexamining the entire corpus of literary sources on the Lucani, this study hopes to provide an even better framework in which to set future archaeological (and literary) scholarship on the Lucani. Equally as importantly, perhaps a study like this may open a new methodological door to consider other "fringe" peoples of the Roman Republic and Empire who have been relatively neglected up to this point.

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[1] For a summary of this historiographical trend, see M. Torelli, Tota Italia: *Essays in the Cultural Formation of Roman Italy* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1999), 1-8.

As a result of this study, I suggest that modern scholarship needs to view several aspects of the Lucani differently. Firstly, since the consensus opinion of a fifth-century BC Lucanian invasion of southern Italy rests on poor evidence (as supporters admit), this (faulty) starting point has led to an inaccurate picture of some aspects of the Lucanian people and their history. Thus, our analyses, hypotheses, and theories must, in general, change. Using a relatively new and promising theory of early Lucanian origins, I hope to reconsider the literary evidence in order to discover a more accurate picture of the Lucanian peoples, including (but not limited to) their politics, social classes, and cultural practices.

Secondly, scholars have long asserted that the Lucani Hellenized after the fifth century, and Romanized after the second; however, they have not used these phenomena to explain Lucanian-Greek and Lucanian-Roman political and military relations, or even to set this Hellenization and Romanization within a historical framework. This dissertation hopes to elucidate how these processes worked themselves out politically and militarily among Lucanian society; we will see that these terms, in fact, convey too much of a unidirectional situation, which does not match the real state of affairs between the Lucani and the Greeks and Romans.

Thirdly, I intend to challenge the presumption that the Lucani were an entirely unified people, or even a League with a strong collective national conscience. This study proposes that the various Lucanian tribes differed to some extent, and these differences had a profound influence on how the Lucani as a whole responded to the Greeks, to other

Italian peoples, and to the Romans.[2] We will see that numerous important military and political events in Lucanian history (if we can even use such a term with so diverse a people) rest on the unique results of the interaction between these tribes.

Finally, this dissertation will examine how Greek and Roman authors ascribed identity to the Lucani, creating a backdrop against which they could highlight their own histories and identities. These writers cast a rather varying picture of the Lucani, due in part to their own agendas. The Greeks emphasized the superiority of their Hellenic culture by belittling Lucanian culture, but the former could not ignore that the Lucani had adapted Greek institutions like painting and philosophy rather well. The Romans condemned the Lucani as perennially treacherous, but Roman military pride also profited from extolling Lucanian martial prowess. Furthermore, both Greek and Roman authors were faced with the diverse character of Lucania itself, on one hand a rough and mountainous home to barbarians and beasts, on the other a lush and peaceful coastal environment. Greek and Roman depictions of both Lucania and the Lucani parallel these two general pictures.

State of Scholarship

The state of scholarship on the Lucani is mixed at best. As of 2010, no comprehensive history of the Lucani exists in English. Salmon's *Samnium and the*

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[2] For the opposing view, see J. De La Genière, "Aspetti e problemi dell'archeologia del mondo indigeno," in *Le genti non greche della Magna Grecia. Atti del undicesimo convegno di studi sulla Magna Grecia, Taranto, 10-15 Ottobre 1971* (Naples: Arte tipografica, 1972), 225-60; D. Adamesteanu, "Scavi e ricerche archeologiche in Basilicata," in *Antiche civiltà lucane. Atti del convegno di studi di archeologia, storia dell'arte e del folklore. Oppido Lucano: 5-8 Aprile 1970*, ed. P. Borraro (Galatina: Congedo, 1975), 23, 27-8.

Samnites comes closest; yet the Lucani occupy only the fringe as southern Oscans.[3] A few histories of Roman Lucania exist in Italian, especially those of Gualtieri and Russi.[4] Racioppi's history of Basilicata is useful, as is Ciaceri's history of Magna Graecia, though both are dated.[5] None of these works, however, takes a holistic view of the literary sources, and they rely heavily on the archaeological data.

Historians have written several valuable monographs on the conquest of Italy, in which the Lucani play a role as both the last wave of resistance to Rome's march down the peninsula, and the final holdouts in the Social War. Some of the best treatments are David's *The Roman Conquest of Italy* and Heurgon's *The Rise of Rome to 264 B.C.*[6] The latter combines the literary, linguistic, and archaeological evidence very well, though he is a staunch supporter of the Lucani as a product of the Samnite *ver sacrum*, a supposition that is now under heavy criticism.[7] Nevertheless, his analysis of the interaction between the Lucani and Rome during the time of Pyrrhus is valuable. Frederiksen's *Campania* is still the final word for that region, the proximity of which to Lucania makes it important

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[3] E.T. Salmon, *Samnium and the Samnites* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1965).

[4] M. Gualtieri, *La Lucania romana. Cultura e società nella documentazione archeologica* (Naples: Loffredo, 2002); A. Russi, *La Lucania romana. Profilo storico-istituzionale* (San Severo: Gerni, 1995); E. Magaldi, *Lucania romana* (Rome: Istituto di Studi Romani, 1947).

[5] G. Racioppi, *Storia dei popoli della Lucania e della Basilicata*, vol. 1 (Rome: Deputazione di Storia per la Lucania, 1902); E. Ciaceri, *Storia della Magna Grecia*^{2}, 3 vols. (Milan: Albrighi, Segati & c., 1: 1926, 2:1927, 3: 1932).

[6] J. David, *The Roman Conquest of Italy*, tr. A. Nevill (Cambridge, Massachusetts: Blackwell Press, 1996); J. Heurgon, *The Rise of Rome to 264 B.C.*, tr. J.W. Willis (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1973). See also M. Crawford, *Roman Republic* (Atlantic Highlands, New Jersey: Humanities Press, 1978).

[7] J. Heurgon, *Trois études sur le 'ver sacrum'* (Brussels: Latomus, 1957).

to this study.[8] P.A. Brunt's books *Italian Manpower, 225 B.C.-A.D. 14* and *The Fall of the Roman Republic and Related Essays* are also important resources.[9]

I draw extensively on several dissertations that treat specific areas of Lucanian history. Gary Chiranky's study of Dionysius the Elder *vis-à-vis* the Italiotes and Italians highlights Lucanian-Greek political connections of the fourth century BC.[10] John Wonder's dissertation (and subsequent work) illuminates Lucanian-Greek interaction and fusion in Poseidonia, providing a model for most of the history of the Lucani and the Greek poleis (excluding Thurii) before the Roman conquest.[11] Finally, Loredana Cappelletti has investigated Lucanian and Bruttian political and cultural institutions; some of her conclusions will be valuable in my analysis of the Lucanian tribal system in Chapter 2.[12]

As the preeminent Anglophone scholar of Magna Graecia, Kathryn Lomas's research on the Greeks of southern Italy is invaluable, for it is impossible to separate the fate of the Italiotes from the history of the Lucani. Much of our information on the Lucani revolves around the wars of the *condottieri*, aspiring Hellenic generals who sought glory through conquest of the barbarians of southern Italy, and, in turn,

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[8] M. Frederiksen, *Campania*, ed. N. Purcell (London: British School at Rome, 1984).

[9] P.A. Brunt, *Italian Manpower, 225 B.C.-A.D. 14* (London: Oxford University Press, 1971).

[10] G. Chiranky, "Southern Italy before the Romans: Sabellians, Sicilians and Italian Greeks in Lucania and Bruttium ca. 450-367 B.C." (PhD diss., University of California, Berkeley, 1982).

[11] J. Wonder, *Paestum: The Lucanian Occupation, ca. 400-273 B.C.* (dissertation, University of California, Berkeley, 1993); J. Wonder, "What Happened to the Greeks in Lucanian-Occupied Paestum? Multiculturalism in Southern Italy," *Phoenix* 56, no. 1-2 (Spring-Summer 2002), 40-55.

[12] L. Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii: Ricerche sulla storia politica e istituzionale di due popoli dell'Italia antica (V-III sec. a. C.)* (Bern: Lang, 2002).

enrichment from the grateful citizens of Magna Graecia. In her book *Rome and the Western Greeks 350 BC-AD 200*, Lomas assembles and analyzes the archaeological and literary data for that period, and her companion sourcebook *Roman Italy* is a handy tool.[13] One valid criticism, however, is that her depiction of the Italians in relation to the Greeks is fundamentally Hellenocentric.

In her book *From Barbarians to New Men: Greek, Roman, and Modern Perceptions of Peoples of the Central Apennines*, Emma Dench offers a very different paradigm for considering ethnic relations in the ancient world as a whole, though she is interested specifically in Greek/Roman/Samnite interaction.[14] Dench's work challenges the traditional presumption of viewing the Italian peoples through Greek or Roman lenses. Her methodology rests in the first place on an analysis of the literary sources, but she also employs modern models of ancient-world perceptions of ethnicity, especially the stereotype of the barbarian. After establishing contexts for Samnites in Greek and Roman thought, however, she uses both linguistic and archaeological data to show the complexity of these interactions, and, in effect, how modern scholarship has got it all wrong.

Dench challenges how such terms as "Hellenization" and "Romanization" describe the interaction between Greeks or Romans and other peoples as an essentially one-way influence. Instead, the Italian peoples like the Samnites interacted culturally

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[13] K. Lomas, *Rome and the Western Greeks 350 BC-AD 200* (London and New York: Rutledge, 1993); K. Lomas, *Roman Italy 338BC-AD200, A Sourcebook* (New York: Saint Martin's Press, 1996).

[14] E. Dench, *From Barbarians to New Men* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1995).

with Greeks and Romans on a much more bidirectional level, even using cultural stereotypes to their own advantage. The Samnites had no problem reinventing their own history and traditions in order to associate on a more relevant level with the Greeks, adapting again later to the Romans.

Yet it is true that both the Greek and Roman picture of the Samnites changed based on the particular circumstances of the respective viewers. To Greeks of the fifth century the Samnites afforded a mysterious, fringe people descended from the heroes of the *nostoi*. To the Romans these nearby threats were initially the barbarian horde that ever threatened civilization and society; after the subjugation of the Samnites, however, the latter were transformed into the noble savage, whose untainted character served as a reminder of better qualities in the face of moral deterioration at Rome.

Most scholarship specifically dealing with the Lucani, however, has rested primarily on archaeological work, to which Italian scholars have added greatly over the last half-century. Dinu Adamesteanu's five decades of work in Lucania (and specifically Rossano di Vaglio and Metapontum) are foundational.[15] Excavation in the region began as early as the beginning of the twentieth century, but accelerated in the 1950s and 1960s. In recent decades Joseph Carter's work on the necropoleis of Metapontum has yielded

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[15] D. Adamesteanu: "Greci ed indigeni nell'agro di Heraclea (Policoro)," in *Atti della accademia nazionale dei Lincei, anno CCCLXVIII, 1971. Serie ottava. Rendiconti: Classe di scienze morali, storiche e filologiche*, vol. 26 (Rome: Accademia Nazionale dei Lincei, 1971), 643-652; "Indigeni e Greci in Basilicata," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 27-45; *La Basilicata antica. Storia e monumenti* (Cava dei Tirreni: Di Mauro, 1974). He is generally recognized as having stimulated the growth of the archaeological study of Basilicata, Apulia, and Calabria in the face of modernization and farm land reclamation, which threatened the archaeological record.

important information on the cultural sphere of Italiote and Lucanian life.[16] Several other sites provide extensive data on the material culture of the Lucani, from the fifth century all the way through the late Roman Empire. Emanuele Greco has written extensively on Paestum and Velia, and also the archaeologically significant Vallo di Diano area.[17] Rossano di Vaglio provides many of our Lucanian Oscan inscriptions, from which we learn much about Lucanian religion; Poseidonia, standing between the Greeks and Lucani, preserves arguably the best paintings of Magna Graecia. Roccagloriosa offers a glimpse of Lucanian life between the inland and coastal Lucanian regions. Lucanian hill-top fortifications are ubiquitous, and tell us much about the state of Lucanian technological advancement in comparison with the Italiote Greeks, and perhaps Lucanian military policy. Habitations remain, too, providing a glimpse at settlement patterns and living standards. I also single out the important work of H.W. Horsnaes, who has compiled an impressive collection of perhaps all the available archaeological studies in Lucania published to date.[18] Her "ethnogenesis" model of Lucanian origins will provide another foundational methodology, like Dench's, on which this dissertation rests. Also, Angela Pontrandolfo (Greco)'s *I Lucani* attempts to discover the Lucanian voice from the

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[16] J. Carter, *The Chora of Metaponto: The Necropoleis*, 2 volumes (Austin: University of Texas Press, 1998); J. Carter, "Rural Settlement at Metaponto," in *Archaeology and Italian Society*, ed. E. Barker and R. Hodges (Oxford, England: B.A.R., 1981), 167-178.

[17] E. Greco, "Problemi topografici nel Vallo di Diano fra VI e IV secolo a.C.," in *Storia del Vallo di Diano*, vol. 1, ed. B. D'Agostino (Salerno: Laveglia, 1982): 130-45.

[18] H.W. Horsnaes, *The Cultural Development in North Western Lucania c. 600-273 BC* (Rome: "L'Erma" di Bretschneider, 2002).

archaeological data.[19] Finally, the relatively recent *Storia di Basilicata* combines the most recent scholarship from the best archaeologists in the field.[20]

Among the archaeological data Red-Figured Lucanian vases are of special importance. From the fifth to the beginning of the fourth century several Lucanian painters and workshops were active, producing work of exceptional quality. Like building remains, this pottery may offer a glimpse at the Lucanian view, or at least a different viewpoint with which the Greek perspective may be compared. A.D. Trendall's work on Lucanian red-figure ware is of special use, as is Yntema's general treatment on matt-painted pottery.[21]

I also draw on several Lucanian Oscan inscriptions, including the important *Tabula Bantina*, and the supposed "Pre-Lucanian" inscriptions.[22] For these linguistic matters, Rix's *Sabellische Texte* and Untermann's Oscan-Umbrian dictionary are two invaluable tools.[23] Vetter's collection of inscriptions is still a useful resource.[24]

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[19] A. Pontrandolfo Greco, *I Lucani: Etnografia e archeologia di una regione antica* (Milan: Longanesi, 1982).

[20] G. De Rossa and A. Cestaro, eds., *Storia della Basilicata*, vol. 1 (Rome: Laterza, 1999).

[21] A.D. Trendall, *The Red-Figured Vases of Lucania, Campania and Sicily* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1967); D. Yntema, *The Matt-Painted Pottery of Southern Italy* (Utrecht: Drukkerij Elinkwijk, 1985).

[22] For the obscure Tortora inscription, see M.L. Lazzarini and P. Poccetti, *Il mondo enotrio tra VI e V secolo a.C. Atti dei seminari napoletani (1996-1998)*, Quaderni di Ostraka, 1.2 (Naples: Loffredo, 2001).

[23] H. Rix, *Sabellische Texte* (Heidelberg: C. Winter, 2002); J. Untermann, *Wörterbuch des Oskisch-Umbrischen* (Heidelberg: C. Winter, 2000). Citations of inscriptions refer to Rix's labeling system, unless otherwise noted.

[24] E. Vetter, *Handbuch der italischen Dialekte* (Heidelberg: Winter, 1953). For questions of Oscan forms I rely on C.D. Buck, *A Grammar of Oscan and Umbrian*^{2} (Boston: Ginn, 1928). For a general history of the languages of Italy, see J.H.W. Penney, "The Languages of Italy," in *Cambridge Ancient History*^{2}, vol. 4, ed. J. Boardman, N.G.L. Hammond, D.M. Lewis, and M. Ostwald (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1988), 720-38.

Prosdocimi and Poccetti have updated Vetter's collection, while adding their own valuable insight.[25] Del Tutto Palma's collection of Lucanian inscriptions offers a relatively current and focused analysis.[26] I also rely on the inscriptions (and images) of the numismatic evidence. Though not particularly numerous, several Lucanian coins pre-dating the Social War have survived; in some ways, they really constitute our only examples of the "Lucanian voice." Stazio offers a valuable, current analysis of the coinage of the Lucani, though several other good discussions of the coins of Magna Graecia treat Lucanian coinage, too.[27]

A heavy literary analysis such as this must necessarily draw on numerous obscure authors; some of these references are no more than one line, never translated, and rarely read. This dissertation builds on previous scholars' excellent compilations, and it also benefits from the advantages of computer search engines, such as the *Thesaurus Linguae Graecae*, which contains almost every known Greek text. This literary study of the history of the Lucani is heavily indebted to three compilations of Greek and Roman sources on the Lucani, the most important of which is Fernando La Greca's *Fonti letterarie greche e latine per la storia della Lucania tirrenica*.[28] This volume includes a

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[25] P. Poccetti, *Nuovi documenti italici: A complemento del manuale di E. Vetter* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1979); A. Prosdocimi, ed., *Lingue e dialetti dell'Italica antica. Popoli e civiltà* 6 (Rome: Biblioteca di Storia Patria, 1978).

[26] L. Del Tutto Palma, *Le iscrizioni della Lucania preromana* (Padua: Unipress, 1990).

[27] F. Scheu, "The coinage of the Lucani," *Numismatic Chronicle*, 7th series, 4 (1964): 65-74; A.W. Hands, *Coins of Magna Graecia. The Coinage of the Greek Colonies of Southern Italy* (London: Spink & Son Ltd, 1912); C.M. Kraay, *Archaic and Classical Greek Coins* (London: Methuen, 1976), 161-203.

[28] F. La Greca, ed., *Fonti letterarie greche e latine per la storia della Lucania tirrenica* (Rome: "L' Erma" di Bretschneider, 2002).

few remarks of commentary, though these are not detailed enough to be considered a full historical analysis. Though not as complete as La Greca's work, Federica Cordano's compilation, *Fonti greche e latine per la storia dei Lucania e Brettii* is a valuable supplement to La Greca.[29] Pareti's *Storia della regione lucano-bruzia nell'antichità* is another helpful collection, especially because it includes sources on the Bruttii, whose history deeply affected that of the Lucani.[30] Finally, the acts of the several conferences on Basilicata and southeastern Italy include important work from field experts like Emanuele and Angela Pontrandolfo (Greco), Adamesteanu, De La Geniere, and Gualtieri, to name a few.[31]

I find the methodologies of Dench and Horsnaes to be a useful starting point for my own research into the Lucani. This dissertation does not claim to be a complete history of the Lucani, which would be a colossal undertaking. Instead, its uniqueness lies in the simple fact that modern scholarship has to a large extent ignored the Lucani, and

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[29] F. Cordano, *Fonti greche e latine per la storia dei Lucania e Brettii* (Potenza: Deputazione di Storia Patria per la Lucania, 1971).

[30] L. Pareti, *Storia della regione lucano-bruzia nell'antichità*, ed. A. Russi (Rome: Edizioni di Storia e Letteratura, vol. 2, 1997; 2000).

[31] *Atti della accademia nazionale dei Lincei, anno CCCLXVIII, 1971. Serie ottava. Rendiconti: Classe di scienze morali, storiche e filologiche*, vol. 26 (Rome: Accademia Nazionale dei Lincei, 1971), 643-652; P. Borraro, ed., *Antiche civiltà lucane. Atti del convegno di studi di archeologia, storia dell'arte e del folklore. Oppido Lucano: 5-8 Aprile 1970* (Galatina: Congedo, 1975); G. Pugliese Carratelli, ed., "Le genti della Lucania antica e le loro relazioni con i Greci dell'Italia," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972); *Le genti non greche della Magna Grecia. Atti dell'undicesimo convegno di studi sulla Magna Grecia (Taranto, 10-15 Ottobre 1971)* (Naples: Arte Tipografica, 1972); M. Salvatore, ed., *Basilicata, L'espansionismo romano nel sud-est d'Italia, Il quadro archeologico. Atti del convegno Venosa. 23-25 aprile 1987* (Venosa: Edizioni Osanna, 1990).

some of the picture that historians have painted of them is inaccurate. I hope to reevaluate the literary evidence much more holistically than previous scholarship, while drawing on the important archaeological and inscriptional evidence where applicable. As we shall see, there is sufficient literary evidence from Greek and Roman authors, some of whom modern scholars of Lucanian history have entirely ignored, to illuminate many aspects of Lucanian culture and history that have been unclear or misunderstood.

I have chosen to limit this study chronologically from the Greek colonization efforts in Italy of the eighth century BC to the middle of the first century BC and the aftermath of the Social and Civil Wars, though we will have something to say about Lucania in the Empire and Late Antiquity, especially in the Epilogue. No literary evidence on the Lucani precedes Homeric evidence, and thus any examination of the Lucani in the early Iron Age is strictly archaeological. After the first century BC it is no longer feasible to speak of a unique Lucanian people apart from a geographical label; as Strabo aptly noted, "They are all now Romans."[32]

Key Primary Sources

The historian of Lucania faces the difficult obstacle of a paucity of continuous, non-contradictory evidence. There is an abundance of short, obscure anecdotes about the Lucani, ranging from their famous sausages to the roses of Poseidonia. For many of our references Lucania appears solely as the backdrop for "Greek" and "Roman" events, such

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[32] Str. 6.1.3.

as the wars with Spartacus and Pyrrhus. Nevertheless, in these settings we can glean important information for understanding the Lucani.

Extended narrative is limited to a select few Greek and Roman sources; we know of no Lucanian historian, though Lucanian authors are attested (Ocellus the philosopher left writings that Plato coveted). No extant Greek or Roman writer was interested specifically in the Lucani; Chiranky notes that both Herodotus, who lived in Thurii, and Thucydides (who certainly was interested in Magna Graecia) ignored the Lucani.[33] Even earlier, Antiochus, on whom Strabo draws, seems to have had little to say about them. Things get better in the fourth and third centuries, because, as we shall see, increased interaction—both peaceful and violent—between the Italiotes and Lucani forced the latter into the Greek historical consciousness. Unfortunately, most of Timaeus, Polybius, and Ephorus are lost. We must also remain aware of the "Hellenic versus barbaric" siege mentality under which Greek writers operated. Finally, one *caveat* of this holistic analysis is that many of our sources are writing in Late Antiquity, a good three centuries or more after the events; thus, they may have combined the writings of authors that we have (such as Livy for the events of the early third century BC, for example) with non-extant sources. When possible, I provide the known source material for each particular narrative and author under consideration.

In evaluating the literary evidence for the Lucani, a select few authors comprise the majority of our evidence, about whom it is expedient to say a few words here. **Dionysius of Halicarnassus's** (c. 60-7 BC) *Roman Antiquities* is the only extant history

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[33] Chiranky, 6 ff.

of early Rome besides Livy's. His work is an interesting mixture of Hellenocentrism and Roman apologetics, but his use of reliable, authentic sources like Antiochus, Timaeus, and Ephorus is noteworthy. Dionysius sought to explain Roman origins to his Greek readers (who had ignored the early history of Rome out of anti-Roman prejudice), though he still pinpoints Roman origins (via the Aborigines) in Greece.[34] Unfortunately, the portion of his history that concerns the Pyrrhic Wars, and thus the Lucani in great detail, has been lost, though fragments remain. But we are fortunate that Dionysius treats the early origins of the Italians, their mythical heroic progenitors, and the Oenotri; as we shall see, these references conceal important information about the real history of the Lucani.

Dionysius's contemporary **Diodorus Siculus** (first century BC) also treats the *nostoi* heroes and their descendants, many of whom allegedly settled in Italy. Much of his history is lost, too; fortunately, however, the surviving parts concern the successors of Alexander the Great, including the Greek *condottieri*, who sought profit and glory during the Hellenistic Era as benefactors and protectors of Magna Graecia at the expense of the Lucani. Diodorus treats the events in Italy of 389 BC extensively, providing our best view of the Thurian-Lucanian conflict that framed much of the history of those peoples.

The history of the Lucani in the Roman period comes primarily from **Livy** (59 BC—17 AD). Despite the loss of over 100 books of his history, much of his treatment of the second Punic war survives, a period which saw Lucania as a primary battleground

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[34] E.J. Bickerman, "Origines Gentium," *Classical Philology* 47, no. 2 (1952): 68-70.

between Rome and Carthage; Hannibal even established his camp in Grumentum. As a source we must be cautious with Livy: by his day Lucanian disloyalty had become a byword, and thus they come off rather poorly (though not entirely inaccurately) in his history. But the thoroughness of his voluminous history of Rome (even when we only have *Periochae* summaries) ensures a sizeable corpus of material on Lucanian-Roman interaction.

The geographer **Strabo** (64/3 BC–24 AD) is one of our most important sources for the Lucani. His survey of coastal and interior Lucania includes some important information on Lucanian history, for which he drew on Antiochus heavily, besides Ephorus, Timaeus, and Polybius.[35] Unfortunately, Antiochus was only partially interested in Magna Graecia, and especially barbarians of the region.[36] Additionally, Strabo's blatant Hellenocentrism, and lack of historical analysis, make him a source with which we must be very cautious. But even when wrong, Strabo's comments on the Lucani still conceal kernels of the real history of the Lucani.

This is a brief treatment of the writers whose material contains longer, more detailed references; it is by no means exhaustive. The elder Pliny discusses the area in his *Natural History*. The emperor Claudius (as quoted in Tacitus) refers to the Lucani in his speech on the Italianization of the Roman Senate. Plutarch mentions the area in

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[35] M. Ameruoso, *Megále Hellás: Genesi, storia ed estensione del nome* (Rome: Istituto italiano per la storia antica, 1996), 113; N. Biffi, *L'Italia di Strabone: Testo, traduzione e commento dei Libri V e VI della Geografia*, in *Dipartimento di archeologia, filologia classica e loro tradizioni*, no. 117 (Genova: Università di Genova, Facoltà di lettere, Dipartimento di archeologia, filologia classica e loro tradizioni, 1988), XXXVII-XLVII.

passing, mostly as a battleground for the personalities of his biography, such as Pyrrhus or Crassus. Historians and other writers of the Imperial and Late Antique periods refer to the Lucani, too, including the very useful Justinus. Even Marcus Gavius Apicius' cookbook tells us something about the delicacy that was Lucanian sausage.

Chapter Contents

Chapter 2 examines Lucanian culture and society, beginning with the difficult question of their origins. The majority of scholars suppose a fifth-century Lucanian invasion out of Sabine country into southern Italy, as part of the *ver sacrum* rite. This study rejects that hypothesis due to a lack of corroborating literary and archaeological evidence. Instead, we adopt Ferri's solution that the Lucani arrived in southern Italy much earlier; Horsnaes's "ethnogenesis" model explains how the Lucani are absent in the Greek historical narrative before the fifth century. As part of their origins we consider the name of the Lucani, and the various explanations that ancient and modern writers give; I will offer my own solution. We then turn to examine the source material on the supposed Oenotrian people, and see what these attestations may really be saying about the Lucani.

Following this, we will begin our analysis of Lucanian culture and society in the literary sources. This will include observations on peculiar Lucanian customs such as hospitality, naturalization, and their *paideia*. I also reconsider the literary evidence on

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[36] For Strabo's complex views on barbarians, see E. Ch. L. Van der Vliet, "L'Ethnographie de Strabon: Idéologie ou Tradition?" in *Strabone: Contributi allo studio della personalità e dell'opera* 1, ed. F. Prontera (Perugia: Università degli studi, 1984), 29-66.

Lucanian political institutions like the Lucanian meddicate, assembly, and kingship, offering some new observations. We then undertake a major goal of this dissertation by examining the nature of the Lucanian tribal system, and how it influenced their history. We shall see that these tribes exhibited several important characteristics, including an individuality that impacted not only the Lucani, but also the Greeks and Romans. Besides tribal differences, social classes impacted Lucanian society significantly (as with all peoples). Scholars (especially archaeologists) have said much on the Lucanian elite, but I add a few observations to that corpus. More importantly, I consider the Lucanian free and slaves, which have received much less attention from modern scholars than the elite have.

Finally, we examine religion in Lucania. Archaeology has illuminated this area of Lucanian life relatively well, but I believe additional observations on this aspect of society can be made from the evidence, including the literary sources. Mefitis will receive the lion's share of our attention, as she did from the Lucani.

Chapter 3 examines the history of the Lucani in relation to the Greeks from the advent of colonies to southern Italy through the archaic period. For the earliest period we must rely on Homeric myth, in which heroes like Hercules, Jason, Odysseus, Philoctetes, and others introduced a Greek presence to southern Italy. In these fictional stories coastal Lucania (the interior is nearly invisible) is an obscure, dangerous place populated by monsters and barbarians. However, these myths contain important kernels of factual information about early Greek-Lucanian interaction. We then consider individually certain Greek cities of Magna Graecia that interacted extensively with the Lucani,

including Poseidonia, Velia, Pyxus, Laos, and Metapontum. Modern scholars have written much on these, drawing primarily on archaeology, but by mining our literary sources we may add more information to our understanding of the Lucanian experience with these Greek cities, and especially Poseidonia. I conclude this chapter by considering how Lucanian interaction with the Greeks led to an exchange of practices and customs. We distinctly avoid the term "Hellenization," for it is too pregnant with meaning that does not seem to match the picture of Lucanian life "on the ground." In fact, interaction is a two-way street: the Lucani certainly impacted Greek life in the poleis, and this goes far beyond being an occasional external threat.

Chapter 4 picks up in the historical era, when our information on the Lucani becomes more prevalent, and continues down to roughly 300 BC, when Roman interaction drastically changes the dynamics of the region. In the historical era, the history of Lucania and the Greeks revolved to a large extent around the advent of Greek mercenary generals (*condottieri*), whom Tarentum frequently summoned, supposedly under pressure from the "barbarians." Beginning with Cleandridas in the middle of the fifth century BC, and continuing down to Pyrrhus in 280 BC (whom I treat in Chapter 5 because of the advent of Rome), these generals and tyrants sought personal enrichment and glory at the expense of the Lucani or the Greeks. None succeeded, and the Italiotes were much worse off for these incursions. To the Lucani, these foreign invaders represented major threats to the Lucanian way of life. Within the context of these *condottieri* invasions falls the Bruttian schism. In this unique episode a major tribe of the

Lucani, the Bruttii, revolted from their kin and formed their own tribal state in the "toe" of the peninsula, south of the Laos-Thurii line.

We conclude Chapter 4 with an investigation of Lucanian-Greek connections. Contrary to the inaccurate view of the Italiotes and Lucani as constantly hostile, we shall see that in reality these two groups interacted peacefully for centuries in a variety of relationships. Special attention will be given to the Pythagorean sect, in which the Lucani played a significant role. The famous Ocellus, whom Plato admired, will occupy much of our discussion, as will Aresa, fifth leader of the Pythagoreans. We shall also draw important conclusions about relations between the Lucani and several Italiote and mainland-Greek city-states during the classical and Hellenistic periods, including Poseidonia, Tarentum, and Athens. Our final picture admits of extensive cultural, social, economic, and political interaction between Italiotes and Lucani, interspersed with occasional conflict.

In Chapter 5 I examine the Lucanian experience after the advent of Rome into the southern peninsula, beginning with the Second Samnite War. In the first decades of the third century Lucania oscillated between alliance and resistance to Rome. Eventually the Lucanian tribes saw Rome as a significant threat to their independence, but, like the rest of the Italian peoples, they were unable to withstand Roman military might. The Lucani sided with Pyrrhus in one last ditch effort to remain sovereign, without success, and became a people subject to Rome. The next fifty years are an obscure period of Lucanian history, during which Rome took important measures to pacify the region by establishing a colony at Paestum in 273 BC, and transplanting several thousand rebellious Picenes to

the mouth of the Silarus river (the so-called "Picentine Settlement"). These methods disrupted traditional living patterns in Lucania, which, in turn, facilitated Roman domination of the area.

We then consider the Lucanian experience in the Second Punic War, during which Lucanian society underwent significant changes. After Hannibal's victories at Trebia and Lake Trasimene some Lucanian tribes revolted from Rome, while others remained faithful throughout the entire war. Yet the Second Punic War did more than just pit Lucanian tribes against each other. Many of these battles played out on Lucanian soil, and both sides plundered the land for gain and to hinder the enemy. The population losses were devastating, as was the ecological despoliation.

Turning to the second century BC, we shall see that Lucania remained much quieter. Rome continued planting colonies in Lucania, like Buxentum (on the former site of Pyxus); these took a toll in both pacifying and transforming Lucanian society. But the Republic was changing at this time, especially in the army. Rome more heavily incorporated allied units, which saw long, dangerous tours far from Italy, and yet failed to receive anything close to an equal share in the spoils of war. At home Roman magistrates abused the Italian peoples, who had no recourse for satisfaction given their lack of citizenship.

These grievances erupted in 91 BC in the Social War, essentially the last valiant effort on the part of the Italians to obtain some kind of sovereignty, or at least a better bargaining position *vis-à-vis* Rome regarding the greater discussion of roles within the Republic. This conflict bled into the Marian-Sullan civil wars, throughout which the

Lucani sided with the former. Under this banner (or pretext) the Lucani and Samnites marched on Rome in 82 BC, and nearly defeated Sulla at the Battle of the Colline Gate. I hope to contribute several important points to our understanding of the Lucanian experience during these decades, and perhaps to our knowledge of the Italian experience as a whole. I also consider other important roles that the Lucani played in the final decades of the Roman Republic. One way was through the slave armies that arose within the region, if not from among the Lucani themselves, as early as the Second Punic War; these slave armies made their greatest impact on both Roman and Lucanian history in Spartacus's revolt.

Moving from a chronological analysis of the Lucani throughout the Republic, I consider the connections between the Lucani and the Romans. These social, cultural, and political ties, which began as early as the third century BC, had serious ramifications for the Lucanian experience throughout the Republic, and even some consequences for Rome itself. The Roman colony at Paestum, the Second Punic War, and familial links are just a few of the various venues by which the Roman and Lucanian elite became intermeshed. Modern scholars have done an excellent job drawing prosopographical and familial connections between the two peoples, but I hope to add a few additional observations that previous scholarship has missed.

Finally, by the Lucanian defeat at the Battle of the Colline Gate in 82 BC, along with the preceding centuries of social disruptions and devastations from war, Lucanian society was so frail that it was absorbed into Roman Italy, though how quickly is impossible to say. Previous scholarship has offered numerous valid reasons why Lucania

in the first century BC looked very different from the sovereign state of the fourth century and earlier. I intend to tie these all together with some additional considerations in an effort to provide a concise summary of exactly what happened to the ancient Lucani.

Chapter 6 differs greatly from the preceding chapters, in that it is concerned more with Greek and Roman attitudes toward the Lucani, and not so much with the real Lucanian experience or the real Lucani. I argue that Greek and Roman authors ascribed an identity to the Lucani that became the canvas against which they might highlight specific characteristics of their own history or culture. To these authors the base Lucanian nature seemed naturally inclined to betrayal; this barbarity distinguished Hellenic society as superior. To the Romans, the Lucani proved to be exceptionally difficult enemies, so their eventual subjugation further exemplified Roman military prowess and worthiness of ruling Italy.

Yet I suggest that the Greeks and Romans were challenged in these judgments because of the very nature of both the land and people of Lucania. On one hand they are depicted as barbaric, rough, and uncouth, a reflection of their land—this is the picture of "Ugly Lucania." This pejorative image matches the dark forests and craggy mountains, along with the bears and boars that made their haunts there, to the Lucani themselves. Lucanian shepherds carried a particularly bad reputation among ancient authors. Even the famous *Luca bos* (the elephant) and the ubiquitous Lucanian sausage represent the barbaric nature of the Lucani.

On the other hand, these same writers admitted that parts of this region were very beautiful. The people of Paestum grew roses so lovely that they became one of the most powerful images for beauty in Latin literature for many centuries. Lucania's healthy atmosphere receives consistent praise in the sources. In fact, Roman authors like Horace and Cicero (who are some of the first to throw stones at the Lucani) delighted in their coastal Lucanian villas. And ancient writers comment approvingly on the fecundity of the region, along with its quality wines.

Following these six chapters, an Epilogue briefly treats Lucania and the Lucani (whoever they were at that time) from the vantage point of Late Antiquity. Finally, I conclude this dissertation with a brief summary of its goals. I also propose how this kind of study could benefit further research on the Lucani, and future scholarship on the peoples of Italy who, like the Lucani, played an important role in the development of Magna Graecia and the Roman Republic, and about whom we have only highly scattered literary evidence, apart from the archaeological data.

Chapter 2: Lucanian Society and Culture

I. Origins of the Lucani

The origins of the Lucani seem impossible to reconstruct with confidence. The Greeks and Romans certainly had their own versions: Strabo, writing in the first century BC, calls the Lucani Samnite colonists, but the second/third-century AD Justin (epitomizing Strabo's contemporary Pompeius Trogus) rightly differentiated between them and the Samnites.[37] Greek ethnographers and historians possessed very incomplete source material, and operated under a severe case of Hellenocentrism; thus they freely adapted legend and myth to the origins of the Lucani (just as they had the Romans and others). Even the name Lucania troubled the Greeks: its likeness to the words for the color white (λευκός) and wolf (λύκος) gave rise to numerous folk etymologies. The confused ethnic picture of southern Italy also muddied things: the Greeks thought a variety of peoples inhabited southern Italy, including the Oenotri, Chones, Siceli, Morgetes, Aborigines, Opikoi, Serdaioi, Lucani, and Ausones.[38] Italy itself was an ambiguous term to the Greeks, for it seemed at times to refer only to the very "toe" of the peninsula, but was malleable enough to cover a broader range when necessary.

By the end of the eighth century BC the Greeks had established colonies along the coast of Italy, bringing them into contact with the Italic peoples, including the Etruscans, whose influence extended down to the mouth of the Silarus River near the future site of

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[37] Str. 5.3.1; Just. *Prolegomena* 12; cf. Just. *Prol.* 23, in which he discusses the origins of the Bruttii.

[38] R. Peroni, "Enotri, Ausoni, Itali e altre popolazioni dell'estremo sud d'Italia," in *Italia omnium terrarum parens. La civiltà degli Enotri, Choni, Ausoni, Sanniti, Lucani, Brettii, Sicani, Siculi, Elimi, Antica madre*, ed. G. Pugliese Carratelli, 111-189 (Milan: Libri Scheiwiller, 1989).

Poseidonia.[39] The largest and most prosperous of these colonies were on the Ionian Sea coast: Tarentum, Metapontum, Siris, Thurii, Sybaris, Croton, and Rhegium, to name the most important; these, in turn, established their own colonies, often on the Tyrrhenian coast, such as Poseidonia, Pyxus, Scidrus, and Laos. There is evidence that the Greeks tried to establish themselves somewhat inland, though this was unsuccessful.[40] Nevertheless, Greek culture had ensconced itself so firmly in the minds of ancient writers that the area came to be known to the Hellenic peoples as "Great Greece" (Μεγάλη Ἑλλάς, *Magna Graecia*).

As a result of this colonization Greek and Italian culture began to interconnect, just as Greek culture had collided and interwoven with the cultures of Asia Minor hundreds of years earlier. As we should expect, the evidence indicates that this was most profound on the coasts.[41] Scholars have long recognized the error in studying the Greeks of Magna Graecia and the Italian peoples as completely separate spheres from one-another, instead of two worlds that meshed together intricately. But how we understand who the Lucani were depends to a great extent on when and how they made their appearance in southern Italy.

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[39] M. Pallottino, *Genti e culture dell'Italia preromana* (Rome: Società Editoriale Jouvence, 1981), 38. See M. Cristofani, "Gli Etruschi in Campania: Nuove evidenze archeologiche ed epigrafiche," in E. Campanile, *Lingua e cultura degli Oschi* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1985), 21ff. for a discussion of the Etruscan presence in Campania as early as the ninth c. BC.

[40] Chiranky, 3.

[41] M. Gualtieri, "Developments in the Hinterland of Magna Graecia in the 5th and 4th Centuries BC," in *Fourth Century B.C. Magna Graecia: A Case Study*, ed. M. Gualtieri (Jonsered, Sweden: Paul Åströms, 1993), 15-46.

A. The *Ver Sacrum* and the Fifth-Century Samnite Invasions

Very early on the Lucani thoroughly distinguished themselves from the central Samnite peoples, for we find them at war with the Samnites by the end of the fourth century; that the Lucani used a Tarentine-Greek alphabet and the Hirpini an Etruscan-based alphabet also attests to this separation (the Samnites also used a Latin script much earlier than the Lucani). The standard explanation of their origin is that they separated from the rest of the Samnite people and moved farther south down the peninsula, and did so violently—an extension of the so-called Samnite invasion of the fifth century, perhaps under the auspices of the highly-debated *ver sacrum*.[42] According to our sources the Sabellian peoples occasionally dedicated all the children born in one year in a "Sacred Spring" rite, whereby, instead of sacrificing these children, upon reaching maturity this new generation set out from their homeland, supposedly led by a totem animal (which may have been the picture of an animal on a flag or standard) in search of new territory to settle. Theoretically, the Lucani may have set out for southern Italy as part of a Sacred Spring dedication.

At times the scholarly descriptions of this supposed event convey a struggle of

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[42] E.T. Salmon, *Samnium*, 33, 36, 46-8; T.J. Cornell and K. Lomas, eds., *Urban Society in Roman Italy* (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1995), 305; Lomas, *Rome and the Western Greeks,* 33; Frederiksen, *Campania*, 136-9; Pallottino, *Genti e culture*, 90-5; G. Devoto, *Gli antichi Italici* (Florence: Vallecchi, 1967), 109-129; G. Devoto, "I momenti della storia Lucana," in *Antiche civiltà lucane. Atti del convegno di studi di archeologia, storia dell'arte e del folklore. Oppido Lucano: 5-8 Aprile 1970*, ed. P. Borraro (Galatina: Congedo, 1975), 4 ff.; V. Panebianco, "Enotri e Coni," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 14; G. Tagliamonte, *I figli di Marte: Mobilità, mercenari e mercenariato italici in Magna Grecia e Sicilia* (Rome: Giorgio Bretschneider, 1994), 62-3; B. D'Agostino, "Le genti della Basilicata antica," in *Italia omnium terrarum parens. La civiltà degli Enotri, Choni, Ausoni, Sanniti, Lucani, Brettii, Sicani, Siculi, Elimi, Antica madre*, ed. G. Pugliese Carratelli (Milan: Libri Scheiwiller, 1989), 232-3.

epic proportions: "In the south-west, city after city was overwhelmed by the [Lucani], until by about 400 Velia and Naples were the only remaining centres of Hellenic culture along the entire length of the Tyrrhenian coast."[43] Some suggest instead a series of migrations spread out over a longer period, perhaps a century, but it was an invasion nevertheless.[44] Wonder, though admitting to a Lucanian invasion, believes that the Greeks were not exterminated, but integrated with the Lucanian conquerors.[45]

Scholars point to minor support in the epigraphical, archaeological, and literary spheres, arguing that the Lucani spoke Oscan, which differed from the Oenotri; some scholars also call attention to a dearth of archaeological material from coastal and interior southern Italy datable to the fifth century, along with a theorized decline of art and architecture, especially at Poseidonia.[46] Together, these supposedly corroborate Strabo, who explicitly derives the Lucani from the Samnites: "The Sabines are both a very ancient race and indigenous inhabitants; the Picenes and the Samnites are colonists of these, and the Lucani from the Samnites, and the Bruttii from the Lucani."[47] He also

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[43] T.J. Cornell, "Rome and Latium to 390 B.C.," in *Cambridge Ancient History*^{2}, vol. 7, pt. 2, ed. F.W. Walbank *et al.* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1989), 284.

[44] A. Bottini, "I popoli italici," in *Popoli e civiltà dell'Italia antica* 8, ed. A. Bottini, P.G. Guzzo, and C. Ampolo (Rome: Biblioteca di Storia Patria, 1986), 346-7; Chiranky, 82; Heurgon, *Rise of Rome*, 89: "We must suppose that the racial movements which in the 5th century were to stock the mountains of Calabria and Basilicata with new tribes of Lucanians, Bruttians, and Samnites, threatening the Greek colonies and putting them on the defensive, had sent out their preliminary skirmishers as early as the first iron age."

[45] Wonder, "What Happened," 40ff.

[46] D. Yntema, "Constructing a Dark Age. The 5th century BC in south-eastern Italy," in *Caeculus III, "Debating Dark Ages," Papers on Mediterranean Archaeology* (Groningen: Archaeological Institute, Groningen University, 1996-7), 103-111.

[47] Str. 5.3.1; cf. 5.4.12; 6.1.2-3; Plin. *HN* 3.71. All translations are my own.

asserts that the Lucani took away Poseidonia from the Sybarites, and elsewhere that some parts of the southern Tyrrhenian coast had been captured (and, consequently, barbarized) by the Lucani and Bruttii.

Yet Horsnaes and Yntema have raised serious objections to the entire consensus view of the Lucanian invasion.[48] It is no longer feasible to maintain that because the neighboring Apulian peoples apparently shared some similarities with whoever lived in Lucania during the sixth century BC, the Lucani must have invaded at a later time, since their inscriptions were Oscan, and not Messapic, like their predecessors.[49] Neighboring peoples can share material culture and not language.

Second, interpreting the supposed dearth in fifth-century archaeological material as evidence of a crisis is a result of improperly dating finds in order to support a specific agenda, in this case the Samnite invasion.[50] It is true that the fifth century saw an increase in Samnite activity in central and southern Italy, which, in the case of the Lucani, led to friction with the Greeks. A few sites, like Serra di Vaglio and Garaguso, show a marked decline or destruction layer.[51] But even invasion-theorists admit that

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[48] H.W. Horsnaes, *Cultural Development*, 126: "An analysis of the literary sources gives us no trustworthy information as to the date of the Samnite migration(s), nor is it possible to put forward any compelling arguments why a migration should have taken place."

[49] Yntema, "Constructing a Dark Age," 105.

[50] Yntema, "Constructing a Dark Age," 105-111.

[51] Chiranky, 15-17; Adamesteanu, "Scavi e ricerche," 23; M. Lejeune, "Seconde note sur le sanctuaire lucanien de Rossano di Vaglio," *La Parola del Passato* 24 (1969): 281; cf. de la Genière, "Aspetti e problemi," 255.

fifth-century Lucania also contains sites that flourished.[52] Secondly, there is an absence of archaeological material that we should expect to find, namely evidence of a massive migration of people.[53] Additionally, cultural changes like those at Melfi and Vallo di Diano do not necessarily imply crisis.[54] Finally, contrary to Strabo, no destruction layer exists at Poseidonia or any other of her potential coastal allies whose cities the Lucani supposedly conquered.[55] The sweeping hordes of Lucanian armies that scholars envision subduing the Tyrrhenian coast surely would have left significant evidence of their violence.

Additionally, there are some fundamental logical problems with a Lucanian invasion. Yntema rightly questions how mountain shepherds were able to conquer established, stable, more advanced Greek city-states, certainly no strangers to war, along with the theorized local Oenotrian tribes who had been long-time neighbors of the Greeks.[56] The disappearance of the former Oenotri also poses a challenge: extermination

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[52] Chiranky, 17; B. D'Agostino, "Il mondo periferico della magna grecia," in *Popoli e civiltà* 2, ed. B. d'Agostino, P.E. Arias, and G. Colonna (Rome: Biblioteca di Storia Patria, 1974), 219; de la Genière, "Aspetti e problemi," 250-1.

[53] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 135: "The most important result based on the archaeological record is therefore a rejection of the 'Samnite migration' as an explanatory factor in the archaeology of Southern Italy."

[54] Melfi: Adamesteanu, "Scavi e ricerche," 23; M. Torelli, "Greci e indigeni in Magna Grecia: ideologia, religiosa e rapporti di classe," *Studi storici* 18, no. 4 (1977), 54-5. Lavello: Torelli, "Greci e indigeni," 54. Vallo di Diano: J. de la Genière, "Aspetti e problemi," 255; J. de la Genière, *Recherches sur l'âge du fer en Italie méridionale* (Naples: Institut Français de Naples, 1968), 187-214; Gualtieri, *Fourth Century*, 22 ff.

[55] Though burial and settlement patterns certainly did change over time: A. Greco and B. D'Agostino, "Greci, Etruschi e Italici nella Campania e nella Lucania tirrenica," in *Crise et transformation des sociétés archaïques de l'Italie antique au V siècle av. J.-C.: Actes de la table de ronde organisée par l'École française de Rome et l'unité de recherches étrusco-italiques associée au CNRS (UA 1132): Rome 19-21 novembre 1987* (Rome: École française de Rome, 1990), 101-16.

[56] Yntema, "Constructing a Dark Age," 105.

seems unlikely, and while fusion is a reasonable explanation, these conquests are set just when Lucanian inscriptions begin to flourish: presumably the Oenotri would have had this same skill, and thus would have left behind a much larger inscriptional corpus.

The sheer geographical area of this Lucanian conquest also seems difficult. Where is the evidence for the movement of what would have to have been a large group of people? The current consensus invasion theory puts the Lucani simply everywhere in southern Italy. Furthermore, why would this invasion transpire over 100 years? Why, in fact, did they leave the central Apennines? The *ver sacrum* no longer suffices as an explanation. Despite efforts by Heurgon and others to make sense of this rite in the primary sources, Chiranky (an invasion-theorist himself) demolishes the idea that the *ver sacrum* could possibly be effective in alleviating overpopulation, given a twenty-year return on investment.[57] Dench asserts that it is highly improbable that the Sacred Spring myths are literal accounts of invasions; rather, they are "dramatizations of connections and/or separate identities," perhaps of distinct tribal identities.[58]

I suggest two other logical difficulties. First, the Lucanian invasion hypothesis presumes a high level of similarity between Samnite and Lucanian culture, but this is a dangerous assumption given our current evidence. Though they shared the same language (and yet not the same script), the Lucani were quite different from the Samnites—the Lucanian kingship and quasi-democracy being two examples. Second, the

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[57] Chiranky, 46-57, *contra* Salmon, *Samnium*, 36: "In any case, it is obvious that the real motive for any Sacred Spring was overpopulation." For the origins of the *ver sacrum* in ceremony, see A. Alföldi, *Early Rome and the Latins* (Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press, 1965), 5 ff.

[58] Dench, 206.

idea of a Lucanian invasion is predicated on an *a priori* assumption that the Lucani were very homogeneous in their political structure; as we shall see when we consider the evidence for the Lucanian tribal structure, this is certainly not the case.

B. Arguments for an Earlier Advent and the Ethnogenesis Model

Ferri has proposed an alternative solution to a Lucanian invasion of southern Italy, hypothesizing that they arrived in the area sometime during the second millennium BC, and were the "victims" of frequent name changes.[59] This idea has not found acceptance among most scholars, who place more faith in Strabo's account.[60] However, Ferri makes a compelling case, offering as evidence a number of Illyricisms in the nomenclature of Lucania (such as Apollo Lukio at Metapontum, and Paestum's probable derivation from Paviston on the Adriatic).[61] Recently, he has found support from the archaeological community. Pontrandolfo Greco has argued that the Lucani were descendents of the indigenous people of the Iron Age, and not Samnite immigrants.[62]

Horsnaes has drawn the same conclusions from the archaeological data, and has formulated a very convincing "ethnogenesis" hypothesis to explain the origins of the Lucani. She proposes that the several layers of Lucanian origins in the literary sources,

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[59] S. Ferri, "Nuovi dati e nuovi ipotesi sull'origine dei Lucani," in *Antiche civiltà lucane. Atti del convegno di studi di archeologia, storia dell'arte e del folklore. Oppido Lucano: 5-8 Aprile 1970* , ed. P. Borraro (Galatina: Congedo, 1975), 29-41.

[60] Chiranky, 113.

[61] For Apollo Lukio, see R. Giacomelli, *Achaea Magno-Graeca* (Brescia: Paideia Editrice, 1988), 53-4, 64-83; S. Ferri, "Problemi e documenti archeologici, III," *Rendiconti: Accademia nazionale dei Lincei, classe di scienze morali, storiche e filologiche* 27 (1972): 349-364.

[62] Pontrandolfo Greco, *I Lucani*, 9; Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 15.

coupled with the extensive archaeological data, suggest a more likely explanation for the origins of the Lucani than the poorly-supported Samnite invasion:

> In the Archaic period the indigenous peoples of modern Basilicata, Calabria and Southern Campania were known to the Greeks under a collective name: the Oinotrians. The Greeks, however, were not well acquainted with the Oinotrians, who in later sources merged with (half-) mythical peoples and were supplied with Greek-style *oikistes* and kings. The Oinotrians covered a widespread group of indigenous peoples that were divided in minor groups, based on central places or nucleated settlements. ...Since the early fifth century these peoples became known to the Greeks as Lucanians, and no distinction from one group to another has come down to us in the literary sources.[63]

I intend to use the theories of Ferri and Horsnaes as methodological starting points. I will presume that some Sabellian-speaking group came to Lucania proper long before the fifth century BC, and both fused with the indigenous peoples (by which term I mean the Indo-European-speaking peoples already there), and themselves splintered, too. Operating under these assumptions, I will reconsider the evidence on various aspects of Lucanian society and history that have been misunderstood previously; this analysis will focus primarily on the literary sources, though it will draw on the inscriptional and archaeological evidence, too.

C. The Ethnogenesis Model and the Pre-Samnite Inscriptions

Horsnaes's hypothesis explains satisfactorily a number of problems with the invasion theory, such as Lucania's distinctiveness from the Samnites, its familiarity with Hellenic culture, and the presence of early Sabellian inscriptions in Lucania. One of the

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[63] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 126-8.

most famous is the dedication τουτικες διποτερες (following Rix's emendation) found on an amphora near Castelluccio (Lucanian Nerulum) written in the Achaean alphabet.[64] The date of the inscription is unknown, though it is no later than the second quarter of the fifth century.[65] Some scholars (Chiranky, Napoli, and Manni) attribute this, along with archaeological evidence near Conza, as the product of the early advance south of at least a part of the Lucanian people.[66]

This inscription was made at a time when Hellenic-Lucanian commercial relations were a reality, and yet had not become perfectly familiar, so that a Greek inscriber made Rix's proposed error. Since we know that the Greeks had a presence in the area as early as 750 (Ischia), the fourth century is much too late, and thus the "Lucanian invasion"

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[64] *Ps* 1. Summarizing H. Rix, "The Pre-Lucanian Inscriptions of Southern Italy," in *Journal of Indo-European Studies Monographs*, no. 25. *Companion Volume: Festschrift for Eric P. Hamp*, vol. 1, ed. A. Diebold, Jr. and E. Polomé (Washington: Institute for the Study of Man Inc., 1997), 144-54: the word *toutikes* must come from the clearly Sabellian stem *toutiko-* (of the people/tribe, public); however, no Sabellian –o stem form ends in –em; this would have to be accusative, which does not make sense. Rix proposes scribal error: in Achaean the letters /s/ (san) and /m/ are very similar; he assumes that a Greek potter or artist who did not understand Sabellian, but knew that Sabellian words often ended in –m, painted /m/ where he should have painted /s/. The *-es* ending of *toutikes* reflects the pan-Sabellian *-eis* of the genitive singular of *o*-stems, with a monophthongization of *-ei-* to *-e-* before the final *-s*. But how do we explain the -es ending of *dipoteres* matching that of *toutikes*? The stem is a compound of **dieu* (heaven, god of heaven) and **pater*. The -o- instead of -a- (following the labial consonant -p-) in διποτερες has good parallels in both Oscan and Umbrian, where similar vowel-quality adjustments are documented both preceding and following labial consonants. The genitive of god names showing ownership is not rare, but the theonym *Toutiks Dipater** "Publicus Iuppiter" is not attested; probably this is the translation of Greek Ζεὺς Πολιεύς known from other inscriptions. The word order is not a new problem, since in Sabellian qualifying adjectives or attributes follow the noun, so any reading has this problem.

[65] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 105.

[66] Chiranky, 11; E. Manni, "L'Italia meridionale fino alla fine del V sec. a.C.," in *Le genti non greche della Magna Grecia. Atti dell'undicesimo convegno di studi sulla Magna Grecia, Taranto 10-15 ottobre 1971* (Naples: Arte Tipografica, 1972), 33; cf. Russi, s.v. Lucania, in *Dizionario epigrafico di antichità romane*, 1881-2.

hypothesis must posit an "advance guard" in the sixth century.[67] Chiranky supposes an itinerant group of mercenaries offered the amphora to Dispater on behalf of their *touto,* which is certainly more difficult than Rix's explanation.[68] Second, the supposition that a band of mercenaries would use the term *touto* is problematic: this term more rightly signified a tribal group, such as the Lucanian *touto* of the Utiani at Rossano. But a sixth-century BC (or earlier?) Oscan inscription from Lucani suits Ferri's early-advent theory very easily.

II. Lucanian Origins in the Literary Sources

Both the archaeological and inscriptional evidence fail to establish the likelihood of a fifth-century Lucanian invasion. This section considers the literary evidence for the origins of the Lucani. We shall see that not a single ancient author attests to a fifth-century BC invasion, which seriously undermines that theory. Operating under the ethnogenesis model, I intend to examine the source material, including our references to the supposed Oenotrian people, and to use this evidence to illuminate heretofore misunderstood or unidentified aspects of Lucanian culture, society, and history.

A. Earliest Southern Italy and Glimpses of the Lucani

What connection existed, if any, between the Lucani and the Chones, Morgetes, Siculi, Oenotri (should a distinct people of that name have existed), and other early

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[67] Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii,* 14; D. Musti, *Strabone e la Magna Grecia: Città e popoli dell'Italia antica* (Padua: Editoriale Programma, 1988), 259-87.

[68] Chiranky, 12.

Italian peoples?[69] For once, the difficulty does not stem entirely from a lack of written evidence: the origins of these peoples found their way into mythology. Unfortunately, these sources agree sometimes, but contradict each other even more often. They had little legitimate source material at their hands, relying almost entirely on legend that had been passed down for many generations, and probably through the medium of folklore and poetry. This makes finding a kernel of historical truth within these fictional accounts challenging. Even Dionysius of Halicarnassus expressed frustration when trying to sort out the history of the various peoples of southern Italy.[70] It is highly improbable that Greek historians questioned the Lucani about their history; rather, these writers simply made up what was most probable.[71] Historians like the early Antiochus (fifth century BC) found establishing the facts of Italian foundations difficult, since "oral tradition can be preserved without writing, but national tradition, as distinct from family tradition, will not establish itself without vigorous political development and the growth of political centres."[72] The chronology of their respective accounts is problematic, but historians simply ignored the discrepancies. Those figures common to them all, like Oenotrus and Italus (an Oenotrian by birth, according to Dionysius of Halicarnassus), have suspicious

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[69] Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.20.2-3 refers to the Pelasgi settling a swampy area around Rome. La Greca (123-4) thinks this is too close for coincidence, and may hide the reality of an Oenotrian exodus out of southern Italy. Cf. Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.21.1-4; 1.22.3-5.

[70] Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.13.4.

[71] L. Pearson, *The Greek Historians of the West: Timaeus and his Predecessors* (Atlanta: published for the American Philological Association by Scholars Press, 1987), 55.

[72] Pearson, 13.

names.[73] The one repeated theme is that the original inhabitants, be they Oenotri, Pelasgi, or Arcadians, originated from the Greeks.[74] One scholar sees a factual core in this Greek account, supposing that the Oenotri were the first linguistic wave from the Aegean, slowly spreading west (Latin), north (Venetic), and Sicily.[75] Horsnaes is rightly doubtful; lacking any supporting archaeological evidence, and any substantial linguistic evidence, this Greek account seems to be the product of Hellenocentric bias, not grounded in reality.[76] Yet Bérard has provided a good methodological starting point by analyzing the Greek myths that document the earliest origins of the Italians for evidence of historical truth, though I believe there is more to be discovered about the Lucani, especially given both our broader archaeological corpus, and the useful ethnogenesis model.[77]

It is not my purpose to try and reconstruct the entire ethnic picture and history of earliest Italy from the sources, nor does that seem possible.[78] However, this study does suggest that these mythical or semi-mythical accounts, when taken together, have a harmony and pattern to them that ultimately can offer a plausible explanation for early

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[73] Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.35.1-3; Plin. *HN* 3.11.99. See also Scymn. 300-311; Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Aen.* 1.533.

[74] Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.60.3

[75] M. Pallottino, *A History of Earliest Italy*, tr. M. Ryle and K. Soper (Ann Arbor: The University of Michigan Press, 1991), 41-42.

[76] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 119.

[77] J. Bérard, *La colonisation grecque de l'Italie méridionale et de la Sicile dans l'antiquité: l'histoire et la légende* (Paris: Presses universitaires de France, 1957), 434-86.

[78] Some primary sources on the Oenotri: Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.35; Hdt. 7.170; Plin. *HN* 3.104; Verg. *Aen.* 3.401-2; Str. 5.1.4, 5.1.9, 6.3.6-9; Lyc. *Alex.* 590-608; Schol. Lycoph. 590-8; St. Byz. *Ethnica* ad v. Patychos.

Lucanian society, though it is impossible to be any firmer than that without further evidence. The close ties of these various peoples of southern Italy, and the repetition of supplanting the former inhabitants, urge us to see within at least some of the various removals of peoples in these semi-legendary sources evidence of tribal divisions, which may at times have worked out violently. If this stands, the Lucani would be the next layer of bifurcation in an ever-growing account. Historiography develops just in time to prevent the Lucani entering as another legendary layer; however, since the Lucani were still a fringe barbarian people, our Greek sources did not care to look more thoroughly into their origins.

In an account heavily laced with legend, Dionysius of Halicarnassus tells us that the Oenotri were previously called Aezeians and Lycaonians successively.[79] This last name raises our suspicions: while probably not etymologically linked to the name "Lucani," ancient writers would not have known that. Perhaps "Lycaonian" hides the reality of Lucanian life during the fifth and fourth centuries, when Dionysius's source Antiochus was active, and the Lucani certainly were. Some scholars even see in this connection real evidence of the Anatolian origins of the Lucani.[80]

Oenotrus left his father's realm, dissatisfied with his meager patrimony, split among twenty-three sons. He separated from his brother Peucetius upon reaching Italy. This may hint that these so-called Oenotri, too, were divided tribally. They were not the

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[79] For the evidence of the non-Sabellian language that is currently labeled "Oenotrian," consisting primarily of the highly obscure Tortora inscription, see *Ps* 20; Lazzarini and Poccetti, 63-4 (text; analysis, *passim*).

[80] V. Panebianco, "Laos, Lavinion, Mercurion e l'origine anatolico-ausonia dei Bretti e dei Lucani," *La Parola del Passato* 26 (1971): 322.

first people in Italy, for they "cleared some of [the area] of the barbarians," whom Dionysius may be equating with the Ausones.[81] King Morges succeeded Italus; this hints that the Morgetes were an offshoot or break-off tribe of the Oenotri.[82] Aristotle tells us that the Chones were also Oenotri, which probably means a tribe.[83]

Siculus and the Sicels then supplanted Morges and the Morgetes, dividing the peoples further. Dionysius of Halicarnassus (quoting Antiochus of Syracuse) states, "Thus those who had been Oenotri became Sicels, Morgetes, and Italians."[84] Later, the Aborigines assist the Pelasgi (originally from Greece via Crete) in driving out the Sicels.[85] An alternative tradition, set after the Trojan War, holds that the Oenotri and Opikoi eject the Sicels, led by a son of Italus.[86] Combining all these accounts, scholars assume that the Sicels, Morgetes, and Chones are Oenotrian tribes. Presuming this last appellation to be a misnomer for the Lucani, we see that these accounts fit nicely with the Lucanian tribal organization, for which we have ample evidence.

Writing a little later (first century AD), Pliny also discusses this succession of peoples in the area, though not without problems: like Strabo, he calls the Lucani Samnite

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[81] For Itali, Ausoni, and Opici see Ael. *VH* 9.16; Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.22; Eust. *Commentarii ad Dionys. Perieg.* 78; Lycoph. *Alex.* 702; Scymn. 228; 245; Strab. 5.3.6; 5.4.3, 12; Thuc. 6.2.4.

[82] Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.73.4. See also St. Byz. *Ethnica* s.v. Morgention.

[83] Arist. *Pol.* 7.10 (1329b); Str. 6.1.4; Steph. Byz. (*Ethnica* ad v. Chone), quoting Lycophron: "Χώνη, πόλις Οἰνώτρων, ἧς Στράβων μέμνηται ἐν ἕκτῃ 'καὶ τὴν γῆν ὀνομάσαι Χώνην.' 'καὶ Χώνη πόλις ὑπὲρ αὐτῆς, ἀφ' ἧς οἱ ταύτῃ Χῶνες ἐκλήθησαν.' ἡ δὲ χώρα Χωνία. Λυκόφρων 'ἄρδων βαθεῖαν Χωνίας παγκληρίαν.' οὐκοῦν καὶ Χώνιος, ὡς Θρᾴξ Θρᾳκός Θρᾴκιος Θρᾳκία, Τρώς Τρωός Τρώιος Τρωία."

[84] Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.11-13; Salmon, *Making*, 186, n. 76.

[85] Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.*1.16

colonists, but then Apulii.[87] Nevertheless, his lineup corresponds to our previous authors, though his includes the Lucani, which is unsurprising given his date. His remark that "there have been frequent changes of population" codifies the ancient picture of the area as in flux, and where new peoples formed from old. These accounts indicate that this mash of peoples about whom the Greeks knew almost nothing really attests to the reality of the early Lucani.

B. Oenotri, Lucani, and the Conflation of the Two

As we delve into the literary sources on the Oenotri, we see further evidence that ancient authors unknowingly concealed the Lucani behind this label. One Italus (who was, according to Thucydides, a Sicel) settled the future Lucania.[88] The son of Telegonus by Penelope, Italus transformed the Oenotri from shepherds into agricultural peasants. Aristotle thought the Oenotri worthy of veneration, both because of their antiquity, and because they had regulated themselves well with common meals, or *sussitia*.[89] We can only wonder who Aristotle's sources ("best judges") were; the implication is that they were not Greek historians from Magna Graecia. One part of Aristotle's account closely parallels a phenomenon in the history of Lucania: originally herdsman, at least the coastal tribes eventually preferred a more agrarian lifestyle (not a

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[86] Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.22.3-5; Thuc. 6.2.4; 4.5.

[87] Plin. *HN* 3.5.71; 3.104.

[88] Thuc. 6.2.

[89] Arist. *Pol.* 7.10 (1329b).

little due to the richness of the Sele, Bradano, and Siris alluvial plains). Furthermore, these Oenotrian *sussitia* (said to be older than Minos of Crete) also parallel a Lucanian institution: Justin establishes that the Lucani, in fact, had *sussitia*.[90] The geographical correspondence, and the fact that the Lucani fall within the historical period, when writers could investigate Lucanian sources, makes this association too close for coincidence: Aristotle's Oenotrian *sussitia* really refers to the Lucanian institution. Likewise, the antiquity that ancient writers ascribe to the Oenotri and their early advent to southern Italy should apply to the peoples subsumed under that title, and primarily to the Lucani.

If the Lucani were long-time inhabitants of the region that they later certainly inhabited, then we should expect other connections with the Oenotri, whom our sources place in the same region. Aristotle lists the Chones as a break-off tribe of the Oenotri; perhaps this implies that the Lucani and Chones were "sister tribes." The Chones dwelled in the Bradano/Siris delta, which later is subject to the Lucani; the latter may have (originally) possessed the interior and Tyrrhenian section of the supposed Oenotrian territory. Alternatively, the Lucani may have comprised an early Sabellian element that fused with other "Oenotrian" elements, as Salmon holds, though we date here that fusion long before the fifth century BC.[91]

According to Antiochus (fifth century BC), Italy was named Brettia before Oenotria. No other source confirms this assertion; most would attribute this to confusion

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[90] Justin. 23.1.1-17.

[91] Salmon, *Making*, 15.

and anachronism on the part of Antiochus. Yet we may wonder if there is truth behind the account, which fits the ethnogenesis theory for the development of the Lucani and Bruttii quite nicely. This very early name for the region in which the Bruttian branch of the Lucani lived may later have given way to "Oenotria" through confusion among the Greeks. The Bruttii (themselves a Lucanian tribe originally) propagated this name for at least the Calabrian peninsula, since it recalled their legendary derivation from a son of Hercules, and somehow the account of this practice worked its way into Antiochus.

According to Pausanias (the second-century AD Greek geographer), Oenotrus's expedition to the west constituted the (mythological) first colonial expedition.[92] This whole episode is an example of the Greeks ascribing Hellenic origins to most peoples, especially those who later showed a level of Hellenization.[93] The Lucani, of all the Italic peoples of southern Italy, most heavily embraced Greek culture and practice. The Oenotri had to expel some barbarians before settling. Their presence here is suspect, as are their settlements. I suggest that this confused picture of both conqueror and conquered actually conflates real details of early Lucanian history. Dionysius also mentions (besides the aforementioned suspicious name "Lycaonians") that the Oenotri settled the Tyrrhenian coast, finding it sparsely populated; they then built settlements on the mountain tops. This makes little sense, if they had few neighbors to fear, and the coastal land was best. But Dionysius gives us another clue: "This (i.e. the settling of towns next to mountains) was the customary manner of habitation in use among the

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[92] Paus. 8.3.5.

[93] This parallels Dionysius of Halicarnassus (*Antiq. Rom.* 1.11-13) in his description of the Aborigines.

ancients." Archaeology establishes firmly that in the fifth and fourth centuries BC the Lucani did possess mountain-top settlements, right when Greek historians were beginning to show a slight interest in interior Magna Graecia. By reading between the lines, we find this a subtle glimpse into not the history of the Oenotri, but rather that of the Lucani.

In the second century BC Scymnus is one of the few authors who refer specifically to both the Oenotri and the Lucani:

> The Samnites live next to these [Cumae and Naples], bound by the Ausones; after the Samnites dwell the Lucani (situated in the hinterlands), together with the Campani. Next to these are still the Oenotri, up to the city called Poseidonia, which, they say, the Sybarites colonized first, and then comes the city Velia, which the Massaliote Phocaeans founded, along with the Phocaeans themselves who fled during the time of the Persian Wars; the city of Phocaea in Asia is especially populous.[94]

There are a number of problems with Scymnus's account: for example, his Samnites must be the Alfaterni, and situating the Campani directly next to the Lucani is inaccurate. His account cannot refer to the situation in his day; rather, he must be drawing on some earlier sources like Pseudo-Scylax (fourth or third century BC). Here we see that the Lucani possess the interior regions, which may rightly depict an earlier period when some Oenotrian-labeled Lucanian tribes (and other peoples) possessed the coasts, while other tribes had settled the interior. We must also note that Scymnus's μέχρι implies that the Oenotri (whoever that was) did not control Poseidonia, presumably because Scymnus's sources assumed that the city was still Greek at the time they were writing. Scymnus (or

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[94] Scymn. 244-253: "Τούτοις δὲ Σαυνῖται παροικοῦσ' ἐχόμενοι τῶν Αὐσόνων· μεθ' οὓς μεσόγειοι κείμενοι οἰκοῦσι Λευκανοί τε Καμπανοί θ' ἅμα. Προσεχεῖς δὲ τούτοις εἰσὶ πάλιν Οἰνώτριοι μέχρι τῆς Ποσειδωνιάδος ὠνομασμένης, ἣν φασι Συβαρίτας ἀποικίσαι προτοῦ, καὶ Μασσαλιωτῶν Φωκαέων τ' Ἐλέα πόλις, ἣν ἔκτισαν φυγόντες ὑπὸ τὰ Περσικά οἱ Φωκαεῖς· μάλιστα δ' εὐανδρουμένη κατὰ

his sources) hints that the Oenotri really comprised many peoples, stating later that the barbarian peoples of Italy (next to Oenotria) were "all mixed up."[95]

Finally, let us examine the sixth book of Strabo, which contains the longest single extant passage in Greek and Roman literature dealing with the Lucani (if we exclude the Tiberius Gracchus episode in Livy). This study challenges the faith that modern invasion-theory supporters have placed in Strabo. They defend Strabo's accounts, trusting, for example, that he knew well the differences between Samnite and Lucanian, such as when he attributed the destruction of Metapontum to the Samnites and not the Lucani.[96] But this is unwarranted. No other literary source attests to a Sabellian institution of colonization. However, in Strabo's errors we may still see glimpses of the real history of the Lucani.

Strabo makes the difficult claim, "Before the Greeks came, however, the Lucani did not yet exist...."[97] On one level this may well be true, depending on how one defines "not in existence," and when one dates the advent of the Greeks. If we mean the

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τὴν Ἀσίαν Φωκαία κειμένη πόλις."

[95] Scymn. 300-312: "Ἡ δ' Ἰταλία προσεχὴς μέν ἐστ' Οἰνωτρίᾳ, μιγάδας τὸ πρότερον ἥτις ἔσχε βαρβάρους, ἀπὸ τοῦ δυναστεύσαντος Ἰταλοῦ τοὔνομα λαβοῦσα, μεγάλη δ' ὕστερον πρὸς ἑσπέραν Ἑλλὰς προσαγορευθεῖσα ταῖς ἀποικίαις. Ἑλληνικὰς γοῦν παραθαλαττίους ἔχει πόλεις· Τέρειναν πρῶτον, ἣν ἀπῴκισαν Κροτωνιᾶται πρότερον, ἃς θ' οἱ πλησίον Ἱππώνιον καὶ Μέδμαν ᾤκισαν Λοκροί. Εἶτ' εἰσὶ Ῥηγῖνοι πόλις τε Ῥήγιον, ὅθεν ἐστὶν ἐγγυτάτω πλέοντι διάβασις εἰς τὴν Σικελίαν· Χαλκιδεῖς δὲ Ῥήγιον ἀποικίσαι δοκοῦσιν."

[96] *Contra* E. Lepore, "La tradizione antica sui lucani e le origini dell'entità regionale," in *Antiche civiltà lucane. Atti del convegno di studi di archeologia, storia dell'arte e del folklore. Oppido Lucano: 5-8 Aprile 1970*, ed. P. Borraro (Galatina: Congedo, 1975), 59-60, who trusts only a general core of Strabo's account (that the Lucani and Bruttii were kin to the Hirpini, and thus colonists).

[97] Str. 6.1.2: "...πρὶν δὲ τοὺς Ἕλληνας ἐλθεῖν οὐδ' ἦσάν πω Λευκανοί...." See E. Greco, "In margine a Strabone," *La Parola del Passato* 25 (1970): 416-20.

colonization of Ischia in the mid-eighth century BC, then this is true for Strabo, who saw Oenotri and not Lucani in the remote past. We suppose (with Horsnaes) that Strabo has mislabeled the early Lucani as Oenotri (perhaps with kin-tribes like the Chones). This is still consistent with Strabo's long-duration Greco-barbarian war. A violent Lucanian/Chonian schism is perfectly reasonable. We have a perfect example of a process similar to this in the fourth century BC schism with the Bruttii.

We need not fret too much about perfect concord with Strabo, considering his unreliability in very ancient matters. First, he struggled to understand the complex relationships between the Bruttii, Lucani, and Samnites, who share some similarities (most obviously Oscan), and yet so many differences. Strabo wrote four centuries or more after the events of his narrative, and his Hellenocentric vantage point led him to downplay Sabellian differences, or at least fit them into his worldview; plus, in Roman Italy under Augustus, such differences were moot. Second, his chronology is quite troubled: he places the Greco-barbarian war and the era of the Sicilian tyrants and Carthaginian supremacy before the Trojan War, which seems almost inexcusable. Later he states that the Greeks captured interior Italian territory from the earlier inhabitants. There is no evidence supporting a Greek conquest of interior southern Italy, though Sybaris may have dominated portions of the Tyrrhenian interior for a time, and Greek cultural influence on the interior is unarguably a reality.[98] Strabo here is referring to the *nostoi* myths, in which Greek heroes returning from the Trojan War established

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[98] Gualtieri, *Fourth Century*, *passim*.

dominions in the west.

We may say something more theoretical here about that. Going west is a very old term linked to the setting of the sun and the understandable association with that event and death. Western lands like the Iberian Peninsula and Ethiopia (to the distorted Greek geographical picture) were home to various gods, and lush gardens and prairies for the blessed dead.[99] To the Homeric Greek mind, Greece was not big enough for heroes like Diomedes, Odysseus, and Agamemnon. Some of these heroes returned home and died after perilous voyages, others sailed further west and settled (much like their legendary predecessors Oenotrus and Pelasgus generations earlier). Out west was mysterious, and represented going to the "happy islands" or whatever name a culture has assigned to a blissful afterlife. This also served another important purpose: it allowed the Greeks to explain how these western peoples—especially the Italians—were so Hellenized. So when Strabo heard of the Hellenic tendencies of the Oenotri/Lucani, and saw this phenomenon even in his day, his solution was to presume that heroes like Diomedes, Philoctetes, or Nestor's Pylians had captured interior southern Italian lands, and had left behind a Greek presence there, which eventually barbarized, as Strabo laments.[100] Like most Greek authors, he must baptize peninsular Italian history and peoples in the cleansing waters of Hellenism. Can there be any better proof than the fact that Greek writers considered the southern portion of the Italian peninsula (poleis and *chorai*) "Magna Graecia", when the Italian inhabitants surely would not have used such a name

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[99] C. Jourdain-Annequin, *Héraclès aux portes du soir: mythe et histoire* (Paris: Diffusion Les Belles Lettres, 1989), 561-6.

[100] Str. 6.1.2.

for what was essentially control over a swathe of coastal land generally just a few miles deep?[101]

Strabo hints at another possible literary link between the Oenotri and Lucani: "It is even said that Pandosia was once the capital of the Oenotrian kings."[102] Strabo's φασὶ implies uncertainty in the sources regarding the historicity of these figures, and even their dwelling at Pandosia. But the Lucanian king tradition is extremely strong: numerous sources attest to the institution. We may suggest that Strabo is associating a very real Lucanian tribal meeting place or "common city" (before the Bruttian schism, when the area could indeed be called Lucanian) with that of the semi-legendary Oenotri. And, as Lejeune notes, the federated structure of Lucanian tribal life in no way precludes the need for a capital; it served as a highly fortified meeting area for the various Lucanian tribes and magistrates.[103]

In discussing the history of Metapontum, Strabo mentions that the Tarentines had allied with the Oenotri.[104] We have no other evidence of an Oenotrian/Tarentine alliance, but the Lucani allied with the Tarentines multiple times (for example, all through the Pyrrhic Wars). Tarentine-Lucanian relations in the historical era were frequent and

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[101] Ameruoso, *Mégale Héllas*, 148.

[102] Str. 6.1.5: "φασὶ δὲ καὶ βασίλειόν ποτε γενέσθαι τῶν Οἰνωτρικῶν βασιλέων τὴν Πανδοσίαν."

[103] M. Lejeune, *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 65. For fortified sites throughout Lucania, see E. Isayev, *Inside Ancient Lucania: Dialogues in History and Archaeology* (London: Institute of Classical Studies, 2007), 65-84; M. Miller, *Befestigungsanlangen in Italien vom 8. bis 3. Jahrhundert vor Christus*, Schriftenreihe Antiquitates 9 (Hamburg: Kovač, 1995), 471-89.

[104] Str. 6.1.15.

normative, and began very early, continuing down to the Roman conquest. Thus, we should suspect here that this Tarentine-Oenotrian alliance is really an alliance with the Lucani.

Furthermore, Strabo's chronology is very problematic. First, the Samnites (i.e. the Lucani) destroy Metapontum. Then, surprisingly, the Achaean Sybarites summon other Achaeans to resettle the site to spite Tarentum.[105] Next, Metapontum fights Tarentum and the Oenotri of the interior. Tarentum was founded around 706 BC, and the Achaeans must have established Sybaris, and later Metapontum, after this date, perhaps in the early seventh century BC.[106] Allowing for some time to pass for Strabo's "later on" (Ὕστερον), and for the development of this conflict, we have come down nearly to the historical period, but we see that in Strabo's framework the Lucani are already active. Yet Strabo's difficulties actually benefit us. Invasion-theory scholars assume that Strabo must be wrong here in 6.1.15, since it is impossible (in their historical economy) for "Samnites" (Lucani) to have been active around Metapontum in the seventh century. Frederiksen calls this Strabonian confusion.[107] Actually, there is no confusion whatsoever: using the ethnogenesis model, there is no difficulty identifying these Samnites in the Metapontine *chora* as Lucani, and perhaps other Sabellian (and even non-Sabellian) peoples.

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[105] Interestingly, according to Strabo the man who helped the Achaeans resettle Metapontum (we should probably understand him as the oekist) was named Leukippos, which is uncomfortably close to Leukani.

[106] Arist. *Pol.* 5.3 (1303a).

[107] Frederiksen, *Campania*, 137.

To summarize, invasion theorists hold that sometime in the fifth century BC the Lucani, perhaps under the auspices of a *ver sacrum*, emigrated from central Italy to traditional Lucania. However, the inscriptional and archaeological evidence do not dictate an explanation of newly-arrived invaders. And, as we have seen, the literary evidence is just as silent. No source specifically attests to such an invasion, and the few scattered references in Strabo to conflict in this region are too untrustworthy to corroborate such an event. Greek historians and geographers, in fact, had a very imperfect understanding of the Lucani in the archaic period (and before); thus, they mistakenly clumped the various peoples and tribes there (including the likely-dominant Lucani) under the rubric "Oenotri." This pattern concealed (from modern scholarship quite well) the real origins of the Lucanian people, who probably had inhabited the area long before the middle of the fifth century BC.

This era saw increased interaction between the peoples of southern Italy, as the destruction of Sybaris in 510 BC, the most powerful city in the region, could not but lead to changed relations. Some groups capitalized militarily, others politically, and likely many did economically. Throughout all we can envision a time of intense cultural interaction and exchanges. These differences make perfect sense within a varied, peace/conflict pattern, which also explains why the evidence spans a century or more, and is spread over a handful of sites in a large area. No doubt this was a period (like every other period since the advent of the Greeks to southern Italy, and probably before) that witnessed what we may awkwardly term "ascents" and "descents" of power, where political, military, cultural, and economic activity between various people groups made a

much messier ethnic picture than scholars are accustomed to depict. Greek poleis like Sybaris and Poseidonia had long had client Italian tribes, some of whom took advantage of the opportunities that the fifth century afforded. The Italian peoples gradually began to assume a place of dominance in the Greek poleis with the weakening of the latter through incessant strife among themselves; powerful figures, both Greek and Italian, even attempted coups to establish their own tyrannies. But all of this is a far cry from invasion, as even supporters admit.[108]

III. Lucania, ΛΥΚΟΣ

While historians and geographers cared probably very little about the origins of the Lucanian people, the etymological origins of their name did bother the Greeks. The name is similar to a variety of Greek words, giving rise to numerous folk etymologies, some of which the second-century AD grammarian Festus compiled: "The Lucani are said to have been named thus, because their area is situated in the direction of the light-bearing star, or because their lands are chalky (that is, of a very bright hue), or from their leader Lucilius, or because they first settled in a grove (*lucus*)."[109] That the Greeks and Romans drew these connections with the information available to them is understandable. But can these folk etymologies hold some truth about the Lucani?

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[108] Chiranky, 16-7; 99; Even Adamesteanu ("Scavi e ricerche," 23) admits, in discussing the varied archaeological picture of fifth century Lucania, "*Ma non ovunque si percepisce questa stasi, questo turbamento.*"

[109] Paulus ex Festo, in W.M. Lindsay, ed., *Sexti Pompei Festi de Verborum significatu quae supersunt, cum Pauli Epitome* (Teubner, 1913), p. 106 (hereafter P.F., p. 106 L): "Lucani appellati dicuntur, quod eorum regio sita est ad partem stellae luciferae, vel quod loca cretosa sint, ita est multae lucis, vel a Lucilio duce, vel quod primitus in luco consederint."

A. Lucanian Adaptation to Greek Etymologies

Besides the actual origin of the name Lucani, we are also concerned with what the Lucani thought of themselves, and about their own name, and what that says about them as a people. Perhaps the most apparent folk-etymological link derives Lucani/Lucania from Greek λύκος (wolf). Some scholars see this name as significant evidence of Lucanian use of the wolf as its totem during the *ver sacrum*.[110] Chiranky astutely challenges this reasoning, beginning with the simple grounds that had the Lucani adopted the wolf as its totem, they would have used something similar to the Oscan word *hirpus*. In fact, the linguistic evidence points to an original diphthong for the term "Lucani" (cf. Oscan *Luvkanateis*, and Latin *Loucanam*), whence the long /ū/ in (Classical) Latin; this original diphthong (and its later development into a long /ū/ in Latin) is linguistically incompatible with the short /u/ in the word for "wolf."[111]

The Lucani certainly produced coinage as early as the fourth century, with familiar Greek motifs of Pallas, wheat, and owls. It does not seem to be a coincidence that coins bearing wolf images begin to appear during the mid/late third century, though Greek motifs certainly had not disappeared.[112] In fact, this was a conscious decision to exploit external (i.e. Greek and Roman) perceptions and understandings of themselves.

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[110] Salmon, *Samnium*, 46; E. Ciaceri, *Storia della Magna Grecia*, vol. 2 (Milan: Albrighi, Segati & c., 1927), 394-5; Magaldi, *Lucania romana*, vol. 1, 87-8.

[111] I am indebted to my adviser Dr. Brent Vine for this point.

[112] Scheu, 66; Hands, 169 ff. Lu 4 obv. head of Jupiter; rev. ΛΟΥΚΑΝΟΜ. Eagle in field, wolf's head to right. Lu 6 obv. head of Heracles, spear-head; rev. ΛΥΚΙΑΝΩΝ, Bellona, wolf's head. Lu 7 obv. Head of

Lucanian moneyers chose to dub themselves ΛΥΚΙΑΝΩΝ (using a Greek form) instead of the more common (and Oscan) ΛΟΥΚΑΝΟΜ, almost certainly because of the former's similarity to λύκος, wolf.[113] This change confirms that the wolf-association was, indeed, artificial. By this period the Lucani had adopted Hellenic customs extensively (and may have begun to adopt Roman culture, since a colony was planted at Poseidonia in 273 BC). Certainly they had long been familiar with the Greek language, and the use of the Tarentine alphabet. Early on, the Lucani must have drawn parallels with their own name and its affinity to the Greek word for wolf, even if it was foreign to their own lexicon. Likewise, in accordance with Italian religion, they long had venerated Mavors, who was associated with the wolf. In fact, it is quite plausible that the Lucani, because of the folk etymology, eventually assumed that their own origins were connected to Mars, just as the Mamertines had done.

This is an excellent example of a process that Emma Dench documented so well for the Samnites.[114] How attractive, and how useful, such a "Greek" etymology must have seemed to the Lucani in their relations with the Italiotes, who put much value in the weight of history and lineage. The supposed association recalled mythological connections with the Arcadians, and it probably held a hint of earlier "Greek" origins

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Zeus, laureate, spear head behind; rev. ΛΥΚΙΑΝΩΝ, eagle, wolf's head.

[113] A. Stazio, "Monetazione dei Lucani," *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania* (*Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971*), in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 91-4.

[114] Dench, 54-5; 213-8.

among such figures as Oenotrus and Pelasgus.[115] The Greeks and Lucani may even have noted the similarity between Lukani, Lykos, Lakedaimon, and Lakonia. Again, there is no verifiable etymological link between the Lucani and these latter names, but that would not have prevented them from using surface appearance to their own advantage. This explains the odd story about King Lamiscus, whom we shall revisit later: "Now, the Lucani are hospitable to foreigners and are just. Lamiscus was their king; the third toe from his big toe was that of a wolf."[116] Chiranky observes wisely that this is not evidence of an animal totem, but rather is "an image of a charismatic war leader..., the wolf's aspect being a concrete symbol of the military ferocity of the Lucani when grouped under their war leader."[117] This Lucanian king (and future generations of Lucani) brilliantly used the association between their name and "wolf" to their advantage.

Such a history certainly appealed to Lucanian military traditions, and it may have given them political clout among the Romans, to whom wolves were highly significant of martial prowess.[118] They changed their coinage, and certainly propagated the Lamiscus toe story, and probably even the Arcadian-Lucanian link. One ancient stele depicts a Lucanian warrior wearing a wolf helmet and pelt.[119] It is impossible to say what impact

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[115] For the Greek-perceived association between Arcadia and Lucania, see below, p. 115 ff.

[116] Arist. Fragm. 611, 48 Rose: "Οἱ δὲ Λευκανοὶ φιλόξενοι καὶ δίκαιοι. ἐβασίλευε δὲ τούτων Λαμίσκος, ὃς εἶχε λύκου τὸν τρίτον δάκτυλον τοῦ ποδὸς ἀπὸ τοῦ μεγάλου." See E. Lepore, "Discussione," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania* (*Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971*), in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 53.

[117] Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 180-4; Chiranky, 52-3.

[118] Chiranky, 53, and his notes 151-3.

[119] B.M. Biancardi, "Guerrieri 'Lucani' in un frammento di stele sipontina," *Rendiconti: Accademia nazionale dei Lincei, classe di scienze morali, storiche e filologiche* 18 (1963): 199-200.

this tactic may have had; we can simply note the feasibility and motive of Lucanian adaptation of cultural (and linguistic) circumstance to their benefit. But it is probably not a coincidence that these third-century ΛΥΚΙΑΝΩΝ wolf coins surface just when Lucania has begun interacting extensively with the Romans.

B. Lucani, *Luciferae*

What do the other attributions of the name Lucani say about them? Festus mentions that the name Lucania comes from a star. Since he uses the term *stella lucifera*, and not *Vesper*, he is referring to the morning star, which is visible in the east just before dawn, according to Pliny and Cicero.[120] Why he thought Lucania faces the east is unknown. Racioppi theorizes that the Lucani adopted the name after crossing the Silarus River, which was east of their original homeland.[121] Unfortunately, whence they came is problematic given this presupposition—Campania is the closest region west (really northwest) of Lucania, unless we expand across the sea. There is no evidence of a Lucanian presence in any of these areas. Furthermore, Chiranky rightly notes that it is far more likely that the Lucani brought their name with them, rather than adopting a new name once they arrived in the region.[122]

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[120] Plin. *HN* 2.36; Cic. *Nat. D.* 2.20.53.

[121] G. Racioppi, *Storia dei popoli della Lucania e della Basilicata*, vol. 1 (Rome: Deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania, 1902), 14-15.

[122] Chiranky, 147-8; here he also rightly rejects the idea that the Lucani were named for being east of other Sabellian peoples. It is unlikely that a group would name itself from the perspective of another group.

C. Lucani from the Soil Color

Perhaps Festus's simplest explanation with which to deal is his reference to the chalky soil of Lucania. Apparently there was an idea in the ancient world that the soil of Lucania was very bright; according to the twelfth-century AD explorer Guido Pisanus, "*quae scilicet Leucania ob nitorem prospectus sui tale nomen sortita est.*"[123] Some of the clay soils in Basilicata are of an alkaline (i.e. chalky) nature, but not predominant enough to warrant this explanation. Nevertheless, soil color does not seem strong enough a trait from which the Lucani would derive their name, nor is it likely that outsiders (who really cared little about the Lucani) would name them from this minor point. Whenever the Lucani did arrive in southern Italy, they certainly would have retained their original name, instead of changing it based on their new homeland's soil color; no trace of any other name has survived, so we must presume this to be another folk-etymology.

D. King Lucilius

Festus's most interesting etymology is from King Lucilius. Chiranky dismisses this origin outright as being common myth, like Italy from Italus, or the many Greek hero-kings and their respective place names (Pelops, Ion, and Hellene for example); these mythological figures arose as legends after the rise of the actual people, often serving to bolster their identity or history. Greek or Greek-inspired authors attributed eponymous Hellenic oikists to the peoples of southern Italy.[124] The Lucani would not be the only

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[123] Guido Pisanus, *Geographica*, 67.

[124] Racioppi, *Storia dei popoli della Lucania e della Basilicata*, vol. 1, 9.

people in history whose name derived from a leader or dynasty, real or fictional: we remember, for example, Romulus and the Romans, the Qin dynasty (the Chinese), and the Israelites. These authors and historical parallels certainly are insufficient to prove anything, but they at least establish that we should not dismiss the possibility so easily.

E. Theories of Origin Involving an Italic Word for "grove"

Sextus's last etymology, that Lucania is named because they first settled in a grove, is very intriguing.[125] Lucania, even today, is heavily covered with forests; this became a trope in literature, especially under the Romans.[126] Devoto suggests that the connection Lucania-*lucus* is plausible, given the parallel with the word *Campania* and the surrounding plains, according to Diodorus.[127] Chiranky objects: *lucus* is Latin, not Oscan, though it may have been Oscan, but is unattested in the extant sources.[128] Second, *lucus* is more often than not a term not just for forest, but for a collection of trees with some kind of sacred or religious significance.[129] But perhaps Festus is hitting on a custom or even an event in the distant Lucanian consciousness, where myth and oral history collided. Second, Chiranky is incorrect: there certainly is attestation of an Oscan

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[125] Chiranky, 149-150.

[126] Magaldi, *Lucania romana*, vol. 1, 47-9.

[127] Devoto, "I momenti," 9. Diod. Sic. 12.31.1: "Ἐπ' ἄρχοντος δ' Ἀθήνησι Θεοδώρου Ῥωμαῖοι μὲν κατέστησαν ὑπάτους Μάρκον Γενύκιον καὶ Ἀγρίππαν Κούρτιον Χίλωνα. ἐπὶ δὲ τούτων κατὰ μὲν τὴν Ἰταλίαν τὸ ἔθνος τῶν Καμπανῶν συνέστη, καὶ ταύτης ἔτυχε τῆς προσηγορίας ἀπὸ τῆς ἀρετῆς τοῦ πλησίον κειμένου πεδίου."

[128] Chiranky, 149-150.

[129] *Thesaurus Linguae Latinae*, vol. 7.2, 1750-4, s.v. lucus.

word for "grove": *luvkei*, "in the grove", from Capua; also an adjective *Luvkanateis* based on the proper name "Lucani" (in the territory of the Frentani).[130] More importantly, *lucus* derives ultimately from Proto-Indo-European: the original sense was something like "clearing, open space," i.e. a grove that permits some light.[131] Thus, we should not dismiss a connection between *lucus* and "Lucani" so quickly; I believe they are, indeed, connected, but only in relation to Proto-Indo-European **leuk-*.

F. Theories of Origin Involving Words Meaning "light, bright" etc. Based on the PIE Root **leuk-*

Drawing on Servius's commentary of the *Aeneid*, which states: "*Sane lingua Osca Lucetius est Iuppiter dictus a luce, quam praestare hominibus dicitur*," Chiranky conjectures, "the Lucani took their name from a sky divinity, perhaps their major god in the period of their creation. They would have been 'the people of Lucetius' or perhaps 'the sons of Lucetius.'"[132] He offers the Mamertines (named after Oscan Mars) and the Athenians as parallels. The theory revolves around what he believes is an Oscan divinity name as opposed to Latin, and a Proto-Indo-European root **leuk-* "light, shine" is the most obvious starting point for the name of the Lucani (**louk-* in Oscan).[133]

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[130] *Cp* 24 and *Fr* 2, respectively.

[131] The Oscan and Latin words for grove derive from this root, but that does not affect the distinction that I am making here with the origin of the name "Lucani."

[132] Serv. 9.570; Chiranky, 153.

[133] In Oscan Proto-Indo-European **leuk-* manifests as **louk-*, as Lucanian coinage (ΛΟΥΚΑΝΩΜ) indicates; so does Scipio Barbatus's inscription of 298 BC ("*Loucanam*"). See G. Pugliese Carratelli, "Le genti della Lucania antica e le loro relazioni con i Greci dell'Italia," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania* (*Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971*), in *Archivio storico per*

There are some concerns with Chiranky's thesis. The Mamertines were not an ethnic group like the Lucani; they were a mercenary band comprised of Campani, and perhaps a few Lucani.[134] Presumably it is much easier for a few thousand mercenaries to take an aggressive, war-like name than for tens of thousands of people to discard a name with which they had identified for ages, and to adopt a new one.[135] Second, despite the apparent connection between Athens and Athena, "The precise linguistic relation between place and goddess is teasingly difficult to define...."[136] Finally, and most importantly, Servius's words do not line up with our inscriptional evidence. The name Leucetius (vocative singular forms "Leucesie" and/or "Leucetie") comes from the *Carmen Saliare*, an archaic Latin text, and this divinity name is not Oscan, *contra* Chiranky.[137] It seems to be an epithet of Jupiter that means something like "The Light-Bringer" or "Illuminating One." Again, it is Latin, not Sabellian.

A derivation of *Lucania* from Proto-Indo-European **leuk-* or **louk-* still seems the most likely possibility with our current information. I propose that Servius may be

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la Calabria e la Lucania (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 9; Salmon, *Samnium*, 166, n. 3. Devoto, *Antiche*, 9 is skeptical of this derivation.

[134] *Contra* Chiranky, 221. For the naming of the Mamertini, see Diod. Sic. 21.18.1; Cass. Dio fr. 40.8; P.F., p. 150.30-5 L.

[135] Note that the name of the Marrucini, which is traditionally associated with Mamers, may not actually derive from the theonym: see Salmon, *Making*, 22; V. Cianfarani, "Culture arcaiche dell'Italia medio-adriatico," in *Popoli e civiltà dell'Italica antica* 5, ed. V. Cianfarani, D.G. Lollini, and M. Zuffa (Rome: Biblioteca di Storia Patria, 1976), 38-9; H. Rix, "Oskisch *vereiia-* à la Mommsen," in *Gering und doch von herzen, 25 indogermanistische Beiträge Bernhard Forssman zum 65. Geburtstag* (Wiesbaden: Ludwig Reichert, 1999), 242.

[136] R.C.T. Parker, "Athena," *Oxford Classical Dictionary*^{3}, S. Hornblower and A. Spawforth, eds. (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1996).

[137] J. Blänsdorf, *Fragmenta poetarum latinorum epicorum et lyricorum praeter Ennium et Lucilium* (Stuttgart and Leipzig: B. G. Teubner, 1995), 4, frag. 2.

close to something when he says that the Lucani were named from either a Lucius or from the word *lucus*, though in both instances he is not technically correct. Perhaps in their earliest history (before the development of the Lucanian quasi-democracy, and the relegation of the kingship to a temporary military office) some noble families were charged with the protection of a sacred grove, and this religious duty became part of the family or tribal name; via this family or tribe's *gravitas* the name passed on to the people as a whole. This is mostly speculation, but as evidence of the possibility at least of this familial responsibility we may suggest a later derivative in the Utiani tribe overseeing the shrine of Mefitis at Rossano di Vaglio. Another kind of parallel for this kind of activity influencing nomenclature is afforded by the Roman family name Aurelius, which, according to consensus opinion, derives from a "Sabine" (and ultimately Proto-Indo-European) word for "dawn" or "sun" (etymologically related to Latin *aurōra*).[138] For Lucani, the otherwise unknown King Lucius may be a candidate, or perhaps a family carrying a "**Louk*-" name, such as Chiranky's "sons of light", which seems fit for an elite family seeking to augment its own position in the face of competitor families. Through a variety of reasons, including (but not limited to) success of the line, political power, and military notoriety, this family's name expands into the name for the entire people. As happens so often with analyzing Lucanian culture, any kind of confidence on the matter is impossible due to our meager sources, and we must remain cautious and open to new research and discoveries.

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[138] See B. Vine, *Studies in Archaic Latin Inscriptions* (Innsbruck: Institut für Sprachwissenschaft der Universität Innsbruck, 1993), 103, n. 58.

IV. Early Lucanian Culture

A. The Importance of Hospitality in Lucanian Society

A major goal of this dissertation is to fill a gap that previous scholarship has missed, namely to examine the literary evidence very thoroughly in order to understand better Lucanian culture and society. According to our evidence the Lucani were a very hospitable people, and very accepting in their view of outsiders. Aelian (late second/early third century AD) informs us:

> A certain law of the Lucani says that if after sunset a stranger comes and wants to stay in the home of any person, if that person does not receive the man, let that person be punished, and pay the penalties of inhospitality, as I see it both to the man who came to him, and to Jupiter, patron of Hospitality.[139]

This interesting component of Lucanian civilization does not match the standard (modern) depiction of the Lucani as the barbarian invaders who swept in and destroyed Italiote cities, though this policy of hospitality could have been applied only *inter Lucanos*.[140] But we see in the fourth century BC Lucanian families opening their homes to Greek elite refugees from the Pythagorean persecution, and we suspect that this cultural practice extended to other peoples.[141]

La Greca wishes to attribute this custom of hospitality to Greek practice, but

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[139] Ael. *VH* 4.1: "Λέγει τις νόμος Λευκανῶν, ἐὰν ἡλίου δύντος ἀφίκηται ξένος καὶ παρελθεῖν ἐθελήσῃ ἐς στέγην τινός, εἶτα μὴ δέξηται τὸν ἄνδρα, ζημιοῦσθαι αὐτὸν καὶ ὑπέχειν δίκας τῆς κακοξενίας ἐμοὶ δοκεῖν καὶ τῷ ἀφικομένῳ καὶ τῷ Ξενίῳ Διί."

[140] Magaldi, vol. 1, 77.

[141] For Lucanian-Greek connections of this sort, see below, Chapter 4, p. 197.

why?[142] This stems from an *a priori* assumption that since hospitality was so important to the Greeks, they must have been the origin of all such customs. That Aelian was a Hellenophile is not evidence. Certainly later Hellenization would reinforce this custom, but it need not be the source. In fact, the custom of "reciprocal guest-friendship" ultimately is a deeply-ingrained cultural institution of Proto-Indo-European society, and thus was transmitted down into Lucanian practice.[143] Also note that Aelian's words presume that the Lucani have some kind of established legal system—this law has the feel of a state-sponsored action, with attendant punishment system, and not some kind of familial wergild-based law.

B. Naturalization

The fourth-century BC Athenian orator Isocrates was simply disgusted by the openness to foreigners that the Lucani exhibited—they, of ignoble origin, were ready to make anybody a citizen.

> But if someone were to look on and see that the city's affairs were being managed well, he would take heart regarding other affairs, but would he not be especially grieved about these very things? We declare that we are sprung from the very land, and that this city was founded before all others, but although it has seemed proper for us to be an example to everyone of how a state should be governed properly, we manage our state worse and with more disorder than those just establishing their cities, and we glory and take great pride in being better born than others, but we are readier to share this noble birthright with any who want it than are the Triballi or Lucani to share their ignoble origin.[144]

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[142] La Greca, 16.

[143] See B.W. Fortson IV, *Indo-European Language and Culture: An Introduction*[2] (Malden, Massachusetts: Wiley-Blackwell, 2010), 23.

[144] Isoc. *De pace* 49-50: "Ἀλλὰ γὰρ τὰ κατὰ τὴν πόλιν ἄν τις ἰδὼν καλῶς διοικούμενα περὶ τῶν ἄλλων θαρρήσειεν, ἀλλ' οὐκ ἂν ἐπ' αὐτοῖς τούτοις μάλιστ' ἀγανακτήσειεν; Οἵτινες αὐτόχθονες μὲν εἶναί φαμεν

Isocrates' point is clear: Athens is prostituting her citizenship, and she is doomed to dilute her blood and barbarize should she continue to admit citizens indiscriminately. But the point of comparison rests on the openness of the Lucani (and Triballi). The situation at Athens was not as bad as Isocrates has made it out to be; this is hyperbole, but that literary device as used here rests on the reality of Lucanian and Triballian practice. Isocrates' low opinion of the Lucani themselves is clear, too: they are ignoble *barbaroi*.

C. Friendship (State and Private)

As with most peoples of the ancient world, inter-state friendship was extremely important to the Lucani.[145] The Heraion on the Sele must have been a place of friendship and networking, for Greeks and non-Greeks alike.[146] Lucanian-populated Poseidonia and Velia probably were close friends (though Strabo speaks of a war between the two, which in no way contradicts a general tendency toward friendship). This reminds us of the

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καὶ τὴν πόλιν ταύτην προτέραν οἰκισθῆναι τῶν ἄλλων, προσῆκον δ' ἡμᾶς ἅπασιν εἶναι παράδειγμα τοῦ καλῶς καὶ τεταγμένως πολιτεύεσθαι, χεῖρον καὶ ταραχωδέστερον τὴν ἡμετέραν αὐτῶν διοικοῦμεν τῶν ἄρτι τὰς πόλεις οἰκιζόντων, καὶ σεμνυνόμεθα μὲν καὶ μέγα φρονοῦμεν ἐπὶ τῷ βέλτιον γεγονέναι τῶν ἄλλων, ῥᾴδιον δὲ μεταδίδομεν τοῖς βουλομένοις ταύτης τῆς εὐγενείας ἢ Τριβαλλοὶ καὶ Λευκανοὶ τῆς αὐτῶν δυσγενείας...."

[145] A famous inscription shows Poseidonia as guarantor of the treaty between the Sybarites and the Serdaioi at Olympia (which must precede 510 BC): "It is agreed among the Sybarites and the allies and the Serdaioi a faithful friendship [i.e. alliance] without deceit, forever. To this Zeus and Apollo are guarantors, as well as all the gods and the city of Poseidonia." R. Meiggs and D. Lewis, *A Selection of Greek Historical Inscriptions to the End of the Fifth Century B.C.* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1988), no. 10. For the Serdaioi, see Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 121; G.F. La Torre, "Alla periferia dell'impero di Sibari: Le genti indigene lungo la fascia tirrenica cosentina dalla protostoria alla lucanizzazione," in *La Calabria tirrenica nell'antichità. Nuovi documenti e problematiche storiche. Atti del convegno (Rende 23-25 novembre 2000)*, ed. G. De Sensi Sestito (Soveria Mannelli: Rubbettino, 2008), 173-6.

[146] Str. 5.4.13.

friendly relations between Chalcis and Eretria (excluding the Lelantine War).[147]

Likewise, inter-personal friendship was also an important trait among the Lucani. A friendly Paestan informs the wandering Phocaeans of the site of Velia.[148] Iamblichus speaks of Thestor of Poseidonia's philanthropy toward Thymaridas of Paros, another Pythagorean, who had fallen into misery.[149] The "Tomb of the Diver" and other Paestan frescoes depict friendly banquets. Cimon befriended the Paestan fortune-teller Astiphilus, and, for the Roman era, Paestum and Velia pledged eternal friendship toward Rome.[150] La Greca stretches this last point too far in an attempt to vindicate the Lucani from their ignominious reputation in the eyes of the ancient world as being perennial traitors, which he calls an unfair overreaction to the only two instances of Lucanian treachery, the episodes with Alexander Molossus and Tiberius Gracchus. As we shall see in Chapter 6, this is simply not true; there are numerous other instances of Lucanian treachery. But the aforementioned evidence from the pre-Greek and Greek periods, in conjunction with Aelian's account, does permit us to establish friendship (both state and interpersonal) as very important traits to the Lucani, as it was with most of the ancient world.

Aristotle offers another account of Lucanian culture, with very positive connotations, like the previous: "Now, the Lucani are hospitable to foreigners and are

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[147] Str. 10.1.12.

[148] Hdt. 1.167.

[149] La Greca, 184-5; Iamb. *VP* 33.239-240.

[150] Plut. *Cim.* 18.2-6; Liv. 22.36.9; 26.39.1-5; 27.10.7-9; Polyb. 1.20.13-16. The city's name changed from the Greek Poseidonia to Latinized Paestum, according to Gell. *NA* 14.6.4-5.

just...."[151] Hospitality and justice are important to most societies, but the fact that Aristotle, who labored over studying the constitutions of various cities and peoples, singles out the Lucani may indicate that they were particularly known for this. Of note is a Poseidonian Greek inscription that speaks of love and friendship between Greeks, Etruscans, and Italians.[152] We can also read into Aristotle's words that the Lucani must have had some state apparatus sufficient to carry out this justice, or they would not have received this mention. However, that the Lucani were fair or just does not in and of itself necessarily imply "Greekness."

Writing *mirabunda* in the style of Cato the Elder and other writers, Nicolaus of Damascus (a historian and philosopher of the first century BC) tells of an interesting Lucanian custom: "The Lucani judge wastefulness and laziness among themselves just like any other crime. If anyone should be convicted of having lent a sum of money to a profligate, he is fined that same amount. There are trials regarding laziness at Athens, too."[153] This seems a bit harsh in comparison with what Aristotle just said about Lucanian hospitality. Presumably every society frowns upon laziness, but the Lucani were remarkable for their condemnation of it (just as the Athenians were). Nicolaus's

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[151] Arist. *Fragm.* 611, 48 Rose: "Οἱ δὲ Λευκανοὶ φιλόξενοι καὶ δίκαιοι. ἐβασίλευε δὲ τούτων Λαμίσκος, ὃς εἶχε λύκου τὸν τρίτον δάκτυλον τοῦ ποδὸς ἀπὸ τοῦ μεγάλου."

[152] A. Pontrandolfo, "Un'iscrizione posidoniate in una tomba di Fratte di Salerno," in *Annali dell'istituto universitario orientale di Napoli. Sezione del archeologia e storia antica*, vol. 9 (Naples: Istituto Universitario Orientale 1987), 55-63.

[153] Nic. Dam. *Morum mirab. collectio*, fr. 103b (=Stob. *Anth.* 4.2.25): "Λευκανοὶ δικάζονται ἀλλήλοις ὥσπερ ἄλλου τινὸς ἀδικήματος, οὕτω καὶ ἀσωτίας καὶ ἀργίας. Ἐὰν δέ τις ἀσώτῳ δανείσας χρέος ἐλεγχθῇ, στέρεται αὐτοῦ. Καὶ Ἀθήνησι δὲ τῆς ἀργίας εἰσὶ δίκαι." For *mirabunda* in Cato, see D. Favelo, "The Organization and Historiographic Principles of Cato's *Origines* (master's thesis, California State University Fresno, 2000), 100-5.

comments on Lucanian money lending are interesting, too. We can say that the Lucani had at the very least a system of lending in place, along with sureties. The passage also assumes a sufficiently complex legal system to enforce the repayment.

V. The Lucanian *Paideia*

Finally, the Lucani had a unique system of educating their children (or at least the elite did), according to Justin:

> The Lucani were accustomed to raise their children with the same kind of education that the Spartans used; for, from the beginning of childhood, they were kept in the forests among the shepherds, without any slaves to attend them, and without clothes to wear or in which to sleep, so that, from their first years, they might be accustomed to hardiness and temperance, and without any interaction with the city. Their food was what they took in hunting, and their drink milk or water from springs. Thus they were prepared for the difficulties of war.[154]

This whole account says much about Lucanian society, if it is accurate. Some Italian scholars go too far and presume that the Lucani adopted the Spartan *agoge*, but Justin only compares its similarity to a system with which his readers would have been familiar. Roman historians like Cato the Elder were known to equate the hardiness of the Italians to the Spartans, but there can be no real connection between the Lucanian *paideia* and the Spartan system.[155] The helots provided the Spartans with the opportunity to ignore farming as a livelihood and to focus entirely on military training, and without any

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[154] Justin. 23.1.1-17: "Namque Lucani isdem legibus liberos suos quibus et Spartani instituere soliti erant. Quippe ab initio pubertatis in silvis inter pastores habebantur sine ministerio servili, sine veste, quam induerent vel cui incubarent, ut a primis annis duritiae parsimoniaeque sine ullo usu urbis adsuescerent. Cibus his praeda venatica, potus aut lactis aut fontium liquor erat. Sic ad labores bellicos indurabantur."

[155] Dench, 53. See Str. 5.4.12 for the legendary Spartan origins of the Samnites. For the Spartan origins of the Italians in Book 2 of Cato's *Origines*, see Favelo, 94-9.

evidence, we must presume that the Lucani did not have that luxury (though certainly they had slaves). That the Lucani had a particularly rigorous system for inculcating an uncommon robustness into their young men is plausible enough. We will see later how this image of the wild, aggressive, violent Lucanian will tie right into the stereotype of them as the typical morally base shepherd barbarians, one step up from Polyphemus and his flocks. Almost literally some Lucani were raised among the wolves, or at least the shepherds who had to deal with such threats of the wild.

A. The Identity of the Lucanian Shepherd-Teachers

Napoli and Pugliese Carratelli identify these shepherds as the Bruttii, who broke from the Lucani in the fourth century BC.[156] This identification is problematic, however, since the Bruttii clearly were localized in the "toe" of Italy, which would have prevented the Lucani from using them as tutors to their children, except for in a limited geographical region somewhere around the Laos-Thurii line.[157] Justin unequivocally assumes that these shepherds were a part of all of Lucanian society. Secondly, scholars who identify these shepherds as the Bruttii admit that they could have been serfs—who, unlike slaves, are inherently tied to the land that they work. This fact argues against the likelihood of the Bruttii ranging throughout the other Lucanian tribes' territory as

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[156] A. Napoli, "I rapporti tra Bruzi e Lucani. L'uso, presso i Lucani, di una practica di iniziazione giovanile svolta, in piena età storica, da un popolo soggetto: i Bruzi," *Studi e materiali di storia delle religioni* 37 (1966): 61-83; G. Pugliese-Carratelli, "Sanniti, Lucani, Brettii e Italioti dal secolo IV a.C.," in *Le genti non greche della Magna Grecia. Atti dell'undicesimo convegno sulla studi di Magna Grecia* (Naples: Arte tipografica, 1972), 47.

teachers.[158] There are other, more theoretical problems with the Bruttii being the tutors of the Lucani. These Bruttian serf-slaves supposedly trained Lucanian youths in the art of war. It is highly improbable that masters would impart their talents and knowledge of fighting to the youths of people who were supposedly oppressing them, contrary to the hopeful objections of Chiranky and Napoli.[159] Likewise, the Lucani would not have permitted their slaves to maintain essentially a constant higher level of military training than in their own society. Secondly, since these Bruttian slave-trainers would be training the elite, the former would have required the skills of mounted warfare, which is even less likely. Thus, we cannot identify these *pastores* with the Bruttii.

This Lucanian *paideia* system was intricately linked to the military.[160] As with all ancient societies, martial prowess played a central role in the selection of leaders, the distribution of spoils, and even marriage and family structure. Lucanian tomb paintings evidence this fully, especially the famous "Return of the Warrior," which seems to depict armed warriors returning to a welcoming woman; the scene highlights booty, weaponry, and dignity (Paestum, c. fifth century BC).[161] Several other paintings of mounted warriors confirm this trait. Hunting figures heavily in these scenes, too. As we shall see

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[157] E. Greco, "Tra Bruzi e Lucani. Alla ricerca di una definizione di abitato," in *Per un'identità culturale dei Brettii*, ed. P. Poccetti (Naples: Istituto universitario orientale, 1988), 159-70.

[158] Chiranky, 90.

[159] Chiranky, 144; Napoli, "I rapporti," 75-6.

[160] Salmon, *Samnium*, 110.

[161] A. Pontrandolfo, A. Rouveret, and M. Cipriani, eds., *The Painted Tombs of Paestum* (Salerno: Pandemos, 2004), 33-4; A. Maiuri, *Roman Painting*, tr. S. Gilbert (Geneva: Skira, 1953), 16; A. Rouveret and A. Pontrandolfo Greco, "Pittura funeraria in Lucania e Campania. Puntualizzazioni cronologiche e proposte di lettura," *Dialoghi di Archeologia*, 3rd ser., vol. 1, no. 2 (1983): 94-9.

in Chapter 6, Lucanian hunters are also a frequent motif in our literary sources.[162]

VI. Lucania and the Development of Gladiatorial *Munera*

Though scholars still hotly debate the origins of gladiatorial combats, there may well be an early link between them and Lucania. Few scholars now believe that Decimus Junius Brutus Scaeva celebrated the first gladiatorial fights in honor of his deceased father, Brutus Pera, in 264 BC.[163] The first-century BC historian Nicolaus of Damascus believed that gladiatorial combats originated with the Etruscans in the fifth century BC; however, Salmon argues that this form of entertainment arose among the Sabellian peoples first, and some evidence in Lucania may support this.[164] Wonder makes a compelling case for the importance of gladiatorial games at Poseidonia in accordance with Lucanian practice in heroizing the departed.[165] Paestan tomb paintings of the fourth century BC (when the Lucani certainly were dominant in the city) show naked boxers and duelists (armed with Attic-Chalcidian helmet, greaves, hoplon, and spear) in combat, the blood gushing forth: these may well depict gladiatorial games in honor of the dead.[166]

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[162] See below, p. 294.

[163] Valerius Maximus (2.4.7) asserts that the sons of Brutus Pera offered the first gladiatorial *munera* in Rome at their father's funeral in 264 BC.

[164] Ath. 4.153; Salmon, *Making*, 12; Salmon, *Samnium*, 60.

[165] Wonder, "Paestum," 116-120.

[166] For analysis, see Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 86-7; Chiranky, 64-5; M. Napoli, *Il museo di Paestum* (Naples: Di Mauro, 1969), plate xxvi; A. Pontrandolfo, A. Rouveret, and M. Cipriani, eds., *The Painted Tombs of Paestum*, 44-53. For large color photographs of these paintings, see *Poseidonia e I Lucani*, ed. M. Cipriani and F. Longo (Naples: Electa, 1996), 49-64.

Horsnaes wonders if the warriors are actually undertaking the journey to the underworld: they are tomb paintings, after all.[167] Additionally, it was a Lucanian, probably from Paestum, who displayed the first painting of gladiators.[168] Unfortunately, Paestum is so exceptional in evidence compared to the rest of Lucanian territory that we can only wonder if this institution extended to the rest of the Lucani. However, vase ware and cremation practices at Roccagloriosa indicate that heroizing their ancestors was a pan-Lucanian practice, and thus funereal *munera* may have been as well.[169] While the evidence is certainly insufficient to declare the Paestan Lucani the originators of gladiatorial combat, at the very least it seems reasonable that they played a significant part in developing the institution, perhaps alongside their Campanian and/or Alfaternian neighbors.

VII. Early Lucanian Political Organization

A. The Lucanian Quasi-Democracy

How the Lucani organized politically is a difficult question. The literary material is not extensive, and the authors that we do possess span several centuries, spilling over into the Roman period. Furthermore, the literary evidence does not always match our expectations, given that the Lucani were a Sabellian people. Strabo provides the most startling account of the political organization of the Lucani: "At every other time, they

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[167] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 87.

[168] Plin. *HN* 35.7.52. Cf. Cic. *Att.* 11.17a; Suet. *Vita Ter.* 1.

[169] M. Gualtieri and M.J. Becker, "Cremation among the Lucanians," *American Journal of Archaeology* 86, no. 4 (October 1982): 478-9.

governed themselves democratically, but in times of war a king was chosen from those who held magisterial offices; but now they are Romans."[170] What was the nature of this democracy? Does Strabo mean here an Athenian-style near-radical democracy? He could be completely wrong, but it is unlikely that this Greek would attribute to barbarians so Greek an institution without having some kind of source material beyond folk legend.

Some scholars doubt its authenticity as a democracy, instead labeling it a "military democracy."[171] Others take a more conservative approach, presuming that by "democracy" Strabo simply means that the Lucani elected magistrates, unlike other barbarians who invariably suffered under a despot.[172] The Lucanian *meddix*, like its parallels throughout the Oscan peoples, wielded extensive power, but was elected (somehow—that is entirely unclear) and held his office for one year. Furthermore, no evidence directly attests to a body of the people making policy. Strabo may be exaggerating the situation here because the Lucanian system, whatever its exact character, was so very *unbarbarian*.

But is that all that Strabo means? Surely he could have been clearer on the point if the Lucani simply had used magistrates. I suggest that, while he cannot have meant a full-fledged Athenian democracy, he at least believed that the free Lucanian man had

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[170] Str. 6.1.3: "τὸν μὲν οὖν ἄλλον χρόνον ἐδημοκρατοῦντο, ἐν δὲ τοῖς πολέμοις ἡρεῖτο βασιλεὺς ἀπὸ τῶν νεμομένων ἀρχάς· νῦν δ' εἰσὶ Ῥωμαῖοι."

[171] Lepore, "La Tradizione," 53; Biffi, 306.

[172] M. Lejeune, "Langue et civilisation des Lucaniens," *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 85.

some kind of impact on the political process. One piece of evidence is the Tarentine plot in 326 to break the Lucani from the Roman alliance.[173] After the bribed Lucanian youths who had feigned mistreatment at the hands of the Romans rile the Lucanian council to vote, a group of Lucani stand around the council and shout their approval. This looks very much like voting by acclamation that the Spartans used. While Livy's words do not specify exactly how the process moved forward, it seems that the council acts based on what the people (here a *touto*, as we shall see) want, or, at the very least, the council checks its decision with the people so as to concur with their wishes. This is not true, classical, Athenian democracy, but appears to have differed enough from Strabo's conception of standard Sabellian practice that only the term "democracy" could best convey his understanding of the role of the free Lucanian man in the political process.

Furthermore, the Lucani were rather free in naturalizing outsiders—unlike Strabo's vision of a typically exclusive barbarian people—which implies that there was some level of self-determination to give.[174] Whom are the Lucani naturalizing? Other Italian peoples? Greeks? Some Italiotes fled to Lucanian friends after political upheavals in their poleis; perhaps some sought a new beginning.[175] Dual citizenship in the region could also prove quite valuable, both economically and politically. Another plausible situation may lie in cities like Poseidonia and Metapontum. After the Lucani had obtained a significant majority of influence in these originally-Greek cities, perhaps

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[173] Liv. 8.27.

[174] Note that naturalization was rather rare in Athens, despite Isocrates' rantings.

[175] Plut. *De gen.* 583a-b.

they extended Lucanian citizenship to others as a method of reconciling disaffected parties, or shoring up their own power base, or both.

What induced the Lucani to adopt this quasi-democracy, and when? We must acknowledge that the practice, if it was simply a kind of acclamation-based approval system for passing the council's legislation, which was open to the free Lucani, could well have been their own original institution (and not borrowed from the Greeks). However, the institution may have begun to look more like a traditional Greek democracy with growing relations with the Italiote poleis, such as the gradual Lucanian penetration of Poseidonia, where they had first-hand experience of Greek ways. Constant ties of trade in Magna Graecia may also be suspect. As we shall see later, Lucanian roots with Italiote nobles ran very deep, especially through the Pythagorean sect.[176] The speed of the adoption is unclear; certainly this was a gradual process, since it transpired over a large region, and not in a focused city-state, such as in sixth-century BC Athens.

We can say little else about democracy in Lucania without further evidence; however, we have much more with which to work when considering the Lucanian *meddix* and king.

B. Lucanian Political-Military Offices: The *Meddices*

While practice probably varied between Sabellian peoples, generally speaking the *meddix* was their chief magistrate. The citizens elected one (or perhaps two) of these magistrates; each wielded effective executive power over a tribe (*touto*) for the year. The

[176] See below, Chapter 4, p. 189 ff.

meddix had ultimate judicial and military authority, except among the Lucani, since they elected a king in times of war.

It is not the purpose of this dissertation to analyze the extensive evidence on the Sabellian office of *meddix*, since numerous scholars have explored this institution.[177] However, we should evaluate the office within the "Lucanian experience."[178] The meddicate specifically in Lucania is not well understood, since our sources are few, consisting mostly of inscriptions; for example, the Nummelos inscription has roused intense debate on his exact title (*meddix* or *basileus*?).[179] These inscriptions are usually terse, such as that at Muro Lucano/Numistro: "Mais Arries in his time as meddix."[180] The latter dates to the first quarter of the third century, but we can say little else from the inscription with certainty.

The Metapontine helmet inscription has inspired much debate, partially because it was misread (and, thus, misinterpreted) for so long.[181] The inscription reads, "*ϝεϝειασ καμ(π?)σανασ μεταποντινασ συπ μεδικιαι πο[-?.*" Dated to the fourth century BC, it is one of the earlier references to the meddicate in Lucania.[182] *καμ(π?)σανασ* is unknown, but it

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[177] E. Campanile and C. Letta, *Studi sulle magistrature indigene e municipali in area italica* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1979), 29-88; Untermann, 455-61; Salmon, *Samnium*, 84-101.

[178] See also Isayev, 127-9.

[179] See below, p. 78.

[180] *Lu* 4: "*μαισ αρριεσ σουϝεν μεδδικεν.*" See A. Capano and L. Del Tutto Palma, "L'iscrizione di Muro Lucano," in *Italici in Magna Grecia*, ed. M. Tagliente (Venosa: Osanna Venosa, 1990), 105-110.

[181] Some scholars (Chiranky, 75; 220, for example) once thought the inscription referred to a group of Campanian mercenaries, but that reading (and now interpretation) is impossible.

[182] *Lu* 37; Salmon, *Samnium*, 86, n. 4 and Chiranky, 74, believe it to be the oldest. See also Del Tutto Palma, *Me* 1; M. Cristofani, "Società e istituzioni nell'Italia preromana," in *Popoli e civiltà dell'Italia antica*

may be an epithet of Metapontum, or of the *vereia* that was somehow connected to the meddix who likely commissioned the inscription (since *συπ μεδικιαι* mostly likely means "under the meddicate of..."); we will return to this *vereia* entity later.[183]

The Tabula Bantina is quite valuable, as our longest Oscan inscription, but it is very late (late second, or, more likely, early first century BC, with great differences of opinion among scholars).[184] The script is Latin; the content shows a marked Roman influence, which certainly had made an impact on the Lucanian-Bantian processes and magistracies listed in the text. Besides references to a quaestor and censor, much of the content of the Tabula Bantina revolves around the responsibilities of the *meddix*; however, the context indicates that these duties were strictly judicial and administrative, with no military responsibilities, which makes sense: certainly by the late second century Roman *imperatores* had final authority over allied contingents.

The Lucanian meddicate resembled the general Sabellian office in most ways. It is a safe assumption that time and wealth constraints probably prevented the majority of Lucani from holding higher magistracies like the meddicate or kingship (besides cultural restraints such as family wealth and power).[185] Other Sabellian magistracies existed, in

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7, ed. M. Pallottino (Rome: Biblioteca di Storia Patria, 1978), 97-8; Poccetti, *Nuovi documenti italici*, no. 151; A. Morandi, *Epigrafia Italia* (Rome: "L'Erma" di Bretschneider, 1982), 140.

[183] Untermann, 365-6; 718-9; 841-2; U. Laffi, "Sull'organizzazione amministrative dell'Italia dopo la guerra sociale," in *Akten des VI Internationalen Kongress für Griechische und Lateinische Epigraphik. München 1972* (München: Beck, 1973), 50. For the *vereias*, see below, p. 101.

[184] *Lu* 1. See A. Prosdocimi, "L'Osco," in *Lingue e dialetti dell'Italica antica. Popoli e civiltà dell'Italia antica* 6, ed. A. Prosdocimi (Rome: Biblioteca di Storia Patria, 1978), 887-8. Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 202-3, believes the Latin inscription on the back of the Tabula Bantina dates to the third century BC.

[185] Salmon, *Making*, 14.

Lucania, too, but the names match Roman offices almost perfectly, so these probably are very late constructions, the result of Romanization intruding on traditional minor Sabellian offices (which are unknown).[186] Some scholars see a Lucanian *cursus honorum* of quaestor » praetor » censor, but acknowledge that this path almost certainly reflects borrowing from Rome, especially just before the Social War.[187] Nevertheless, the *meddix-basileus* link seems very reasonable, and finds a parallel in Rome (the consulship essentially being prerequisite to the dictatorship).

C. The Lucanian Senate

The Lucani may have had an elected senate, which, like the Roman system, was open to those who held higher magistracies; Salmon suggests that the *meddices* had to consult this council or senate.[188] The archaeological, inscriptional, and literary evidence indicates the existence of this body. A round building discovered at the Paestan agora seems to have been purposed for the gathering of a group much smaller than a typical citizens' assembly.[189] Del Tutto Palma sees in an inscription at Atena Lucana a reference to a Lucanian senate, though this could refer to the Roman senate.[190] We just saw that

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[186] Chiranky, 137, n. 210; M. Lejeune, "Langue et civilisation des Lucaniens," *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 86-7; Campanile and Letta, 34-88.

[187] P.A. Brunt, "Italian Aims at the Time of the Social War," *Journal of Roman Studies* 55 (1965): 100-1.

[188] Salmon, *Samnium*, 96-7.

[189] Wonder, "Paestum," 102-4; E. Greco, "L'*Ekklesiasterion* di Poseidonia-Paestum," in *Rites et espaces en pays celte et méditerranéen*, ed. by S. Verger (Rome: École française de Rome, 2000), 337-40.

[190] Del Tutto Palma (*At* 1), 35-41; *Lu* 2.

the Lucanian council voted (unwisely, having been duped by Tarentum) to break with Rome in 326 BC, though the Lucanian people (here a tribe, as we shall see) influenced the decision through their acclamation. In the third century BC the Lucanian senate directed one Herennius Pomponius to set up bronze statues to the kings of Lucania.[191] An Oscan inscription (second century BC) of Rossano di Vaglio in a sanctuary to the goddess Mefitis reads, "Lucius Nanonius, son of Spellius, quaestor, ordained this on the instructions of the senate. To Jove."[192] However, given such slim evidence, we cannot assume that the institution was not a very late addition (post-Roman conquest in the third century BC). If that is so, presumably only high-ranking Lucanian magistrates could convoke their senate (as with the senatorial procedure in Rome).[193]

D. The Lucanian King

According to Strabo, the Lucani adopted a temporary king during times of war. Candidates were selected from the magistrates (presumably *meddices*), which bears slight resemblance to the Roman process for choosing dictators. He led Lucanian forces into battle, and probably had significant executive powers, since his presence in dire times signaled the temporary abandonment of democratic rule.[194] Contrary to some, this office

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[191] *Lu* 5; Poccetti, *Nuovi documenti italici*, no. 175; L. Del Tutto Palma (*Ro* 22), *Le iscrizioni della Lucania preromana* (Padua: Unipress, 1990), 108-115. It is highly unlikely that this is the Roman senate, which would have little motive to set up statues to either Lucanian or Roman kings.

[192] *Lu* 6; Poccetti, *Nuovi documenti italici*, no. 167; L. Del Tutto Palma (*Ro* 14). See Salmon, *Samnium*, 92, n. 3.

[193] Gell. *NA* 14.7.4.

[194] Chiranky (72) is overly cautious.

almost certainly was not a figurehead *rex sacrorum*: Strabo's diction demands seeing him as physically leading forces into battle.[195] The Lucanian kingship completely breaks the mould of the Sabellian political structure; yet the existence of the office seems beyond doubt.[196] We already noted the inscription of Herennius Pomponius (third century BC, Rossano di Vaglio), which reads: "In the suffect censorship of L. Puccidius, son of Va(rius), Herennius Pomponius, son of Herennius, ordered the construction and setting up of bronze statues of the kings, according to the decision of the senate, and provided 450 coins for them."[197] The proper names and the office (*kenstur*) are Oscan, so we must presume these are Lucanian kings; the statues indicate their prestige. We can only wonder if the Lucani had trouble with power-hungry individuals who tyrannically held onto the kingship for their own aggrandizement after having been selected king to deal with some major crisis facing the Lucanian people. Let us examine our other sources to see what else we can glean of the Lucanian kingship, and the Lucani in general.

In his third-century AD *Life of Pythagoras*, Porphyry mentions that barbarian kings and nobles surrounded Pythagoras; we know from Porphyry's later words, and from other sources, that the Lucani were among the most ubiquitous *barbaroi* in the Pythagorean circle.[198] We will say much more about the Lucani and the Pythagoreans,

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[195] *Contra* G. Pugliese Carratelli, *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 64-5. See also Isayev, 130-2.

[196] Cristofani, "Società e istituzioni," 97.

[197] *Lu* 5; Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 178.

[198] Porph. *VP* 19; 22.

but for now we can presume that holding a Lucanian kingship conferred great privilege, which apparently held weight even among the Italiotes. Former Lucanian kings maintained an air of having possessed the office, much like the American presidential experience, and very unlike the early days of the Roman dictatorship.

We do know something about a few specific kings, though they too are shrouded in mystery.[199] Some scholars have tried to detect a king in Nummelos, from a fourth-century BC inscription on a Lucanian fortification at Serra di Vaglio that reads "*ἐπὶ τῆς Νυμμέλου ἀρχῆς.*"[200] Chiranky counters that *ἀρχῆς* here probably relates to the same word used in the sixth book of Strabo; the term reads like a yearly dating system, as in the Athenian archon system, and thus implies that Nummelos was a *meddix*.[201] But both sides have forgotten that Lucanian kings remained *meddices*. Thus, Nummelos almost certainly was a *meddix*, who would have had the necessary authority to oversee such military fortifications, and if the structure was built during a military crisis (which we cannot determine), then he likely was a king, too.[202]

One well-attested Lucanian regal name is Lucius. According to Eustathius (a

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[199] *Contra* Chiranky, 69: "The Lucanian king Lamiscus is the only Lucanian ever designated *basileus*."

[200] D. Adamesteanu, "Nummelos. Archon o basileus lucano?," in *In Memoriam Constantini Daicoviciu* (Cluj: Ed. Dacia, 1974), 9-21.

[201] Chiranky, 70-1. Guzzo's proposal that a (Lucanian?) magistrate employed Nummelos, a Lucanian mercenary, seems very unlikely. See P.G. Guzzo, "Lucanians, Brettians and Italiote Greeks in the Fourth and Third Centuries B.C.," in *Crossroads of the Mediterranean*, ed. T. Hackens, T., N. D. Holloway, and R. Holloway (Providence, Rhode Island: Brown University, Center for Old World Archaeology and Art, 1983), 201.

[202] Lepore, "La Tradizione," 53-4; Chiranky, 75; D. Adamesteanu, "Greeks and Natives in Basilicata," in *Greek Colonists and Native Populations, Greek Colonists and Native Populations, proceedings of the First Australian Congress of Classical Archaeology held in honour of emeritus professor A.D. Trendall, Sydney, 9-14 July 1985*, ed. J. Descœudres (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1990), 147; Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 195-7.

twelfth-century archbishop who drew extensively on the second-century AD commentaries of Dionysius Periegetes, commenting on Homer) after this King Lucius is named a city "Lucane."[203] Herodian, a contemporary of Dionysius Periegetes, repeats the association.[204] This city is unknown, although one candidate is Atena Lucana. Eustathius's comments on the pronunciation of the city are interesting, but do not seem to yield any clues. Pliny also mentions that this Lucius first led his people to capture Lucania.[205] Does this Lucius refer to the Lucilius in Festus, "who was first, because he was born from the eastern light"?[206]

Finally, we have good evidence of a Lucanian king Lamiscus.[207] Aristotle thought he had a wolf toe, which, as we have seen, the Lucani used to their benefit. He appears to be a figure of the historical era, and may even have had a role in affairs of the early fourth century between Lucania and the rest of Magna Graecia. One Lamiscus, an intimate of Plato, had a hand in saving the latter from the wrath of Dionysius the

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[203] Eust. *Commentarii ad Dionys. Perieg.* 362: "Ὅτι Λευκανοὶ καὶ Βρέντιοι, διὰ τοῦ ν, ἢ Βρέττιοι, διὰ τῶν δύο ττ, ἕως ἐπὶ τὴν Λευκὴν Πέτραν διήκουσι, περὶ ἧς ἤδη γέγραπται. Φασὶ δὲ ὅτι ἡ περὶ τοὺς Λευκανοὺς τούτους χώρα καὶ ἡ Σικελία Μεγάλη ποτὲ Ἑλλὰς ὠνομάσθη, διὰ τὰς τῶν Ἑλλήνων ἐκεῖ συχνὰς μετοικίας. Ἡ δὲ τῶν Λευκανῶν πόλις Λευκάνη βαρυτόνως ἐλέγετο ἀπὸ Λευκίου τινός. Βρέττιοι δὲ καλοῦνται ἀπὸ Βρέττου υἱοῦ Ἡρακλέος. Ὁ δὲ Γεωγράφος φησὶν ὅτι Λευκανοὶ Βρεττίους τοὺς ἀποστάτας καλοῦσιν· ὁποῖοι, φησὶ, καὶ οὗτοι οἱ τὰ πρῶτα ποιμαίνοντες ὕστερον ὑπὸ ἀνέσεως ἐλευθεριάσαντες ἀπέστησαν."

[204] Hdn. *Katholic prosody* 3.1 p. 328: "Λευκάνη ἡ τῶν Λευκῶν πόλις ἀπὸ Λευκίου τινός." The *Etymologicum Genuinum* (ninth century AD), which draws on Herodian among others, derives the entire Lucanian people from this Lucius (lambda entry 73 line 1): "Λευκανοί· ἀπό τινος Λευκίου προσαγορευθέντες."

[205] Plin. *HN* 3.5.71-74.

[206] P.F. 106 L.

[207] Ocellus, *Testimonia* Fragment 4 line 4: "τυ ἐπέσταλκας καὶ τοὶ περὶ Λαμίσκον ἀπάγγελον. περὶ δὲ τῶν ὑπομνημάτων ἐπεμελήθημες καὶ ἀνήλθομες ὡς Λευκανὼς καὶ ἐνετύχομες τοῖς Ὀκκέλω ἐκγόνοις. τὰ μὲν ὦν Περὶ νόμω καὶ Βασιλήίας καὶ Ὁσιότατος καὶ τᾶς τῶ παντὸς γενέσιος."

Younger. Could this be the same man as the Lamiscus whom Aristotle mentions as the wolf-toed king of the Lucani? The connection between these two figures seems plausible enough, and no primary sources preclude the fourth century as too late for the Lucanian kingship.

VIII. Lucanian Tribes

That the Lucani were divided into smaller tribes is not controversial; this seems to be a typical characteristic of many Italian peoples, including the Sabelli.[208] Consensus holds that these tribes fall under the Oscan term *touto*, roughly "people."[209] But scholars have yet to flesh these tribes out, and to explore the ramifications of these tribes' interaction with the Greeks, the Romans, and each other. Many scholars agree that Strabo in his sixth book refers (perhaps unknowingly) to Lucanian tribal divisions when he distinguishes between the interior and the coastal Lucani, but I believe that these same scholars have not gone on to consider holistically the rest of the literary evidence.[210] Chiranky drew a strong inference from the Samnite use of the term *touto* for its tribal subdivisions and its likely applicability to the Lucani, but he went no further.[211] Lejeune's important work on the goddess Mefitis argues convincingly that Rossano di

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[208] Salmon, *Samnium*, 34; Gualtieri, *Fourth*, 48: "[But now consensus favors] an understanding of the local situations within the reality of a fairly variegated Lucanian world."

[209] Note that *touto* is also the general Sabellic word for "people."

[210] Russi, s.v. "Lucania," in *Dizionario epigrafico di antichità romane*, 1881-2.

[211] Chiranky, 77-79; 82, discusses the parallels between the Pentrian capital at Bovianum and Strabo's reference (6.1.3) to Petelia being the capital of the Lucani.

Vaglio (within the Parco di archeologico di Serra di Vaglio near Potenza) was the cult center of Mefitis of the Utiani, presumably a tribe of the Lucani.[212] Our mysterious Nummelos may even have been *meddix* (and, possibly, king) of the Utiani *touto*.[213] In fact, though primarily a religious center, Rossano may have been the equivalent of the Utiani *touto* capital, for lack of a better term, since the inscriptional evidence indicates that the Utiani played an important role in the area for three centuries.[214] Interestingly, the Potenza area shows the highest concentration of fortifications in Lucania; perhaps Adamesteanu correctly supposed some Lucanian *basileus* as responsible for such extensive building.[215]

As a primary goal of this study, I intend to explore how these tribal divisions influenced the greater history of the Lucani as a whole. Contrary to some scholars'

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[212] M. Lejeune, *Méfitis d'après les dédicaces lucaniennes de Rossano di Vaglio* (Louvain-la-Neuve: Peeters, 1990); "Seconde note sur le sanctuaire lucanien de Rossano di Vaglio," *La Parola del Passato* 24 (1969), 299-300; "Langue et civilisation des Lucaniens," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania*, vol. 40 (*Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971*), in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 86; Prosdocimi, "L'Osco," 897-901.

[213] Chiranky, 81, in agreement with M. Lejeune, "Discussione," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania*, vol. 40 (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 65, who argues that our mysterious Nummelos was, in fact, meddix of the Utiani touto.

[214] "[Cn.] Acerr[onius....] F., consul, constructed this building in honor of Mefitis Utiana." Lejeune, *Méfitis d'après les dédicaces lucaniennes de Rossano di Vaglio*, *RV*-22; "Inscriptions de Rossano di Vaglio," *Revue des archéologues et historiens d'art de Louvain* ser. 8, vol. 30 (1975), 319-39. The Acerronii are a prominent gens in Lucania, judging from multiple inscriptions from Potentia. This magistrate may have been Gn. Acerronius Proculus, cos. 37 AD: see Tac. *Ann.* 14.5-6; *CIL* X.6638, "Stenius Titidius, son of Orcius, offers this to Mefitis Utiana, in thanks." See also *Lu* 15; Poccetti, *Nuovi documenti italici*, no. 164; Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 107.

[215] Gualtieri, *Fourth*, 48; M. Miller, *Befestigungsanlangen in Italien vom 8. bis 3. Jahrhundert vor Christus*, Schriftenreihe Antiquitates 9 (Hamburg: Kovač, 1995), 471-89.

lamentations, ample literary evidence of the tribes of the Lucani remains.[216] Numerous authors, Roman and Greek, allude to these entities; their statements rest on the *a priori* assumption that the Lucani divided along tribal lines, not unlike many other peoples, including the Samnites (four), Greeks (numerous, but varying with locale), and Romans (from three to thirty-five depending on the period), though, as we shall see, Lucanian tribal divisions ran much deeper than those of Greece and Rome.

Pliny provides our best list of tribal names, though unfortunately he offers no additional information on them.[217] Many, but not all, refer to city locations, like Grumentini/Grumentum and Bantini/Bantia. Of interest, though probably coincidental, is the Ursentini tribe, whose name seems reminiscent of Latin *ursus*, an animal that many Greek and Roman authors associated with Lucania, but the participial suffix -ent- makes this connection difficult. The sheer number (twelve, counting both the Bruttii and the Numestrani) of tribes draws our interest, though we can say little else, since we really do not know how populous they were. The numerous river valleys of Lucania, separated by the imposing southern Apennines, physically separated these tribes. We may even wonder why Pliny felt it necessary to append the Numestrani to the other eleven; perhaps they were a later development, having emerged from another tribe.

Pliny's list provides the names of at least some of the Lucanian tribes, but Strabo's

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[216] Chiranky, 77: "The literary tradition on the Lucani presents them as ethnically homogeneous. There is no mention of Lucanian tribes. No group of Lucani is singled out and given a specific name."

[217] Plin. *HN* 3.11.98: "mediterranei Bruttiorum Aprustani tantum; Lucanorum autem Atinates, Bantini, Eburini, Grumentini, Potentini, Sontini, Sirini, Tergilani, Ursentini, Volcentani, quibus Numestrani iunguntur. praeterea interisse Thebas Lucanas Cato auctor est, et Pandosiam Lucanorum urbem fuisse Theopompus, in qua Alexander Epirotes occubuerit."

division of the Lucanian tribes is invaluable to our understanding of their composition:

> I have already spoken of those of the Lucani who live next to the Tyrrhenian Sea, while those who possess the interior are the people who live above the Gulf of Tarentum. But these people have so utterly deteriorated (along with the Bruttii and the Samnites themselves, who first produced these people) that it is difficult even to differentiate between their various settlements; the reason is that no common organization endures in any one of the tribes, and their different customs in language, armor, dress, and the like, have completely disappeared, and, besides, their settlements, individually and in detail, are entirely without repute.[218]

The Lucanian tribes differed in dress, language, weaponry, the look of their cities, and political organization. This Lucanian particularism reminds us almost of the Greeks. Strabo clearly lays out a strong division between coastal and interior Lucanian tribes, and he implies further tribal divisions. The coastal Lucani had extensive interaction with other peoples, especially the Greeks, and this would have impacted their history and culture significantly. These are the Lucani who fused with the Poseidoniate Greeks to make the Poseidoniates, for whom we must reject some kind of monolithic label of "Greek" or "Lucanian." These coastal Lucani had other influences, too: they interacted with Campani, perhaps the remnants of the Chones, the Etruscans around the Sele plain, and maybe even some Carthaginians at times.[219]

Some Greek sources discuss the Oenotrian coastal lifestyle; per the ethnogenesis

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[218] Str. 6.1.2: "Τῶν δὲ Λευκανῶν οἱ μὲν ἁπτόμενοι τῆς Τυρρηνικῆς θαλάττης εἴρηνται, οἱ δὲ τὴν μεσόγαιαν ἔχοντες εἰσὶν οἱ ὑπεροικοῦντες τοῦ Ταραντίνου κόλπου. οὗτω δ' εἰσὶ κεκακωμένοι τελέως οὗτοι καὶ Βρέττιοι καὶ αὐτοὶ Σαυνῖται οἱ τούτων ἀρχηγέται, ὥστε καὶ διορίσαι χαλεπὸν τὰς κατοικίας αὐτῶν· αἴτιον δ' ὅτι οὐδὲν ἔτι σύστημα κοινὸν τῶν ἐθνῶν ἑκάστου συμμένει, τά τε ἔθη διαλέκτων τε καὶ ὁπλισμοῦ καὶ ἐσθῆτος καὶ τῶν παραπλησίων ἐκλέλοιπεν, ἄλλως τε ἄδοξοι παντάπασίν εἰσιν αἱ καθ' ἕκαστα καὶ ἐν μέρει κατοικίαι."

[219] Chones: Str. 6.1.3, which says they remain "down to the present day." This reading rests on emending "*Leukanon*" to "*Chonon*". Chiranky, 82, n. 230; 140-1, n. 235 rejects this emendation, and sees this Petelian metropolis as just the capital of a Lucanian *touto*, which explains Strabo. See also Apollod. *Epit.* 6.15b. Strabo's barbarians must be the Lucani, who fought the Thurini frequently. Carthaginians: see Chiranky, 272, n. 222.

model to which we adhere in this study, these descriptions of Oenotri really refer to the various peoples of southern Italy, including the Lucani.[220] It is possible that the legends of a few coins (like Πυξ, Αμι, Σο, Παλ/Μολ, and even Σερ) are the abbreviated names of Lucanian coastal tribes (which may have become the subject *chorai* to powerful city-states like Sybaris and Siris), but they could just as likely refer to other non-Lucanian peoples, like the Serdaioi.[221] These coastal peoples were traders, transhumant shepherds, and farmers. The Ionian Sea alluvial plains and the Sele mouth plain are ideal sites for such a lifestyle. Regardless of when it happened, the Lucanian presence began to dominate the other "Oenotrian" cultures of the coastal region. These coastal Lucanian tribes adopted words, customs, and rites from the neighboring groups (including the long-ensconced Greeks). Our evidence hinders us from specifying most of these differences. But the interior Lucanian tribes, primarily transhumant pastoralists, had less contact with Greek culture, and naturally would have exhibited these tendencies less. We now examine specific events in Lucanian history that highlight tribal differences and similarities.

A. Alexander Molossus and the Lucanian Tribes

Alexander Molossus's invasion provides significant evidence of Lucanian tribal divisions and their impact on Lucanian history. King Alexander I of Epirus crossed to

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[220] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 2.1.2.

[221] M.T. Mensitieri, "La monetazione degli enotri," in *Il mondo enotrio tra VI e V secolo a.C.* Quaderni di Ostraka, 1.1, ed. M. Bugno and C. Masseria (Naples: Loffredo., 2001), 117.

the Italian peninsula at the behest of the Tarentines to fight the Lucani; though temporarily successful militarily, he was ultimately betrayed and killed by his own Lucanian bodyguard. According to Orosius (drawing on Livy), Alexander died just after he had made an assault on one Lucanian tribe.[222] Livy's extended account of his final betrayal and death implies that the Lucani had divided by tribal lines along the three hills that Alexander and his troops had occupied. Some Lucanian tribes (and we may speculate those with the closest political and cultural connections to the Tarentines, who had summoned Alexander) initially preferred submission to Alexander, while others favored resistance. Yet the differences between them, unlike in a typical party system, were not so great as to foment hatred and total exclusion: when Alexander's success tottered in the scales, so did his noble Lucanian allies and bodyguard, who, after receiving assurances of safety, quickly betrayed him.

B. The Bruttii and the Lucani

Good evidence of Lucanian tribal divisions rests with the Bruttian Schism, which we will consider in more detail later.[223] In 356 BC a tribe of the Lucani named the Bruttii split (presumably violently) from their kin. Some sources label these revolters the shepherds of the Lucani, though this is unlikely a role exclusive to them. The Bruttii then established their own independent state in their traditional homeland of the Calabrian

[222] Oros. 3.11.1.

[223] See Chapter 4, p. 166.

peninsula.[224]

In fact, there is plenty of evidence for further subdivisions within the Bruttii, and, presumably, within the Lucani. Scholars have already noted that Livy notes in passing the existence of twelve Bruttian "peoples," which almost certainly refers to their tribes, and not simply Bruttian cities.[225] I also suggest that additional evidence of the Bruttian tribal system can be found in Caecilius Calactinus (first century BC), who mentions "πάντας Βρεττίους" in a discussion of Pyrrhus's demands to the Romans; this strongly implies smaller tribal groups within the rubric "Bruttii."[226]

The city of Petelia also testifies to Lucanian tribal divisions. Strabo called it the Lucanian capital, which is problematic, since it is situated in traditional Bruttian territory. Secondly, Bruttian coins show a distinctly Hellenic character. Hands admits that no sources declare the city Greek, so he must suppose this is due to Croton possessing the city, for which there is no evidence.[227] A much simpler explanation, following Strabo, is that it indeed was Lucanian and then Bruttian after the schism. The later Greek legends and symbols on Petelian coins are not problematic at all, given Lucano-Greek interaction

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[224] For the Bruttii in general, see P.G. Guzzo, "Il territorio dei bruttii," in *Società romana e produzione schiavistica I. L'Italia: Insediamenti e forme economiche*, ed. A. Giardina and A. Schiavone (Bari: 1981), 115-25.

[225] Liv. 25.1.2; see Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 225.

[226] Caecilius Calactinus in *Ineditum Vaticanum* fr. 1.2: "οἷόν τι περὶ Ἀππίου τοῦ ἀναπήρου πεπύσμεθα. ἦν μὲν γὰρ ἤδη γηραιός, πρὸς Πύρρον δὲ Ῥωμαίοις πόλεμος ἦν, καὶ ὁ βασιλεὺς τῇι πρώτηι μάχηι νικήσας διαπρεσβεύεται, συμβῆναι ἐπὶ τοῖσδε ἀξιῶν· τὸ μὲν Ἑλληνικὸν τὸ ἐν Ἰταλίαι πᾶν ἐλεύθερον εἶναι καὶ αὐτόνομον, χρῆσθαι δὲ καὶ Σαυνίτας καὶ Λευκανοὺς καὶ πάντας Βρεττίους τοῖς αὐτῶν νόμοις, Πύρρου ὄντας συμμάχους, Ῥωμαίους δὲ Λατίνων ἄρχειν μόνων."

[227] Hands, 195. Hellenic character: Coin 2 obv. head of Mars, wearing Corinthian helmet; rev. ΠΕΤΗΛΙΝΩΝ, Nike. Coin 3 obv. head of Heracles; rev. ΠΕΤΗΛΙΝΩΝ.

in southern Italy.

C. *Maior Lucania*

For our purposes, the fourth century was a time of great political changes in southern Italy, when some loosely-federated Lucanian tribes sought greater political independence and identity (like the Bruttii, and even the Numestrani), and others maintained a loose Lucanian affiliation, which may have had some kind of assembly at Petelia before the Bruttian schism. Some scholars refer to this regional political situation as "Greater Lucania."[228] It is unlikely that ancient writers used the term; they were not even agreed on the extent of Lucania. Our primary evidence for a *Maior Lucania* is Pseudo-Scylax, a compilation (fourth or third century BC) of geographical materials collected under the name of the Carian-Greek explorer Scylax of Caryanda (sixth century BC) for authority.[229]

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[228] Lepore, "La Tradizione," 46; Pontrandolfo Greco, *I Lucani*, 18-9; S. Luppino, "Strabone VI 1,3: I lucani a Petelia," in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania*, vol. 47 (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1980), 37-48; Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 8-9.

[229] Scyl. 11-15: "ΣΑΥΝΙΤΑΙ. Καμπανῶν δὲ ἔχονται Σαυνῖται· καὶ παράπλους ἐστὶ Σαυνιτῶν ἡμέρας ἥμισυ. ΛΕΥΚΑΝΟΙ. Σαυνιτῶν δὲ ἔχονται Λευκανοὶ μέχρι Θουρίας. Ὁ πλοῦς δέ ἐστι παρὰ Λευκανίαν ἡμερῶν ς′ καὶ νυκτῶν ς′. Ἡ δὲ Λευκανία ἐστὶν ἀκτή. Ἐν ταύτῃ πόλεις εἰσὶν Ἑλληνίδες αἵδε· Ποσειδωνία, Ἐλέα, Λᾶος Θουρίων ἀποικία, Πανδοσία, Πλατεεῖς, Τερίνα, Ἱππώνιον, Μέσμα, Ῥήγιον ἀκρωτήριον καὶ πόλις. ΣΙΚΕΛΙΑ. Κατὰ δὲ Ῥήγιόν ἐστι Σικελία νῆσος ἀπὸ τῆς Εὐρώπης ἀπέχουσα στάδια ιβ′ εἰς Πελωριάδα ἀπὸ Ῥηγίου. Ἐν δὲ Σικελίᾳ ἔθνη βάρβαρα τάδε ἐστίν· Ἔλυμοι, Σικανοί, Σικελοί, Φοίνικες, Τρῶες. Οὗτοι μὲν βάρβαροι, οἰκοῦσι δὲ καὶ Ἕλληνες. Ἀκρωτήριον δὲ Σικελίας Πελωριάς. Πόλεις δ' εἰσὶν ἀπὸ Πελωριάδος Ἑλληνίδες αἵδε· Μεσσήνη καὶ λιμήν, Ταυρομένιον, Νάξος, Κατάνη, Λεοντῖνοι· εἰς τοὺς Λεοντίνους δὲ κατὰ Τηρίαν ποταμὸν ἀνάπλους κ′ σταδίων· Σύμαιθος ποταμὸς καὶ πόλις Μεγαρὶς καὶ λιμὴν Ξιφώνειος. Ἐχομένη δὲ Μεγαρίδος πόλις ἐστὶ Συράκουσαι, καὶ λιμένες ἐν αὐτῇ δύο· τούτων ὁ ἕτερος ἐντὸς τείχους, ὁ δ' ἄλλος ἔξω. Μετὰ δὲ ταύτην πόλις Ἕλωρον καὶ Πάχυνος ἀκρωτήριον. Ἀπὸ Παχύνου δὲ πόλεις Ἑλληνίδες αἵδε· Καμάρινα, Γέλα, Ἀκράγας, Σελινοῦς, Λιλύβαιον ἀκρωτήριον. Ἀπὸ δὲ Λιλυβαίου πόλις ἐστὶν Ἑλληνὶς Ἰμέρα, μετὰ δὲ Ἰμέραν πόλιν Λιπάρα νῆσός ἐστι, καὶ πόλις Ἑλληνὶς Μύλαι καὶ λιμήν. Ἔστι δὲ ἀπὸ Μυλῶν ἐπὶ Λιπάραν νῆσον πλοῦς ἡμέρας ἥμισυ Ἔστι δὲ ἡ Σικελία

His narrative is difficult to interpret without context. He declares Lucania a promontory (thus extending down to Rhegium), and then names Poseidonia, Velia, and Laos as Greek cities, among others. After the sections on Lucania and its surroundings, in his treatment of Sicily, Pseudo-Scylax specifically mentions the barbarian tribes there, but he says that Greeks live there, too. He did nothing like this for the Lucani. He then quite specifically details all the Sicilian Greek cities, which are clearly not in barbarian hands. We can assume that he was not being lax previously, and an error of this magnitude is unlikely. Thus, Scylax's treatment of Lucania either draws on extremely old material, when the Lucani had not come to a position of dominance in Poseidonia, or it represents a Greek source concealing the reality of the situation in the fourth or third centuries, perhaps nostalgic for the good old days of "pure" poleis. Perhaps both explanations are valid. Horsnaes argues persuasively that the size and shape of Lucania became warped in the minds of the ancient sources based on the political and ethnic situation of the region. We may distinguish two chronological levels: the first stage

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τρίγωνος· τὸ δὲ κῶλον ἕκαστον αὐτῆς ἐστὶ μάλιστα σταδίων ,αφ′. Ἐπάνειμι δὲ πάλιν ἐπὶ τὴν ἤπειρον, ὅθεν ἐξετραπόμην. Ἀπὸ γὰρ Ῥηγίου πόλεις εἰσὶν αἵδε· Λοκροὶ, Καυλωνία, Κρότων, Λακίνιον ἱερὸν Ἥρας καὶ νῆσος Καλυψοῦς, ἐν ᾗ Ὀδυσσεὺς ᾤκει παρὰ Καλυψοῖ, καὶ ποταμὸς Κρᾶθις καὶ Σύβαρις καὶ Θουρία πόλις. Οὗτοι ἐν τῇ Λευκανίᾳ Ἕλληνες. ΙΑΠΥΓΙΑ. Μετὰ δὲ τὴν Λευκανίαν Ἰάπυγές εἰσιν ἔθνος μέχρι Ὡρίωνος ὄρους τοῦ ἐν τῷ κόλπῳ τῷ Ἀδρίᾳ. Παράπλους παρὰ τὴν Ἰαπυγίαν ἐξ ἡμερῶν καὶ ἐξ νυκτῶν. Ἐν δὲ τῇ Ἰαπυγίᾳ οἰκοῦσιν Ἕλληνες, καὶ πόλεις εἰσὶν αἵδε· Ἡράκλειον, Μεταπόντιον, Τάρας καὶ λιμὴν Ὑδροῦς ἐπὶ τῷ τοῦ Ἀδρίου ἢ τῷ τοῦ Ἰονίου κόλπου στόματι. ΣΑΥΝΙΤΑΙ. Μετὰ δὲ Ἰάπυγας ἀπὸ Ὡρίωνος Σαυνῖται ἔθνος ἐστίν Ἐν δὲ τούτῳ τῷ ἔθνει γλῶσσαι ἤτοι στόματα τάδε· Λατέρνιοι, Ὀπικοὶ, Κραμόνες, Βορεοντῖνοι, Πευκετιεῖς, διήκοντες ἀπὸ τοῦ Τυρσηνικοῦ πελάγους εἰς τὸν Ἀδρίαν. Παράπλους τῆς Σαυνίτιδος χώρας ἡμερῶν δύο καὶ νυκτός." La Greca, 315, also sees as evidence for *Maior Lucania* in Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Georg.* 3.219: "IN MAGNA SILVA Alii 'Sila' legunt, ut sit mons Lucaniae: quod modo nulla necessitas cogit, ut in Aeneide <XII 715> 'ac velut ingenti Sila summove Taburno,' ubi utrumque speciale est." See also Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Aen.* 12.715, which sets mount Sila in Lucania: "AC VELUT INGENTI SILA SUMMOVE TABURNO Sila mons silva est Lucaniae, Taburnus mons Campaniae: Sallustius de fugitivis 'in silva Sila fuerunt': unde pessime quidam 'silva' legunt, quia proprium appellativo non potest exaequari."

predates the Bruttian Schism, from Scylax and Antiochus, where Lucania comprises a much larger part of southern Italy. The second stage refers to Lucania after the Bruttian Schism had formalized the mid-fourth century line from Laos to Thurii.[230]

Tertullian may inadvertently hint at the idea of a Greater Lucania in his Apology when he describes (supposedly drawing on Plato) how an earthquake cut off part of Lucania, which became Sicily.[231] La Greca supposes that Tertullian drew the notice from some ancient author who depicted a Greater Lucania that included all of what would become Bruttium after their defection, reaching all the way down to Messina.[232] This seems plausible enough; why not suggest that Plato is, indeed, the source? Tertullian mentions him again a few lines later; Plato's early-mid fourth century BC *floruit* preceded the Bruttian break-off.

Much of this discussion revolves around the geography of Lucania. Traditionally, judging from Strabo and Scylax, Lucania was bound on the northwest by the Sele. But Eustathius, commenting on the second-century AD Dionysius Periegetes, complicates the situation when he states that Lucania and Bruttium ("the land around these Lucani"), along with Sicily, constituted Magna Graecia. This strikes us, since typically we include the Sallentine Peninsula, Sicily, and the Campanian coast all the way to Naples (at the very least) under the rubric Magna Graecia.[233] Aristotle thought Lucania extended as far

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[230] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 125.

[231] Tert. *Apolog.* 40.4.

[232] La Greca, 354.

[233] Eust. *Commentarii ad Dionys. Perieg.* 362.

as Cumae, though his confidence is shaky.[234] Against him Strabo and Scylax make the Sele the upper limit.[235] These accounts, though varied, imply that Greek geographers thought Lucania comprised, at the very least, some kind of smaller units, presumably tribes. For our purposes, Greater Lucania is a term that does not mean a giant political body, but rather a group of tribes that identified on some levels, while maintaining their fundamental sovereignty, with at least one tribe taking this step even further toward full independence.

D. Tribal Differences in the Second Punic War

The Second Punic War saw the Lucani divide against each other on tribal lines. Some Lucanian tribes revolted after 216 BC in the face of the apparent collapse of the Roman military system at the hands of the Carthaginian liberator, Hannibal.[236] Livy says that all of Lucania revolted; however, his own narrative at numerous places contradicts this information, as some tribes remained loyal and continued to fight for Rome.[237]

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[234] Arist. *Mir.* 95 (838a): "Ἐν τῇ Κύμῃ τῇ περὶ τὴν Ἰταλίαν δείκνυταί τις, ὡς ἔοικε, θάλαμος κατάγειος Σιβύλλης τῆς χρησμολόγου, ἣν πολυχρονιωτάτην γενομένην παρθένον διαμεῖναί φασιν, οὖσαν μὲν Ἐρυθραίαν, ὑπό τινων δὲ τὴν Ἰταλίαν κατοικούντων Κυμαίαν, ὑπὸ δέ τινων Μελάγκραιραν καλουμένην. τοῦτον δὲ τὸν τόπον λέγεται κυριεύεσθαι ὑπὸ Λευκανῶν." Aristotle may be mistakenly equating Campanian Oscans or the Aurunci/Ausones with the Lucani.

[235] Str. 6.1.1; Scyl. 11-15.

[236] Liv. 22.61.11-12. This passage has reading complications. Some suggest that *praeter* here could mean "except," which would include all of the subsequent peoples in the list of those who did not revolt to the Carthaginians. Others see in *praeter* "besides," thus stating that all the subsequent peoples did defect. Neither answer seems right. Instead, as some editors practice, *praeter* links only *Samnites praeter Pentros*, and so Livy is saying that all the Samnites defected except for the Pentri; the Bruttii, Lucani, and all the rest did defect, according to this passage.

[237] Liv. 22.42, 4; 43.7; 23.11.8-11.

Clearly in 216 BC not all of the Lucanian tribes had revolted. In fact, Livy's words "*in recipiendis ciuitatibus Bruttiorum quae deficiebant*" imply that even some of the inveterate traitorous Bruttii had not defected in 216 BC.

Perhaps our best episode revealing the inherent differences between the various Lucanian tribes, and how this diversity could affect the Lucani (and the Romans, and others), is the betrayal of Tiberius Gracchus. Gracchus had spent much time in Lucania fighting Hannibal, wearing the latter down through good generalship, and sheer attrition.[238] Gracchus, in fact, fought both alongside and against the Lucani, which also suggests Lucanian tribal differences. At the battle of Beneventum (215 BC) he used a slave army to defeat the Lucani and Bruttii (in a rather gory manner involving lots of decapitation).[239] On the other hand, he later levied armies in Lucania to fight against the defector Lucanian tribes.[240]

Livy provides our clearest and most vivid account of Gracchus's betrayal and death.[241] He implies that the Lucani, like most of the Italians, had divided along pro-Roman and pro-Punic party lines after Cannae. His diction is not terribly useful, as he employs the word *pars*, which certainly can mean "political party" to use a slightly anachronistic term, but it can also signify just "a part of." *Factio* would have made things clearer. Livy betrays his ignorance of the Lucanian division a few lines down when he

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[238] Flor. 1.22.28-30.

[239] Liv. 24.15.1-8.

[240] Liv. 24.20.1-6.

lays out Flavus's plans: "*[ait] omnium populorum praetoribus, qui ad Poenum in illo communi Italiae motu descissent, persuasisse ut redirent in amicitiam Romanorum.*" These *populi* can be none other than what we would term tribes. The location of the ambush also presumes Gracchus's familiarity with Lucanian tribal territories. He would not have entered the lands of a people who were divided solely along political lines, thus putting him at risk essentially anywhere in Lucania. Instead, his confidence in attending the meeting indicates he was comfortable traveling in the area, which is a sure sign that he thought he was traveling in pro-Roman tribal lands.

We should say something about this Flavus. He was very powerful, which alone could explain Gracchus's belief in "the probability of the thing," i.e. that Flavus could lead the entire group of Lucani who had defected back to friendship with Rome. There is no evidence, however, that he was a Lucanian *basileus*. In fact, according to Livy, the Lucani made him praetor—one of many, unlike the solitary Lucanian king. Orosius, who even drew on Livy, upgrades him: "Sempronius Gracchus was led into ambush by a certain Lucanian proconsul, his host, and slain."[242] The Lucani eventually did develop these Roman-sounding offices sometime during the third century BC. More likely Livy and Orosius have mislabeled the Lucanian office *meddix*. Livy's praetor was elected, just like the *meddix*, who alone would have had the clout to orchestrate such a meeting. We should also note Flavius's familiarity with Roman history, since he recalled to the Lucani

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[241] Liv. 25.15.18-17; see also Nep. *Han.* 5.3. For Hannibal's compassion in returning the bodies of Gracchus and Marcellus (who died in Lucania, not Bruttium, as Valerius maintains for Marcellus; see Cic. *Sen.* 75; Liv. 27.28.2), see Val. Max. 5.1.ext. 6.

[242] Oros. 4.16.15.

that Rome had forgiven many past betrayals, even among its own people.

Appian's account provides additional important evidence for Roman-Lucanian relations and tribal difference among the Lucani.[243] Gracchus was heading to a meeting of Lucanian generals, who supposedly had repented of their betrayal. We have already seen that the Lucani governed themselves with a quasi-democratic federated system. That these generals individually had adhered to a particular "Hannibalic party" is far less likely than that they represented their respective tribes. Likewise, there is no mention of a king here (or anywhere else in our reasonable source-coverage of the Lucani in the Second Punic War), and it is certainly a time of war: either the institution had lapsed, or Lucanian tribal differences made selecting a king impossible. Finally, Gracchus's paltry guard reveals the (perceived) state of affairs in Lucania *vis-à-vis* Rome. Thirty riders with a proconsul is protection against highwaymen; it is not a sign of heading into enemy-infested lands. Gracchus presumably thought that he was heading into the territory of tribes who had (ostensibly) remained loyal; he was not going into an area in which he suspected danger.[244]

E. Other Evidence from the Second Punic War

Frontinus tells us that the Romans made war on some group of Lucani as early as 217 BC.[245] This seems very early for Roman operations against rebelling Italian peoples.

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[243] App. *Hann.* 35.150-2.

[244] For Gracchus's betrayal see also Val. Max. 1.6.8, 5.1.ext.6; Cic. *Tusc.* 1.37.89.

[245] Front. *Strat.* 1.6.1-2.

However, while Frontinus's "*in Lucanos*" could just mean "into Lucanian territory", most naturally it translates to "against the Lucani," especially given the immediate context, "*exercitum duceret*," "led his army." Frontinus may simply be wrong: he is interested here in tricks, not in historical explanation; but without other evidence this remains a last resort. Instead, I suggest that some of the Lucani took the opportunity after the Roman catastrophes at Trebia (218 BC) and Trasimene (early 217 BC) to revolt. This is exactly the result Hannibal hoped for with his leniency policy regarding Italian prisoners.

The Lucani had been subject to Rome for approximately sixty years, and thus must have been fully integrated into the Roman army. We cannot guarantee a Lucanian presence at Trebia and Trasimene, but this seems reasonable enough. We can suppose with some confidence that Hannibal released Lucanian prisoners, who returned to their respective tribes, and agitated for revolt at such an opportune time, when Rome was crippled under the brilliance of the Punic general. Most of the Bruttii had already revolted.[246] Some tribes were convinced; others hesitated. Cannae would embolden some of these latter tribes, though not all: some remained loyal throughout the war. Nevertheless, the Romans saw fit to send Fulvius Nobilior to Lucania, apparently with some success, judging from Frontinus's compliments.

F. Greek and Roman Influence on Lucanian Tribal Differences

Did interaction with the Greeks and the Romans strengthen, weaken, or at least influence these tribal divisions in any way? For the Greeks, the answer must be yes. It

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[246] Gell. *NA* 10.3.18-20.

cannot be a coincidence that the Bruttii broke off when they did. They were aware of the great conflict in Magna Graecia between the Italiotes and Syracuse. The rest of the Lucani were heavily involved in these conflicts, and must have been weakened from extended wars with Dionysius the Younger, too.

There is a subtler point, yet one with greater implications. The coastal Lucanian tribes made great inroads into Greek society, through sheer political and social influence, coming to dominate a city like Poseidonia, and perhaps others. They never could have had any sort of influence in the Greek coastal cities had they not assimilated Greek culture to a large extent. Thus Italiote culture in a way assisted its own cultural and political subjugation, at least in Poseidonia.

For the Romans, the answer is clearly yes. We have already seen how the Second Punic War strained ties between the Lucanian tribes: some chose to remain loyal to the Romans, others sided with Hannibal. Conflicts about Lucanian sovereignty must have run high in tribal discussions. Likewise, the losses suffered under the Romans in the 280s cowed some tribes to remain loyal, but encouraged others all the more to throw off the Roman yoke.

IX. Lucanian Class Distinctions and Social Conflicts

Previous scholars have made some important initial observations regarding class distinctions among the Lucani.[247] It is reasonable to assume that Samnite class divisions

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[247] For class distinctions and interaction among the Italian allies, see E. Gabba, "Aspetti dell'assimilazione delle popolazioni italiche nel II secolo," in E. Campanile, *Lingua e cultura degli Oschi* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1985), 39 ff.

paralleled those of the Lucani in some ways, such as the existence of an elite, and, presumably, a "governed" class.[248] But scholars have not analyzed the extensive literary evidence holistically. This study suggests that to understand the Lucani we must also consider the various relationships between differing economic and political classes within Lucanian society, and the ramifications of conflict and cooperation between these groups. As always when studying Lucania, our evidence is limited, so we must cast a wide net in the sources. When differentiating between groups, we also run the risk of making divisions that would not be as clear-cut as the terminology implies. However, this study will loosely demarcate several groups, including the elite, the non-elite free, and the slaves. We will examine how the interrelationships between these groups and other entities (Rome, the Greeks, the other Italians) influenced Lucanian history.

A. The Lucanian Elite

Grave goods throughout Lucania (with Roccagloriosa providing some of the best evidence) firmly establish the existence of a socially- and economically-elevated class.[249] Parente argues that coin hoards in Lucanian tombs likely indicate a desire to distinguish the deceased from other classes, as opposed to being fare for passage to the

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[248] Chiranky, 84 ff.

[249] Gualtieri, *Fourth*, 108-9; 164; H. Fracchia and M. Gualtieri, "Committenza e mito: Un caso di studio dalla Lucania occidentale," *Mélanges de l'École française de Rome. Antiquité* 116, pt. 1 (2004): 301-23; Isayev, 135-9.

underworld.[250] Paestan painting also illuminates the Lucanian elite. Depictions of mounted warriors, though glorifying a single person, were mass-produced, which points to the existence of a group wealthy enough to obtain them, and having a vested interest in doing so (image projection).[251] The cavalry classes of societies throughout the ages have constituted the upper echelons of the social pyramid, for several reasons. Horses are expensive to buy and feed, and require a great deal of land. Second, riding and fighting from a horse is difficult, requiring leisure time that the masses do not have. Finally, a mounted warrior is literally above others, presenting a very real picture of superiority. But the Lucanian elite were not a regal oligarchy per se, in the sense of having a traditional network of aristocratic families connected to the throne, since the Lucanian kingship was a temporary military office.

The literary evidence also indicates that wealth was an important criterion behind the composition of the elite class. During the Second Punic War some Paestan ambassadors brought contributions of golden goblets to Rome for the war effort; with thanks, the Romans rejected the gift, presumably out of wounded pride. Some see this as a Livian doublet of the previous episode in which the Neapolitans brought forty goblets of gold to Rome, who accepted only the smallest cup.[252] Such skepticism is unwarranted. Livy certainly thought the two episodes distinct, since he referred to the Neapolitan gift in the Paestan episode.

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[250] A.R. Parente, "Rinvenimenti tombali di età preromana in Lucania," in *Trouvailles monétaires de tombes*, ed. O.F. Dubuis, S. Frey-Kupper, and G. Perret (Lausanne: Editions du Zèbre, 1999), 147.

[251] Chiranky, 85.

[252] Liv. 22.32.4-9.

The second-century AD scholar Aulus Gellius, drawing on the first-century BC annalist Claudius Quadrigarius, refers to a young Lucanian man ("born in an exalted station") who squandered his wealth.[253] Lucanian families had long sent their children off to Hellenic tutors (or imported them), and continued to do so during the Roman period. Statius's poetry (first century AD) speaks of the Romanizing children of the Lucanian elite.[254] They transported these Greek and Roman cultural traits and behaviors back to their Lucanian families, which would trickle down to the rest of society. We recall that Alexander Molossus sent hostages to Epirus from 300 noble Lucanian families, and his personal guard of 200 probably came from the elite, too: thus, as Mele plausibly suggests, at least in the second half of the fourth century BC, Lucania sported a sizeable genteel community (before the devastation of the Roman conquest and the Second Punic War).[255]

However, we must note the possibility that select families within a *touto* may have had an elevated position within Lucanian society. We recall our earlier proposal that the name of the Lucani may have evolved from the name of one or more families that were charged with the protection of a sacred grove. But of course, the responsibility for these duties must rest, at least in part, on the financial status of these families, who had the material resources to maintain shrines, upkeep and erect buildings, and even

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[253] Gell. *NA* 6.11.7.

[254] Stat. *Silvae* 5.3.159-171.

[255] A. Mele, "Le popolazioni italiche" in *Storia del mezzogiorno*, vol. 1 (Naples: Ed. del Sole,1991), 235-300.

commission artworks, so this, too, presumes a form of timocracy.

B. The Lucanian Free

The elite at times clashed with the free poorer classes of Lucanian society: "...a sedition of the Lucani having been raised by the plebeians and their greedy leaders, [L. Volumnius Flamma Violens, cos. 296 BC], at the utmost desire of the *optimates*, sent Quintus Fabius as proconsul with his own veteran army to quell it."[256] The poorer free class raised a revolt, perhaps to move Lucania to leave the Roman alliance and ally with Samnium and its coalition. The elite decided, in this instance, that adhering to Rome would best protect their interests.[257] We may speculate that as early as the 290s BC, the Lucanian elite had begun establishing friendship and *clientela* relationships with Roman nobles. By the Second Punic War, patron-client relationships between the Italian nobility and Rome had already developed, leading to friction with the lower classes (Livy's *morbum*, "disease").[258] The Lucanian non-elite served in the infantry, and, when not in conflict with the elite, must have been greatly influenced politically by the latter, such as in 91 BC, when the Italian elites spurred the lower classes to revolt in the Social War.

C. Slavery in Lucania

Trouble also brewed among the poorest groups in Lucanian society, the shepherds

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[256] Liv. 10.18.8: "...et Lucanorum seditiones a plebeiis et egentibus ducibus ortas summa optimatium uoluntate per Q. Fabium, pro consule missum eo cum uetere exercitu, compresserat."

[257] See Gabba, *Aspetti*, 40-1, for collusion between the Italian upper classes and the Roman elite.

[258] Liv. 24.2.8.

and slaves. Justin's account of the Lucanian *paideia* makes it very clear that the Lucani did have slaves; however, it is impossible to say how important or large the institution was in Lucanian society.[259] The Bruttian Schism also evidences the Lucanian slave institution, despite the numerous layers of mythology surrounding the event. Macrobius and others record a moving story of slave loyalty set during a siege of Grumentum.[260] Some slaves flee by design to the besiegers; after the city is breached, these same slaves rescue their mistress by feigning to take her outside of the city to kill her. Dating the siege is difficult. Seneca reports the same story; his source is book eighteen of Claudius Quadrigarius's *Annales* (first century BC), which calls the besiegers Romans.[261] Later Seneca writes, "I will not omit some examples from our own age." This follows an example set "during the Civil War", and another when Caesar was besieging L. Domitius in Corfinium (49 BC). Thus the Social War is a good candidate.[262]

Lucanian slaves became pawns within some of the greater struggles surrounding the region during the middle and late Republic. Orosius records an attempted conspiracy among 7,000 slaves and *socii navales* in 259 BC. Though he does not specifically mention the Lucani, the cabal must have included them, since Paestum was such an integral *socius navalis*. The plan almost succeeded, and "...the city, which was without a

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[259] Justin. 23.1.1-17.

[260] Macrob. *Saturn.* 1.11.23.

[261] Sen. *Benef.* 3.23.1-2.

[262] Statius's friend Ursus owned slaves in Lucania (Stat. *Silv.* 2.6.58-70). Ursus's loss of his Lucanian holdings on the Aciris do not compare to the death of his beloved slave, presumably Lucanian.

garrison, would have perished at the hands of slaves."[263] As La Greca notes, the episode captures Italian antipathy toward Rome after the conquest of Italy; the plan's betrayal is indicative of the conflict between pro-Roman Italian aristocrats and the lower orders.[264]

As Salmon notes, the tendency for absentee owners to employ armed slaves in transhumant pastoralism and rapidly changing economic/agricultural patterns in the middle and late Republic exacerbated tensions between the slaves and other classes in southern Italy.[265] In the first century BC, as part of his intrigues, Milo stirred up the shepherds of Lucania to revolt; later he descended to opening up slave prisons (*ergastula*) to bolster his partisans.[266] Even before this, Spartacus raised enormous armies in the area. He must have found support among many a disaffected shepherd, though Soviet-era and East German historians have gone too far in interpreting these slave wars as early Marxist revolts. The reality is much simpler: shepherds in the area long had caused trouble, and Spartacus offered promising prospects.[267]

D. The *Vereia*

The uncertain meaning of the Oscan term *vereia* has generated much debate

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[263] Oros. 4.7.12.

[264] La Greca, 251.

[265] Salmon, *Making*, 92; E. Gabba and M. Pasquinucci, *Strutture agrarie e allevamento transumante nell'Italia Romana (III-I Sec. a.C.)* (Pisa: Giardini, 1979), *passim*.

[266] Caes. *BC* 3.21.4-22.3. Velleius Paterculus (2.68.2-3) says Milo was killed besieging Conza in Hirpinum.

[267] Perhaps the advantage of cover that the mountains offered also hindered the efficacy of this resistance by curtailing organization; this is only speculation.

among linguists and historians. Judging from several Oscan inscriptions and a document of the Frentani, some scholars believe that these *vereias* had some kind of military function.[268] Some define this further, seeing these as cavalry units comprised of the sons of the elite, who trained together.[269] Others, like Rix, believe that the term is generic, synonymous with the more common word *touto*, but this practice was primarily isolated to the southern Sabellian peoples.[270] However, drawing on Paestan tomb paintings and Polybius, Chiranky argues persuasively that the *vereias* did, indeed, serve as an aristocratic cavalry training group, which would explain the small size of the building that held the Pompeian *vereias*, as no large, eclectic gymnasium was necessary.[271]

In the Lucanian context, then (if this definition stands), the Lucanian elite youths trained in these *vereias* in the important martial and perhaps political skills necessary for their station.[272] They played an identifiable role in Lucanian history at least once, and I would add that the specific composition and nature of these *vereias* (aristocratic youths who sought to distinguish themselves for present and future advantage at the head of Lucanian society) is central to the outcome. The most famous example concerns the machinations of Tarentum, which, fearing that they would be no match for a Roman-

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[268] For example, *Cm* 9, *Lu* 37; Ve 11, 87, 108, 173; Poccetti, *Nuovi documenti italici*, 132, 151; Salmon, *Samnium*, 94 and n. 4; M. Frederiksen, "Campanian Cavalry: A Question of Origins," *Dialoghi di Archeologia* 2, no. 1 (1968): 19.

[269] Cristofani, "Società e istituzioni," 89; Chiranky, 144-5, n. 268. Against these: E. Campanile and C. Letta, *Studi sulle magistrature* (Pisa: Giardini, 1979), 32 n. 50; Poccetti, *Nuovi documenti italici*, 115, n. 4.

[270] Rix, "Oskisch vereiia- à la Mommsen," 237-57.

[271] Chiranky, 93-4.

[272] If the term *vereia* does not mean "aristocratic youth cavalry unit," the following argument still stands, as Livy does specify that the Tarentines bribed the youths of the Lucanian elite.

Lucanian alliance, bribed some Lucanian youths to feign mistreatment at the hands of the Romans (326 BC).[273] Livy informs us that these young men were more famous than they were upright, which implies that these were, indeed, the youths of the aristocracy. The Tarentines very specifically targeted these youths, as the shame cast upon these young men—the future leaders of Lucanian society—would stir the tribe(s) to action. To the Lucani, the Romans had injured and disgraced the flowering hope of their people. Nonetheless, the resulting defection turned out disastrously for the Lucani. Gellius describes their great sorrow after Rome demanded these very youths as hostages.[274] We also note the shock on the part of the Lucani that the Tarentines had given them words "*per fallacias*." This implication of broken trust does not fit the traditional view of constant Italiote/Lucanian animosity: here the Tarentines, supposedly inveterate enemies of the Lucani, are friends with them.

X. Lucanian Religion

A. Sanctuaries

As with all ancient peoples, religion played an integral role in Lucanian life; unfortunately, we know much less than we would like about this aspect of Lucanian

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[273] Liv. 8.27.

[274] Gell. *NA* 2.19.7-8. Gellius here uses Claudius Quadrigarius, an annalist of the first century BC; because of this writer's relatively early *floruit*, and since the context fits so well, the passage probably refers to these Tarentine-Lucanian plots.

society.[275] The Paestan tomb paintings, which may depict a departure to the underworld as opposed to a return of a warrior, could suggest a belief in some kind of afterlife. The Iron Age and Archaic periods have yielded only scanty evidence for religious activity, though the coastal sites offer more finds than the interior. Outdoor shrines and venerated holy places must always have been important to the Lucani throughout their history. In the fifth and early fourth centuries, it appears that Lucanian religious activity centered on the domestic sphere.[276] But extra-urban sanctuary building of various types exploded in the middle of the fourth century, which probably continued through the Roman conquest.[277] A small group of religious people used large sacred buildings; yet open-air sanctuaries also served large gatherings of people, apparently for trade, politics, and private business.[278] Cross-roads shrines served not only a religious function, but also as places of social, economic, and cultural connection: "The Italic sanctuaries performed all those collective and public functions in the life of the community (religious gatherings, fairs, markets and in a few cases, theatre) which in the coastal areas of Magna Graecia

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[275] For general comments on Lucanian religion, see J. Heurgon, "I culti non Greci della Magna Grecia," *Le genti non greche della Magna Grecia. Atti dell'undicesimo convegno di studi sulla Magna Grecia (Taranto, 10-15 Ottobre 1971)* (Naples: Arte Tipografica, 1972), 55-75; Isayev, 31-41.

[276] H.M. Fracchia and M. Gualtieri, "The Social Context of Cult Practices in Pre-Roman Lucania," *American Journal of Archaeology* 93, no. 2 (April 1989): 231.

[277] Gualtieri, *Fourth*, 27; E. Greco, "Santuari indigeni e formazione del territorio in Lucania," in *Rites et espaces en pays celte et méditerranéen*, ed. S. Verger (Rome: École française de Rome, 2000), 229; G. Greco, "Santuari extraurbani tra periferia cittadina e periferia indigena," in *La colonisation grecque en Méditerranée occidentale: Actes de la rencontre scientifique en hommage à Georges Vallet, organisée par le centre Jean-Bérard, l'Ecole française de Rome, l'Istituto universitario orientale et l'universita degli studi di Naples Federico II, Rome, Naples, 15-18 novembre 1995* (Rome: Ecole française de Rome, 1999), 244-7.

[278] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 99 ff. Perhaps these sanctuaries housed the Lucanian *sussitia.*

normally had their place within the polis organization."[279] The evidence does not seem to indicate that these cross-roads sanctuaries served any kind of official political function.[280] The also Lucani certainly venerated springs, trees, and hills, all of which had to be appeased; as Servius notes, "*nullus enim fons non sacer*."[281]

Greater precision on Lucanian religion has proven difficult. Many scholars use the Greek pantheon as their starting point for their analysis, a presupposition that we must reject.[282] On the contrary, the Greeks may have adopted some Italian deities, at least in Velia.[283] Horsnaes plausibly suggests that the Lucani adopted Greek divine imagery (as they adopted Greek and Etruscan figures for their tomb paintings), but applied these pictures to their own deities.[284] This study does not intend to provide a definitive analysis of the Lucanian pantheon; indeed, such a task would be nearly impossible, given their propensity (like many Italian peoples) to worship numerous gods and demigods found within trees, brooks, springs, and other natural phenomena.[285] Here we only hope to make some new observations and illuminate connections that previous scholarship has not sufficiently explored.

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[279] M. Torelli, "Greci e indigeni in Magna Grecia: ideologia, religiosa e rapporti di classe," *Studia Storici* 18, no. 4 (1977): 55-61.

[280] Gualtieri, *Fourth*, 28.

[281] Serv. *ad Aen.* 7.84; cf. Sen. *Ep.* 41.3; Salmon, *Samnium*, 150-1.

[282] Lomas, *Western*, 128.

[283] See Chapter 3, p. 141; Lomas, *Western*, 130.

[284] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 102.

[285] L. Giliberti, *I Lucani nell'antichità: (saggio di demopsicologia)* (Naples: R. Tipografia Francesco Giannini & Figli, 1924), 8-9.

The aggressive, masculine nature of Hercules appealed to the Lucani, as with many Italic peoples, among whom his cult spread rapidly.[286] Two Lucanian inscriptions (third and second centuries) attest to his worship.[287] Judging from the archaeological evidence, the Lucanian elite embraced Herculean myths (and those of other heroes) in their funerary practices in order to differentiate themselves from the lower orders.[288] Other finds include belts shaped like him, clubs and lion skins of various sizes and media, coins, and inscriptions.[289] Hercules is connected with transhumance, too, as protector of herds and springs, which certainly appealed to the Lucani.

Numerous other theonyms appear in Lucanian Oscan inscriptions, such as *fatuveis* (the equivalent of Latin Fatuus, a wind god, but also an epithet for Faunus, god of auguries).[290] Tertullian and Eusebius refer to an obscure idol Alburnus, which M. Aemilius (Scaurus, cos. 115 BC?) deified contrary to senate custom; some have tried to see in this god a local Lucanian deity, associated with the eponymous mountain chain and

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[286] Salmon, *Making*, 107 ff.; G. De Sanctis, *Storia dei Romani*, vol. 4, pt. 2 (Florence: La Nuova Italia, 1980), 262.

[287] *Lu* 26, uncertain provenance; *Lu* 64, Rossano.

[288] Gualtieri and Becker, "Cremation," 478-9.

[289] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 103-4. Numismatic evidence (from Hands). Lucania: Bronze coins: Lu 6 obv. head of Heracles, spear-head; rev. ΛΨΚΙΑΝΩΝ, Bellona, wolf's head. Bruttium: Gold coins: Br 2 (250-230 BC) obv. head of Heracles; rev. ΒΡΕΤΤΙΩΝ. Bronze coins: Br 5 obv. head of Heracles; rev. ΒΡΕΤΤΙΩΝ, Zeus. Br 6 obv. head of Heracles; rev. ΒΡΕΤΤΙΩΝ, club.

[290] Judging from the inscriptional evidence Fatuus was connected to Mefitis *Kaporoinna*; she is a goddess of fertility related to the important Lucanian goddess Mefitis (see below, p. 107). See L. Luschi, "Il fico e il vento. Divinità dell'arboricultura nell'Italia antica," *Studi e materiali di storia delle religioni* 74, no. 32, fasc. 2 (2008): 259-76.

towns in Northwestern Lucania.[291]

The numismatic evidence indicates that the Bruttii and Lucani revered Bellona, though she lacks her poetic bloody scourge and looks much like Hera.[292] Lucania had a sacred grove (*nemus*) called *Angitiae*, though this goddess probably should not be associated with the supposed Marsian snake goddess, as this identification is based on a folk-etymological connection between the name and Latin *anguis*.[293] A Fury lived near or under the Ansanto River, technically in Hirpine territory, though Donatus and Vibius Sequester thought it in Lucania.[294] We can presume that the cults of the respective goddesses of the Heraion and Athenaion in Lucanian territory, while technically Greek sanctuaries, spilled over into Lucanian worship.[295] Finally, near the Ansanto River, we find a temple dedicated to Mefitis, who played a crucial role in Lucanian culture.

B. Mefitis

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[291] Tert. *Apolog.* 5.1; repeated in *Ad nation.* 1.10.14 and *Adv. Marcion* 1.18.4 (which differs slightly). See Eus. *Eccl. Hist.* 2.2.5. For more on Mount Alburnus, see Probus, *In Verg. Georg.* 3.146-149: "EST LUCOS SILARI CIRCA ILICIBUSQUE VIRENTEM PLURIMUS ALBURNUM VOLITANS, CUI NOMEN ASILO ROMANUM EST, οἶστρον GRAII VERTERE VOCANTES. Silarus flumen est Lucaniae, portus Alburnus et eiusdem nominis mons ad sextum a primis tabernis. Mentionem facit Lucilius hoc versu: 'Quattuor hinc Silari ad flumen portumque Alburnum.'" Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Georg.* 3.146: "...Ordo talis est: circa lucos Silari, fluminis Lucaniae, et Alburnum, eiusdem montem, est plurimus volitans.... Et aliter: ordo 'est plurimus volitans circa lucos Silari Alburnumque virentem ilicibus.' 'Volitans' absolute. Silarus et Alburnus in Lucania sunt montes." Vib. Sequester, *De Montibus*, 226: "Alburnus, Lucaniae." Cf. Herodian, *Ab excessus divi Marci* 8.5.9; Anon. Ravenn. 4.34: Silaron; Guido Pisanus 43: Silarum; Lucilius, in F. Marx, *C. Lucili Saturarum Fragmenta* (Teubner, 1904), 3.126.

[292] Hands, 171-2. Br. 2 obv. head of Mars; rev. BPETTIΩN, Bellona with spear; Br. 4 obv. head of young Heracles; rev. Bellona with spear, BPETTIΩN.

[293] Vibius Sequester, *De Nemoribus*, 200: "Angitiae vel Anguitiae <...> Lucaniae."

[294] Ver. *Aen.* 7.563-571; cf. Donatus (in Serv. *In Verg. Aen.* 7.563 and Vibius Sequester, 185).

[295] G. Devoto, *Gli antichi Italici*[3] (Florence: Vallecchi, 1967), 198.

No doubt the advent of the Greeks saw a fusion of their pantheon with the Lucanian deities. Likewise, with the Roman conquest came the Capitoline triad and the rest of the Roman pantheon. But they were long unable to usurp Lucania's female goddesses, especially Mefitis (Mephitis in Greek, but the intervocalic /f/ indicates that she is a Sabellian goddess), whose primary sanctuary lay near the *lacus Ampsanctus*, and another at Rossano di Vaglio, the charge of the Utiani *touto*, as we have seen.[296] The Lucani built other sanctuaries to her throughout the region, including Grumentum, Potentia, and Atina.[297] Her provenance seems to have been as the provider of water, and seismic activity.[298] She may have been consort to Heracles, guardian of springs and herds, Mamers, or Jove.[299] The inscriptional evidence indicates that her cult was related to other Italic divinities such as *Veneri Fisicae* at Pompeii; her worship also seems to have varied among the various Lucanian tribes, judging from the secondary importance of her sanctuary at Potentia, and from her manifestation at Grumentum *Mefiti Fisicae*.[300] Horsnaes sees her as guardian of fertility, man, beast, and crops, which explains why her

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[296] F. Calisti, "Mefitis dea italica « regina » e la sua « degenerazione » in ambiente romano," *Studi e materiali di storia delle religioni* 70, no. 28, fasc. 2 (2004): 239-40.

[297] Salmon, *Samnium*, 150, n. 3. Grumentum: *CIL* X.203; Potentia: *CIL* X.130-133 and p. 961; Atina: *CIL* X.5047.

[298] Salmon, *Making*, 13; Salmon, *Samnium*, 152, n. 5 remarks: "G. Devoto, Gli Antichi Italici^2, p.238 connects Mefitis with Sabine Mefula and suggests that she was originally a goddess of inebriation and vertigo."

[299] Mamers: *Lu* 36, also from Rossano, is a dual dedication (Greek alphabet) to Mamers, the Oscan war god, and Mefitis.

[300] M. Lejeune, "Langue et civilisation des Lucaniens," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania* (*Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971*), in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 85; 88; 108. See also L. Del Tutto Palma, *Le iscrizioni della Lucania Preromana* (Padua: Unipress, 1990), 63-104; 117-136 *passim*.

sanctuaries were situated next to springs and transhumance routes.[301] Surprisingly, numerous temples and the inscriptional evidence indicate her equality with any god of the Roman pantheon, and some would argue for her supremacy, even over Jove; at the very least, she sat as queen to him as king.[302]

Scholars do mark her popularity among the Lucani, but attribute this to the ubiquitous springs throughout Lucania. This is not an entirely satisfactory explanation.[303] Despite the changing munificence patterns of Lucanian elites, who began beautifying Roman urban religious centers more than traditional Lucanian centers, Mefitis remained very important: "[Cn.] Acerr[onius....] F., consul, constructed this building in honor of Mefitis Utiana."[304] If we couple the data about her with what we know of Lucanian history, we see that her popularity derived not from "barbaric idiosyncrasy," but rather as a perfectly logical extension of the situation in Lucania.

In 1947 Magaldi proposed that since Mefitis was goddess over noxious emissions, the Lucani would have sought her aid as protectress against malaria, matching the role of *Feber* in Rome.[305] Recently, Calisti has argued that the role of Mefitis gradually descended from being an important Italic goddess into this inferior position during the

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[301] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 103. Springs and grottoes were long venerated in Lucania: see S.M. Puglisi, *La civiltà apenninica: Origine delle comunità pastorali in Italia* (Florence: Sansoni, 1959), 55.

[302] Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 166; M. Lejeune, "Langue et civilisation des Lucaniens," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 88.

[303] Salmon, *Making*, 17, for example.

[304] Lejeune, "Inscriptions de Rossano di Vaglio," 319-39; Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 179.

[305] Magaldi, 45-6. Cf. Verg. Aen. 7.83ff.; Serv. Aen. 7.84.

Roman period.[306] However, I suggest that to the Lucani she maintained a position of preeminence from the third to the first century BC, which coincides with the advent of malaria to the region. Depopulation and the devastation of war throughout the third century BC left fewer people to till and tend the land, which deteriorated into swampy regions, becoming breeding grounds for the anopheles mosquito carrier (is this Vergil's *asilus* around Paestum?).[307] Strabo mentions in passing that the Sele River makes the city unhealthy (this area is now the Fosso Capo dei Fiumi).[308] Scholars see this as the result of deforestation, which altered river patterns; coupled with the deposition of silt, rivers like the Sele became stagnant in parts, and transformed into noxious breeding grounds.[309] This would coincide with the general deterioration of Magna Graecia in the late Hellenistic period, of which Cicero speaks.[310] The dates of the Oscan inscriptions to Mefitis, which span from the early fourth to the end of the second centuries, correspond roughly to a general crisis of war and the probable aggravation of malaria throughout Magna Graecia. As the disease spread, the Lucani turned to the goddess who offered protection and healing (in desperation at the advance of a disease that plagued adults as much as children). While her cult may have grown less popular in the rest of

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[306] Calisti, 253-8.

[307] For the *asilus*, see Chapter 6, p. 285.

[308] Str. 5.4.13: "*...ποιεῖ δ'αὐτὴν ἐπίνοσον ποταμὸς πλησίον εἰς ἕλη ἀναχεόμενος.*" Some editors place this passage at the beginning of 6.1.1.

[309] Mello, *Paestum Romanum*, 140 ff., who wisely cautions against assuming that all of Paestum was abandoned at this time; rather, the inhabitants adapted by shifting the city center away from some inhospitable parts and by reclaiming others via canals and other methods.

[310] Cic. *Fam.* 13. Sybaris became malarial before its fall in 510 BC; see Brunt, *Italian Manpower*, 615-6.

Italy, for a time she remained more important than ever to the Lucani in their particular difficulties. They built traditional outdoor shrines and (less often) temples to her in accordance with Sabellian custom.[311]

But Mefitis worship succumbed to the advance of Romanization, too, especially after the Social War. Her shrine at Rossano di Vaglio apparently fell into disuse in the first century BC, or the first half of the next century at the latest, and the rest of Lucania fared no better.[312] Salmon notes how temple-building among the Lucani and Bruttii eventually fell off sharply compared to construction among the Pentri.[313] Religious activity shifted away from traditional sanctuaries to those at Roman urban centers, such as the Roman colony of Potenza.[314] Religion is extremely conservative, but the Lucanian elite—who had the resources to dedicate sanctuaries and pay for inscriptions—Romanized presumably faster than the general populace, because of the benefits of public evergetism, and *clientela* ties to Rome. Thus, new patterns and new venues of religious

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[311] Salmon, *Samnium*, 147.

[312] L. De Lachenal, ed., *Da Leukania a Lucania. La Lucania centro-orientale fra Pirro e I Giulio-Claudii, Catalogo della mostra Venosa* (Rome: Istituto poligrafico e Zecca dello Stato, Libreria dello Stato, 1992), 65.

[313] Salmon, *Making*, 117; M. Lejeune, "Langue et civilisation des Lucaniens," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 85. M.B. Bagnasco and A.R. Tagliente, "I culti," in *I Greci in occidente. Greci, Enotri e Lucani nella Basilicata meridionale*, ed. S. Bianco *et al.* (Naples: Electa Napoli, 1996), 185-6, sees the decline as early as the third century BC in some centers.

[314] J. Lloyd, "Farming the Highlands: Samnium and Arcadia in the Hellenistic and Early Roman Imperial Periods," in *Roman Landscapes. Archaeological Survey in the Mediterranean Region.* Archeological Monographs of the British School at Rome, vol. 2, ed. G. Barker and J. Lloyd (London: British School at Rome, 1991), 185.

worship displaced the old Lucanian traditions.[315]

Conclusion

Early twentieth-century scholars frequently applied labels such as "rude" and "uncultured" to the Lucani; these value judgments are unwarranted.[316] While ancient historians certainly tried to fit the Lucani within a traditional barbarian framework, the former could not help but praise certain aspects of Lucanian culture. Unfortunately, Greek unfamiliarity with Oenotrian/Lucanian interaction and origins obscured the Lucanian past, which makes it very difficult for us to paint a clear picture of Lucanian culture without a Hellenic bias; but this is the state of our evidence. However, we saw that by beginning from the methodological starting point of the ethnogenesis model, and by critically evaluating a broad range of sources, we can begin to understand several important institutions within Lucanian culture such as their name, origins, social norms, military system, tribal distinction, and religion. In the next chapter, we will examine how the Lucani and the Greeks interacted with each other in the archaic period.

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[315] Salmon, *Making*, 119.

[316] One translator of Isocrates, George Norlin, says of the Lucani: "...the Lucanians [were] a rude people, noted for their ferocity, in Southern Italy." Barclay V. Head, 82: "The coins of Paestum, as the barbarous Lucanians designated the ancient and wealthy Greek city that had fallen into their hands...."

Chapter 3: Lucania and the Greeks through the Greek Archaic Period

Our source material for the Lucani in the age of the Greeks is not enviable. No Greek history of the Lucani exists (and no Lucanian history of the Lucani exists, either). Inculcated with that Hellenocentric bias, Greek writers saw all other peoples as barbarians (though that title could carry a sort of "noble savage" character).[317] Hellenic institutions, especially the polis, its laws, and language, set the Greeks apart from and above other peoples, whose barbarian influence supposedly led to a degeneration of civilized, i.e. Greek, customs. Dionysius of Halicarnassus laments how many Greeks forgot their language and heritage by living among barbarians.[318]

As the Lucani interacted with the Greeks for centuries, both peacefully and violently, Greek authors writing the history of Magna Graecia could not avoid discussing them. Obviously, the Greeks were concerned primarily with political affairs, so this receives the lion's share of their attention. But, lacking good source material for the earliest history of Italic peoples like the Lucani, the Greeks turned to mythology and legend. In this chapter we hope to examine Greek-Lucanian interaction through the archaic period. We will begin with the heroes of the *nostoi* in mythology to determine whether we can see anything of actual Lucanian life.

I. Lucania and Mythological Heroes

After victory at Troy Homer's Achaeans tried to return home; many met their

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[317] P. Cartledge, *The Greeks: A Portrait of Self & Others* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2002), 60-70.

[318] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.89.1-3.

deaths on the seas, or at the hands of barbarians in distant places.[319] Scholars have long seen the reality of the Greek Dark Ages behind these gloomy tales. Since the Greeks colonized Italy primarily before the advent of written histories, historians had to fit these obscure peoples into the Homeric sagas and other stories. Doing so was easy in some ways, since not only the history and peoples of Italy but even its geography was rather obscure to the Greeks in the eighth century BC (as it would be at least through the time of Antiochus of Syracuse in the late fifth-century BC).[320] This could benefit the Greeks: after all, if one could find a Hellenic element in a land, one could justify colonization of that land—they simply were claiming what was rightfully theirs.[321] Odysseus even had a heroic companion Polites, who supposedly attacked a woman near Temesa; his name ("citizen") and the myth attached to him probably conceal Greek colonization efforts in southern Italy.[322] Plus, having a hero or god visit a place gave it glory and sacredness.[323] The heroes Hercules, Jason, Diomedes, Odysseus, and others "could supply sons and

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[319] J. Bérard, *La colonisation grecque de l'Italie méridionale et de la Sicile dans l'antiquité: l'histoire et la légende* (Paris: Presses universitaires de France, 1957), 323-83; J. Bérard, *L'expansion et la colonisation grecques, jusqu'aux guerres médiques* (Paris: Aubier, 1960), 28-30.

[320] F. Prontera, "*Imagines Italiae.* Sulle più antiche visualizzazioni e rappresentazioni geografiche dell' Italia," *Athenaeum* 64 (1986): 295-320.

[321] B. D'Agostino, "Greek and Indigenous People in Basilicata from the 8th to the 3rd Century B.C.," in *Trésors d'Italie du sud: Grecs et indigènes en Basilicate = Treasures from the South of Italy: Greeks and Indigenous People in Basilicata = Tesori dell'Italia del sud* (Milan: Skira, 1998), 33.

[322] G.F. La Torre, "Alla periferia dell'impero di Sibari: Le genti indigene lungo la fascia tirrenica cosentina dalla protostoria alla lucanizzazione," in *La Calabria tirrenica nell'antichità. Nuovi documenti e problematiche storiche. Atti del convegno (Rende 23-25 novembre 2000)*, ed. G. De Sensi Sestito (Soveria Mannelli: Rubbettino, 2008), 137-8; A.M. Biraschi, "*Nostoi* in occidente ed esperienza 'precoloniale' nella tradizione e nella coscienza antica: aspetti e problemi," in *La Magna Grecia e il mare: Studi di storia marittima*, ed. F. Prontera (Taranto: Istituto per la storia e l'archeologia della Magna Grecia, 1996), 81-2.

[323] Pearson, *Greek Historians*, 2-4. On the cults of Magna Graecia, see G. Giannelli, *Culti e miti della Magna Grecia* (Florence: Sansoni, 1963), *passim*.

grandsons as founders of cities."[324] Thus, in the Greek mind, the Lucani, just like the Messapii, Romans, Etruscans, Daunii, and others, must have been descendents of Greek heroes, exiles, and colonists. Here, we dissect those myths that concern southern Italy to see what we may glean regarding the historical Lucani.

A. Arcadians

Despite the obvious error in attributing Greek origins to every Italian people, these fictional stories can be valuable to our understanding of both the Lucani and the Lucanian experience with the Greeks. Our sources believed that many of these founder-heroes emigrated from Arcadia.[325] D'Agostino suggests an Arcadian-Lucanian connection because of the similarities between the two regions.[326] Southern Italy's mountainous terrain reminded our Greek authors of interior Arcadia.[327]

Furthermore, both Arcadia and Lucania, in Greek eyes, represent barbarism in the sense of a lack of civility; in Greek literature Arcadia was notorious as the last Greek land to halt the grisly practice of human sacrifice, and we remember Lycaon, first king of Arcadia, who served up a boy to Zeus. Even more intriguing are the descendents of

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[324] Pearson, *Greek Historians*, 75.

[325] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 2.35.7.

[326] B. D'Agostino, "Il mondo periferico della Magna Graecia," 217; B. D'Agostino, "Greek and Indigenous People," 30-3.

[327] Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Aen.* 1.532: "OENOTRI COLUERE VIRI deest 'quam'. Oenotria autem dicta est vel a vino optimo, quod in Italia nascitur, vel ut Varro dicit ab Oenotro, rege Sabinorum †quia alii partem Italiae Oenotriam tradunt ex Arcadia profectum in Italiam venisse cum Pelasgis et eam sibi cognominem fecisse"; Solin. 2.2-3; St. Byz. s.v. Oenotria.

Lycaon. The sources tell of two different Lycaons, though the ancients seem to have conflated the two (and especially their children). Arcadian Lycaon had a son Oenotrus, the eponymous founder of the Oenotrian people, according to Dionysius of Halicarnassus.[328] The other Lycaon, whom Achilles in his wrath killed after the death of Patroklos, was the father of Iapyx, Daunios, and Peuketios, according to the Greek grammarian Antoninus Liberalis (second century AD?).[329] These three crossed to the Italian side of the Adriatic and founded their eponymous peoples. Per our ethnogenesis model, the presence of Oenotrus (and, by extrapolation, the Oenotri) in these myths encourages us to extend this inference to Lucania. We have already seen that the folk etymological similarities between Lycaon-Lucania also led ancient authors to associate the two regions.

Antoninus Liberalis speaks of a wolf that ate some sheep and then turned into a marble pillar between Locri and "the land of the Phocaeans," which must refer to Velia; this is Lucanian territory.[330] As we saw in Chapter 2, there is no real etymological link

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[328] Dion. Hal. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.11.

[329] Ant. Lib. *Metamorphoseon synagoge* 31.1-3: "Λυκάονος τοῦ αὐτόχθονος ἐγένοντο παῖδες Ἰάπυξ καὶ Δαύνιος καὶ Πευκέτιος. οὗτοι λαὸν ἀθροίσαντες ἀφίκοντο τῆς Ἰταλίας παρὰ τὸν Ἀδρίαν· ἐξελάσαντες δὲ τοὺς ἐνταυθοῖ οἰκοῦντας Αὔσονας αὐτοὶ καθιδρύθησαν. ἦν δὲ τὸ πλέον αὐτοῖς τῆς στρατιᾶς ἔποικον, Ἰλλυριοὶ Μεσσάπιοι. ἐπεὶ δὲ τὸν στρατὸν ἅμα καὶ τὴν γῆν ἐμέρισαν τριχῇ καὶ ὠνόμασαν ὡς ἑκάστοις ἡγεμόνος <ὄνομα> εἶχε Δαυνίους καὶ Πευκετίους καὶ Μεσσαπίους, τὸ μὲν ἀπὸ Τάραντος ἄχρι πρὸς τὴν ἑσχατιὰν τῆς Ἰταλίας ἐγένετο Μεσσαπίων, ἐν ᾗ πόλις ᾤκηται Βρεντέσιον, τὸ δὲ παρὰ τὴν <γῆν> ἐντὸς τοῦ Τάραντος ἐγένετο Πευκετίων, ἐνδοτέρω δὲ τούτου <τὸ> τῆς θαλάσσης ἐπὶ πλέον <ἐγενέτο> Δαυνίων, τὸ δὲ σύμπαν ἔθνος ὠνόμασαν Ἰαπύγων. καὶ [ἐγένετο] ταῦτα πολὺ πρὸ τῆς Ἡρακλέους στρατείας. ἦν δὲ τοῖς τότε βίος ἀπὸ θρεμμάτων καὶ νομῆς. μυθολογοῦσιν οὖν ἐν τῇ Μεσσαπίων γῇ παρὰ τὰς λεγομένας Ἱερὰς Πέτρας φανῆναι νύμφας ἐπιμηλίδας χορευούσας, τοὺς δὲ παῖδας τῶν Μεσσαπίων καταλιπόντας τὰ ποίμνια καὶ θεωμένους εἰπεῖν, ὅτι βέλτιον αὐτοὶ χορεύουσιν." Cf. Ps. Apol. *Bibliotheca* 3.96-100.

[330] Ant. Lib. *Metamorphoseon synagoge* 38.5: "καὶ τὰ πρόβατα νομέων ἔρημα λύκος ἐπελθὼν κατέδει καὶ ὁ λύκος οὗτος κατὰ δαίμονα μεταβαλὼν ἐγένετο πέτρος καὶ ἄχρι πλείστου διέμενε μεταξὺ Λοκρίδος καὶ τῆς Φωκέων γῆς."

between wolf (λύκος) and Lucania; but Antoninus's diction presumes a connection. For our purposes, at best we can say that this hints at Greek cognizance of the early historical presence of the Lucani.

B. Hercules

Upon close analysis, we find that several myths involving Hercules reveal important information on the historical Lucani. Several accounts mention places in Lucania through which he traveled; ironically, it may have been at the temple of Hera Lacinia, which he supposedly founded while passing through Italy, that the Italiotes assembled during the early fourth century BC against the Lucani and their ally Dionysius the Elder.[331] According to Lycophron (third century BC), Hercules slew Calchas, who mocked the hero for trying to fit the odd-fig-out into the tenth bushel. Calchas lay dead in Leutarnia, which is usually thought to be the coast of ancient Calabria, but may in fact refer to Lucania.[332] Jacob Hoffman's Lexicon puts Leutarnia in Lucania: "*LEUTARNIA, opp. Leucan. in M. Graeciae conf. Barrius in Calabria posuit, cui hodie Levidonia. Baudr. alias in limite Brutiorum, nunc in Calabria cit. 7. mill. ab Amygdalaria, et in sinu Tarentino in Occ.*"[333] Its name is strangely close to one Greek form for Lucania, *Leukania*, and Calabria is not quite close enough to encompass the Siris river, which is

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[331] G. de Sensi Sestito, "La funzione politica dell'Heraion del Lacinio al tempo delle lotte contro i Lucani e Dionisio I," in *I santuari e la guerra nel mondo classico*, ed. M. Sordi (Milan: Vita e Pensiero 1984), 41.

[332] For Leutarnia as part of the Sallentine peninsula, see Str. 6.3.5.

[333] J. Hofmann, *Lexicon Universale* (Lvgdvni Batavorvm: J. Hackivm, C. Bovtesteyn, P. Vander Aa, & J. Lvchtmans, 1698), s.v. Leutarnia.

the subject of this stanza in Lycophron (though poetic license may trump this objection). Thus, this myth may attest to early Lucanian habitation of the Siris region.

Hercules has links to the Sirens and Poseidonia, too. A scholiast to Lycophron tells of his pursuit of the centaurs, who die on the island of the Sirens.[334] La Greca and others have connected the worship of the centaur Chiron with Poseidonia, and we note that Chiron supposedly instituted the medical arts, a myth that may document the well-substantiated presence of medical schools on the coast of Lucania at Velia, and farther off at Salerno.

But Diodorus records a story that explicitly links Hercules and Poseidonia. While driving his cattle from Liguria back to Greece Hercules stops at Poseidonia, next to a rock where Artemis had killed an insolent hunter.[335] Other authors like Lycophron and later Herodian mention Hercules's sojourn near Poseidonia, though they include an unknown river Is.[336] Herodianus calls it "μέγας," so the only river really qualifying for that description is the Silarus, but that is not totally reassuring, nor is the very weak

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[334] *Schol. ad Lyc. Alex.* 670: "κενταυροκτόνους δὲ ἐπειδὴ οἱ Κένταυροι φεύγοντες ἀπὸ Θεσσαλίας τὸν Ἡρακλέα ἦλθον εἰς τὴν τῶν σειρήνων νῆσον, θελγόμενοι δὲ ὑπὸ τούτων ἀπώλοντο." Cf. Lyc. *Alex.* 669-672: "ποία δ' Ἐρινὺς μιξοπάρθενος κύων; τίς οὐκ ἀηδὼν στεῖρα Κενταυροκτόνος Αἰτωλὶς ἡ Κουρῆτις αἰόλῳ μέλει πείσει τακῆναι σάρκας ἀκμήνους βορᾶς;" See La Greca, 239-40; for the existence of a temple to Asklepios at Poseidonia, and thus a medical shool, see E. Greco, "L'asklepieion di Paestum," in *I culti della Campania antica. Atti del convegno internazionale di studi in ricordo di Nazarena Valenza Mele: Napoli, 15-17 maggio 1995* (Rome: G. Bretschneider, 1998), 71-79.

[335] Diod. Sic. 4.22.3-4.

[336] Lyc. *Alex.* 722-5: "ἀκτὴν δὲ τὴν προὔχουσαν εἰς Ἐνιπέως/Λευκωσία ῥιφεῖσα τὴν ἐπώνυμον/πέτραν ὀχήσει δαρόν, ἔνθα λάβρος Ἴς/γείτων θ' ὁ Λᾶρις ἐξερεύγονται ποτά"; *Schol. ad Lyc. Alex.* 724: "Ἴς καὶ Λᾶρις ποταμοὶ Ἰταλίας." Hdn. Περὶ *μονήρους λέξεως* 3.2 p. 925: "'...Ἴς ποταμὸς παρὰ θάλασσαν ἔξεισιν.' ἔστιν Ἴς τῆς Ἰταλίας, ὡς Πάρθαξ ἐν τῷ β' τῶν Ἰταλικῶν· 'ἐπεὶ δὲ ἀφίκετο εἰς τὴν Ποσειδωνίαν ὁ Ἡρακλῆς. ἔστι δὲ ποταμὸς Ἴς καλούμενος μέγας.'" Cf. Eust. *Od.* 9.392: "ὅτι δὲ καὶ ποταμός τις ἦν καλούμενος Ἴς, ἔστι καὶ ἐκ τοῦ Λυκόφρονος ἀναλέξασθαι."

similarity between Is and Silarus. Regardless, what, if anything, does this story about Hercules say about the reality of Lucania and the Greeks? La Greca thinks the rock may allude to the promontory of Agropoli, on which was situated a temple to Artemis; Greek sailors frequently navigated their boats based on shoreline temples.[337] Thus, this point may have been very important to Greek travel quite early on.

Finally, the obscure sons born to Hercules while in Italy constitute an important part of the hero's mythology, though many of the details are lost; these children represent his association with strength and virility. Eustathius, quoting Dionysius Periegetes, reports that while traveling through Italy Hercules fathered a heroic son *Brettos*, the eponymous founder of the Bruttii.[338] Interestingly, Stephanus of Byzantium, who may be drawing on the fifth-century BC historian Antiochus, names the city of Vibo after this Brettos's mother, Balêtia, which looks forward to the 194 BC Roman colony of Vibo Valentia. This legend may attest to an early Lucanian/Bruttian presence at the site.[339] Herodotus also mentions a hero Cyrnus, likely a son of Hercules, who is linked obscurely to the Phocaean foundation of Velia, though we have no other information on this

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[337] See Plin. *HN* 32.17; La Greca, 105.

[338] Eust. *Commentarii ad Dionys. Perieg.* 362: "Ὅτι Λευκανοὶ καὶ Βρέντιοι, διὰ τοῦ ν, ἢ Βρέττιοι, διὰ τῶν δύο ττ, ἕως ἐπὶ τὴν Λευκὴν Πέτραν διήκουσι, περὶ ἧς ἤδη γέγραπται. Φασὶ δὲ ὅτι ἡ περὶ τοὺς Λευκανοὺς τούτους χώρα καὶ ἡ Σικελία Μεγάλη ποτὲ Ἑλλὰς ὠνομάσθη, διὰ τὰς τῶν Ἑλλήνων ἐκεῖ συχνὰς μετοικίας. Ἡ δὲ τῶν Λευκανῶν πόλις Λευκάνη βαρυτόνως ἐλέγετο ἀπὸ Λευκίου τινός. Βρέττιοι δὲ καλοῦνται ἀπὸ Βρέττου υἱοῦ Ἡρακλέος. Ὁ δὲ Γεωγράφος φησὶν ὅτι Λευκανοὶ Βρεττίους τοὺς ἀποστάτας καλοῦσιν· ὁποῖοι, φησὶ, καὶ οὗτοι οἱ τὰ πρῶτα ποιμαίνοντες ὕστερον ὑπὸ ἀνέσεως ἐλευθεριάσαντες ἀπέστησαν."

[339] St. Byz. *Ethnica* ad v. Brettos: "Βρέττος, πόλις Τυρρηνῶν, ἀπὸ Βρέττου τοῦ Ἡρακλέους καὶ Βαλητίας τῆς Βαλήτου. οἱ οἰκοῦντες Βρέττιοι, καὶ ἡ χώρα Βρεττία καὶ ἡ γλῶσσα. Ἀριστοφάνης 'μέλαινα δεινὴ γλῶσσα Βρεττία παρῆν.' Ἀντίοχος δὲ τὴν Ἰταλίαν πρῶτόν φησι κληθῆναι Βρεττίαν, εἶτα Οἰνωτρίαν."

figure.[340] Perhaps these sons represent the establishment of aristocratic families, and the stories are the families' attempts to solidify their rule and legitimacy. Alternatively, these etiological myths may simply conceal the spread of the Herculean cult in Italy. Perhaps both situations pertained.

C. Jason

Our sources link Jason and his Argonauts to the Tyrrhenian Sea region and the Lucanian coast.[341] Like Odysseus after him, Jason faced the horrendous Scylla and Charybdis, monsters that represent (in part) the mystery surrounding the dangerous lands and shores of ancient Lucania/Bruttium. The Argo passed from the Adriatic to the Tyrrhenian Sea and into the Poseidoniate Gulf.[342] There the Argonauts supposedly founded a temple to Hera (Heraion) at the mouth of the Silarus.[343] Here, Jason's helmsman Glaucus, architect of the Argo, became a sea god, which may allude to the actual foundation of the temple.[344]

Athenaeus adds that Jason fought the *Tyrsennoi*, which corresponds to the

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[340] Hdt. 1.167. The usual explanation for this obscure prophecy is that the oracle commanded the Phocians to found a hero cult to this Cyrnus; but see I. Malkin, *Religion and Colonization in Ancient Greece* (Leiden: E.J. Brill, 1987), 72-3.

[341] Diod. Sic. 4.56.5-6.

[342] Str. 1.2.10.

[343] Str. 5.4.13; cf. Solin. 2.5-9; Ath. 7.47. An Odyssean myth concerns the foundation of the Temple of Athena on a promontory associated with her name (now *Punta Campanella*). The temple remained important throughout the Roman Republic—when bad omens appeared, the Romans performed expiatory sacrifices to the goddess in this temple: see Liv. 42.20.1-4; La Greca, 233.

[344] *Ath.* 7.47; see La Greca, 51.

Etruscans settled around the Silarus mouth at Pontecagnano.[345] Strabo notes the rapacity of these pirates, against whom the Rhegian tyrant Anaxilaüs (late sixth/early fifth century BC) made war.[346] The Etruscans long were devilish competitors in the eyes of the Greeks, and mysterious, with their obscure language and revealed religion; they posed a very real threat to Greek colonization prospects in the eighth and seventh centuries BC. Even after their defeat at the Battle of Cumae in 474 BC, an Etruscan presence lingered on very close to Greek ambitions in southern Italy. These pirates contributed to the inhospitable aura surrounding coastal Lucania while it was on the shadowy fringes of Greek consciousness.

As the Argo passed by the Sirens and the Lucanian coast, only the enchanting song of Orpheus saved them.[347] The Siren myth derives from the coast's reputation as being very deadly, on account of the early Greeks' unfamiliarity with the rocks and the proper channels to be taken, and inhospitable natives like the Lucani, as Aeneas's Palinurus would later discover supposedly.[348]

D. Odysseus and the Sirens

According to an allegorical-naturalist interpretation, the dangers of coastal

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[345] B. D'Agostino, "Greek and Indigenous People in Basilicata from the 8th to the 3rd Century B.C.," in *Trésors d'Italie du sud: Grecs et indigènes en Basilicate = Treasures from the South of Italy: Greeks and Indigenous People in Basilicata = Tesori dell'Italia del sud* (Milan: Skira, 1998), 36-40.

[346] Str. 6.1.5.

[347] Ap. Rh. 1.134-6.

[348] Interestingly, according to Ap. Rh. 4.886-921, the Argonaut Butes swam out to the Sirens, but was rescued and set in Lilybaeum in Sicily.

Lucania to the sailor and wayfarer gave rise to such mythological beasts as Scylla, Charybdis, and the Wandering Rocks. The area eventually developed a reputation for shipwrecks, especially off the Palinuran promontory.[349] Drawing on his limited eighth century knowledge of the Tyrrhenian coastline (colonization had only just begun, though early contact through trade had existed since the Bronze Age), Homer included some of the places and people of southern Italy in his epic. For example, Lampetia tends Helios's cattle; her name matches that of a Bruttian town near Amantea (modern Capo Suvero). Odysseus is advised to skirt Thrinacia, which may be Sicily.

Upon close examination, the mythology surrounding Odysseus and the Sirens contains glimpses into the real history of early Lucania.[350] Besides Homer, geographers

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[349] For shipwrecks in the area, see App. *BC* 5.98; Cic. *Att.* 16.6.1; Eutr. 2.23; Oros. 4.9.10-11; 6.18.25; Polyb. 1.37; 39; Porphyrion, *Hor. Carm.* 3.4.28; Vell. 2.79.3; Suet. *Octav.* 16, 1-3; 80.2; 3; Dio 49.1.3.

[350] **Sirens' Rocks**: Dionysius Periegetes (according to the commentaries of Eust. *Commentarii ad Dionys. Perieg.* 358) located the Sirens near the Picentine settlements on the Silaran plain. Since his commentary is traveling south, perhaps he means the *tres galli*. Aristotle (*Mir. ausc.* 103 (893a)) may think the *tres galli* the Sirenusan islands; cf. St. Byz. *Ethnica* ad v. Seirenousai; Str. 5.4.13. But Arethas (*Scholia in Platonem, Soph.*, 216a) refers to the "islands of the Oenotrians," with which it is difficult to associate the minute *tres galli*. Pliny (*HN.* 3.7.85) sets these Oenotridi near Pontia and Isaci, not too far from Velia; they have since submerged beneath the Tyrrhenian. See also Str. 6.1.1; 6.1.6. Augustus later called one of these islands the city of the idlers because his retinue did absolutely nothing while there. See also Priscian, *Periegesis* 351-357; Ptol. Geogr. 3.1.7-10; 69-71; 74-75; 79; Scymn. 222-225; *Liber Coloniarum*, 1 p. 236, 22-p. 237, 4 L: "Surrentum, oppidum. Ager eius ex occupatione tenebatur a Grecis ob consecrationem Minervae. Sed et mons Sirenianus limitibus pro parte Augustianis est adsignatus. Ceterum in soluto remansit. Iter populo debetur ubi Sirenae." For the **Syrtiti rocks**, with a possible folk etymological link to the Sirens, see Isid. 16.14.10 and Plin. *HN* 37.10.182. For the **Sirens** in general, see Hygin. *Fabulae* 141; Sen. *Med.* 350-364; Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Aen.* 5.864; Solin. 2.22; Apol. Rh. 4.891-921; Orph. *Argonautica* 1270-1297; Claud. *Carm. Appendix*, 1; Clem. Al. *Strom.* 1.10.48.6; Lyc. *Alex.* 669-672; Stat. *Silv.* 2.2.1-5 (which derives the name of Sorrentum from the Sirens). This is probably a dead-end question, as the Greeks were not entirely clear in their understanding of the coastline of western Italy (even tracing Odysseus's journey based on the Odyssey is problematic). Ancient authors—and especially Homer—are not very specific about the Sirens' location; to most, the Sirens' rocks were situated "between Sicily and Italy," wherever that is. See E. De Magistris, "Problemi topografici del litorale velino," in *Fra le coste di Amalfi: Contributi di storia antica e archeologia*, ed. M. Mello (Naples: Arte Tipografica, 1991), 39-81; E. De Magistris, "Il mare di Elea" in AA.VV. *Tra Lazio e Campania: Ricerche di storia e di topografica antica* (Naples: Arte Tipografica, 1995), 7-77.

like Strabo still associated the coast of Lucania with these Sirens, even though in the classical and Roman periods the area no longer carried the mystery that it did in the eighth century BC.[351] Parthenope had a tomb in Naples, and presumably a cult, just as the collective Sirens did at Poseidonia.[352] We may speculate that the strength of the Sirens' tradition also rested on a reality of goddess worship among the Lucani and the Campanian Samnites to the north.[353] This is unsurprising, given that the goddess Mefitis held supremacy among the Lucani, even above Jupiter.

The Sirens' myths certainly contributed to the notoriety of the region in the Greek and Roman mind, but they may reveal a glimpse of the historical Lucani if we delve deep enough. Vergil's account of the death of Aeneas's helmsman Palinurus in the fifth book of the *Aeneid* is a prime example that scholars have not yet noted. The diction and poetic structure beautifully locate Palinurus near the Sirens' rocks off the coast of Lucania. Line 851 ends with the words *fraude sereni*, but line 870 ends with *confise sereno*, nearly ring composition.[354] Between the two lines, almost midway, we see that Palinurus fell overboard somewhere near the "*scopulos Sirenum.*"

Palinurus, languishing in Avernus on account of a lack of a proper burial,

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[351] Str. 1.2.12; 6.1.1 also mentions a hero-temple near Laos dedicated to Draco, Odysseus's crewman; supposedly an oracle once prophesied, "Many people will one day perish around Laïan Draco." This came true in 389 BC, when the Lucani crushed the Thurini who were trying to destroy Laos. After the battle perhaps Delphi circulated this prophecy to shore up waning strength in Magna Graecia by deterring unnecessary and costly military expeditions.

[352] Eust. *Od.* 12.167; Plin. *HN* 3.5.62; Hdn. *General Pros.* 3.1. See Malkin, 84-5.

[353] The name *Parthenope* even became a poetic term for Naples during the Augustan era and afterward: see, for example, Verg. *Georg.* 4.565; Ov. *Met.* 14.101; 15.712.

[354] Verg. *Aen.* 5.833-871. I am not suggesting an etymological link between *sereni/sereno* and *Sirenum*.

admonishes Aeneas regarding his savage murderers:

> "Scarcely had the fourth day risen when, lifted from the waves, I beheld Italy; little by little I swam to land, and then I was safe; but as I climbed with wet, heavy garments, clutching the steep rocks with my hands, that cruel race brandished weapons and attacked, thinking me—so blind they were!—a prize. Now the waves hold me and the winds roll me around on the shore. I beg you by the sweet light of heaven and the upper air, by your father, by the hopes of aspiring Iulus, save me from these wicked people, O unconquered chief. Give me a grave, for you have the power, seek Velian ports...." [The priestess thus replied]: "Led by heavenly portents, the people of that region, from cities far and wide, will consecrate your bones, build you a tomb, and will dedicate the appropriate offerings on it, and that place will ever have the name of Palinurus." With these words his troubles were swiftly banished and the grief in his sad heart was stayed; the land rejoices with this name.[355]

Palinurus's instruction to "seek Velian ports" establish that he has died in Lucania, and the people match well the standard Hellenic and Roman view of the Lucani. They are a *gens crudelis*, they attack without warrant, and are *ignara*. Commenting on this passage, Servius pronounces with finality: "*GENS CRUDELIS Lucanorum.*"[356] Also note that some scholars see an Oenotrian (i.e. Lucanian) city or people in a coin legend that reads Παλ/Μολ.[357] Palinurus begs Aeneas to free him "*his malis*". Since these words follow almost immediately after mention of his killers and the Lucanian shores of his death, I suggest that he more simply means "free me from these evil lands and people" who have dishonored his corpse. Also, the Lucanian response to their own impurity may indicate

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[355] Verg. *Aen.* 6.337-383.

[356] Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Aen.* 6.359: "GENS CRUDELIS Lucanorum. et dicit eum a Veliensibus interemptum, ut 'portusque require Velinos'. sane sciendum Veliam tempore quo Aeneas ad Italiam venit, nondum fuisse. ergo anticipatio est, quae, ut supra diximus, si ex poetae persona fiat, tolerabilis est; si autem per alium, vitiosissima est, ut nunc de Palinuro ait: quamquam alii ad divinandi scientiam referant, quasi ab umbra dictum. Velia autem dicta est a paludibus, quibus cingitur, quas Graeci ἕλη dicunt. fuit ergo 'Elia', sed accepit digammon et facta est 'Velia', ut 'Enetus Venetus'."

[357] A. Mele, "Il mondo enotrio tra VI e V secolo a.C.," in *Il mondo enotrio tra VI e V secolo a.C.*, Quaderni di Ostraka, 1.1., ed. M. Bugno and C. Masseria (Naples: Loffredo, 2001), 263-4; Mensitieri, 117.

authentic ablution rituals of early Lucanian religion. Fearful of pollution, the Lucani erect a temple and establish rites to appease Palinurus's shade. Finally, Vergil says that these people have cities, though this may just be for poetic and metrical reasons. But recent archaeological finds have established a Lucanian proto-urbanization for the seventh-fourth centuries.[358]

E. Philoctetes

Philoctetes played a crucial role in the mythic history of southern Lucania/Bruttium. According to legend, Herakles rewarded Philoctetes with his bow for lighting the former's funeral pyre and putting him out of his misery. But the Greeks abandoned Philoctetes on Lemnos *en route* to Troy (he sported a noxious-smelling snake bite). Helenus, a captured Trojan seer (and son of Priam), admitted that Philoctetes and his bow were the secret to taking Troy. Odysseus and Diomedes recalled him (the subject of the *Little Iliad*).[359] Finding his home of Meliboea in revolt upon his return, Philoctetes departed for the west, supposedly founding cities throughout Lucania and Bruttium, including Crimissa (near Croton and Thurii), Chone, and Petelia; the foundation of the unknown Calasarna may also have been attributed to him.[360] In these

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[358] Horsnaes, 97-120. Dionysius (*Antiq. Rom.* 1.53.2-3), P.F. 102 L, and Solinus (2.12-13) connect Aeneas's cousin, Leucosia, and the Siren Leukotheia (and even the rock bearing the former name) to the Lucanian coast. Festus and Solinus may be using Dionysius as their source.

[359] Apol. Rh. *Epit.* 6.15b.

[360] Arist. *Mir. Ausc.* 107; Cf. Apollod. *Epit.* 6.15b; Str. 6.1.3; Cato fr. 70 (Favelo 69); Verg. *Aen.* 3.401-2: "...hic illa ducis Meliboei/parua Philoctetae subnixa Petelia muro"; Cincius fr. 53; Solin. 2.10: "Notum est a Philoctete Petiliam constitutam..."; Sil. 12.420-433; Just. 20.1.16; Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Aen.* 3.402: "SUBNIXA PETILIA MURO Civitas cincta mura modico, ut IV 216, 'crinemque madentem subnixus rapto potitur.' 'Petilia' dicta vel *ἀπὸ τοῦ πέτασθαι*, id est volare, quod captato augurio est condita, vel quod post

foundational myths Philoctetes must first expel the barbarians from the coast, which is an allusion to the reality of Greek colonization in the eighth century and following. These people must be the region's barbarians par excellence, the Lucani.[361] Philoctetes "earned" a hero-cult near Sybaris and at Macalla near Croton for his efforts against the barbarians. These cults and myths all stem from the Greek dichotomy of "us versus them"; however, behind these legends we see the early history of the region when Greek colonial expeditions dislodged the Lucanian tribes along the coast.[362] In fact, Philoctetes' mythical exploits in southern Italy may well attest to the reality of our *Maior Lucania*, where Petelia served as some kind of fortified city where the federated tribes of the Lucani met (Strabo's *capital* in Book Six).[363]

F. Achaeans

The Achaeans have a muddied mythological record involving southern Italy, but at its root they expel some group of people (either early Greeks or unspecified barbarians) and settle the region around Heraclea, though sometimes elsewhere along the coast. Lycophron states that the Achaeans defeated the Ionians who had settled southeastern

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relictum Ilium, quo ducebatur a Graecis, eam petivit civitatem. 'Petilia' sane numeri est singularis. Multi ita intellegunt, non 'Philoctetae Petilia', sed 'Philoctetae muro'; nam ait Cato, a Philocteta, condita iam pridem civitate, murum tantum factum. Alii 'subnixam' ideo accipiunt, quia inposita est excelso muro, ut Coelius historicus ait. Philoctetes autem fuit Poeantis filius, (...). Hic postea horrore sui vulneris ad patriam redire neglexit, sed sibi parvam Petiliam in Calabriae partibus fecit." See Lacroix, "La légende de Philoctète en Italie méridionale," *Revue belge de philologie et d'histoire* 43 (1965): 5-21. Calasarna: Greco, "Petelia, Vertinae e Calasarna," 83-90.

[361] Pearson, *Greek Historians*, 78-9.

[362] Lyc. *Alex.* 911- 929.

[363] Luppino, 45-8.

Lucania long beforehand, and who almost look like indigenous inhabitants.[364] But in Strabo these Ionians had eradicated earlier Trojan settlers.[365] Cato the Elder, drawing on Timaeus, asserts that "the Aurunci (Ausones) settled Taurianum, and then the Achaeans did so when returning from Troy."[366] These accounts are mostly fiction, but I suggest that hiding behind this confused picture of "early Greeks" are the real Lucani whom the Achaean colonists expelled from Heraclea's environs.[367] In Chapter 2 we saw this same pattern in the mythological account involving the barbarians whom the early "Oenotri" had to expel. The addition of an Ionian element here is difficult to explain, given the tradition of "Oenotrian" inhabitants (Lycophron's Chonia). Perhaps Lycophron's expulsion retrojects the later sixth-century conflict that would lead to the destruction of most of Ionian/Colophon-founded Siris, and to Heraclea's refoundation near Siris (though Heraclea was a Tarentine/Metapontine, and thus Doric, foundation).[368] All these accounts may allude to either the Lucani or some other Sabellian people of Lucania; we recall that the Pre-Samnite inscriptions of the region show an Achaean alphabet (though in the fourth century the Lucani used a Tarentine script).

G. Amazons

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[364] Lyc. *Alex.* 978-992.

[365] Str. 6.1.14.

[366] Cato fr. 71 (Peter, Favelo 70).

[367] Arist. *Mir. ausc.* 106; Athen. 12.25 (523).

[368] Just. *Epit.* 20.2.3-9.

Even the Amazon myths may tell us something of early Lucania. In search of her fallen mistress, Penthesilea's nurse Clete wanders to Bruttium, where she founds an eponymous city.[369] Interestingly, the city's queens also bore the name Clete, after the mother of Caulon, who had founded Caulonia; this fact, coupled with the phrase "and the Crotoniates will sack the city of the Amazon, destroying the dauntless maiden Clete," may hint at Croton's later capture of Caulonia.[370] More importantly, the myth of Clete probably also correlates to the tradition of Queen Bruttia, who supposedly led the Bruttii to break off from the Lucani.[371] Also note that (as Lycophron reinforces twice) Clete was a slave, and all our sources on the Bruttian Schism (inaccurately) label the Bruttii slaves. While Bruttia and Clete are both fictional, these intertwined stories at the very least indicate the early advent of the Lucanian Bruttii to the Sila region.[372] Perhaps, and this is only speculation, they even hide a very early "sacred queen" rite in Bruttian or Lucanian religion.

H. Epeius

After building the Trojan horse and ending the war, the mythological figure Epeius sailed west to Lucania and founded the unknown port city of Lagaria, which

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[369] Lyc. *Alex.* 993-1007.

[370] For Caulonia, see Hecataeus, fr. 84: "Καυλωνία· πόλις Ἰταλίας, ἣν Αὐλωνίαν Ἑκαταῖος καλεῖ, διὰ τὸ μέσην αὐλῶνος εἶναι. ἀπὸ γὰρ τῆς Αὐλῶνος ὕστερον μετωνομάσθη Καυλωνία, ὡς ἀπὸ Μετάβου ἥρωος τὸ Μεταπόντιον καὶ Ἐπίδαυρος Ἐπίταυρος καὶ αἱ Κλαζομεναὶ Πλαζομεναί. ἔστι καὶ ἄλλη Σικελίας. ἔστι καὶ ἄλλη Λοκρῶν."

[371] See below, p. 167 ff.

[372] For another *nostoi* heroes link to Bruttium, see *Schol. ad Lyc. Alex.* 1067.

supposedly lay near Grumentum.[373] He co-founded it with the Phocaeans, which is so close in detail to the origin of Velia that we must presume Lagaria is a confusion for Velia, or some unknown name for it (Lycophron was very interested in obscure nomenclature).[374] Velia is not exceptionally close to Grumentum, but Lagaria may have been its eastern *chora*, and the ancient coastline curved much more heavily toward the interior (and thus Grumentum) than it does today. Epeius also came to Metapontum (he founded it in some accounts), but had to live near the Aciris (or Siris) river in Lucania.[375] The details of this myth indicate that it probably rests upon the historical foundation of Velia in the sixth century BC; it may also hint at the earlier Lucanian settlements near Grumentum or Velia itself, which the colonizing Phocaeans displaced.

I. Diomedes, Menelaos, Nestor's Pylians, and Other Heroes

The Italiote poleis placed great emphasis on establishing ancient (mythological) connections with mainland Greece in order to cement the credibility of their lineage. Diomedes's cuckolding and disaffection at the hands of his wife are well known, as is his eventual control over the Daunii. According to Pliny, after the Trojan War the Greek seer Calchas (not the Calchas whom Hercules killed) defeated the Lucani.[376] Even

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[373] Lacroix, 16-20.

[374] Lyc. *Alex.* 930-950. St. Byz. s.v. Lagaria; Strab. 6.1.14; Plin. *HN* 14.6.69.

[375] Vell. 1.1.1; Just. 20.2.1; Verg. *Aen.* 2.264. See Pearson, *Greek Historians*, 79.

[376] Plin. *HN* 3.11.104-5.

Menelaos made a stop on the Lacinian promontory, and intended to rest at Temesa.[377] While these accounts are fictional, they represent the kernel of truth that the Greeks displaced Messapii, Apulii, and Lucanian-Bruttii for their colonies.[378]

Lycophron states that Diomedes and Menelaos were not alone: "Others again around the Pelasgian streams of Membles and the Cerneatid isle, once they have sailed forth beyond the Tyrrhenian strait, shall occupy Lucanian plains near Lametian waters."[379] The river Lametus is normally associated with the Amato river (or Lanzato) in Bruttium, but here Lycophron may actually mean the Gulf of Lametus (the modern Gulf of Saint Eufemia).[380] Lycophron's "plains" may be either the Silarus plain or the Siris-Bradanus plain, as his perfect "ἐκπεπλωκότες" indicates that they have already sailed past the Straits of Messana, then settling around the Membles, which the scholiast to Lycophron labels a river in Lucania.[381] La Greca and others speculate that this Lametus may, instead, be a reference to King Lamiscus of Lucania.[382] While an etymological link between Λαμητίαις and Lamiscus is unlikely, it is reasonable to suppose that ancient authors connected the two. Lycophron may be retrojecting the historical Lucanian King Lamiscus back to the Trojan War.

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[377] Lyc. Alex. 852-8. See Pearson, *Greek Historians*, 77.

[378] Solin. 2.10.

[379] Lyc. *Alex.* 1083-1086: "Οἱ δ' αὖ Πελασγῶν ἀμφὶ Μέμβλητος ῥοὰς/νῆσόν τε Κερνεᾶτιν ἐκπεπλωκότες/ ὑπὲρ πόρον Τυρσηνὸν ἐν Λαμητίαις/δίναισιν οἰκήσουσι Λευκανῶν πλάκας."

[380] Arist. *Pol.* 7.10 (1329b).

[381] *Schol. ad Lyc. Alex.* 1083: "Μέμβλητος· Μέμβλης ποταμὸς Ἰταλίας πλησίον τῶν Λευκανῶν οἵτινές εἰσιν ἔθνος Ἰταλίας."

[382] La Greca, 242.

Nestor's Pylians supposedly established themselves in southeastern Lucania at Metapontum.[383] According to legend he had already survived the area as an Argonaut while returning home. We must also mention here that the eighth-century cup of Nestor, one of the earliest examples of Greek script—and the first allusion to Homer—was discovered in southern Italy.[384] Though Nestor and his Pylians are certainly fictional, there is a kernel of truth in the account: we have already noted that this passage really refers to the Lucani, and not the Oenotri.[385] This myth alludes to the real expulsion of the Lucani from the Metapontine region.

II. The Greek Settlement of Magna Graecia and its Impact on Lucania

There are myriad debates about why the Greeks established colonies, a topic far outside the scope of this study. We are concerned, however, with the ramifications of Greek colonization on Lucania and the Lucani. The secondary literature on each Greek city of southern Italy is vast, especially with respect to the archaeological sphere; thus, it is not the purpose of this study to examine each polis in detail. My purpose here is to offer some new observations of relationships of select poleis *vis-à-vis* the Lucani by

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[383] Str. 6.1.15.

[384] P.A. Hansen, ed., *Carmina epigraphica Graeca saeculorum VIII-V a.Chr.n.* (Berlin: W. de Gruyter, 1983), no. 454; R. Arena, ed., *Iscrizioni greche archaiche di Sicilia e Magna Grecia,* vol. *iii: Iscrizioni delle colonie euboiche* (Milan: Cisalpino-Goliardica, 1994), no. 2; S. Colvin, ed., *A Historical Greek Reader: Mycenaean to the Koiné* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2007), no. 25. See also Dench, 33-4; G. Buchner and C.F. Russo, "La coppa di Nestore e un'iscrizione metrica da Pitecusa dell'VIII secolo a.C.," *Rendiconti: Accademia nazionale dei Lincei, classe di scienze morali, storiche e filologiche* 10 (1955): 215-234; Meiggs and Lewis, no. 1.

[385] See Chapter 2, p. 40 ff.

drawing primarily on the literary evidence.

The Greeks found portions of the coast occupied when they began colonizing Italy and Sicily in the eighth century BC, though the Lucani seem to have settled the interior more than the coast at the time.[386] These colonies became successful fairly rapidly; Siris was known to Archilochus, and Sybaris quickly became a byword for luxury. At one point this city controlled not just its immediate coastal territory, but extended its reach deep into interior Lucania (we recall Strabo's reference to its tributary tribes), and also much of the Paestan plain.[387] It is possible that the Greeks violently displaced some of these coastal tribes, while intermixing with and exploiting others.[388] On the other hand, as Guzzo notes, the initial survival of these colonies almost mandates some kind of good relations on a broad scale with their neighbors.[389] In the interior, the picture is similar: Greeks and Lucani fought at times, but distanced economic interaction was the norm; there is no evidence of Lucanian displacement. The late-fifth/early-fourth

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[386] J. Boardman, *The Greeks Overseas*[4] (London: Thames and Hudson Ltd, 1964), 161-198; A.J. Graham, "The Colonial Expansion of Greece," *Cambridge Ancient History*[2], vol. 3, pt. 3, ed. J. Boardman and N.G.L. Hammond (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1982), 109-113; A.J. Graham, "The Western Greeks," *Cambridge Ancient History*[2], vol. 3, pt. 3, ed. J. Boardman and N.G.L. Hammond (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1982), 169-186; T.J. Dunbabin, *The Western Greeks* (Oxford: The Clarendon Press, 1948), 23-47, 146-170; J. Bérard, *La colonisation grecque de l'Italie méridionale et de la Sicile dans l'antiquité: l'histoire et la légende* (Paris: Presses universitaires de France, 1957), 186-223; Bérard, *L'expansion*, 69-80; 114-126.

[387] Str. 6.1.12; Heurgon, *Rise of Rome*, 86 ff.

[388] J.P. Morel, "Greek Colonization in Italy and the West," in *Crossroads of the Mediterranean*, ed. T. Hackens, N. D. Holloway, and R. Holloway (Providence, Rhode Island: Brown University, Center for Old World Archaeology and Art, 1983), 124-6; J. de la Genière, "The Iron Age in Southern Italy," in *Italy before the Romans: The Iron Age, Orientalizing, and Etruscan Periods*, ed. D. and F. Ridgway (London: Academic Press, 1979), 87.

[389] P.G. Guzzo, "Greci e indigeni in Magna Grecia," in *Antiche genti d'Italia*, ed. P.G. Guzzo, S. Moscati, and G. Susini (Rome: Edizioni de Luca, 1995), 30-1; B. D'Agostino, "Il processo di strutturazione del

century BC poet Metagenes details how the rivers Crathis and Sybaris brought abundant provisions from the interior down to the Greeks, and though he does not specify the Lucani (in fact, he seems to be omitting them intentionally), they clearly are the provenance of these goods.[390] Archaeology confirms that the Lucani exploited natural lines of communication between interior sites such as the Vallo di Diano with the Palinuran promontory (Velia and Scidrus) and Heraclea.[391] Likewise, since most (if not all) of these Greek cities were founded essentially next to Lucanian settlements, which became the cities' *chorai*, cultural and political interaction between Lucani and Greeks was the norm.[392] We now turn to consider some of these cities individually.

A. Poseidonia

It is nearly impossible to separate the great debate on the Lucanian invasion of the fifth century BC from the history of Poseidonia.[393] As we have seen, the literary sphere provides no evidence for such an event, as Strabo alone documents a Lucanian attack and

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politico nel mondo osco-lucano. La protostoria," in *Annali di istituto universitario orientale. Sezione di archeologia e storia antica*, vol. 9 (Naples: Istituto Universitario Orientale, 1987): 39.

[390] Metagenes, Fr. 6 (=Athen, VI, 269f): "ὁ μὲν ποταμὸς ὁ Κρᾶθις ἡμῖν καταφέρει/μάζας μεγίστας αὐτόματος μεμαγμένας,/ὁ δ' ἕτερος ὠθεῖ κῦμα ναστῶν καὶ κρεῶν/ἐφθῶν τε βατίδων εἱλυομένων αὐτόσε./τὰ δὲ μικρὰ ταυτὶ ποτάμι' ἐνμεντευθενὶ/ῥεῖ τευθίσιν ὀπταῖς καὶ φάγροις καὶ καράβοις,/ἐντευθενὶ δ' ἀλλᾶσι καὶ περικόμμασιν,/τῇδὶ δ' ἀφύαισι, τῇδε δ' αὖ ταγηνίαις./τεμάχη δ' ἄνωθεν αὐτόματα πεπνιγμένα/εἰς τὸ στόμ' ᾖττει, τὰ δὲ παρ' αὐτὼ τὼ πόδε,/ἅμυλοι δὲ περινέουσιν ἡμῖν ἐν κύκλῳ."

[391] J. de la Genière, "Ricerca di abitati antichi in Lucani," *Atti e memorie della società Magna Grecia* 5 (1964): 129-138.

[392] Wonder, "Paestum," 36-101.

[393] St. Byz. Ethnica s.v. Poseidonia: "Ποσειδωνία, πόλις Ἰταλίας. τὸ ἐθνικὸν Ποσειδωνιᾶται καὶ Ποσειδώνιος."

occupation of the city, and his account is riddled with errors.[394] Likewise, his claim rings hollow when compared to the archaeological evidence. The site has been excavated thoroughly (this is not a case of *argumentum ab ignorantia*), but there is simply no destruction layer, or any other evidence of a major invasion.[395] Agricultural practices experienced no significant change, but rather Lucanian farmers appear to have integrated rather smoothly into the Greek system.[396] The Greek cults of Poseidon, the Dioscuri, Dionysus, Artemis, and Apollo continued.[397] Likewise, the supposed interruption of coinage c. 400 has not been substantiated sufficiently to be attributed to some violent conquest, as scholars still debate various aspects of this break, including how long it even lasted.[398] The survival of Poseidonian coins from this period makes even this theorized interruption questionable.[399]

It is unlikely that Strabo labored hard to collect and compare various sources for accuracy. Nor should we expect of him the kind of source verification and fact checking

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[394] Str. 6.1.3: "οἱ δὲ Λευκανοὶ τὸ μὲν γένος εἰσὶ Σαυνῖται, Ποσειδωνιατῶν δὲ καὶ τῶν συμμάχων κρατήσαντες πολέμῳ κατέσχον τὰς πόλεις αὐτῶν."

[395] *Contra* Chiranky, 25-7, damage to the Heraion, and the use of its parts for the foundation of new buildings, does not presume a Lucanian invasion at the end of the fifth century. The Heraion cannot be equated with Poseidonia itself; like most temples in the ancient world, it was relatively independent, a must for the particularizing Greeks. For this separation, see Napoli, *Il museo di Paestum*, 48. Exactly who damaged the Heraion could be anybody: Greeks fought Lucani, Lucani fought Lucani, and Greeks fought Greeks.

[396] Wonder, "Paestum," 42-6.

[397] F. Ghinatti, "I culti greci di Paestum," in *Scritti in onore di Carlo Diano* (Bologna: Pàtron, 1975), 184-5.

[398] Wonder, "What Happened," 44, n. 19; Kraay, 187, who minimizes the significance of the interruption.

[399] For Poseidonian coins from this period, R. Cantilena, M. Pellegrino, and M. Satriano, "Monete da Poseidonia-Paestum: Trasformazione e continuità tra Greci, Lucani e Romani," *Annali istituto italiano di numismatica* 46 (1999): 26-8.

that we expect of a Thucydides.[400] Second, for this material Strabo utilized Antiochus (fifth century), who was little concerned with Magna Graecia. Strabo's own Hellenic bias also remains a prime culprit. He saw Magna Graecia as a fallen area, with a once glorious past. The barbaric Lucani must have had a hand in its deterioration, and this bias hindered him from critically evaluating the little evidence available to him. Looking on Poseidonia from his first-century vantage point, Strabo saw a city with a Greek, a Lucanian, and even a Roman element; it is unsurprising that he found the barbarians responsible for its deterioration.

The Velian Greeks fought both the Lucani and Poseidonia. Some argue that this documents two separate conflicts, the first of which took place in the fifth century, before the supposed Lucanian occupation.[401] Others see this as one war pitting Velia against both the Poseidoniates and Lucani, assuming that Velia's extensive fortifications are evidence of Velian terror at the Lucanian invasion.[402] This does not take into account the realities of Magna Graecia.[403] It is historically inaccurate to see the whole region as consumed by some we-they siege mentality of "Greek versus barbarian". Greeks feared and fought Greeks regularly. No doubt they feared the Lucani, too, but to look to the

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[400] Pearson, *Greek Historians*, 18: "Strabo does not seem to have a wide-ranging acquaintance with Greek literature, and it is much easier to believe that he learned about the opinions of Antiochus [via Polybius and a few other sources critical of Antiochus] than that he had access to the actual text of a little-known early historian."

[401] Chiranky, 20-21; E. Lepore, "Elea e l'eridità di Sibari," *La Parola del Passato* 21 (1966), 257-8, 263; F. Sartori, "Riflessioni sui regimi politici in Magna Grecia dopo la caduta di Sibari," *La Parola del Passato* 23 (1973), 143-4.

[402] For Velia's fortifications, see M. Miller, *Befestigungsanlagen in Italien vom 8. bis 3. Jahrhundert vor Christus* (Hamburg: Kovač, 1995), 278-9.

[403] Chiranky, 22.

Velian fortifications as specifically targeting the Lucani ignores the whole political-military picture of Magna Graecia.

What Strabo leaves unsaid is perhaps as interesting as his account. Strabo clearly distinguishes between Lucani and Poseidoniates here. Invasion theorists must suppose *a priori* that this means that the war took place before the Lucani supposedly conquered Poseidonia. Alternatively, the Lucani long had been part of the city, which was significantly different from the rest of the Lucani. Also, Strabo mentions that the Lucani conquered Poseidonia's allies. Chiranky argues that Velia (by presuming that the Velians fought the Poseidoniates before the Lucanian invasion), Pyxus, Scidrus, and Laos were allies.[404] Unfortunately, the evidence for this point is abysmal. No source mentions such an alliance.[405] Pyxus, he notes, shows some coinage with Sabellian names *Statius* and *Opsidius*, but fusion/infiltration is an equally valid explanation.[406] The Campani certainly coined in the Greek vein. The sources are almost completely silent on Scidrus, except for its existence. As for Laos, we do not even know exactly where the city lay; the only extended literary account of Laos is Diodorus's treatment of the Thurian disaster in

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[404] Almost nothing is known about Scidrus; see St. Byz. *Ethnica* ad v. Skidros: "Σκίδρος, πόλις Ἰταλίας. τὸ ἐθνικὸν Σκιδρανός, ὡς Λύκος ἐν τῷ περὶ Ἀλεξάνδρου." Herodotus (4.20) states that Scidrus (and Laos) received some of the survivors from Sybaris after its destruction in 510 BC. It is possible that Scidrus was founded not long after Laos and Poseidonia (late sixth century BC), since the Greeks tended to colonize in waves (e.g. Naxos and Syracuse in the eighth century).

[405] One likely ally to the Poseidoniates are the Serdaioi, who used the former as guarantors to their treaty with Sybaris.

[406] Chiranky, 23; B.V. Head, *Historia Numorum; a Manual of Greek Numismatics*, New ed. (Chicago: Argonaut, 1967), 83-4.

389.[407] The city had some kind of Lucanian element by the early fourth century, but establishing it as overrun by Lucani is impossible without further evidence.

Is there an alternative explanation for the Lucanian experience in Poseidonia, and indeed for the other Greek cities of the Tyrrhenian coast? Clearly Poseidonia maintained some kind of Hellenic character, while admitting a large Sabellian element. The fourth/third-century Pseudo-Scylax very specifically lists Poseidonia among the Greek cities up and down Lucania.[408] This does afford room for a Lucanian-Hellenic composite of government, or at least population, but not for a completely overrun barbarian city. While his sources predated the mid-fifth century, he would not have omitted a Lucanian conquest, nor would he have labeled Poseidonia Greek had the Lucani annihilated the Greek population (though Scylax, or his sources, may certainly have painted a more "Hellenized" picture of the city's character in his day).

Horsnaes has documented some of the ways that the Lucanian element changed the look of the city by their influence.[409] This process occurred throughout Italy, and most everywhere that the Greeks expanded. Frequent intermarriage led to a gradual transformation of the original colonial population.[410] Some city-states made laws trying

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[407] Diod. Sic. 14.101-2.

[408] Scyl. 12-: "ΛΕΥΚΑΝΟΙ. Σαυνιτῶν δὲ ἔχονται Λευκανοὶ μέχρι Θουρίας. Ὁ πλοῦς δέ ἐστι παρὰ Λευκανίαν ἡμερῶν ς′ καὶ νυκτῶν ς′. Ἡ δὲ Λευκανία ἐστὶν ἀκτή. Ἐν ταύτῃ πόλεις εἰσὶν Ἑλληνίδες αἵδε· Ποσειδωνία, Ἐλέα, Λᾶος Θουρίων ἀποικία, Πανδοσία, Πλατεεῖς, Τερίνα, Ἱππώνιον, Μέσμα, Ῥήγιον ἀκρωτήριον καὶ πόλις."

[409] H. Horsnaes, "Urbanization in Northwestern Lucania," in P. Attema, *Centralization, Early Urbanization and Colonization in First Millenium BC Italy and Greece*, pt. 1 Italy (Leuven: Peeters, 2004), 97-120.

[410] Salmon, *Making*, 17, mentions the adoption of coinage and weights and measurements as other examples of fusion.

to limit the practice, or perhaps modified tradition so as to downplay its significance, which attests to its prevalence.[411] We recall the numerous stories, almost certainly grounded in truth, about the Phocaeans settling in Massilia, in which the oikist first marries the local chief's daughter, and, presumably the rest of the citizens follow suit.[412] Campania provides an even better example. Eventually the Samnites took possession of the cities of Campania through violence (c. 421)—but this was against Sabelli who already had taken the reins of the city.[413] In the sixth and fifth centuries these Sabelli had entered the city governments and culture, and had melded with the Greek population. Infiltration would be too strong a word; integration and fusion work better.[414] They were subjugated by those who were technically closer in relation to them than the Hellenic peoples with whom they had fused. Even Tarentum, staunchest of the Italiote city-states, had partially barbarized by the third century BC.[415]

Many scholars see the famous Paestan Tomb of the Warrior as evidence of the Lucanian conquest.[416] But these paintings fit a long-time Lucanian presence just as well,

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[411] E.g. Locrian fusion with the Sicels in Polyb. 12.5-6.

[412] Ath. 13.576; Justin. 43.3.4-13.

[413] Wonder, "What Happened," 40; G. Pugliese Carratelli, "Napoli Antica," *La Parola del Passato* 7 (1952): 254.

[414] *Contra* Dunbabin, 188. For fusion (both cultural and demographic) between Greek colonies and indigenous peoples ("mixed settlements"), see Graham, "Colonial Expansion," 156-7.

[415] Florus 1.13.6; Justin. 20.1.6-15. See Salmon, *Making*, 186, n. 74.

[416] I use the terms "Paestan" or "Paestum" instead of "Poseidonian" or "Poseidonia" when referring to tomb painting in this city following accepted practice, even though the latter would be more correct. Wonder ("Paestum," 7-8; "What Happened," 40, n. 1) argues that the city was named Paestum before 273, judging from coins inscribed "Paistano" dated to the end of the fourth century. However, we cannot know if "Paiston/Paestum" was used earlier, when these paintings were executed.

if not better. It is no wonder that Poseidonia, dominated by the Lucanian elite, perhaps now at the end of the fifth century exalted the position of the mounted warrior in a tomb. The slow transformation and "Lucanianization" suits a fusion/domination model much better than a conquest model, which would see a rapid transformation in the art of the area.[417] At least one art historian notes that the measured change of tomb painting at Poseidonia fits a process of gradual fusion between the Greek and Lucanian citizens far better than a violent conquest: "*Non vi fu... una vera conquista lucana con le armi, ma una penetrazione graduale di elementi lucani....*"[418]

We may suppose that interaction with the Poseidoniate Greeks began as early as its settlement by Sybaris (late seventh century BC). The mouth of the Sele was very fertile land, and its coastal location was attractive. Sybaris established Poseidonia at a site with no natural defenses, unlike most every other Greek colony; thus, we can presume that they expected relations with the neighboring Lucani to be relatively peaceful. A constant influx of Lucanian workers, traders, and especially nobles began to blur these two peoples.[419] A Lucanian element obtained some kind of foothold in Poseidonia, perhaps through trade or landed wealth, perhaps amplified by some kind of crisis among the Greeks; political disagreements and depopulation facilitated matters. The Lucanian elites, ever watchful for a chance to extend their influence, provided a measure of stability in exchange for a greater share of power, just as happened in

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[417] Chiranky, 26; see his note 79 for bibliography.

[418] F. Noviello, *Storiografia dell'arte pittorica popolare in Lucania e nella Basilicata: Cultura figurativa popolare* (Venosa: Edizioni Osanna, 1985), 40.

[419] Lucanian Mercenaries: Lepore, "Elea e l'eredità di Sibari," 264.

Campania. Perhaps this Lucanian element ultimately usurped power violently, which troubled the city for a time; but this was commonplace among the Italiote poleis, and certainly does not indicate invasion. After this usurpation, the Lucanian and Greek elite lived more or less in harmony in what Wonder calls "a symbiotic relationship."[420] These Lucanian-Greek relations are, in fact, not surprising at all. But, the Lucanian element in power would demarcate, to our Greek sources, a "Lucanian city"—even despite the very Hellenic city façade.

This explains the absence of a destruction layer at Poseidonia, and at every other Greek polis on the Tyrrhenian coast: there was no siege and conquest. Greek coastal and polis sanctuaries saw uninterrupted use, though they were occasionally troubled.[421] Certainly the Lucani did fight these cities at times, just as they fought among themselves. However, due to trade, friendships, political relationships, and more, the Lucani obtained a foothold in some of these cities, a foothold which eventually flourished into a new kind of Sabellian-Hellenic city. Society in Poseidonia and elsewhere on the Tyrrhenian coast probably changed only very slowly, and to no great extent with the dominance of the Lucanian elite.[422] Numismatic changes in the area just as easily document a political/cultural fusion explanation as they do a violent takeover.[423] In fact, Lucanian-

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[420] Wonder, "What Happened," 41; 45.

[421] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 104.

[422] Chiranky, 25-6; 78-9.

[423] Chiranky, 24; 122; Head, 81-2; Ciaceri, *Storia della Magna Grecia*, vol. 2, 398; F. Sartori, "Rapporti delle città italiote con Atene e Siracusa dal 431 al 350 a.C.," *Atti dell'istituto veneto di scienze, lettere ed arti. Classe di scienze morali, lettere ed arti*, vol. 132 (Venice: Presso la sede dell'istituto veneto, 1973-1974), 626-7.

Paestan red-figure ware may have originated with migration from Sicily, which indicates openness to Greek immigrants as opposed to hostility.[424] Economically, there is no evidence of a disruption of trade at Poseidonia. Culturally, the Lucanian presence did not signal a major decline in cultural productivity on the Tyrrhenian coast. The Lucani upheld, and indeed contributed to, the cultural achievement of Poseidonia.[425]

B. Velia[426]

Strabo implies that Velia was a purely Greek city, which the Phocaeans founded (as Herodotus described).[427] However, the literary evidence varies on this point. After the exiles from Ionia had divided at Marseilles and the combined Carthaginian and Etruscan navies had driven them from Corsica, they found a place to settle in coastal Lucania; however, we may deduce from the words of Herodian that the Lucani (whom he labels Oenotri) had already settled the site.[428] Strabo believes that Velia "held its own" against the Lucania and Poseidoniates. After all, Velia defeated a host larger in both

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[424] Wonder, "What Happened," 43.

[425] The sanctuary at Macchia di Rossano di Vaglio also indicates Lucanian-Greek cultural fusion: see Chiranky, 25, n.75-6.

[426] See Hdt. 1.163-167 for the account of the Phocians' wanderings and eventual settlement at Velia; cf. Amm. Marc. 15.9.7. La Greca, 190, drawing on Isidore 15.1.63, thinks Marseilles serves as a model by which to understand Velia because of their shared Phocaean origin.

[427] Str. 6.1.1.

[428] Hdn. *General prosody* 3.1 p. 255: "καὶ Θυέλα πόλις Οἰνωτρίας, ἐν ᾗ μοῖρα Φωκαέων ᾤκησεν, ὡς Ἡρόδοτος πρώτῳ." Cf. Hdn. *General prosody* 3.1 p. 284: "Ἑλέα πόλις Ἰταλίας. ἐκαλεῖτο δὲ Ὑέλη. ὠνομάσθη δὲ Ἑλέα ἀπὸ τοῦ παραρρέοντος ποταμοῦ." Note that Hecataeus's list (fr. 64-71; 89; 160, drawn from the twelfth-century Stephanus Byzantius) of interior Oenotrian cities does not preclude the existence of Tyrrhenian Oenotrian (i.e. Lucanian) sites. Cf. St. Byz. *Ethnica* ad v. Siberine.

territory and more populous, the Velians were well-governed (*εὐνομηθῆναι*), and, unlike the barbaric Lucani (and Poseidoniates, whom we see here as quite distinct from the Lucani), Velia had wise philosophers like Parmenides and Zeno to bolster them intellectually.[429] Despite these boasts, Velia may have had a greater Italian element than Strabo wished to admit. While the Lucani never overran the city militarily, it may not be a coincidence that he fails to include Velia in his own list of cities that resisted Samnite (i.e. Lucanian, in his mind) expansion.[430] Velia may have assimilated an indigenous goddess as their Athena.[431] We even find at Velia an Oscan inscription from around the third century BC.[432] Perhaps Velia, too, could not resist the infusion of Italian traders, elites, and everyday people, and became a very diverse city, much like Wallace-Hadrill's picture of Pompeii in the sixth and second centuries BC.[433] Yet Velia maintained a thick Hellenic tradition toward which Greek and Roman authors looked fondly, if incorrectly.

C. Pyxus

We know little about the settlement of Pyxus; we may suggest an early Lucanian

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[429] See Str. 6.1.1; Lepore, "Elea e l'eredità di Sibari," 257-8; 263, for a discussion of philosophy's role (in Strabo's mind, at least) in Velia's victory.

[430] Str. 6.1.2: "νυνὶ δὲ πλὴν Τάραντος καὶ Ῥηγίου καὶ Νεαπόλεως ἐκβεβαρβαρῶσθαι συμβέβηκεν ἅπαντα καὶ τὰ μὲν Λευκανοὺς καὶ Βρεττίους κατέχειν τὰ δὲ Καμπανούς, καὶ τούτους λόγῳ, τὸ δ' ἀληθὲς Ῥωμαίους...." See E.Lepore, "Elea e l'eredità di Sibari," *La Parola del Passato* 21 (1966): 255-78.

[431] Lomas, *Western Greeks*, 130. For doubts on the fusion between Greek and Italian divinities, see G. Pugliese Carratelli, "Santuari estramurani in Magna Grecia," *La Parola del Passato* 17 (1962): 241-3.

[432] *tLu* 15: "[-. p]úmpunis". The -ú- demonstrates that this inscription came after the Oscan spelling reform of the third century BC; since the script is Oscan and not Latin, the date must not be very late.

[433] A. Wallace-Hadrill, Unpublished oral presentation, J. Paul Getty Museum (2008).

or Chonian settlement of the same or similar name, near the future Greek settlement. Its history involved numerous resettlements (at least three in the historical era), so the site may have been disadvantageous. Diodorus Siculus mentions that one Micythus resettled it in 475 BC.[434] We must note how unlikely it is that the Greeks would resettle Pyxus (which has no special military justification) during the supposed fifth century Lucanian invasion. In the early second century BC the Romans resettled Pyxus once again with their own colony of Buxentum; unfortunately, that failed, too.[435] The Romans felt it necessary to try again a decade later; Livy mentions that even a trick to lure colonists there could not make the project viable.[436] The colony eventually faded into oblivion. It is also of interest that Stephanus Byzantius, drawing on the sixth/fifth-century BC Hecataeus of Miletus, mentions one Pyxis, an interior city of the Oenotri.[437] Pyxus/Buxentum is certainly not an interior city, and coastline shift seems insufficient to explain the word "*μεσογαίῃ*." Stephanus's next entry, the Sicilian city Pyxous, names a Micythus, so perhaps these two entries both point to the actual Pyxus/Buxentum.

D. Laos

The lack of source information on Laos is one of the more lamentable losses of Lucanian history. The exact site is unknown, though Marcellina is the likeliest

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[434] Diod. Sic. 11.59.4; cf. Str. 6.1.1.

[435] Liv. 32.29.3-4.

[436] Liv. 34.42.5-6; Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 62.

[437] St. Byz. *Ethnica* ad v. Puxis/Puxous: "Πύξις, πόλις ἐν μεσογαίῃ τῶν Οἰνώτρων. [Ἑκαταῖος Εὐρώπῃ.] τὸ ἐθνικὸν Πύξιος. Πυξοῦς, πόλις Σικελίας, κτίσμα Μικύθου. ὁ οἰκήτωρ Πυξούντιος."

candidate.[438] Its history is also only sparsely attested. Herodotus tells us that Laos was originally a Sybarite colony, as was neighboring Scidrus (both of which cities harbored the refugee Sybarites in 510 BC when Croton destroyed Sybaris).[439] In 389 BC the Thurini fought the Lucani in the vicinity of the city unsuccessfully, with tremendous losses. Diodorus refers to Laos as Lucanian, though he may have used the term strictly geographically; when it "became Lucanian," if at all, is unclear.[440] Quite possibly we have the same situation at Laos as at Poseidonia, where it is something of a misnomer to call Poseidonia "Lucanian" after the Lucanian dominion, for a significant Greek presence remained. Pugliese-Carratelli draws attention to a Greek inscription at Laos showing Hellenized (abbreviated) Oscan names in the accusative, which may be a curse on the new Lucanian rulers by a disaffected Greek.[441] Some coins from Laos bear the Oscan names ΣTA and OΨI.[442]

It is unclear how long Laos endured. Herodian (second century AD) implies that the city was still around in his day, but Pliny is explicit that Laos was abandoned by the

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[438] B.Moliterni, "Laos: fiume e città nella « Geografia » di Strabone," in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania*, vol. 74 (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 2007), 5-29.

[439] Hdt. 6.21. See also Diod. Sic. 12.9.1-10.3.

[440] Diod. Sic. 14.100.5-102.3; St. Byz. *Ethnica* ad v. Laos; Apollodorus Gramm. fragment 112: "Λᾶος, πόλις Λευκανίας. Ἀπολλόδωρος ἐν τῷ Περὶ γῆς δευτέρῳ. See R. Pierobon, "Strabone VI.I.1 (C253) e la tradizione su Laos fino alla battaglia del 389 a.C.," in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania*, vol. 49 (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1960), 71-95.

[441] E. Greco and P.G. Guzzo, eds., *Laos II: La tomba a camera di Marcellina* (Taranto: Istituto per la storia e l'archeologia della Magna Grecia, 1992), 17.

[442] Hands, 168.

first century AD.[443] Perhaps Laos was still sparsely populated, but this did not meet Pliny's qualifications for what constitutes an *oppidum*.

E. Thurii

Thurii is a special case, as the one polis that does seem to have had perennial friction with the Lucani, who eventually at the very least plundered the city during the transition to Roman rule. We will discuss Thurian relations further in Chapters 4 (classical Greece) and 5 (Rome).

F. Metapontum

Metapontum's history is terribly muddied, especially with respect to its Lucanian element.[444] Croton and Sybaris (both Achaean) settled Metapontum as early as the late eighth/early seventh century BC, very near Italian settlements (the Metapontine *chorai*).[445] The archaeological evidence indicates Greek/Lucanian interaction as early as the seventh century BC, revolving around an apparently prosperous *emporion*.[446] Our

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[443] Hdn. *General prosody* 3.1 p. 109: "ἔτι καὶ Λ ᾶ ο ς ποταμὸς καὶ πόλις Λευκανίας. Ἀπολλόδωρος ἐν τῷ περὶ γῆς δευτέρῳ." Plin. *HN* 3.5.72: "proximum autem flumen Melpes, oppidum Buxentum, Graeciae Pyxus, Laus amnis. fuit et oppidum eodem nomine."

[444] For bibliography on Metapontum, see J. Carter, *The Chora of Metapontum* (Austin: University of Texas press, 1998); G. Pugliese Carratelli, "<<Siris>> e Metaponto," in *Storia della Basilicata*, vol. 1, ed. G. de Rosa and A. Cestaro (Rome: Gius. Laterza & Figli, 1999), 183 ff.

[445] D. Adamesteanu, "Indigeni e Greci in Basilicata," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 32.

[446] M. Castoldi, "La Ceramica con Decorazione 'A Tenda' dell'Incoronata (Metaponto)," in *Studi e ricerche archeologiche in Basilicata*, vol. 4 (Milan: Istituto Editoriale Cisalpino-La Goliardica, 1984), 11-6; F.G. Lo

literary sources paint a confused mythological picture of its earliest origins.[447] Nestor's Pylians supposedly first settled there, but Strabo also speaks of the nearly-eponymous figure Metabus, famous for his exploits with the lovely prisoner Melanippe, mother of Boetus by Poseidon.[448]

Do either of these legendary accounts reflect any real event? Strabo thinks the Lucani destroyed Metapontum, although he calls them Samnites, and his chronology is unreliable; we have already seen Strabo using the same loose terminology. However, the archaeological evidence and the non-Strabonian literary evidence do not indicate that the Lucani eradicated the Greek presence at Metapontum. The (fourth-century) Metapontine helmet is evidence of Sabellian relations in unison with a Greek element.[449] And despite Livy's earlier words, he later implies that in 207 BC Metapontum was distinctly not Lucanian.[450] As we have seen with Poseidonia, trying to establish a rigid ethnic delineation for Metapontum is inherently flawed: without testimony of a clear ejection of all Greek and other non-Lucanian citizens, we must presume that Metapontum was a multifaceted city culturally, perhaps even from its inception as a Greek colony founded on or near a Lucanian settlement. It had a temple dedicated to Apollo Lukio/Lucano,

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Porto, *Civiltà indigena e penetrazione greca nella Lucania orientale*, in *Accademia nazionale dei Lincei. Monumenti antiche, serie miscellanea*, vol. 1.3 (Rome: Accademia Nazionale dei Lincei, 1973), 153-4.

[447] Pearson, *Greek Historians*, 81.

[448] Str. 6.1.15. See S. Noe, *The Coinage of Metapontum*, pt. 2 (New York: American Numismatic Society, 1984), 65-66; Hecataeus, fr. 84.

[449] Chiranky, 30.

[450] Liv. 27.51.12-13.

which strongly supports the idea of Greek-Lucanian fusion.[451] The numismatic evidence shows Metapontine coins with Greek themes and images such as Pallas in Corinthian helmet, but with the stamp ΛΟΥΚΑ or ΛΥΚ next to META.[452] We may suggest that some Lucanian elites were in control part of the time, but presumably there were Italiote families, Apulian families, and even integrated groups vying for power.[453] The political landscape probably shifted constantly, while the ethnic picture changed only very slowly. The same situation holds true during the Second Punic War: Livy mentions that Hannibal took the Metapontines and Lucani with him into Bruttium; only a varied composition of Metapontum can explain Livy's specificity between Metapontines and Lucani.

Our literary evidence indicates that Lucanian interaction with these Italiote poleis was mixed, perhaps as should be expected.[454] Horsnaes rightly emphasizes that the archaeological evidence does not even permit us to presume a Lucanian preeminence in any city except for Poseidonia.[455] At times the Lucani resorted to arms; friction with the Greeks continued for centuries up to, and after, Rome arrived. Certainly at least some Lucanian tribes capitalized on Italiote internecine warfare in the fifth century BC after the

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[451] Ferri, *Nuovi Dati*, 29. Metapontum likely also had a temple of Hera, whose cult would have accorded well with the indigenous Lucanian goddesses. On the existence of a Heraion at Metapontum, see G. Nenci, "L'Heraion di Metaponto (Plinio N. H. 14.2.9)," *La Parola del Passato* 21 (1966): 128-31.

[452] Hands, 168, who calls these "barbarous style."

[453] A. Bottini, "I popoli apulo-lucani," in *Crise et transformation des sociétés archaïques de l'Italie antique au V siècle av. J.-C.: Actes de la table de ronde organisée par l'École française de Rome et l'unité de recherches étrusco-italiques associée au CNRS (UA 1132): Rome 19-21 novembre 1987* (Paris: de Boccard, 1990), 155-163.

[454] Chiranky, 28: "All these examples are not signs of peoples who were continually at each other's throats."

[455] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 94.

destruction of Sybaris in 510 BC.[456] But the evidence does not justify blaming the fall of the Italiote poleis primarily on the Lucani.[457] Manifold reasons abound, including environmental, but particularism-driven "incessant quarrelling" must be a chief culprit.[458]

What our sources do clearly indicate is the reality of continued, intense economic and cultural interaction with the Greeks. Centuries of trade and co-dwelling in a relatively limited land area (Lucania covered approximately 14,915 km^2, roughly equal to the greater Los Angeles area's 14,353 km^2) left a deep impression on Lucanian culture. We now consider how Greek culture impacted the Lucani.

III. "Hellenization"

Scholars have spilled much ink tallying the ubiquitous evidence of Hellenization among the Lucani.[459] Archaeology documents significant two-way exchanges between

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[456] Chiranky, 65-6.

[457] Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 99: "The many changes happening during [the sixth through the early third centuries] are not disruptive, and – except for the Lucanian takeover in Poseidonia – there seems to be no reason to postulate major upheavals during this period."

[458] Salmon, *Making*, 18; F. Sartori, "Riflessioni sui regimi politici in Magna Grecia dopo la caduta di Sibari," *La Parola del Passato* 23 (1973), 121-3.

[459] On the Hellenization of the Lucani, see (most of whom presume a fifth century BC Lucanian invasion) Gualtieri, *Fourth Century*, 15; E. Lepore, "Roma e le città greche o ellenizzate nell'Italia meridionale," in *Les bourgeoisies municipales Italiennes aux IIe et Ier siècles av. J.-C.* (Naples: Centre Jean Bérard, 1983), 347-54; G. Pugliese Carratelli, "Le genti genti della Lucania antica e le loro relazioni con i Greci dell'Italia," in *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 5-12, 37-54; A. Fraschetti, "Aristosseno, i romani e la 'barbarizzazione' di Poseidonia," *Annali dell'istituto universitario orientali di Napoli* 3 (1981): 97-115; Lomas, *Western Greeks*, 34; J.G. Pedley, *Paestum. Greeks and Romans in Southern Italy* (New York: Thames and Hudson, 1990), 97-112. For Southern-Italian cultural fusion in general, see Dunbabin, 171-193.

the interior and the coast as early as the mid-seventh century.[460] In the sixth century the local peoples seem to have adopted Greek-inspired customs based on social hierarchy such as wine drinking at symposia. And we have already seen extensive evidence of Lucanian familiarity with Greek, which the Lucanian magistrate Nummelos employed when he dedicated his Serra di Vaglio fortifications in the fourth century BC.[461] But new voices have risen, like Emma Dench and Andrew Wallace-Hadrill, questioning the value of the term "Hellenization," and whether it matches reality on the ground.[462] It forces all other cultural practices to revolve centripetally around the Greek axis, a presupposition that we should discard. Second, it does not allow for any understanding of the fusion or collision of cultures, whereby something new develops, neither Greek nor Lucanian, as at Poseidonia, and which happened to one extent or another all over southern Italy.[463] In the face of the archaeological record and the literary sources, we can no longer see Hellenic culture advancing monolithically across the landscape.[464]

A. Lucanian Uniqueness within Greek Practice

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[460] Gualtieri, *Fourth Century*, 16ff.

[461] M.T. Manni Piraino, "Iscrizioni greche di Lucania," *La Parola del Passato* 23 (1968): 451-57.

[462] E. Dench and A. Wallace-Hadrill, Unpublished oral presentations, J. Paul Getty Museum (2008). For important methodological caveats regarding the study of Hellenization, see C. Gallini, "Che cosa intendere per ellenizzazione. Problemi di metodo," *Dialoghi di Archeologia* 7, no. 2 (1973): 177-8.

[463] E. Curti, E. Dench, and J.R. Patterson, "The Archaeology of Central and Southern Roman Italy: Recent Trends and Approaches," *The Journal of Roman Studies* 86 (1996): 182-3; 188.

[464] P.A.J. Attema, ed., *Centralization, Early Urbanization, and Colonization in First Millenium B.C. Greece and Italy* (Leuven: Peeters, 2004), viii: "This is a scenario in which the Greeks are assigned a much humbler historical position thna is usual in more traditional studies. The Greeks would have acquired hegemonic power only in the course of the sixth c. BC, not through destruction of the indigenous villages..., but in a more peaceful process."

The Lucani adopted many Greek practices, the most obvious being the Tarentine script, unlike some other Sabellian peoples of the area, who adopted an Achaean alphabet.[465] Lucanian red vase ware certainly looks Greek—modern scholars have a difficult time distinguishing between the two.[466] Lucanian and Paestan painters like the renowned Asteas and Python frequently employed Greek mythological images such as Pandora and the Maenads.[467] Nor can we forget the famous, beautiful "Crown of Armento," apparently the product of a Lucanian parvenu artist/dedicator who desperately wanted to imitate Greek practice.[468] The "barbarians" also explored other media: a Lucanian bronzer proudly signed his name on (and dedicated) a fourth-century statue at Rhodes: "ΒΟΤΡΤΣ ΛΕΥΚΑΝΟΣ ΕΧΑΛΚΟΥΡΓΗΣΕ."[469] Lucanian sculptors at Rossano di Vaglio from the third century BC possibly emulated a Tarentine artist when they created their beautiful atlantes sculptures.[470] Interior Lucanian habitations show Greek

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[465] Rix, "The Pre-Lucanian Inscriptions of Southern Italy," 144-54; G.F. La Torre, "Greci ed indigeni tra Lucania e Calabria in eta arcaica. Nuovi dati e prospective di ricerca lungo il versante Tirrenico," in *Atti della pontificia accademia romana di archeologia. Rendiconti 1991-1991*, vol. 64 (Tipografia Vaticana, 1994): 28-31.

[466] D. Yntema, *The Matt-Painted Pottery of Southern Italy* (Utrecht: Drukkerij Elinkwijk B.V., 1985), 466.

[467] *Contra* Wonder ("What Happened," 42) who argues unpersuasively that these painters were Greeks. For Asteas, Python, and other Lucanian/Paestan painters and ceramists, see Noviello, 28 ff.; A.D. Trendall, *South Italian Vase Painting* (The Trustees of the British Museum, 1966), 14-9; A.D. Trendall, *Red Figure Vases of South Italy and Sicily* (London: Thames and Hudson, 1989), 198-206; Napoli, *Il museo di Paestum*, 104-7.

[468] For a thorough analysis of this piece, see A. Lipinsky, "La Corona Votiva Aurea da Armento," in *Antiche civiltà lucane. Atti del convegno di studi di archeologia, storia dell'arte e del folklore. Oppido Lucano: 5-8 Aprile 1970* (Galatina: Congedo, 1975), 59-98.

[469] See P. Zancani Montuoro, "Botrys, bronziere lucano," in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania*, vol. 7, fasc. 2 (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1937), 93-104.

[470] C. Rolley, "Sculpture in Magna Graecia," in *The Greek World*, ed. G. Pugliese Carratelli (New York: Rizzoli, 1996), 377-8.

architectural influences.[471]

But the Lucani did not simply ape Greek practice.[472] They adopted Greek urban-planning styles, but modified these to suit their own tastes and needs.[473] We now know that the peoples of southern Italy did urbanize; no longer can that term apply to the Greeks alone: "...The evolutionistic approach that [has] equated 'urban' with 'civilized' and the negation 'non-urban' with 'un-civilized' or 'barbarian' must be refuted."[474] When the Lucani established a settlement at Laos, they, in fact, utilized an orthogonal plan. But

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[471] J. Carter, "Agricultural Settlements," in *The Greek World*, ed. G. Pugliese Carratelli (New York: Rizzoli, 1996), 365-6. It is also possible that Lucanian Oscan borrowed words from Greek, some of which exist today in the unique Lucanian dialect of Italian, though these borrowings are more likely the product of borrowing into Latin or even later. See G. Rohlfs, *Dizionario storico dei cognomi in Lucania : repertorio onomastico e filologico* (Ravenna: Longo, 1985), 25: "...*cáccavu* 'caldaia dei pastori' (*κάκκαβος*), *camastra* 'catena del focolare' (*κρεμάστρα*), *campa* 'bruco' (*κάμπη*), *casènteru* (con vocalismo dorico *γᾶς ἔντερον*), 'lombrico' ('budello della terra'), *scifu* 'truogolo' (*σκύφος*), *timogna* 'bica di grano' (*θημωνία*), *zilona* 'testuggine' (*χελώνη*), *zímmaru* 'il maschio della capra' (*χίμαρος*)."

[472] Maiuri, *Roman Painting*, 17.

[473] Horsnaes, "Urbanization," 115: "The interesting question is not whether there are any likenesses between Greeks and Lucani in the material culture. It is more important to discuss the differences. The city plan, the use of coins, and the use of Greek iconography are all practical arrangements that can easily be taken over from another culture. But the fundamental ideology of the Lucanians would not be changed that easily. I believe it is possible to decode the meaning by studying differences. An important issue is the sanctuaries. As we have seen there are no Italic sanctuaries in the Archaic period. The evidence for cult emerging in the fourth century is mainly in the form of votive deposits and bothroi. ...I think it is important that when the idea of houses for the gods and for the cult finally entered the Lucanian culture, the buildings were made in the image of Lucanian houses, not Greek temples. ...The archaeological material of Northwestern Lucania indicates the almost contemporary arrival at the coast of several cultural groups that can generally be grouped under two headings: Greek and indigenous. The groups developed alongside, and although it is clear that the different communities were in contact, the development did not take parallel course. ...In the fourth century the newly founded Lucanian city Laos was as urban as the formerly Greek—now Lucanian—Poseidonia, and the similarities between the cities are no coincidence. But they are not identical. The Lucani made a conscious selection of Greek elements and took over whatever was useful to them. The Lucanian urbanization process was therefore an autonomous development, inspired by Greek ideas, but not a copy of the Greek city."

[474] Horsnaes, "Urbanization," 97; M. Kleibrink, "Towards an Archaeology of Oinotria, Observations on Indigenous Patterns of Religion and Settlement in the Coastal Plain of Sybaris (Calabria)," in *Centralization, Early Urbanization, and Colonization in First Millenium BC Italy and Greece*, pt. 1 (Italy), ed. P. Attema (Leuven: Peeters, 2004), 29-30.

while using a Greek system, the Lucani decided to relocate the urban center; in the hinterland they lived in scattered settlements.[475] At Poseidonia they continued using temples, but also settled the *chora* districts, which is distinctly un-Hellenic.

This unique "Lucaninity" is especially true in art. Numerous beautiful pieces of engraved amber dating from the fifth century BC have been discovered throughout the region, and Lucanian jewelry, though certainly drawing on some Greek mythological themes, is, nonetheless, distinctly different.[476] More importantly, the Etruscans at Pontecagnano had long before introduced tomb painting to the Lucani, but the Greeks brought vase painting.[477] They taught the Lucani the art of portraying humans—and gods—in action, but the contexts are uniquely Lucanian.[478] We find springs, boxers, duels, chariot races, and returning warriors populating the walls of Paestan tombs. Apart from floral motifs of the first half of the fourth century, all these images represent a distinctly Lucanian worldview. Paestan painting is not entirely Greek, nor perfectly Lucanian—it is an amalgamation of both, which indicates (as even invasion-theorists concede) not a constant environment of hostility, but the fusion of two worlds, Italiote and Lucanian.[479] And Lucanian painters capitalized on increased demand for Greek

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[475] Gualtieri, *Fourth*, 27.

[476] A. Lipinsky, "Le ambre italiche in Lucania. Origini, vie commerciali e centri di lavorazione dell'ambra nel meridione," in *Studi lucani e meridionali*, ed. P. Borraro (Galatina: Congedo, 1976), 45-68; P.G. Guzzo, "Oreficerie dalla Lucania antica," *Bollettino Storico della Basilicata* 10 (1994): 25-48.

[477] For the Etruscan presence in interior Lucania, see B. d'Agostino, "Il mondo periferico della Magna Grecia," 223.

[478] Horsnaes, *Northwestern*, 86; 105.

[479] A. Bottini, "I Lucani," in *Magna Grecia: Lo sviluppo politico, sociale ed economico*, ed. G. Pugliese Carratelli (Milan: Electa, 1987), 269-70; D. Adamesteanu, "'Poleis' italiote e comunità indigene," in *Magna*

wares by producing their own high-quality Lucanian red ware.[480]

B. "Lucanianization"

This process did not ignore the Greeks—as Dench notes (speaking specifically of the Samnites), "Hellenization" is a two-way street. Italian peoples like the Lucani did not passively undergo Romanization or Hellenization, but used the interchange of culture to their advantage.[481] Close connections between Greeks and Lucani, who mingled extensively in southern Italy, created a highly heterogeneous ethnic and cultural picture "on the ground." The quality of Lucanian and Bruttian coin images makes distinguishing them from Greek runs possible only from the inscription.[482] Italiote Greek nobles shored up their population losses in cities like Poseidonia and Metapontum through intermarriage with Lucanian nobles; the waning Pythagorean sect did the same. A very sarcastic letter from the first-century AD mystic Apollonius of Tyana laments that the Ionians (and he may mean all the Greeks) have rejected their noble past by dropping "...the names of heroes and sea-captains and legislators, [but] now bear names such as

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Grecia: Lo sviluppo politico, sociale ed economico, ed. G. Pugliese Carratelli (Milan: Electa, 1987), 124; Trendall, *South Italian Vase Painting*, 9-13.

[480] Yntema, *The Matt-Painted Pottery of Southern Italy*, 471; A. Pontrondolfo, "La ceramica lucana a figure rosse," in *I Greci in occidente. Greci, Enotri e Lucani nella Basilicata meridionale*, ed. S. Bianco *et al.* (Naples: Electa Napoli, 1996), 206-14.

[481] Dench, 218. Horsnaes, *Cultural*, 132: "The notion of an indigenous area becoming increasingly Hellenized cannot be upheld."

[482] Hands, 184: "It is evident that the Bruttii employed Greek artists to engrave their dies, and the art is as good as that in the cities of the Greeks at that period." Scheu, 67, believes that Bruttian coins are of superior workmanship to Lucanian issues.

Lucullus and Fabricius and the names of other fortunate Lucani."[483] Exiled Greek politicians sought assistance and refuge amongst their Lucanian friends. The Lucani were even so bold as to claim that Homer was a Lucanian.[484] They had the audacity to stake claim on such a "Hellenic" concept and institution, one of the very foundations of Greek culture. The Lucani saw no artificial disjuncture between the Greek Homer and their own "Lucaninity".

Conclusion

When dealing with the earliest Lucanian-Greek interaction, we must rely heavily on Homeric epic and other mythological accounts for our information. Pushing past the fiction, however, we see that many of these stories contain a kernel of truth about the earliest history of the Lucani. This typically involves the Greek colonial expeditions of the eighth century on, and the expulsion of the coastal Lucani, though the myths add the flair of a *nostos* hero defeating the surrounding enemies and establishing a Greek kingdom (which are really the Italiote poleis). The standard interpretation of Lucanian-Greek interaction is that the Lucani swept in and crushed cities like Poseidonia, but this explanation is no longer satisfactory. After analyzing these Italiote cities individually, we found that the literary sources corroborate what the archaeological evidence indicates:

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[483] Epistle of Apollonius of Tyana 71: "οα'. Ἴωσιν. Ἕλληνες οἴεσθε δεῖν ὀνομάζεσθαι διὰ τὰ γένη καὶ τὴν ἔμπροσθεν ἀποικίαν, Ἕλλησι δ' ὥσπερ ἔθη καὶ νόμοι καὶ γλῶττα καὶ βίος ἴδιος, οὕτω καὶ σχῆμα καὶ εἶδος ἀνθρώπων. ἀλλ' ὑμῶν γε οὐδὲ τὰ ὀνόματα μένει τοῖς πολλοῖς, ἀλλ' ὑπὸ τῆς νέας ταύτης εὐδαιμονίας ἀπολωλέκατε τὰ τῶν προγόνων σύμβολα. καλῶς οὐδὲ τοῖς τάφοις ἐκεῖνοι δέχοιντ' ἂν ἅτε ἀγνῶτας αὐτοῖς γενομένους, εἴ γε πρότερον ἡρώων ἦν ὀνόματα καὶ ναυμάχων καὶ νομοθετῶν, νυνὶ δὲ Λουκούλλων τε καὶ Φαβρικίων καὶ Λευκανίων τῶν μακαρίων. ἐμοὶ μὲν εἴη μᾶλλον ὄνομα Μίμνερμος."

[484] Suid. s.v. Homeros 11-18.

through a gradual process of infiltration and fusion (as happened in late-fifth-century Campania), the Lucani established a significant presence at least in Poseidonia, if not in many other Italiote poleis. The political picture in these cities varied over the generations, as did the cultural "face": Lucanian particulars fused with Greek to make something new. In the next chapter, we will continue to analyze the literary sources for evidence of Lucanian-Greek interaction through the Hellenistic period.

Chapter 4: Lucania and the Greeks in the Greek Classical and Hellenistic Periods

We have already examined the evidence of pre-historical, i.e. mythological, interaction between the Greeks and the Lucani; now we turn to the fifth century and the historical period. This was a period of great transformations in Lucanian society, and in southern Italy as a whole.[485] External forces, whether Spartan *condottieri* generals or Roman armies from the north, encroached on the territory of the Lucani, who struggled to remain independent, even while slowly adapting to the cultures that they were resisting militarily. The literary evidence for Lucanian-Greek interaction in this era is much greater, and far more reliable; thus we can develop a more accurate picture of Lucanian history for this period. We have already seen that the Lucani were long-time inhabitants of the area, and that a fifth-century BC Lucanian invasion is no longer tenable.[486]

Our first glimpse of the Lucani in the classical period actually centers on a Lucanian tribe, the Bruttii. Diodorus Siculus mentions that the Sybarite exiles, sometime after the destruction of their city in 510 BC, settled on the Traïs River, but were later destroyed by the Bruttii, who were then simply a tribe of the Lucani.[487] There are some problems concerning Diodorus's dates, however. Titus Menenius and Publius Sestius Capitolinus were consuls in 452, but the closest Athenian, Lysimachides, was archon in

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[485] For a narrative history of Lucania during the Classical and Hellenistic periods, see Magaldi, 91ff.; for the general history of Southern Italy in this period, see N. Purcell, "South Italy in the Fourth Century B.C.," *Cambridge Ancient History*^{2}, vol. 6, ed. D.M. Lewis *et al.* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1994), 381 ff.

[486] Chiranky, 19: "Very little evidence survives concering Lucanian advances against the coastal colonies of the Greeks. So little information is available, in fact, that one cannot even say with certainty that the Lucani were the aggressors and the Greeks the victims."

[487] Diod. Sic. 12.22; Kraay, 180.

445/444. This is a glaring discrepancy, and greater accuracy seems impossible. Regardless, as early as the mid-fifth century BC we can see tribal individuality in the sources—here the Bruttii seem essentially autonomous.

We have already examined the sixth book of Strabo, and have rejected his account of the supposed violent conquest of Poseidonia in the fifth century. But what of Polyaenus and Frontinus?[488] Neither documents a Lucanian invasion of Magna Graecia. There is no question about a war between one Greek city-state and at least one Lucanian tribe, but that is a far cry from a Lucanian invasion. However, Polyaenus and Frontinus certainly do document an invasion, involving Lucani, in fact a pattern of invasions. From the fifth to the third centuries a succession of Greek generals led armies into Lucania, typically at the behest of the Tarentines who felt threatened by their barbarian neighbors.

I. *Condottieri*[489]

The Tarentines repeatedly clung to this policy throughout the next 200 years, mostly to their own detriment. Presumably Tarentum paid these men handsomely, but beyond enrichment these generals hungered for glory. Many of these men were disaffected Spartan kings, or figures with few hopes for political advancement; thus, they acted essentially as independent mercenary generals, for which reason scholars designate

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[488] Poly. 2.10.4; Front. *Strat.* 2.3.12.

[489] For a discussion of the *condottieri*, see Purcell, "South Italy," 389-394; P. Wuilleumier, *Tarente des origines a la conquete romaine* (Paris: E. de Boccard, 1939), 81-98 (excluding Pyrrhus); E. Ciaceri, *Storia della Magna Grecia*, vol. 3 (Milan: Albrighi, Segati & c., 1932), 1-36; G. Brauer, *Taras: Its History and Coinage* (New York: Aristide D. Caratzas, 1986), 68-73 regarding numismatics; for chronological problems, see C.A. Giannelli, "Gli interventi di Cleonimo e di Agatocle in Magna Grecia," *Critica Storica* 13 (1974): 353-80; Pallottino, *A History of Earliest Italy*, 120-4.

them *condottieri* to distinguish them from traditional generals and armies fighting on behalf of a state.

Strabo lists Archidamus, Cleonymus, Agathocles, Alexander Molossus, and Pyrrhus as foreign generals whom the Tarentines summoned against the Lucani, and the geographer confirms the general evaluation of these mercenaries: they were all bad for Magna Graecia.[490] None were ultimately successful, neither for themselves, nor for Tarentum. Two died in action. They did not find the glory that they sought, except perhaps Pyrrhus, but his success did not come from the Lucanian quarter. Tarentum fared even worse. The *condottieri* policy seems to have been a great failure built on alarmism. Let us examine each of these *condottieri* to see how their presence influenced both the Italiote Greeks and the Lucani. This analysis will take us through 150 years of arguably the most turbulent and yet transformative years in Lucanian history.

A. Cleandridas, First *Condottiere*

The obscure Cleandridas was the first foreign general to fight the Lucani. Plutarch tells us that he was advisor to the young Spartan Agiad king Pleistanax, and Sparta banished the two around 445 BC for allegedly accepting a bribe from Pericles to call off an attack on Attica in the First Peloponnesian War. Cleandridas received a death sentence *in absentia*; he took the opportunity to go to Thurii and offer his services.

Frontinus praises Cleandridas's brilliant generalship in outflanking the Lucani.[491]

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[490] Str. 6.3.4.

[491] Front. *Strat.* 2.3.12.

He drew up his troops in close array, so as to present the appearance of a much smaller army. Having put the enemy off guard, when the engagement began he opened up his ranks, enveloped the undisciplined "barbarians," and routed them. We can infer much about the Lucani from this account. It appears that they did not fight in phalanx formation; this is fascinating considering how many other things the Lucani had borrowed from the Greeks, such as the alphabet, pottery styles, and aspects of their armament (including the Corinthian helmet style).[492] Polyaenus, drawing on Frontinus, also depicts Cleandridas as a paragon of brilliant generalship, especially in his campaigns against the Lucani. (Cleandridas delivered a piece of gnomic wisdom to the Thurini, which almost ensures that here, too, he was speaking of the Lucani.)[493]

The Lucani return, and Cleandridas defeats them again. Contrary to some, the second attack is not indicative of a Lucanian invasion. Polyaenus's account implies immediacy after the first attack: this is on the tactical level. After victory Cleandridas leaves, as every other future *condottiere* would. Their efforts seem to be more resigned than preemptive, an acceptance of the Lucani as troublesome neighbors who would have to be beaten back from time to time. This mentality portrays a status quo, indicative of a long-time presence of the Lucani.

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[492] A. Bottini, ed., *Armi: Gli strumenti della guerra in Lucania* (Bari: Edipuglia, 1994), *passim*. See also P.D. Emanuele, "Armour and Weapons from Pre-Lucanian Basilicata" (PhD diss. University of Texas at Austin, 1982), *passim*.

[493] Polyaen. *Strat.* 2.10.2;4-5. Cf. Polyaenus, *Excerpta Polyaeni*, 17.2.

B. Dionysius the Elder[494]

The bold ambitions of Dionysius the Elder, tyrant of Syracuse, made the already turbulent Magna Graecia a hotbed of conflict in the early to mid-fourth century BC. Diodorus Siculus documents an important episode in the history of the area, in which Dionysius allied with the Lucani against the Italiotes.[495] He must have seen in the former more than just a wave of barbarian hordes that would distract the Italiotes, and especially the Thurini.[496] Furthermore, *contra* Montuoro, Dionysius's alliance does not mandate seeing the Lucani as possessing some kind of national conscience, apart from a very general acknowledgment of the kinship of all Lucani.[497] The Lucani used the *touto* federated system for centuries, and had certainly developed the ability to make collective decisions and alliances with external groups. Plus, this was a time of war: it is very likely that the Lucani had elected a king to lead them, which simplified the process.

The extent to which the Lucani had adopted Greek culture facilitated Dionysius's interaction with them. Presumably the language of statesmanship was Greek, which we know some, if not many, Lucani adopted. Dio Chrysostom speaks of a Lucanian

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[494] Dionysius of Syracuse does not fall under my previous definition of *condottiere*, but I include him here to maintain chronological order. For the tyrranies of Dionysius and his son, see D.M. Lewis, "Sicily, 413-368 B.C.," *Cambridge Ancient History*^{2}, vol. 6, ed. D.M. Lewis *et al.* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1994), 123-155.

[495] See G. Tagliamonte, *I figli di Marte*, 135-9; G. de Sensi Sestito, *La Calabria in età arcaica e classica: storia - economia - società* (Rome: Gangemi, 1984), 103-21; M. Lombardo, "La Magna Grecia dalla fine del V secolo a.C. alla conquista romana," in *Magna Grecia: Lo sviluppo politico, sociale ed economico*, ed. G. Pugliese Carratelli (Milan: Electa, 1987), 60.

[496] Ciaceri, *Storia della Magna Grecia*, vol. 2, 413-4.

[497] Z. Montuoro, *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 63.

ambassador to Syracuse whose command of Greek enchanted his Hellenic audience.[498] In amazement the Syracusans gave the Lucanian money to erect his own statue. We must use care with this story, as it reflects heavily on the Celtic Favorinus (second century AD), the teacher of Aulus Gellius, who is thought to be the real author of the speech (in sections 25-26 the "Lucanian" orator calls himself a Roman); Favorinus, quite proud of his Greek tongue, made a great stir at Rome. Be that as it may, we have enough other evidence of Lucanian-Greek interaction to support the general veracity of the account. This must be just one of many Lucani who learned to speak Greek, and well—one wonders how many sought enrichment among Italiote assemblies after this speaker's success. The commonality of bilingualism is implied in the narrator's remarks: he has assimilated not merely the language, but also Greek culture in general.[499]

Dionysius dealt with other non-Greek peoples, including the Apulii, Illyrii, and Veneti. Yet he had a great respect for the military prowess of the Lucani, judging from his decision to isolate Calabria by wall.[500] Ever the shrewd politician, Dionysius's real motives aimed at dominating the Italiote poleis. However, despite this pretext, he no doubt would have profited *vis-à-vis* the Lucani by this wall. The Italiotes had navies by which they could easily bypass such a measure, but he could repel the Lucani with it. Presumably at this time some element of the Bruttian Lucani already lived in the toe (we recall that the Bruttii destroyed the remnants of Sybaris on the Traïs before this), and he

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[498] Dio Chrys. *Orat.* 37.24-27.

[499] J.N. Adams, *Bilingualism and the Latin Language* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2003), 9-18; 148-50.

[500] Str. 6.1.10.

thus knew something of the trouble that they might cause.

This passage also shows the fear that the Lucani did generate among the Italiotes, reinforced by the disaster of the Thurini at Laos (389 BC). The Italiotes made a pan-Italiote alliance against the Lucani (and Dionysius), and the punishment for failing to assist other Greek states in the event of a Lucanian invasion was death.[501] They even established a common *sunedrion* for the alliance (of unknown location, though possibly the Heraion at Lacinia).[502] The difference in language of the Italiote opinion toward the Lucani and Dionysius is also interesting. The goal of the Italiote alliance was to *ἀντιτάξεσθαι* (oppose) their Lucanian neighbors. But for Dionysius they thought they could *ῥαδίως ἀμυνεῖσθαι*, easily ward him off. In this they were very mistaken; Greek individualism led once more to the defeat of a single state, when unity probably would have served them all.[503]

The Thurini prematurely marched out alone against the Lucani; 10,000 died, and more would have had the Syracusan admiral Leptines not acted quite uncharacteristically for an enemy and rescued them from this disaster. Dionysius later reprimanded and exiled him, though the Italiotes commended him—no doubt the terror of death at the hands of the Lucani cemented Leptines's generosity in the minds of the Thurian

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[501] Diod. Sic. 14.91.1.

[502] For arguments in favor of Hera Licinia as the seat, see Chiranky, 331-3. Hera Lacinia was important to Italians: see Lomas, *Western Greeks*, 129; De Sensi Sestito, "La funzione politica dell'Heraion del Lacinio," 45-50.

[503] Diod. Sic. 14.101.1-102.3. Chiranky, 282 ff., shows convincingly that this battle is not an ahistorical doublet with Diod. Sic. 14.103-105, *contra* M. Sordi, "Dionigi I e gli Italioti," *Aevum* 52, no.1 (January-April 1978): 1-16.

survivors.[504] Thurian brashness had serious implications not only for that polis, but perhaps even for the free Italiote poleis as a whole: Thurian absence (having lost 10,000 soldiers to the Lucani around Laos) at the battle of the Elleporos river may have cost the Italiotes the victory against Dionysius I; this defeat marks the beginning of the decline of the Italiote poleis.[505]

Diodorus illuminates a much better reason than ethnic strife for a Thurian attack on Laos: its prosperity. No doubt the partial, if not majority stake that the Lucani had in the city played a role in the Thurian decision, too; but we cannot simply look at this conflict and presume a Greek-versus-barbarian lineup. Indeed, in this very war the Lucani were allied to Dionysius of Syracuse. We have already seen that Poseidonia was neither a purely Greek nor Lucanian city. It is possible that the "pure" Lucani were in alliance with quasi-Lucanian Laos, and saw a perfect opportunity to crush the Thurini, whom they continued to fight often during the next two centuries.

Leptines dealt with the Lucani directly. Besides the presumption of using Greek as the language of diplomacy, we can assume that the Lucani were familiar with

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[504] On Leptines's ransoming, see Pearson, *Greek Historians*, 185 n. 94: "This must at one time have been a conventional rate, since Aristotle gives it as an example of custom... (Eth. Nic. 5.1134b). Actual rates seem always to have been higher, for example, two minas in Hdt. 5.77 and 6.79, even ten minas, as agreed between Demetrius Poliorcetes and the Rhodians (Diod. 20.84). More could be asked for individuals, e.g. 26 minas in [Dem]. 53.7. Prisoners of war and persons kidnapped by pirates might owe their release to public-spirited individuals who advanced the money either as a loan or a free gift, cf. M. Rostovtzeff, *Social and Economic History of the Hellenistic World*[2] (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1963), 202, 1364-65 (n. 24, n. 26). No other example is known to me of a person or organization lending or guaranteeing the money in the hope of profiting by the transaction, advancing the money as a business venture, not an act of chairty. But this must be what Diodorus means... (102.3)."

[505] Chiranky, 306. For a brighter picture, see F. Sartori, "Le città italiote dopo la conquista romana," in *La Magna Grecia nell'età romana atti del quindicesimo convegno di studi sulla Magna Grecia, Taranto, 5-10 ottobre 1975* (Naples: Arte Tipografica, 1976), 109.

traditional Greek ideas of heralds, embassies, treaties, and the like. It is also interesting that the Lucani agree to a ransom per person, perhaps revealing a knowledge of the economic value of slaves in the Mediterranean world. We can also make a few observations about Lucanian military advancement, and culture. First, we see them employing the brilliant tactic of a classic feigned retreat (was this an original idea, or had the Lucani learned it from their interaction with the Greek world?). Related to this is the excellent coordination between the Lucanian attack on the Thurini and the arrival of Dionysius. We should also note a relatively high ratio of cavalry to infantry (4,000 to 30,000), which seems difficult for a people whose domain had such a low percentage of flat land. Additionally, this account confirms our archaeological data, which indicates that the Lucani were skilled at constructing defensive fortifications; here they have built a fortress (*phrourion*).[506]

C. Dionysius II

We hear nothing more of Lucanian relations with Dionysius the Elder throughout the rest of his life. 359-8 BC finds his son Dionysius the Younger at war with the Lucani, according to Diodorus; one of Plato's letters may even hint at it.[507] The timeframe of Plato's attempt to reconcile Dion and Dionysius II indicates that this war is, in fact, that

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[506] For Lucanian fortifications in the Roccagloriosa region, see M. Gualtieri, "Fortifications and Settlement Organization: An Example from Pre-Roman Italy," *World Archaeology* 19, no. 1 (June 1987): 31-9. In general, see R. Sconfienza, *Fortificazioni tardo classiche e ellenistiche in Magna Grecia: I casi esemplari nell'Italia del Sud* (Oxford: British Archaeological Reports, 2005), *passim*.

[507] Diod. Sic. 16.5.1-2. Cf. Plat. *Epistles* 3.317A; Plut. *Dion* 16.4-5.

waged against the Lucani.[508]

Diodorus does not specify whether Dionysius II began this war, or if he had inherited it from his father. On the one hand, it is unlikely that the shrewd Dionysius I would have opened another front against a different enemy while at war with his most hated foes, the Carthaginians. On the other hand, Dionysius I had ulterior motives: as we saw earlier, a war with the Lucani could justify building a wall by which he could isolate the Italiotes. The responsible Dionysius brilliantly used a long-standing antipathy among the Italiotes against the Lucani to afford cover for his enterprise, which sounds like the shrewd Elder tyrant. Furthermore, the resources for such a wall seem to belong to the latter years of the Elder, after he had secured his financial future with his monopoly on the Adriatic Sea. The second or third-century AD historian Justin remarks that Dionysius I made war on the Italiotes' neighbors.[509] Justin does not specifically mention the Lucani here, but "*quibus [Graecis] devictis finitimos quosque adgreditur*" likely refers to them, the Bruttii, and/or the Messapii.

Yet a careful analysis also reveals a likely motive for Dionysius II opening a war against the Lucani. Justin states that the Lucani were at war with the Locrians, and Dionysius II saw a chance to assist the Locrians against their barbarian neighbors.[510] He may have done so altruistically, or to secure good will among the Italiotes, or both. Ironically, it was only a few decades earlier that his father had allied with the Lucani in

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[508] Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 30-4.

[509] Justin. 20.1.1-5.

[510] Justin. 21.3.2-3.

war against the Italiotes states like Locri. Also of interest is the fact that Locri is so far south on the peninsula, in traditionally Bruttian lands. In fact, this seems related to Dionysius's second reason: internal Lucanian dissension. It is only three years later that the Bruttian tribe broke off from the Lucani, so presumably some kind of political trouble was already brewing. Dionysius capitalized on an excellent opportunity; he was successful for a short time against the Lucani, but nothing lasting seems to have come of it (unless we suppose that his goal was the disaffection of the Bruttii to his own camp, which is entirely possible).

D. The Bruttian Schism

In 356 BC the Bruttii broke off from the Lucani.[511] Our literary sources, likely drawing on the fourth-century Ephorus and Timaeus, constitute some of our most extensive citations of Lucanian history. The (probably Bruttian) decision to make war on Locri, and Dionysius II's war on the Lucani, may have exacerbated relations between the Lucani and the Bruttian tribe of the Lucani, if not being a cause for the break off. Justin parts from his narrative to explain that the Bruttii, the shepherd-slaves of the Lucani, made war on their masters, and then everyone else in the region. Dionysius II, tiring of their depredations, tried to stop them, but the Bruttii defeated these troops with the help

[511] See Napoli, "Rapporti," 61-9; Tagliamonte, *I figli di Marte*, 122-3; A.J. Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 2 (London: Oxford University Press, 1965), 93-4; G. de Sensi Sestito, "I due Dionysii e la nascita della confederazione brettia," in *I Brettii. Vol. 1, Cultura, lingua e documentazione storico-archeologica: Atti del 1° corso seminariale, Rossano, 20-26 febbraio 1992*, ed. G. de Sensi Sestito (Catanzaro: Soveria Mannelli, 1995), 33-71; Lombardo, 73-4.

of a woman Bruttia. Thus, they established their independence.[512]

This passage contains much valuable information, not only on the Bruttian schism, but on the customs of both the Bruttii and the Lucani themselves. The greater context of Justin's account (the late fourth century invasion of Italy by Agathocles, tyrant of Syracuse, and *condottiere*) also reveals something of the Bruttii and Lucani.[513] His first target was the Bruttii, who at that time seemed the "bravest and most powerful people." He met with some initial success, but ultimately failed.[514] Diodorus hints at Sicilian designs on glory through conquest over the Bruttii, and perhaps the Lucani.[515] This fragmentary account also mentions Bruttian fortification knowledge, and even Syracusan political ties with the Bruttii, who were angry that Agathocles had executed the mutinying Etruscan and Ligurian mercenaries, presumably because the Bruttii feared that Agathocles would not pay them, too. As we have seen with Dionysius the Elder and elsewhere, such Lucanian/Bruttian-Greek connections were not uncommon in southern Italy.

Justin tells us that the Bruttii were ready to attack anyone, and had already conquered many Italiote cities; this must include the aforementioned attacks on Locri. They even had the audacity to defeat their progenitors, the Lucani. We see here for the

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[512] Justin. 23.1.1-17.

[513] See Wuilleumier, 91; 96-7; C.A. Giannelli, "Gli interventi di Cleonimo e di Agatocle in Magna Grecia," *Critica Storica* 11 (1974), 370-80; G. Tagliamonte, *I figli di Marte,* 155; K. Meister, "Agathocles," *Cambridge Ancient History*^{2}, vol. 7, pt. 1, ed. F.W. Walbank *et al* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1984), 405-8. Cappelletti (*Lucani e Brettii*, 90-104) believes that Agathocles and the Bruttii originally had good relations, but which soured.

[514] Diod. Sic. 21.3-8.

[515] Diod. Sic. 21.2.1-2.

first time the fantastic story about the creation of the Bruttii. Despite minor variations, the kernel is consistent throughout all of our sources: some group of Lucanian-Bruttian tribesmen, typically of ill repute, detach from their Lucanian masters and begin plundering the countryside, eventually distinguishing themselves in war and declaring their own independence.

Strabo locates the Bruttii on the Calabrian peninsula south of a Laos-Thurii line, a practice that modern scholarship continues.[516] Furthermore, Strabo (drawing on Antiochus) and Aristophanes provide a nice chronological *terminus post quem* for the Bruttian schism.[517] Well aware of the historical and cultural differences between the Lucani and Bruttii, Strabo playfully mocks Antiochus's simplistic and inaccurate knowledge of the situation. The Bruttii could not have been independent by Antiochus's traditional *floruit* of 420 BC. Second, Aristophanes (d. 386 BC) used the term *Brettioi* decades before the schism: "they speak with the terrible black tongue."[518]

Strabo calls the Lucani indulgent masters, which may be a euphemism for a situation in which the Bruttian tribe of the Lucani had already long lived in the southern "toe" of Italy and were essentially autonomous, but only after an extended period of time formalized their independence. He confirms his date for the separation, when Dio made his expedition against Dionysius the Younger (357/6 BC). Strabo even drops a hint that

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[516] Str. 6.1.4; cf. 6.1.2.

[517] See also Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 38-9.

[518] Aristophanes, fr. 629; St. Byz. *Ethnica* ad v. Brettos: "οἱ οἰκοῦντες Βρέττιοι, καὶ ἡ χώρα Βρεττία καὶ ἡ γλῶσσα. Ἀριστοφάνης 'μέλαινα δεινὴ γλῶσσα Βρεττία παρῆν.'"

the Bruttii, and perhaps the Lucani, may have played some unknown role in this event, "which aroused all people against all people." This would not be surprising given the previous Lucanian connection and alliance with Dionysius the Elder against the Italiotes.

Strabo also believes that the Bruttii revolted from their masters the Lucani, who then labeled the schismatic people "brettii" from their word for revolter.[519] This is most likely a bit of Lucanian anti-Bruttian propaganda circulated at that time. After losing the Bruttii, the Lucani probably attacked the former in their stories and history to justify the loss—they had shed a slavish, obnoxious, and hostile band of revolting slaves, and they were better off for it. We do have one slight allusion to the Lucani being the source of this story. Eustathius tells us that "the geographer says that the Lucani call the Bruttii apostates."[520] This implies that Dionysius Periegetes either used Lucanian sources himself, or drew upon someone who had. The Lucani may even have created, or at least promulgated, this story after the Second Punic War in order to distance themselves from the Bruttii when the latter still adhered to Hannibal, though the rebel factions of the Lucani had already capitulated.

I suggest that the Bruttian name, and how the ancient world viewed this name, offers some insight into both Bruttian and Lucanian culture. The grammarian Festus provides an interesting anecdote about the ignominy of the Bruttian name: "The people who performed the slave duties for the magistrates were called 'Brutiani', because this tribe [the Bruttii] first handed itself over to Hannibal and remained loyal to him, all the

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[519] Str. 6.1.4.

way up to the point that he left Italy."[521] The actual etymology of "Brutiani" is unknown, but they may never have escaped the initial tarnish on their name from their original revolt from the Lucani. Perhaps this term is a folk-etymology involving the (non-) Latin word *brūtus*, "heavy, dull, coarse, stupid."[522] The Italiote cities had motive to propagate this image and discredit the Bruttii, whom they feared even more than they feared the Lucani.

The Italiotes used the story to attack each other, too. Scholars have not previously noted the link between the Bruttian slave origin and the mythological foundation of Locri, in the heart of Bruttian territory.[523] Timaeus was indignant that Aristotle considered the Locrians a colony of illegitimate miscreants.[524] The association with the legendary past of the Bruttii is too close for coincidence. Perhaps the Bruttii, maligned with the reputation of illegitimacy, perpetuated the story as a slight to the Locri, with whom they fought frequently.

According to Diodorus, slaves converged from all around to form the Bruttian rebellion, developing into something of a pan-Italian slave revolt. This legendary account conceals some truth of Lucanian and Bruttian life, though it has numerous

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[520] Eust. *Commentarii ad Dionys. Perieg.* 362: "Ὁ δὲ Γεωγράφος φησὶν ὅτι Λευκανοὶ Βρεττίους τοὺς ἀποστάτας καλοῦσιν."

[521] P.F. 28.19 L: "Brutiani dicebantur, qui officia servilia magistratibus praestabant; eo quod hi primum se Hannibali tradiderant et cum eo perseverant, usque dum recederet de Italia."

[522] P.F. 28.23 L: "Brutum antiqui gravem dicebant." The word *brūtus* is probably a borrowing from Sabellian, ultimately cognate with Latin *gravis*.

[523] Pearson, *Greek Historians*, 99-100.

[524] Polyb. 12.5.4-8.

problems.[525] He lists the archon as Elpines, during the 106th Olympiad, which renders 356 BC. However, he also mentions the consuls Marcus Poplius Laenas and Gnaeus Maemilius Imperiosus, who served in 359 BC.

Few would believe the legendary story of a united slave rebellion that trains through constant plundering and warfare until it eventually gains its independence, but there is some truth behind this. One scholar sees the Bruttii as completely distinct from the Lucani, but this supposition finds no support in the literary evidence.[526] Slight linguistic differences do not substantiate ethnic differences; after all, the Lucani and Bruttii both spoke Oscan.[527] Diodorus's remarks make it clear that the term for runaway slaves (Bruttii) was derived from a Lucanian-Oscan word, and this may be accurate. Second, all the literary evidence presumes the two peoples were connected at some point. Additionally, the Lucani and Bruttii were closely knit in their later military endeavors, which would speak against a vast ethnic difference between the two. We know that the Lucani had a very liberal naturalization policy, admitting others freely to the franchise, and, by implication, their society. Perhaps remnant Chonian and pre-Sabellian elements did fuse into Lucanian society, and were admitted; but the ratio was more heavily Lucanian than not. This infusion probably transpired gradually, long before the mid-

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[525] Diod. Sic. 16.15.1-2.

[526] Chiranky, 88, argues that the term *migadon* implies a lack of "ethnic affinity between the Lucani and Bruttii," judging from certain linguistic and cultural elements among the Bruttii that show a greater affinity to Illyria and Phrygia than to the Lucani. This theory sees the Bruttii as the remnants of the Oenotri who were present before the Lucanian conquest or as a fusion of numerous pre-Sabellian people with certain Lucani.

[527] A. Prosdocimi, "'Sabinità' e (pan)italicità linguistica," *Dialoghi di Archeologia*, 3rd ser., vol. 5, no. 1 (1987): 62.

fourth century BC, and was only loosely in the Lucanian and Bruttian historical conscience. This group maintained a level of social and cultural division, which erupted in 356 BC, but was not so distinct as to override an inclination toward affiliation with the Lucani that history and geographical proximity would encourage.

Justin does not label the Bruttii shepherds, but he implies that idea later after the fifty "Bruttian founders" captured Dionysius's African troops' forts; the former make a haven to which droves of these shepherds come. Justin here introduces the eponymous and probably legendary Queen Bryttia, who betrayed the fort into their hands.[528] This is a common trope in the histories of the states of Magna Graecia, and probably in all of classical literature. In this episode she only serves as the military extension of the *femme fatale*; however, because Justin mentions that the Bruttii take their name from her, he implies that she was, in fact, something like the mother of the people, and thus their queen. Was Bruttia a real figure? The Lucani had no special queen office as far as we know (though we might hypothesize that when the Lucani elected a king in times of war his consort became queen). We should recall Penthesilea's nurse Clete, who wandered in Bruttium and founded an eponymous city there. But the lack of any reference to any other Bruttian queen makes more certainty impossible as to whether there ever was a Bruttia, or even a female royal figure in Bruttian culture.

E. Timoleon

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[528] Jordanes, *Get.* 30.156. Cf. *Glossae rhetoricae*, beta (page 223 line 16): "Βρεττηνοί: ἔθνος τι ἐν Ἰταλίᾳ συνῳκίσθη. ἔνιοι οὕτω λέ γεσθαι ὑπὸ Λευκανῶν τοὺς ἐπὶ νεωτερισμῷ συνισταμένους."

Following the Bruttian Schism, a situation developed in Magna Graecia that nearly embroiled the Lucani outside Italy. A Sabellian general named Mamercus, assisted by Carthaginian troops, sought the tyranny of Syracuse, but Timoleon, the charismatic leader of the Syracusans, thwarted him.[529] In desperation he sought the aid of the Lucani, but his own men mutinied, and Mamercus eventually died before being brought to trial at Syracuse.[530] This episode says much about Lucanian prestige in the eyes of the Greeks; clearly Mamercus, and presumably the rest of the Greeks, respected Lucanian military prowess. The Lucani already had experience interacting with Greeks in these Hellenic conflicts, so that made them appealing. While the venture failed, we see from this and earlier episodes that not only did the Greeks fear Lucanian military might (as future *condottieri* will show), but they also respected her role on the political scene.

F. Archidamus III

The next major conflict in Lucanian-Greek relations (in contrast to the daily grind of peaceful interaction at home and at market, which had gone on for centuries) is the escapade of the Spartan *condottiere* Archidamus III.[531] The great Tarentine general and Pythagorean Archytas, who had never lost a battle (presumably some of which he waged

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[529] See Tagliamonte, *I figli di Marte,* 147 ff.

[530] Plut. *Tim.* 34.

[531] For Archidamus and the succeeding Spartan *condottieri*, see Tagliamonte, *I figli di Marte,* 175-7; Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 48-55.

against the Lucani) likely had died (perhaps at sea) around 345 BC.[532] The pillar on which Tarentum had leaned was gone; at least in Strabo's eyes, from this point on Tarentum fell from good governance into the error of relying on foreign generals who did them more harm than the Lucani against whom these generals were summoned.[533]

Archidamus had had a long and respectable career as general and king, but the ascendancy of Thebes under Epaminondas left Sparta almost a relic. For unknown reasons, he decided to answer a Tarentine call for assistance against Lucanian military pressure. We can assume Sparta felt, in part, obligated to assist her most valuable and famous colony. Likely there were alternative motives, especially the possibility of enrichment by the wealthy Italiote states. He was not even the first Greek to seek his fortune at the expense of the Lucani; Phalaecus, ruler of Phocis and mercenary, had already envisioned profit in fighting them.[534] The Tarentines wisely rejected Phalaecus (the previous Phocian generals Philomelus and Onomarchus had shamed their polis through the despoliation of the oracle at Delphi), and he sailed to Crete looking for other opportunities.

Though respected as a general and a soldier, Archidamus (r. 360-338 BC) met his demise at the end of a Lucanian spear, and his venture failed miserably. We have few other details of his campaign. He died fighting the Lucani under the walls of Manduria c.

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[532] G. Urso, "La morte di Archita e l'alleanza fra Taranto e Archidamo di Sparta (345 a.C.)," *Aevum. Rassegna di scienze storiche, linguistiche e filologiche* 71, pt. 1 (January-April 1997): 70; C.A. Huffman, *Archytas of Tarentum* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2005), 20-1; P. Wuilleumier, 72-5.

[533] Str. 6.3.4.

[534] Diod. Sic. 16.61.4. See also 62.4; 63.1-2; 88.3.

338 BC; supposedly this battle coincided with Phillip's victory at Chaeronea. Plutarch says the Messapii killed him, which may suggest a pan-"barbarian" alliance of Lucani, Messapii, and Bruttii against him, but Manduria is clearly in Lucania, so Plutarch may simply be wrong.[535] We also note here an obscure reference to Archidamus that may illuminate Lucanian/Bruttian connections with the Italiotes. In the *Regum et Imperatorum Apophthegmata* of Plutarch's *Moralia* the biographer writes: "When Archidamus, the son of Agesilaus, saw a missile to be shot from an engine recently brought from Sicily, he cried out, 'O Hercules! The valor of man has perished.'"[536] It is unclear where Archidamus is thought to have said this; the reference to Sicily makes his wars of the Greek mainland against Thebes and the Third Sacred War slightly less likely than those against the Lucani and Bruttii. We see here an example of "barbarians" obtaining and employing highly technical weaponry from the Greeks in order to fight Greeks. This should not surprise us, but rather confirm what has already become clear: some Greek states happily traded and even allied with Italian peoples against other Greeks, or at least were content selling complex military equipment to them.

G. Alexander Molossus of Epirus

Sometime around 334 BC the Tarentines felt threatened yet again by the Bruttii,

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[535] Plut. *Agis* 3.3.

[536] Plut. *Mor.* Arch. "Ἀρχίδαμος ὁ Ἀγησιλάου καταπελτικὸν ἰδὼν βέλος τότε πρῶτον ἐκ Σικελίας ἀχθὲν ἀνεβόησεν 'ὦ Ἡράκλεις, ἀπόλωλεν ἀνδρὸς ἀρετά.'"

who were particularly aggressive in this era.[537] As events turned out, the Bruttii allied with the Lucani (whom they had only recently fought) and the Samnites. The Tarentines promised money and troops; Alexander Molossus, king of Epirus and uncle to Alexander the Great, accepted the invitation.[538] Livy implies that he had set his sights on Rome, perhaps to outshine his very successful nephew.[539] But a fragment of Aelian indicates that he also wished to leave Epirus in order to escape an ominous Delphic oracle that he would die near Pandosia and the Acheron River; Alexander was unaware that, like Epirus, Lucania had both a city and river of those respective names.[540] The story raises suspicion, being so similar to the Oedipal trope of running toward one's fate while fleeing it. At this point we may question the Tarentines' wisdom after the fiascoes of previous *condottieri*. But hindsight is particularly distorting here. Alexander had a solid reputation, both for regal integrity and for his military accomplishments.

We are most concerned with the Lucanian role in these affairs, as the episode reveals many aspects of Lucanian culture and history. Initially, Alexander fared well,

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[537] Justin. 23.1.1-17; E. Manni, "Alessandro Il Molosso e la sua spedizione in Italia," *Studi Salentini* 14 (1962): 344-52; Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 56-75.

[538] Justin. 17.3.15.

[539] Liv. 8.3.6. Cf. Pausanias Perieg. *Graeciae descriptio*, 1.11.7: "Ἀλέξανδρος δὲ ὁ Νεοπτολέμου, γένους τε ὢν Πύρρῳ τοῦ αὐτοῦ καὶ ἡλικίᾳ πρεσβύτερος, ἀποθανὼν ἐν Λευκανοῖς ἔφθη πρὶν ἐς χεῖρας ἐλθεῖν Ῥωμαίοις."

[540] Ael. *Fragmenta* 329: "Πυθικὸν ἦν προμάντευμα ἐν τόνοις ἑξαμέτροις, οὕτω προλέγον τὴν τελευτήν, 'Αἰακίδη προφύλαξο μολεῖν Ἀχερούσιον ὕδωρ,/Πανδοσίην θ', ὅθι τοι θάνατος πεπρωμένος ἐστί.' καὶ συνάψας μάχην Βρεττίοις καὶ Λευκανοῖς ἐπί τινι ποταμῷ, τῆς γεφύρας ῥαγείσης, τῶν προσχώρων ἀκούσας τὸν ποταμὸν ἀποκαλούντων Ἀχεροντίδα, τὴν δὲ πλησίον πόλιν Πανδοσίαν, πρὸς ὃ εἶχε λόγιον συμβαλὼν τοὺς τόπους, καὶ γνοὺς ὅτι ἄρα τὸ χρεὼν ἐκπέπληται, τότε δὴ τὸν εὐκλεᾶ πορεύεται θάνατον, καὶ ἐς μέσους τοὺς πολεμίους ὠθούμενος ἀφειδῶς, πολλὰ πρότερον δράσας, οὕτω πίπτει μαχόμενος. ἦν δὲ Ἀλέξανδρος ὁ Φιλίππου κηδεστής, Ὀλυμπιάδος ἀδελφός." Suid. s.v. tonon is a near exact copy.

defeating the Lucani and Samnites near Poseidonia.[541] This battle may be the subject of a tomb painting at Andriuolo, which shows two ranks of soldiers in a *contrapposto* pose on a plain that resembles the Silaran plain.[542] Livy dates this first battle to the consulship of Aulus Cornelius and Cneius Domitius, following the dictatorship of Publius Cornelius Rufinus, which would equate to 332 BC.[543] This Samnite-Lucanian alliance is also interesting, since the Samnites would invade Lucania just a few years later, though this is plenty of time for relations between the two to have deteriorated, especially given the political-climate changes ushered in by the Second Samnite War.[544] Interestingly, Paul the Deacon (a very late source, who drew on Livy and Tacitus, among others) throws the Apulii into the mix, who bring aid to the Lucani.[545]

Alexander may have been surprised to find the city of Paestum very different than he imagined. Wonder provides significant evidence that the city's Greek and Lucanian elite had a relatively harmonious relationship; instead of the Greeks demanding that Alexander expel the Lucanian upstarts, the two formed a united front, hoping that the

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[541] Liv. 8.17.8-10.

[542] E. Greco, "La città e il territorio: Problemi di storia topografica," in *Poseidonia-Paestum. Atti del ventisettesimo convegno di studi sulla Magna Grecia: Taranto-Paestum, 9-15 ottobre 1987*, vol. 1 (Taranto: Istituto per la storia e l'archeologia della Magna Grecia, 1988), 492. La Greca (199-200) denies this on the grounds that it refers more likely to an unknown city of Samnium, the *Plistica* of Liv. 9.21-22 in alliance with Rome that the Samnites counter-besieged while Rome besieged Saticula.

[543] Some argue for a date as early as 340, others 334 BC; see Catalano, 57-59.

[544] Orosius, who may be drawing on Livy, also mentions Samnite aid to the Lucani; however, elsewhere he has erred in some of his facts. 3.14 states that the Samnites killed Alexander, but 3.18.3 asserts that the Bruttii and Lucani defeated him.

[545] Paul. Diac. *Historia Romana* 2.8.

king would repel the Lucanian tribes of the interior.[546] It has already been established (Chapter 2) that Lucanian tribal divisions were normative; in fact, Lucanian differences would play a role in his death. We recall that the literary evidence simply states that Alexander defeated a combined Samnite/Lucanian force around Paestum; it does not specify that the king besieged the city.

Livy's continuing account of the campaign provides additional details about the Lucani.[547] Alexander next succeeded in capturing Heraclea; Cappelletti thinks from the Lucani, but the evidence for their possession of the city is skimpy.[548] Here too, like Poseidonia, he probably found a fusion of Lucanian and Greek nobles in power. We see that the political situation on the Ionian coast was very complicated. Alexander did capture some cities from the Lucani and Messapii; we look on with some surprise at the disparity in location between these two peoples. Likewise, he captured Metapontum and Consentia, which are not only quite far from each other, but Consentia falls within traditionally Bruttian territory, and Terina (which he captured from the Bruttii) is only a few miles south of Consentia.[549] Perhaps the Lucani had regained some of their territory that they had lost to the Bruttii after the schism, but this does not accord with the sources, which speak of Bruttian victories over all their neighbors in the late fourth century BC, including the Lucani. More likely, Livy is not being careful, clumping the Bruttii with

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[546] Wonder, "Paestum," 146 ff.

[547] Liv. 8.24.

[548] Cappelletti (*Lucani e Brettii*, 67) believes this the reason that Tarentum summoned Alexander.

[549] For the coins of Consentia, see Hands, 190.

the Lucani. Militarily, we see here a reference to Lucanian legions and a general, apart from their kings. This is probably Livy inaccurately applying Roman terms to an Italian people, though we may see in this the end of the Lucanian kingship, which certainly had lapsed by the Second Punic War.

Justin's account of Alexander's campaign also contributes useful information here for our understanding of the Lucani.[550] He uses the term *urbes* to describe the settlements of the Lucani and Bruttii, who apparently were civilized and ubiquitous enough to have cities. Second, the Bruttian-Lucanian dynamic is interesting. This is not long (less than thirty years) after the Bruttian schism, and now we see them working in conjunction against a foreign leader. The exact details of their relationship are not explicit, but the fact of their coordination in the face of an aggressor power makes perfect sense. Finally, the Lucani collected reinforcements "*a finitimis*": are these Campani? Apulii? Siculi? Hirpini? The remnants of the Ausones or Chones? This could even mean Italiote Greeks. Probably all of these are feasible candidates, but we can say little else.

The war dragged on, judging from Orosius's "*post numerosa et gravia bella gesta.*"[551] Alexander's campaign soon turned sour. The Lucani destroyed two of his armies, despite their significant defensive advantage on top of hills (and it is likely that it was the Lucani who defeated them, and not the Bruttii or Samnites, for Livy tells us that the Lucanian exiles communicated to "*suos*" to attack Alexander's troops).[552] Whether

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[550] Justin. 12.2.1-15.

[551] Oros. 3.14.

[552] Liv. 8.24.

this was due to low morale among the Epirotes, some tactical error, Lucanian familiarity with the area and fighting in such terrible, rainy, muddy conditions, sheer Lucanian numbers, or some combination of these is unknown. We should remember that Alexander was a very capable general, having defeated the Lucani on multiple occasions. However, in one of the most famous episodes of Lucanian-Greek conflict, Alexander was betrayed by his own hand-picked Lucanian bodyguard, dying on the banks of the Acheron River near Pandosia in Bruttium (typically dated to 331 BC, but not with consensus).[553] We have already analyzed the implications of this betrayal with respect to Lucanian tribal divisions and classes in Chapter 2; we now look at the consequences of his death for the Lucani.

H. Alexander the Great and the Lucani[554]

Justin recounts an interesting episode following the death of Alexander Molossus:

> When these events were reported to Alexander [the Great], who was in Parthia, he grieved on account of his relationship to Alexander [Molossus], and caused the army to mourn for three days. But while all his men were expecting, as if the war had been completed, to return to their country, and were embracing their wives and children in their imagination, he summoned the troops to a general assembly.[555]

Why do Alexander the Great's soldiers expect the war with Persia to be over just because

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[553] Str. 6.1.5; Oros. 3.11.1; Pausanias Perieg., *Graeciae descriptio*, 1.11.3; *Scholia in Aeschinem*, Oration 3 scholion 242.4 refers to Aeschines, *In Ctesiphontem* 242.5: "Κλεοπάτραν] Κλεοπάτραν τὴν Φιλίππου καὶ Ὀλυμπιάδος θυγατέρα, Ἀλεξάνδρου δὲ ἀδελφὴν ἔγημεν Ἀλέξανδρος ὁ Νεοπτολέμου μὲν υἱός, Ὀλυμπιάδος δὲ ἀδελφός, βασιλεὺς Μολοττῶν καὶ Ἠπειρωτῶν. οὗτος ἐν Πανδοσίᾳ Λευκανοῖς μαχόμενος ἐτελεύτησεν. ἀκούσας δὲ ὁ δῆμος ὁ τῶν Ἀθηναίων ἔπεμψε Κτησιφῶντα πρεσβευτὴν συναχθεσόμενον Κλεοπάτραν ἐπὶ τῷ τοῦ ἀνδρὸς θανάτῳ καὶ παρηγορήσοντα αὐτήν."

[554] For a general history of Alexander's life and activities, see A.B. Bosworth, *Conquest and Empire: The Reign of Alexander the Great* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1988).

Alexander Molossus died? His death was sure to have long-term consequences for the Lucani. They had preserved their sovereignty for the time being, but they rightly expected the *condottieri* invasions to continue. Before his death (323 BC), Alexander the Great probably had turned his sights toward the west, since he would have to return to Macedonia to collect a new army. Certainly Carthage had much to fear: acquiring a powerful navy would facilitate the rest of his dreams of conquest. Italy and especially Sicily were too valuable not to be Macedonian. And, of course, as a philhellene like his father, protecting (if not augmenting) the glory of Magna Graecia was a worthy cause.

The Lucani and Bruttii thus had much to fear, and they took the prudent political step of sending ambassadors to Alexander on his return to Babylon.[556] Arrian, the second-century AD historian of Alexander, certainly thought the event factual; he only qualifies the embassies of the Carthaginians with "λέγεται", and blatantly doubts just the embassy of the Romans.[557] Justin, epitomizing Pompeius Trogus (who probably drew on Timaeus as his source on Alexander) also mentions these foreign deputations to Alexander, though he does not specify the Lucani.[558] Some would look at this episode as somewhat incredulous: how would a barbarian people even know of Alexander's eastern exploits? Italian merchants were quite active in the east by the second century, and

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[555] Justin. 12.3.1-2.

[556] Arr. *Anab.* 7.15.4. The mention of Tyrrhenians seems out of place with Lucani and Bruttii. La Greca (49) suggests (convincingly) that what is meant here are not northern Etruscans but "Tyrrhenians," i.e. inhabitants of the Tyrrhenian Sea area, which really means the area around Poseidonia and the mouth of the Sele, where the Etruscans had their famous site of Pontecagnano-Faiano.

[557] Perhaps the source of this legend has confused the Romans for Etruscans: see F. Cassola, *I gruppi politici Romani nel III secolo a.C.* (Rome: "L'Erma" di Bretschneider, 1968), 40.

[558] Justin. 12.13.1-2.

perhaps sooner, especially on the islands of the Aegean; of course, Greek traders had crossed the Mediterranean for centuries.[559] The epigraphical evidence indicates that the majority of these Italian traders hailed from southern Italy.[560] Some think these Italian names in the Aegean signal the impoverishment of the Italians, but Lomas counters (convincingly) that this is, rather, evidence of economic growth in southern Italy, and not decline.[561] Regardless, the economic links between Italy and the east are clear, which the Milesians' mourning after the destruction of their wool-trade partner Sybaris in 510 BC best exemplifies.[562] It is true that this evidence comes primarily from the middle and late Roman Republic, but the activity likely had begun by the late fourth century. Thus, that the Lucani and Bruttii were aware of Alexander's conquests and his return is not surprising at all.

The Lucani and Bruttii must have expected an eventual invasion by Alexander.[563] They had interacted with the Greek world long enough to know that Sicily was a prize. Yet they had more to fear than just being in the path of the world's greatest conqueror: they had killed his uncle, mangling his body with a level of disrespect that the Greeks and Romans deplored as barbaric. Admittedly, Justin informs us that while Alexander had

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[559] J. Hatzfeld, *Les trafiquants italiens dans l'Orient hellénique* (New York: Arno Press, 1975), 18 ff. See also Brunt, *Italian Manpower*, 209-14; Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 52.

[560] Salmon, *Samnium*, 319-20; E. Badian, *Foreign Clientelae, 264-70 B.C.* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1958), 152.

[561] Lomas, *Western Greeks*, 90; see L. Moretti, "Problemi di storia tarantina," in *Taranto nella civiltà della Magna Grecia. Atti di 10° convegno sulla studi di Magna Grecia* (Naples: Arte tipografica, 1971), 45-65.

[562] Hdt. 6.21.

[563] Bosworth, 166.

mixed emotions about losing his uncle, he was glad to have been rid of a potential rival king.[564] Nevertheless, this disgrace could not have gone unpunished, though Livy considers India and Persia easy pickings in comparison with the difficult territory of Italy, with its war-like, hardy peoples, who proved too much for Alexander's uncle.[565] Surely that was sufficient reason to ensure that Alexander would invade, and the Lucani and Bruttii had heard enough of his success to know that his invasion would be far more devastating. Opening diplomatic relations and offering assurances of Lucanian friendship was only prudent.

Did the various Lucanian tribes, coastal and inland, handle the situation with Alexander differently? Put another way, did these Lucanian ambassadors represent all of the Lucanian people? It is mostly speculation. That the Bruttii, distinct at this point for only thirty years, sent an embassy to Alexander, too, does not indicate whether or not the Lucanian tribes acted in this collectively. It is unlikely that the Greek author Appian would have cared. At best we can suppose motive on the part of all the Lucani to treat with Alexander.

I. Cleonymus

Perhaps the oddest episode between the Greek *condottieri* and the Lucani is the

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[564] Justin. 12.1.5.

[565] Liv. 9.17.17. Plutarch, who may be drawing on Livy, says essentially the same in his *Mor. De fort. Rom.* (326.5).

escapade of the pretender Cleonymus.[566] He had a violent and tyrannical disposition, and Sparta needed to remove him from the city; the opportunity came when Tarentum asked once again for help against the Lucani and the Romans, who had just entered the military and political scene in southern Italy against Tarentum. This protracted conflict (roughly three decades) culminated in Roman control of all peninsular Italy. Unfortunately, Diodorus's account differs from that of Livy. Diodorus records that Cleonymus collected such a large army that the Lucani immediately made peace, and together the two armies subjugated Metapontum.[567] Livy, on the other hand, holds that Cleonymus conquered an unknown Sallentine Thurii, but then withdrew after having accomplished very little.[568] Livy mentions the consul Aemilius, who must be M. Aemilius Paullus (302 BC). But Diodorus specifies that these events concerning Cleonymus transpired the year before Aemilius was consul.[569] One of the two could be completely mistaken, but the events are so dissimilar that perhaps Cleonymus made two expeditions to Italy (303 and then in 302 BC), as at least one scholar has noted.[570] Presumably the Lucani and Romans had allied together against Cleonymus, and were not simply fighting a common foe. Some scholars find a Lucanian-Roman alliance in 303 BC too early, but Livy thought that the two

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[566] See P. Meloni, "L'intervento di Cleonimo in Magna Grecia," *Giornale Italiano di Filologia* 3 (1950): 103-21; C.A. Giannelli, "Gli interventi," 353-80; Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 75-90.

[567] Diod. Sic. 20.104.1-3.

[568] Liv. 10.2.

[569] Diod. Sic. 20.105.

[570] Pauly-Wissowa, s.v. Cleonymus.

peoples had allied over two decades earlier.[571] At this point the Lucani seem to have had quite good relations with Rome, looking to her for support against the aggressive Samnites.

The rest of Diodorus's account follows the abuses of Cleonymus. He shows himself an able mercenary general, mobilizing a massive force. Large numbers of Italiotes readily join his cause. Also of interest is his use of the Messapii: we have no other literary data in the sources suggesting strained relations between the Messapii and the Lucani, so we must presume it was out of a combination of profit and political ties, unless we suppose some kind of conflict over transhumance rights in eastern Lucania and/or northwestern Messapian territory. Regardless, Cleonymus is so effective, in fact, that the Lucani immediately make peace with the Tarentines.

Metapontum then defies him, and he convinces the Lucani to invade the city's territory with him. This is indirect evidence that at this point the Lucani did not strictly possess Metapontum; rather, perhaps a Lucanian majority had fused with the Greek elite; regardless, they were Metapontines first. The Lucani attack the *chora*, which may indicate a primary concern for plunder. The Metapontines, scared, receive Cleonymus into their city, and he proceeds to abuse them terribly (justifying their initial resistance and disdain for him). He exacts a huge tribute, and gratifies his own lusts at the expense of the city's noble hostages. He later treats Corcyra similarly. Afterward he returns to Italy to suppress a revolt in Tarentum, which at that time "the barbarians" defended.

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[571] Liv. 8.25. For Rome's 326 BC treaty with the Lucani, see Lomas, *Western Greeks*, 48; below, chapter 5, p. 202.

Diodorus does not name these, but we must presume that, due to locality, the majority must have been Messapii; however, Diodorus does note that the barbarians came from all over the region to defend him, and thus it is certainly possible that some Lucani were included in these forces. He is only finally expelled from this part of Italy after attacking an unknown Sallentine Thuriae, where more barbarians defeat him decisively; he spends the rest of his recorded days troubling Greece and northern Italy, and then drops out of the historical account.[572] This is a classic example of the danger posed to the Italiotes in summoning mercenary *condottieri*—at times they turned out to be more dangerous than the Lucani whom they were supposed to suppress (Cleandridas accomplished just the opposite: if anything he emboldened them through success and plunder).

The Tarentines turned surprisingly one last time to their *condottieri* policy in the early third century BC, despite all the pain that they had suffered at these generals' hands. Pyrrhus of Epirus, often considered the greatest general of antiquity after his uncle Alexander the Great, heeded the call; this time he would not fight the Lucani and others for the Tarentines, but rather he would fight with the Lucani and the Tarentines against Rome. This drives home emphatically that an archaic "Italiote versus Italian" dichotomy is inherently flawed. Regardless, Pyrrhus's campaigns are best left to our next chapter on this history of the Lucani in the Roman period, since Lucanian history now begins to interweave with that of Rome, irrevocably.

J. Conclusion: The *Condottieri* and the Lucani

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[572] Liv. 10.2 finishes Cleandridas's story.

How did the *condottieri* influence the Lucani? Excluding Pyrrhus, these invasions do not seem to have had much of a negative influence. The borders of Lucania were no different in 449 BC than in 300 BC (excluding the loss of Bruttium). The Lucani surely had losses in war, but that was probably nothing new. Yet the advent of Pyrrhus changed everything for the Lucani, ultimately leading to their subjugation—not by the Greeks, who brought all these generals over, but by the Romans, who capitalized in a timely fashion. As Purcell captures so pithily, concerning the history of southern Italy in this period, "the epilogue is Roman."[573]

Excluding the consequences of Pyrrhus's invasion, the Lucani may have gained much. Traditional scholarship describes these *condottieri* as making a valiant effort to rid the Tarentines of their belligerent neighbors. But we have seen very little evidence of this Lucanian belligerency, above and beyond the "normal scuffling" of the ancient world. From the Lucanian perspective, foreign invaders had tried several times to crush their independence, if not wipe them out entirely, and the Lucanian peoples had survived. Though this is unpopular, this is the Lucanian version of the Greek resistance to the oppressive Darius and Xerxes. The Lucani expelled multiple aggressor armies, and a few generals fell trying to destroy Lucanian liberty.

The period between Alexander Molossus and Pyrrhus shows extensive growth in building activity.[574] Cultural and commercial interaction between the Lucanian tribes and the Greek states seem to have improved, despite their infrequent battles. During the

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[573] Purcell, "South Italy," 402.

[574] Yntema, 151-4.

fourth century the Lucani penetrated into the innermost rings of the Pythagorean sect—befriending even Archytas the Tarentine, against whom they had made war. Likewise, in this era Lucanian nobles maintained deep connections with Italiote Greek elites. Perhaps these wars acted as a catalyst for these growing connections, which we will now examine more closely.

II. Lucanian-Greek Connections

Another goal of this thesis is to show how the Lucani, who had adopted Hellenic culture extensively, interacted with their Greek neighbors on a cultural and political level (ignoring the military aspects discussed above). Previous scholarship has not comprehensively analyzed the literary sources for these connections, instead relying primarily on the material data.[575] This is unfortunate, for we possess enough literary evidence to identify these connections, but we must cast a wide net to make a substantial case. We begin with some background observations of Greek society in general. In his *Politics*, Aristotle's polis presumes that "external neighbors" (i.e. *barbari*) will try to make inroads into the state, which must resist them. At the same time, the polis relies on this indigenous labor to function, and thus "barbarian" fusion into the state is unavoidable.[576] La Greca rightly notes that this very situation existed in Poseidonia: the Lucani interacted extensively with the Greeks, leading to the eventual Lucanian dominion

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[575] For example, see Lepore, "La Tradizione," 51.

[576] Arist. Pol. 7.10 (1330a).

over the city.[577] Aristotle's observations are a poignant reminder of the familiarity and social intimacy between Greeks and "barbarians."

A. The Pythagoreans

Turning to the Lucani, we begin with the Pythagoreans. This faction—naming it a philosophical club is too benign—played an important role in the politics of Magna Graecia in the sixth, fifth, and fourth centuries.[578] Many ancient authors laud the ability of the Pythagoreans to govern states properly, or to resist tyrants.[579] At times this faction dominated some Italiote cities. At others, it was violently persecuted, no doubt in part because of its progressive philosophical ideas, but also for its political ties.[580] Almost uniquely, the Pythagorean sect was open to non-Greeks, including the Lucani.[581] This may derive from Pythagoras traveling through Lucania, though the evidence is very limited: he is said to have captured a poisonous snake in the land of "Tyrrhenia," and a

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[577] La Greca, 43-4 (in which comments he implicitly denies a fifth-century BC Lucanian invasion).

[578] For the Pythagoreans in Magna Graecia, including some brief words on the Lucani within the sect, see C. Riedwig, *Pythagoras*, tr. S. Rendall (Ithaca, New York: Cornell University Press, 2002), 12, 104-5.

[579] On Pythagoreans governing cities properly, see, for example, Synesius Cyrenensis (Terzaghi, 1944) *Syn. Ad Paeonium de dono astrolabii* 2; Strabo 6.1.1 on Velia's resistance to the Lucani and the Poseidoniates because of its good government (from which city came Zeno and Parmenides the Pythagoreans). In traditional freedom-loving, philosopher-fashion, Zeno famously bit off his own tongue and spat it in the face of the tyrant Demylus. Other stories of anti-tyrranical behavior surround him, such as his efforts against Phalaris of Agrigento, and Nearchus: see Val. Max. 3.3, ext. 2-3, and Cic. *Tusc.* 2.7.17; 22.51; *Off.* 2.7.26; *Rep.* 1.28.44; Sen. *De ira*, 2.23.1; Heracl. Pont. frg. 37 M (In this episode he does not bite off his tongue; instead he bites Nearchus's ear); Ov. *Ibis* 439; Diog. Laert. 9.26; Suid. s.v. Zeno; Plin. *HN* 7.23; Diod. Sic. 10.18.1-6 (where Zeno bites off the ear of Nearchus).

[580] Polyb. 2.39.1-4. See also Racioppi, 254-8; Lomas, *Western Greeks,* 30.

[581] Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 18-22; A. Mele, "Pitagorismo e le popolazioni anelleniche d'Italia," in *Annali del seminario di studi del mondo classico. Sezione di archeologia e storia antica*, vol. 3 (Naples: Istituto Universitario Orientale, 1981), 61-96.

north-Etruscan trip for Pythagoras is highly unlikely.[582] Instead, scholars suppose that by "Tyrrhenia" Iamblichus is referring to the formerly Etruscan-settled Pontecagnano at the mouth of the Sele.[583] But even if this is true, we still have to acknowledge that much myth developed around him. Regardless, our information on Lucanian interaction with the Pythagorean sect after his death is much more secure. Iamblichus lists several Lucanian Pythagoreans, plus followers from Poseidonia, Metapontum, and other cities of Magna Graecia that interacted closely with the Lucani (he also includes a few out-of-place Etruscans, perhaps still ensconced near the Sele mouth); many of these names are un-Hellenic, if not outright Sabellian.[584] Porphyry lists several Lucanian Pythagoreans, too.[585] He further specifies that the barbarians who came to Pythagoras initially consisted of kings and other elites, which points strongly to Lucanian representation.[586] The presence of such royal figures implies Lucanian-Greek connections of at least some history, for it is unlikely that the Lucanian elite would leave their seats of power to flock around Pythagoras on a whim. They also had the resources and leisure time to familiarize themselves with Greek philosophy, and we can presume that they were the most Hellenized among Lucanian society.

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[582] Iamb. *VP* 28.142: "...καὶ ἐν Συβάρει τὸν ὄφιν τὸν ἀποκτείναντα τὸν δασὺν ἔλαβε καὶ ἀπεπέμψατο, ὁμοίως δὲ καὶ τὸν ἐν Τυρρηνίᾳ τὸν μικρὸν ὄφιν, ὃς ἀπέκτεινε δάκνων."

[583] Like most later sources on Pythagoras, Iamblichus is likely drawing on Aristoxenus, Dikaiarchos, and Timaeus. See K. Von Fritz, *Pythagorean Politics in Southern Italy: An Analysis of the Sources* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1940), 33 ff.

[584] Iamb. *De vita pithagorica* 36.266-7.

[585] Porph. *VP* 22.

[586] Porph. *VP* 19.

Yet Iamblichus makes clear that the Pythagoreans had not progressed beyond the construct of ethnicity, as they forbade the Lucani and other Italians to speak a foreign tongue (or even the wrong Greek dialect), for that would be "playing the *barbarian*."[587] But there was a way to overcome this natural limitation. *Paideia* is the true delineation between animal and man, *barbaros* and Greek.[588] Among the Pythagoreans the Lucani were one of the highest-represented "barbarian" groups.[589] Salmon suggests that the strong Lucanian presence among the Pythagoreans may even indicate a higher rate of literacy for them than among the rest of the Sabellian peoples, though this still would have pertained to the elite alone, and not the masses.[590]

Some "barbarians" became *akousmatikoi*, and as such did not have full rights within the group. However, other Lucani did much better, becoming not only full members, but even accomplished writers and leaders. Aisara and Polos, two Lucanian Pythagoreans, wrote on the nature of man and justice; we can presume that these writings met with at least some approval in the ancient world since they found their way into Stobaeus's anthology of the fifth century AD.[591] Our most famous example is Ocellus

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[587] Iamb. *VP* 34.241. The presence of Lucanian women (Occelo and Eccelo, sisters of Ocellus and Occilus) cannot but pique our interest further. Giliberti, 11, includes a Mia, Melissa, Mnesilla, and Teano among Lucanian female Pythagoreans.

[588] Iamb. *VP* 8.44.

[589] Diog. Laert. *VP* 8.14.

[590] Salmon, *Samnium*, 120-2: "It has even been suggested that there were schools where Sabellian scribes were taught how to master the art. The painstaking punctiliousness in spelling, word separation and general aspect of so many Oscan documents certainly indicates careful training."

[591] Stob. *Anth.* 1.49.27; 3.9.51. This latter passage may read "Ἐκκέλου" instead of "Ἐκ Πώλου " according to Mullach 2 p. 26, Harder p. 26.

"Lucanus," who supposedly penetrated into Pythagoras's inner circle, according to Lucian.[592] Very little firm information on Ocellus survives; he likely lived in the fourth century BC. Many spurious letters, works, and events were attributed to him, but even in this we can learn something about him, and perhaps Lucanian-Greek connections. Ancient writers apparently esteemed him highly for his wisdom, as none other than Plato demands to see his writings:

> Archytas of Tarentum, son of Mnesagoras (or Hestiaeus, according to Aristoxenus), was himself a Pythagorean. He is the one whose letter saved Plato when he was about to be put to death by Dionysius. He was admired by many for his virtue in all fields; he was even general of his city seven times, whereas the law excluded all others from more than one year of command. Plato wrote two letters to this man, though he first wrote to Plato in this way: "Archytas wishes Plato good health. You have done well to escape your ailment; for you yourself have written these things and a message through Lamiscus. We have attended to the memoirs and have gone up to Lucania where we found the "true progeny" of Ocellus (i.e. his writings). We got the works *On Law, On Kingship, of Piety,* and *On the Origin of the Universe*, all of which we have sent on to you; but the rest have not been possible to find; if they should be found, you shall have them." This is Archytas's letter; and Plato answered in this way: "Plato to Archytas, greetings. I was so happy to receive the memoirs that came from you, and I am very happy with the writer of them, and he seemed to me a man worthy of those ancient forbears. These men are said to have been Myrians; these were among those who emigrated from Troy in the days of Laomedon, really good men, as the story that has been handed down shows. Those memoirs of mine about which you wrote are not yet acceptable; but I have sent them to you as they are. We both agree on their custody, so that nothing need be advised. Farewell."[593]

There is much here on which to draw for evidence of strong Lucanian-Hellenic relations. To begin with, it is a wonder that Plato earnestly desired Ocellus's writings: his Lucanian background was no hindrance to Plato's admiration. Only *On the Origin of the*

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[592] Lucian, *Laps.* 5. Archytas, as a late fifth century/early fourth century BC figure, obviously did not interact with the sixth century BC Pythagoras. Philo, *De aetern. mund.* 12.3 also refers to Ocellus's Lucanian origin. See Racioppi, 262-80.

[593] Diog. Laert. *VP* 8.79-81.

Universe survives, though it is probably spurious, a work of the first century BC.[594] But this says much, too: we might say that his status merited this false attribution. Several of Aristotle's ideas stem from an Ocellan provenance (probably by the Neopythagoreans), and Iamblichus employed Ocellus's material in his life of Pythagoras. Censorinus (third century AD) presumes Ocellus's influence, ranking him with Pythagoras and Archytas.[595] Some ancient writers even attributed to him important Platonic and Aristotelian ideas such as the "fifth body."[596] Clearly the ancient world had great respect for his wisdom and writings.

His life says something about Lucanian-Greek relations, too. A brother Ocillus, and sister, Byndacis, are named, both Pythagoreans. According to Archytas (a Tarentine), Ocellus returned to Lucania after studying with Pythagoras. This shows what must have been a common event: Lucanian philosopher-disciples exporting Greek thought back to the homeland.

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[594] Sextus Empiricus (10.316) refers to some of his teaching: "ἐκ πέντε (sc. ἐγέννησαν τὰ πάντα) δὲ Ὄκκελος ὁ Λευκανὸς καὶ Ἀριστοτέλης· συμπαρέλαβον γὰρ τοῖς τέσσαρσι στοιχείοις τὸ πέμπτον καὶ κυκλοφορητικὸν σῶμα, ἐξ οὗ λέγουσιν εἶναι τὰ οὐράνια." Other sources on Ocellus: Aetius Doxogr. *De placitis reliquiae* (*Stobaei excerpta*, p. 356, l.25): Ἡρακλείδης καὶ Ὄκελλος γῆν ὁμίχλῃ περιεχομένην; Heraclides Ponticus *Phil. Fragmenta* 114a.2 (Aetius Placita 2.25.13): Ἡρακλείδης καὶ Ὄκελλος γῆν ὁμίχλῃ περιεχομένην (sc. τὴν σελήνην εἶναι); Stob. *Anthologus Anthologium* 1.13.2.2: "Ὀκέλλου.Ὄκελλος ἔφησεν εἶναι αἴτιον δι' ὃ γίγνεταί τι. λέγει γὰρ ἐν τῷ Περὶ νόμου οὕτως..."; 1.20.3.2: "Ὀκέλλου. Ὄκελλος ἀΐδιον τὸν κόσμον· ὠδὶ γὰρ ἐν τοῖς Περὶ τᾶς τῶ παντὸς φύσιος"; 1.26.1e.8: "Βήρωσος ἡμιτύρωτον σφαῖραν τὴν σελήνην. Ἡρακλείδης καὶ Ὄκελλος γῆν ὁμίχλῃ περιεχομένην"; Hippolytus, *Refutatio omnium haeresium*, 10.7.4.1: "Νῆστίς θ', ἣ δακρύοις σπένδει (κ)ρούνωμα βρότειον. ἐκ πέντε δὲ Ὄκελ<λ>ος ὁ Λευ(κ)ανὸς καὶ Ἀριστοτέλης· συμπαρέλαβο(ν) γὰρ τοῖ(ς) (τέ)σσ(α)ρσι στοιχείοις τὸ πέμπτον καὶ κυκλοφορη τικὸν σῶμα, ἐ<ξ οὗ> λέγουσιν εἶ(ν)αι τὰ οὐράνια"; Stob. Ecl. 1.20.3; Photius, *Bibliotheca* Codex 167: "Νικίου, Νικοστράτου, Ξενοκράτους, Ξενοφάνους, Ὀνάτου, Ὀκέλλου, Ὀνήτορος." Ocellus's spurious *On the Origin of the Universe*: Huffman, 607-8.

[595] Censorinus *Nat. D.* 4.3: "Sed prior illa sententia qua semper humanum genus fuisse creditur auctores habet Pythagoran Samium et Occelum Lucanum et Archytan Tarentinum omnesque adeo Pythagoricos."

[596] Huffman, 593.

Ocellus's connection to Archytas also interests us. The latter is best known through his (spurious) conversation with Plato and Gaius Pontius the Samnite regarding old age.[597] Historians frequently turn to the passage to discuss the extent of Hellenization among the Italians; Dench (successfully) pushes it further to establish Hellenization's two-way nature between Greek and *barbaros* (Samnites specifically). Lucanian-Greek relations do not fall neatly into pre-conceived models; in fact, as we have seen, the whole dynamic is quite messy, and Archytas is a perfect example of this. Pythagorean acceptance of *barbaroi* must have clashed not only with his Greek upbringing, but also his accomplishments. The Tarentines praised Archytas as the general (elected seven times) who never lost a battle—in war against Tarentum's inveterate enemies, Dionysius of Syracuse and the Lucani. Yet we see in this passage that Archytas and his disciples traveled to Lucania. Finally, Lamiscus, who may be the Lucanian king whom Aristotle mentions, bears Archytas's good wishes to Plato. He apparently was intimately connected to Archytas, and perhaps Plato; perhaps Lamiscus took to philosophy better than Dionysius, becoming a true example of the philosopher king. It is sheer speculation, but what if Lamiscus and Archytas had met on the battlefield in previous years? The Lucanian kingship may have survived into the fourth century BC, and his sole role was to lead troops in war. However this may be, Archytas is an excellent example of the complex net of relationships between Greeks and Lucani that must really have been commonplace throughout antiquity.

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[597] Cic. *Cato Mai.* 12.39-41.

Plato also mentions that Ocellus is a right worthy descendant of his distant ancestors from Myra. They are "really good men, as the story that has been handed down shows...." This myth on the origins of the Lucani has not survived. Apparently they descended from the Myrians under Laomedon who fled the first invasion of Troy by Hercules and Telamon. Timaeus may have brought Laomedon's family west to Sicily in order to counter Carthaginian claims on the island.[598] Perhaps these early Greek historians established Myrian-Greek origins for Lucania at this time. We note that some scholars suppose a link between the Lucani and Anatolia, although this is tenuous at best.[599] We may even speculate that ancient authors drew a folk etymological connection between Lykia (the land of Myra) and Leukania, which stems from that Greek tendency to attribute Greek origins to every barbarian people.[600] Nevertheless, an underlying assumption is clear: in Plato's mind, Ocellus's "Lucaninity" did not preclude a noble character, like that of his Myrian ancestors.

How did the presence of *barbaroi* change the Pythagorean sect? Scholars argue that it shaped some of the Pythagorean worldview.[601] This is plausible enough, as these Lucani and other Italians brought their own life experiences to the table. I propose that their greatest impact on the group, however, came when the Italians began to bolster the sect, which was flagging due to political trouble in Magna Graecia; these changes must

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[598] Pearson, *Greek Historians*, 87.

[599] Panebianco, "Laos, Lavinion, Mercurion," 313-32.

[600] For this tendency, see E.J. Bickerman, "Origines Gentium," *Classical Philology* 47, no. 2 (1952): 65-81.

[601] Pugliese Carratelli, "Napoli Antica," 256; Salmon, *Samnium*, 121 n. 4. See Str. 5.4.12; Mele, "Pitagorismo," 61-96.

have been more pronounced when the Lucani and others actually led the school.

The Lucanian Aresa led the entire Pythagorean sect, only four generations removed from Pythagoras, and one of the first barbarians to do so.[602] He is a fascinating figure; we can only wonder at Iamblichus's meaning when he says that Aresa was "saved by some strangers."[603] He might be the Arcesus of Plutarch *De gen. Socr.* 583 B.[604] What can we say from Aresa's credentials? Not necessarily that the Lucani had some place of primacy in the hearts of the Pythagoreans, but at least that the Lucani had acclimated well-enough to Hellenic society that their very "barbarity" did not preclude them from these high positions.

From Aresa's activity we see a glimpse of the troubles surrounding the Pythagorean sect. Things must have been quite bad: Iamblichus singles out Gartydas, Aresa's predecessor, who was the only Pythagorean to die of grief, in fact because of his country's misfortunes. Then Aresa received one Diodorus of Aspendus (a Pamphylian city) because of the scarcity of men in the community. Diodorus can be dated to the early fourth century BC, so Aresa may have been of the late fifth. Aresa and Diodorus were respected as Pythagorean leaders, for Iamblichus tells us that various Greek authors wrote about them.

Why the sudden advent of *barbaroi* into the upper echelons of Pythagorean

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[602] Stob. *Anth.* 1.49.27.

[603] See La Greca, 331, for the theory that the aforementioned Aisara is a conflation with this Aresa.

[604] W. Burkert, *Lore and Science in Ancient Pythagoreanism*, tr. E.L. Minar, Jr. (Cambridge, Massachusetts: Harvard University Press, 1972), 202-4.

leadership? I suggest that the school had been so devastated in the fifth century BC through conflict with the Italiote cities and persecution that the Pythagoreans turned toward outsiders in order to replenish their ranks. The Lucani consequently profited by obtaining more prestigious positions within the sect.[605] Polybius is unequivocal about the extent of the trouble: this violence touched every part of Magna Graecia. The poleis united in their opposition against the Pythagoreans. Pythagoras's teachings made provision for barbarians to be part of the school, but it is not until this crisis (early fourth century BC) that outsiders like the Lucani are permitted to hold the highest offices.

B. Lucanian-Greek Friendships

Within the context of the Pythagorean persecution we see more general evidence of friendship between the Lucanian elite and the Greeks. Plutarch states that during these troubles the Pythagorean Philolaus escaped to his Lucanian friends, who protected him and defeated the Cylonian faction.[606] These Lucanian hosts (perhaps under a pretext of friendship, for a cynical interpretation) felt compelled to undertake the dangerous enterprise of overthrowing Cylon of Croton.[607] This must have entailed more than violence—it presumes Lucanian political connections within the city. The event shows just how close Greek and Lucanian interests were intertwined in the region; we have already noted that a similar situation pertained at Poseidonia.

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[605] Mele, "Pitagorismo," 64-6.

[606] Plut. *De gen.* 583a-b.

[607] For more on this Cylon of Croton, see Aristox. fr. 18 Wehrli = Iambl. *VP* 248f.; cf. Aristot. Περὶ τῶν Πυθαγορείων fr. 1 Ross = 171 Gigon; Porph. *VP* 55f.; Diod. Sic. 10.11.1).

C. The Poleis and the Lucani

To be sure, we have seen evidence from Aristotle of Greek backlash to barbarian interaction in the poleis, and attempts to curb this by law. Their efforts ultimately failed. For example, Diodorus notes how quickly Sybaris granted citizenship to strangers.[608] Poseidonia, a Sybarite colony, probably followed suit, given Lucanian generosity in extending citizen rights. In fact, early Sybarite-Lucanian interaction reveals deep connections between the two. Strabo declares that at its height Sybaris dominated four neighboring tribes and had twenty-five subject cities.[609] Who were these four tribes? We recall the mythological episode in Strabo regarding the "Achaeans in Sybaris" who supposedly refounded Metapontum after its destruction at the hands of the Lucani.[610] As there was no eradication of Metapontum, this legend (and the coinage) hints at the gradual domination of the city by a Lucanian element, and the attendant Lucanian-Greek connections.

D. Athens and the Lucani

In the fifth century BC Athenian political/military interest in Magna Graecia culminated in the disastrous invasion of Sicily.[611] But before and after this calamity

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[608] Diod. Sic. 12.9.1-2.

[609] Str. 6.1.13.

[610] Str. 6.1.15.

[611] Thuc. 7.33.3-6.

Athenian culture had made its mark on Tyrrhenian southern Italy, if not Lucania specifically. We note that c. 443 BC Sybarite exiles, with a contingent of Athenian colonists (among other Greeks, including Herodotus and Lysias), founded Thurii. In the late fifth/early fourth century BC Lucanian red ware painters achieved a remarkable output of high-quality vases depicting tragic scenes from plays such as Euripides' *Antiope* and *Medea.* At least one scholar supposes an Athenian expatriate artist in Apulia or Lucania creating these wares, but this Athenocentric supposition is unnecessary; we have already seen how well the Lucani could adapt Greek language and other aspects of its culture.[612]

La Greca also reminds us that the Athenian general Diotimos came to Naples in 460, instituting the feast of the Siren Parthenope there (cf. Lyc. *Alex.* 733 ff.). Furthermore, Themistocles named his two daughters Italia and Sybaris, and, while awaiting the battle of Salamis, hinted at the possibility that the Athenians would cross over in mass to Siris, "long ours."[613] Later inscriptional evidence (third century BC) from Athens and Delphi contains Lucanian *praenomina*, presumably of Lucanian freemen who had established friendly connections in the cities.[614]

Athens and Poseidonia were intimately linked in the fifth century BC.[615] In Sophocles's *Tryptolemos*, the goddess Demeter shows Tryptolemos the geography of

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[612] W. Allan, "Euripides in Megale Hellas: Some Aspects of the Early Reception of Tragedy," *Greece & Rome*, Second Series, 48, no. 1 (April, 2001): 70 ff.

[613] Plut. *Them.* 32; Hdt. 8.62.2.

[614] Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 2, 369.

Italy, and confirms a general growing interest among Athenians regarding Italy.[616] More importantly, Cimon sponsored the play; according to Plutarch, he had sought advice in 450 from a Poseidonian fortuneteller named Astiphilus, whose name is remarkably close to Asteas, the famous Paestan painter a century later.[617] Good relations between the two cities were likely a prerequisite to a friendship between Athens' most famous general and a Paestan. It is also probably not a coincidence that Parmenides and Zeno of Velia met at Athens for the Greater Panathenaia of 454 BC.[618]

Conclusion

It is impossible to maintain a traditional Hellenocentric starting point and come up with an accurate understanding of the Lucani, and their connections with the Greeks. The literary sources paint an especially clear picture that the Lucani and Greeks did much more than kill each other. We must conclude that war was not the norm; rather, Magna Graecia saw a constant interaction and fusion between Lucanian, Greek, and other Italian elements.

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[615] La Greca, 121.

[616] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 1.11-13.

[617] Plut. *Cim.* 18.2-6. La Greca, 283-4. For Asteas and other individual Lucanian/Paestan painters and ceramists, see Noviello, *Storiografia*, 28 ff.

[618] Plat. *Prm.* 127a ff.

Chapter 5: Lucani and Romans

I. Fourth-Century BC Roman-Lucanian Interaction

Lucania proved a very hard nut for the Romans to crack.[619] Fiercely independent, yet ultimately unable to resist Rome's military might, the Lucani cycled for decades through a pattern of resistance, submission, and revolt. Exactly when Rome made contact with Lucania is not entirely clear, but a patchwork of Greek and Roman writers allow us to reconstruct a picture of early Roman-Lucanian relations.[620] We should suppose that the Romans knew about the Lucani quite early, through both their interaction with the Italiote states, and also through the ubiquitous Italian traders throughout the Mediterranean. Additionally, Roman contacts with Paestum and Tarentum probably began before the beginning of the third century BC, which provided another doorway to the Lucani.

A. The Treaty of 330 BC

Supposedly, the first extensive Roman contact with the Lucani involved a treaty against the Samnites that Livy dates to the consulships of L. Papirius Crassus and L. Plautius Venno/Venox (330 BC).[621] As many scholars have noted, there are some real problems here, the first of which is Livy's own words just a few paragraphs later:

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[619] For the conquest of Southern Italy, and specifically Lucania, see T.J. Cornell, "The Conquest of Italy," *Cambridge Ancient History*^{2} vol. 7 pt. 2, ed. F.W. Walbank *et al.* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1989), 371, 377-81.

[620] *Contra* Chiranky, 69, who laments, "The epigraphic record is scanty, and no narrative of the Lucani's wars with Rome exists." For a general narrative history of the Lucani in the Roman period, see E. Magaldi, *Lucania romana* (Rome: Istituto di Studi Romani, 1947), 100 ff.

> When the new consuls had, by order of the people, sent messengers to declare war against the Samnites, they themselves were preparing everything with greater exertion than against the Greeks; new assistance then came to them when they had nothing of the sort in mind. The Lucani and Apulii, nations who, up to that day, had had no interaction with the Roman people, proposed an alliance with them, promising arms and troops for the war; therefore, they were received by treaty into friendship.[622]

Earlier Livy tells us that these consuls were Caius Paetelius, and Lucius Papirius Mugillanus, which must correspond to the latter's first consulship in 326 BC, with C. Poetelius Libo Visolus.[623] But Livy's statement "nations who, up to that day, had had no interaction with the Roman people" is unequivocal, and at odds with a treaty of 330 BC. Oakley proposes that Livy 8.19.1 actually refers to an unknown Volscian Luca, not Lucania; this is the consensus view, but not without opposition.[624] This would simplify things, but, as Oakley admits, the seventy-five passages in Livy that refer to the Lucani are a "serious objection;" plus, we would be required to presume a Volscian Luca of significant enough size to warrant mention in Livy, but which escaped all notice among our other sources. However, presuming that Livy simply forgot his reference in 8.19 is even less satisfactory, so Oakley's explanation is currently the only credible solution.

B. 326 BC, Lucania, Tarentum, and Rome

Presuming the 326 BC treaty to be the first formal contact between Lucania and

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[621] Liv. 8.19.

[622] Liv. 8.25.3.

[623] Liv. 8.23; T.R.S. Broughton, *Magistrates of the Roman Republic*, vol. 1(Chico, California: Scholars Press, 1984), 146.

[624] Oakley, 651, n. 3; see also De Sanctis, *Storia dei Romani*, vol. 4, pt. 2, 303-4; Salmon, *Samnium*, 215; Lomas, *Western Greeks*, 48.

Rome, what does this say about affairs in Lucania? The situation must have been very difficult for the tribes. They had achieved recent success against Alexander Molossus, though it had been hard-fought, judging from the loss at Paestum. But a much more difficult threat loomed before them, as their very recent allies, the entire Samnite nation, were threatening invasion, and indeed had made some incursions. The abrupt about-face of Lucanian policy in the following episode shows that the Lucani had relied heavily on Rome to restore some kind of political balance in the area, as a kind of counter-weight to both the belligerent Samnites, and the ever-present threat of the Italiotes. This time, the Tarentines used a very different tactic, intrigue, which ultimately began the process of the Roman subjugation of Lucania.

In 326 BC we find the Tarentine assembly fretting about Rome's advances into southern Italy. They conclude that the Samnites can check Rome if the latter lack Lucanian support, and resort to plotting with a group of disaffected Lucanian youths to stir the Lucani to revolt from Rome.[625] These bribed young men strip and lash themselves, and, coming before a Lucanian assembly, testify that the Romans had mistreated them; incensed at this humiliation, this group of Lucani breaks with Rome. Livy's account provides details about Lucanian society that we find nowhere else. First, the Tarentines reveal how respected the Lucani were as a military power in southern Italy, at least through the fourth century BC: the Samnites were strong, indeed, but without the significant support of the Lucani they would be unable to resist Rome (obviously the greatest military power in Italy after the defeat of the Latins in 338 BC).

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[625] Liv. 8.27.

Second, this passage sheds light on Lucanian politics. As we have already seen in Chapter 2, the Lucani utilized a popular assembly of sorts (*coetus civium*) that had significant decision-making power. The phrase "by their clamors, they compelled the magistrates...," while possibly just mob pressure on the magistrates, may also allude to a process of voting via acclamation. Livy also names a *concilium*, around which the citizen body gathered; this must be some kind of elite council, which will look more and more like the Roman Senate as the history of these two people intertwined. The people demand war, and it is decreed (*decernitur*) that the treaty with the Samnites be renewed, which also sounds like the kind of advice-that-becomes-policy indicative of Roman senatorial politics in the third century BC.

Immediately, messengers ran around mustering the "*multitudinem agrestium in arma*" after the *concilium belli* declared war on Rome. First, this looks like a typical muster that the Sabellian people, and most every other agrarian Italian people, must have practiced in order to assemble for war. But the term *multitudo agrestium* directly implies that the majority of this Lucanian tribe lived in the countryside, the likelihood of which, as scholars have long noted, the archaeological evidence certainly confirms.[626]

Many Lucanian tribes lived in the interior, settling higher elevations but utilizing lower locations in their ages-old lifestyle of transhumance.[627] We know of numerous inland towns and cities, like Grumentum, Atena, Consentia, Potentia, Forum Popilii,

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[626] La Greca, 202.

[627] J.M. Frayn, *Sheep-Rearing and the Wool Trade in Italy during the Roman Period* (Liverpool, Great Britain: F. Cairns, 1984), 20-24.

Numistro, Acheruntia, Nerulum, and Atina, among others, but the Lucanian presence on the coast is dominated primarily by Paestum and Metapontum, and Pyxus, Scidrus, and Laos, though these last three are speculative. La Greca supposes that the Lucani practiced a lifestyle similar to the Samnites of savagely raiding the more peaceful coastal peoples from their scattered mountain habitats, as Livy says.[628] Certainly the Lucani practiced mountain transhumance, and made war on the coastal Italiotes, but we must be careful not to equate these two people who differed in so many ways. The Lucani and Samnites were Sabellii, but the Lucani were not Samnites.[629] We have seen plenty of evidence of Lucanian-Hellenic cooperation and coexistence to reject a simple paradigm of "Lucani, savage mountain men who prey on Greeks of the coast."

By Livy's account, these runners move throughout mountainous Lucania in seemingly no time, mustering communities for war. Livy never actually tells us where this assembly took place, nor where the council made its decree, or even where the corrupted youths pled their case. The logistics of Livy's account are simply impossible. There is no way that runners could spread the decision of the council as quickly as Livy implies ("*repentina res*"). But, given our understanding of Lucanian tribes, there is a simple solution: the assembly took place among one Lucanian tribe, or a collection of a few neighboring tribes. For Livy's purposes, the decision was effectively that of the Lucani as a whole, looking at the outcome. This answers another objection: it is unlikely

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[628] La Greca, 203; Liv. 9.13.7: "...nam Samnites, ea tempestate in montibus uicatim habitantes, campestria et maritima loca contempto cultorum molliore atque, ut euenit fere, locis simili genere ipsi montani atque agrestes depopulabantur."

[629] See S. Oakley, *The Hill-Forts of the Samnites* (London: The British School at Rome, 1995), 5, for the vast differences between Samnite and Lucanian defensive fortifications.

that all the Lucani would have gone to war over the mistreatment of a small group of youths. However, a tribe or small group of tribes would have felt this insult particularly; the ensuing conflict would have drawn the rest of the Lucani to war.

The feigned treatment of these youths at the hands of the Romans is of interest to us. One wonders where this could have transpired to sound credible; the likeliest place is a Roman camp on the Samnite border. Clearly these young men were of base character, in both Livy and the Tarentines' eyes. Their ploy of self-mutilation is a common one in classical literature.[630] We should note Livy's statement that the Lucani received garrisons among themselves, and gave hostages to Tarentum. When the whole plot falls through, these Lucanian conspirators even felt comfortable fleeing to Tarentum. This, as we have seen many times throughout this study, contradicts the typical paradigm of Lucanian/Italiote hostility.

The first full attempt at Lucanian-Roman cooperation was rather short-lived at one year (326/5 BC), thanks to Tarentine intrigue.[631] The Lucani had to reap what they had sown: the only recourse left was unconditional surrender to Rome, and the implication is that the Lucani were unwilling to do that, even though they had been deceived. Victory over the Lucani apparently entailed a protracted process. Unfortunately for our analysis, the Second Samnite War, and the disaster of the Caudine Forks, concerned Livy more than the details of Rome's conflict with the Lucani; he simply remarks that the consuls of 319/8 concluded all of Rome's other wars. Despite

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[630] Hdt. 3.153.1-160.2, Verg. *Aen.* 2.57-198, Liv. 1.53.4-54.10; D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 4.53.1-58.4.

[631] Liv. 8.29.1.

Livy's brevity, the process must not have been entirely complete (or the Lucani revolted soon after), for he mentions Roman operations in Lucania as late as 317 BC.[632]

II. The Third Samnite War

A. The Lucanian Role in the Outbreak of Hostilities

Rome had pacified the Lucani, though Livy's silence on their punishment (a topic that generally seems to have interested him) implies that the Romans were fairly lenient. We hear nothing of them through the end of the fourth century BC. As we have seen already, archaeological evidence indicates that this was a time of expansion, presumably a product of the era's peace. Eventually the Lucani were under pressure again, however, but this time from the Samnite quarter. The Lucani begged Rome to forgive the past and receive them into an imbalanced treaty (*foedus*) and friendship, which the Lucani maintained for some time, even suffering the Samnites to plunder their territory as a price for not deserting the Roman alliance.[633] Despite the protracted account, and the preservation of two versions (Dionysius and Livy), what this episode says about the Lucani is difficult to say. Their decision to resist the Samnites without help may hint at Lucanian military strength, or it may simply tell of overconfidence and/or underestimation of Samnite military strength. We can only wonder with disappointment

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[632] Liv. 20.7-9. La Greca (204) sees in the consul's rapid advance from Forentum to Nerulum evidence of a significant road already in the late fourth-century BC; this would form later part of the Via Herculia.

[633] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 17-18.1-3; Liv. 10.11.11-12.3. For this Lucanian-Roman treaty as an exemplar of a lower type of *foedus*, see A.N. Sherwin-White, *The Roman Citizenship* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1973), 121-2.

what exactly was the long-standing feud between the Samnites and Lucani; such trivialities between barbarians were of little concern to the Greek Dionysius, or even Livy.

The Roman decision to ally with the Lucani says much about Roman policy, and Roman aspirations in the area.[634] Rome must have seen the need to intervene increasingly in Magna Graecia, and the possible rewards for doing so. In fact, Appian makes it clear that by 280 BC Rome conceived of southern Italy as within her "sphere of influence."[635] In a speech supposedly delivered c. 282 BC Appius Claudius Caecus did not specify when the Romans had seized the lands of the Lucani and Bruttii, but he did remark that the Romans' ancestors had been responsible. Ostensibly, this would set the Roman conquests that took the lands in question perhaps a few generations (two?) before his speech. The Romans did, in fact, defeat the Lucani in 298 BC, but that does not seem to warrant "ancestors" without some rhetorical stretch. However, Appius Claudius's use of "ancestors" can be a classic Roman example of attributing noble deeds, especially the acquisition of empire, to their forefathers, even if it had really taken place within Appius's generation.[636]

The Samnites were right: Rome really had no long-standing claim to friendship with the Lucani. However, Lucania was a pivotal area to Roman security: should it fall, the rest of southern Italy would open up to the Samnites, and that threat was much too

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[634] Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 145, n. 2.

[635] App. *Samn.* 10.3-5.

[636] The entire speech may be Appian's fabrication, but I presume it is founded in historical truth.

dangerous. Additionally, Rome must have seen by the early third century BC the need for some kind of naval-projection power (her trouble with Tarentum would be the primary stimulant), which the Tyrrhenian Sea Italiote/Lucanian cities could provide, as they would in the coming First Punic War (264 BC). Both sides remembered the painful struggles of the Second Samnite War; they could not but think that this impending war would determine who would be sovereign over peninsular Italy. Rome and Samnium sought allies, the latter seeking to surround Rome with enemies like the Etruscans, Umbrians, and Gauls. But Lucania was up for grabs, and her significant military strength made her an important ally.[637]

B. 298-296 BC

In spite of overtures of faithfulness to Rome, and having learned their lesson, the Lucani eventually revolted, though apparently only for a very short time. While Samnite belligerence should have kept the Lucani close to Rome, Livy tells us that the Samnites quickly turned their attention to Rome, now that they had numerous allies with which to cooperate against their most hated foe.[638] The Lucani saw an opportunity to reassert their independence now that Samnium and her allies had arisen on all sides of Rome, who would be unable to punish the Lucani for defecting.

The epitaph of Scipio Barbatus (298 BC), "*subigit omne Loucanam opsidesque abdoucit*," indicates that Rome swiftly crushed the Lucanian rebellion (I hold that this

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[637] Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 148.

[638] Liv. 10.13.2-4.

was definitely a military campaign in "Lucania proper," and not Samnite country), and compelled them to become unwilling allies to Rome again.[639] Possibly the use of "*omne*" alludes to the Lucanian tribal federation, though the word may simply be used to augment the size of Scipio's accomplishment in the reader's opinion.[640] Regardless, the Lucani seem to have remained faithful, or at least cowed by Rome, only a very short time. Rome's suppression of the next Lucanian defection (296 BC) only garners a terse reference in Livy; as we saw in Chapter 2, the Lucanian elite apparently attached themselves to Rome at this point, presumably because they felt Roman intervention would best preserve their interests.[641]

C. Sentinum (295 BC)

Presumably as an ally the Lucani would have fought alongside Rome at Sentinum, when Rome crushed all her enemies in one fell swoop. However, no source mentions a Lucanian presence at the battle, and despite Livy's patriotic bias, he probably would have mentioned the Lucani had they been allies. Likewise, had the Lucani fought with the Samnites, Livy probably would have specified them so as to augment Rome's list of conquered enemies.

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[639] *CIL* I^2.6,7: "[L. Corneli]o(s) Cn. f. Scipio / [[----------]] / [[----]] Cornelius Lucius Scipio Barbatus – Gnaivod patre / prognatus, fortis vir sapiensque – quoius forma virtutei parisuma / fuit, - consol, censor, aidilis quei fuit apud vos – Taurasia, Cisauna / Samnio cepit, - subigit omne Loucanam opsidesque abdoucit." C. Ferone, "« Subigit omne Loucanam »: a proposito dell'elogio di Scipione Barbato (*CIL* I^2 6, 7 = ILLRP 309)," *Klio* 87, ser. 1 (2005): 116-122; *contra* A. La Regina, "L'elogio di Scipione Barbato," *Dialoghi di Archeologia* 2, no. 1 (1968): 174-7. See also Heurgon, *Rise of Rome*, 209.

[640] Cappelletti (*Lucani e Brettii*, 109), believes that "*omne*" does, in fact, refer to a Lucanian league.

[641] Liv. 10.18.8; Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 266.

Furthermore, the absence of the Lucani at Sentinum is troublesome, given that we hear from two very late sources (Augustine and Orosius) that the Lucani, along with Samnium and her allies, annihilated a Roman army at some point in this war:

> Or, with all of the enemy working together at one time, including the Lucani, the Bruttii, the Samnites, the Etruscans, and the Senones Gauls, first they killed the Roman legates, and then crushed an army with its praetor; seven tribunes and 13,000 soldiers died with him.[642]

> In the year 463 A.U.C. [291/290 BC], when Dolabella and Domitius were consuls, the Lucani, Bruttii, and Samnites, along with the Etruscans and Senones Gauls, made an alliance; when they attempted a second war against the Romans, the latter sent legates to the Gauls for the purpose of winning them over.[643]

Reconciling these accounts is very problematic. We have no evidence whatsoever for the annihilation of a Roman army; in fact, the Third Samnite War, unlike the previous one with its infamous disaster at the Caudine Forks (321 BC), went quite well for Rome. Livy speaks of some unfavorable battles in Etruria before Sentinum, but that does not equate to the annihilation of an entire army, and the location does not match.[644]

Second, Orosius is completely mistaken—Dolabella and Domitius did not serve as consuls until 283 BC. We must be careful with Augustine and Orosius, as these Christian writers had an agenda in proving the inefficacy of Rome's pagan gods in protecting the state; but the basic fact of an alliance is plausible enough. Cato the Elder does confirm the likelihood of such an alliance in his lost history the *Origines* (though we

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[642] August. *De Civ. D.* 3.17.

[643] Oros. 3.22.12.

[644] Liv. 10.18.

cannot say that he is referring to the exact same alliance).[645] Finally, since neither source gives any accurate information from which we can date this event specifically, it is possible that these authors are misusing Livy, who apparently mentioned an unknown Roman disaster at the hands of the Lucani, Bruttii, and Samnites in 281 BC.[646]

Regarding Sentinum, I suggest that the Lucani did not take part on either side partially through necessity, and partially through policy. All these revolts and suppressions certainly had taken a toll on the Lucani, both physically and psychologically; they may well have not had the manpower at the time to support either side. Second, they likely decided to sit out and see who would win, and hope to deal as best they could with the victor; we will see them use the same policy with Pyrrhus and Rome at Heraclea (280 BC). Perhaps they thought Quintus Fabius's suppression of the Lucanian revolt in 296 BC more tolerable than a very long march and dangerous battle at Sentinum (the modern Sassoferrato), which lay between Umbrian and Picene territory, quite far from Lucania.

Finally, we should look for another answer within the context of class conflict. The Lucanian elites who were so pleased at the suppression of the 296 BC revolt, according to Livy, may have maintained their grip over Lucanian policy throughout the next year while Lucania remained loosely loyal to Rome. Lucania probably had given Rome hostages, and we may even presume that Rome garrisoned the region for good

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[645] Cat. Mai. *Orig.* fr. 126 Peter, Favelo 126 (this fragment found *ap.* Fest. 166.2 L, P.F. 167.1 L, s.v. natinatio); cf. fr. 68 Peter, Favelo 68 (this fragment found *ap.* Plin. *HN* 3.98): "NATI<NATIO dicebatur negoti>atio: et natinatores <ex eo seditiosa negotia> gerentes. M. Cato in ...<tu>multu Macedoniae, Etruriam, Samnites, Lucanos, inter se natinari, atque factiones esse."

[646] Liv. *Per.* 12.

measure. Thus, a combination of Roman muscle and Lucanian policy among pro-Roman elites kept the Lucani out of Sentinum. Livy confirms for us that in 294 BC at least some Lucani were loyal to Rome, which used Lucanian allied (*socius*) cohorts.[647] The Lucani probably remained loyal throughout the rest of the war, since Sentinum is typically marked as the turning point in the war, and it is unlikely that they would have joined a losing side.[648]

III. The Early Third Century BC and the Roman Conquest

A. Lucanian-Thurinian Conflict

Apart from some valuable inscriptions, we are forced to rely on brief statements in the *Periochae* of Livy for most of our knowledge of Lucania *vis-à-vis* Rome in the years just after the Third Samnite War. He speaks of Roman victories against the Lucani in 284 BC.[649] It also seems that the Lucani and Thurini were back at it again, reminiscent of their brutal war in 389 BC.[650] In fact, the Lucani fought Thurii throughout the next ten years. The Bruttii were active against the Locrians, too, judging from the early third-

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[647] Liv. 10.33.1-4.

[648] La Greca (206-7), drawing on Livy's reference in 10.44.9 and 45.9-11 to a Samnite Velia and Herculaneum (Heraclea, according to La Greca), suggests that initially the Romans did not distinguish between Samnites and Lucani. La Greca's suggestion, if followed, brings Lucanian resistance to Rome down to 293 BC. The evidence supporting these conclusions is not convincing, for a number of reasons. First, the treaty of 326 BC (and the spurious treaty of 330 BC, should that be authentic) presumes that the Romans could distinguish between Lucani and Samnites. Second, a Samnite Velia is by no means an unlikely occurrence: Velia was a popular city name throughout the Mediterranean. Third, while we have seen that Velia probably had a Lucanian element in its population, it remained primarily a Greek city.

[649] Liv. *Per.* 11.

[650] La Greca, 207, n. 242, notes that the codices have "*Tyrrhenis*"; "*Thurinis*" is a correction based on Plin. *HN* 34.32; Val. Max. 1.8.6; D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 19.13.

century BC Nossis, whose patriotic poem mocks her defeated barbarian enemies.[651] The conflict with the Lucani ended poorly for the Thurini, who were enslaved; the Tarentines somehow liberated the Thurini, who took refuge in Rome, which eventually established the colony of Copia in the polis.[652] This must have taken place before the Pyrrhic/Tarentine wars, when the Lucani were still autonomous enough to undertake a major war against Thurii, which, in defeat, looked to Tarentum rather than Rome for support.[653] The Tarentines took the Thurini away from (ἀφελομένων) the Lucani, and one meaning of this verb is "to set a man free". Slavery certainly existed in Lucania—this is the kernel of truth within the various myths surrounding the origins of the Bruttii, and we note that the Tomb of the Warrior shows a slave on foot; but we may wonder why the Lucani preferred to sell off these Greek slaves.[654] Perhaps the Lucani could not use such a glut of slaves; alternatively, as we saw with Leptines, Dionysius's general who negotiated the ransom of the Thurini in 389 BC, maybe the price was so high that the Lucani could not have passed up such a deal. Regardless, this was the last "independent conflict" between the Lucani and Thurini; neither side would be free to resume hostilities with the other within half of a century: the deteriorated Thurii received a Roman colony (Copia) in 194 BC, and the Romans crushed the Lucani by the end of the Pyrrhic wars.

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[651] *Anth. Pal.* 6.132: "Ἔντεα Βρέττιοι ἄνδρες ἀπ' αἰνομόρων βάλον ὤμων/ θεινόμενοι Λοκρῶν χερσὶν ὕπ' ὠκυμάχων,/ ὧν ἀρετὰν ὑμνεῦντα θεῶν ὑπ' ἀνάκτορα κεῖνται,/ οὐδὲ ποθεῦντι κακῶν πάχεας, οὓς ἔλιπον." For Nossis, see E. Ciaceri, *Storia della Magna Grecia*, vol. 3 (Milan: Albrighi, Segati & c., 1932), 265-7.

[652] Str. 6.1.13.

[653] Chiranky (239) argues that the Lucani took Thurii when Dionysius the Elder captured Croton in 379 BC, but the event seems to have happened closer to the Pyrrhic Wars.

We have some evidence as to why Rome invaded Lucania in the late 280s, or at least to a pretext that she used; it also reveals Lucanian policy during this period, and Lucanian prosperity. Dionysius of Halicarnassus records a Roman embassy to Pyrrhus, which included Gaius Fabricius Luscinus, the future conqueror of Lucania.[655] The Lucani had besieged Thurii, which Livy, *Periochae* XI, confirms. The fighting must have been fierce, judging from Fabricius's concession that the battles were "μεγάλαις," great, i.e. difficult. A fantastic legend arose in the Roman tradition about this battle that Mars himself helped the Romans overcome the Lucani, according to the fourth-century AD Ammianus Marcellinus.[656] Such an account should not surprise us, as it fits well with Roman concepts of providence in her endeavors. The legend does hint, however, at a near-defeat for the Romans; perhaps it conceals the important role of the Thurini in the battle, or some inglorious mark of shame such as a temporary retreat, or even Lucanian tenacity and prowess in the fight.

Valerius Maximus names the Lucanian general Statius Statilius, under whom both the Bruttii and Lucani fought, which is solid evidence of the continuing good relations between these kin peoples.[657] This must have been a sizeable army, which the Romans were afraid at first to attack. The Lucani and Bruttii had come to annihilate Thurii completely, and they had the siege equipment (and, presumably, the technical expertise)

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[654] Salmon, *Samnium*, 141.

[655] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 19.13.1; 16.3.

[656] Amm. Marc. 24.4.24. Cf. Val. Max. 1.8.6, App. *Samn.* 7.1; Liv. Per. 11; Plin. *HN* 20.4.2.

[657] Val. Max. 1.8.6.

to do so.

One motive for the Lucanian attack on Thurii, according to Valerius Maximus, was the "*odio incitatissimo*" that the Lucani and Bruttii harbored. Additionally, Pliny mentions that the Lucani besieged Thurii twice; a later attack after Beneventum (275 BC) compels the interpretation that this was the continuation of a simmering, long-standing conflict. This may also have been a concerted effort spurred by some kind of political pretext; perhaps the Lucani sought an Ionian Sea port, having profited from Paestum and maybe Metapontum. We may see evidence of this political conflict in the later Thurian decision to erect a statue to Gaius Elius for his law against Stennisu, who is presumably Valerius Maximus's Statius Statilius.[658] The Romans had installed a garrison there, which may have been another cause: the Lucani (or some of them) sought an instigative action, and the Roman garrison at Thurii was the closest target.[659]

Fabricius's speech to Pyrrhus (though he may be embellishing the details somewhat, both for his aggrandizement, and to obtain better bargaining leverage for Rome) says much about the Lucani (and Samnites and Bruttii): they apparently had wealthy cities, many with sufficient fortifications to mandate a siege. In fact, Fabricius lists an impressive amount of booty from these territories, challenging the picture of them as mountain barbarians chiseling at their wooden trinkets. And, of course, he celebrated a triumph (one of many over the Lucani throughout the 280s). Though the Lucani apparently defeated the Thurini and enslaved a significant portion of them, they did not

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[658] Plin. *HN* 34.6.32.

[659] F. Cantarelli, "Alcune osservazioni sui rapporti romano-turini e l'episodio di Copiae," *La Parola del Passato* 30 (1975), 214-5.

succeed in wiping out the Italiote city; the Roman retributive response was great, judging from Fabricius's triumphs, and the statue that the Thurini dedicated to him.[660] Presumably Lucania was pacified, but only for a moment, for an opportunity to revolt presented itself in Tarentine defiance, and then Pyrrhus of Epirus, who would play a very different role to the Lucani than previous *condottieri*.

B. Outbreak of the Roman-Tarentine War

The Lucani made another push for independence, perhaps in 282 or 281 BC, when the Tarentines returned their infamous message of defiance to Rome at the expense of Lucius Postumius Megellus and his toga.[661] Livy confirms that the Samnites, Etruscans, and Bruttii revolted, too.[662] It is likely that these latter peoples had gotten word of Tarentum's victory over the Roman navy, and perhaps the humiliation of the Roman embassy. One even wonders if rumor had spread that the Tarentine assembly was contemplating requesting the aid of Pyrrhus.

The Romans agreed that the Tarentine outrage had to be punished. But many saw wisdom in waiting, for the Lucani, Bruttii, and Samnites were in rebellion.[663] Some advised that the peoples "lying eastward and close to Tarentum" should be subdued first before punishing Tarentum; this phrase fits Lucania well enough from a Roman

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[660] For his triumph, see Plin. *HN* 9.118; 33.50.54. Cf. Cic. *Pis.* 58; Liv. *Per.* 12; Str. 6.1.13; App. *Samn.* 7; Amm. Marc. 24.4.24.

[661] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 19.5.1-5.

[662] Liv. *Per.* 12.

[663] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 19.6.2.

perspective. Nevertheless, it is clear that Lucania had revolted at the end of the 280s, which is surprising, given that only one year earlier Rome had celebrated a triumph over her.

C. Pyrrhus of Epirus

Pyrrhus has received plenty of attention over the ages, and it is not our concern to discuss his illustrious character and career, apart from how they intertwined with the Lucani.[664] Lucanian hopes of independence rose and fell (for two hundred years) with his success and failure against Rome. Justin tells us that Pyrrhus had a proverbial ax to grind, namely that he was in no way inferior to his uncle Alexander Molossus (whom the Lucani and Bruttii had killed fifty years earlier).[665] He came to assist the Italiote Greeks, and, in doing so, he also extended his protection and services to the Lucani, Bruttii, and Samnites, who readily sided with him as arbiter and liberator.[666] Tarentum promised Pyrrhus an enormous army of 20,000 cavalry and 350,000 infantry, which consisted not only of Italiotes but also Lucani (and, presumably, Bruttii), Messapii, and Samnites.[667]

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[664] For Pyrrhus's war with Rome, and specifically with his interaction with the Lucani, see P.R. Franke, "Pyrrhus," *Cambridge Ancient History*^{2} vol. 7, pt. 2, ed. F.W. Walbank *et al.* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1989), 462-73, 481-3; Tagliamonte, *I figli di Marte,* 202-4; P. Garoufalias, *Pyrrhus: King of Epirus* (London: Stacey International, 1979), 55-61; P. Lévèque, *Pyrrhos* (Paris: E. de Boccard, 1957), 303-7; Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 116-28.

[665] Justin. 18.1.1-2. For an excellent analysis of the primary sources' varying accounts and *logoi* concerning Pyrrhus's time in Italy up to Asculum, see M.R. Lefkowitz, "Pyrrhus' negotiations with the Romans, 280-278 BC," *Harvard Studies in Classical Philology* 64 (1959): 147-77.

[666] Eutr. *Breviarium ab Urbe condita* 2.12.1.

[667] Plut. *Pyrrh.* 13.12-13.

Typically historians discard such numbers, but how far-fetched are they? We saw in the rout of the Thurini (389 BC) that the Lucani could very quickly field 30,000, and the large Italiote states probably had significant armies. While Plutarch's figures are probably high, the "divide by ten for ancient source figures" rule will not suffice here; Pyrrhus only would have come if he had expected significant support. Finally, here again we see that the traditional view of Lucani versus Italiotes simply cannot stand in the face of the evidence: the Tarentines, who had summoned multiple *condottieri* against the Lucani, promised to fight side-by-side with the Lucani and other Italians. In fact, Prontera argues convincingly that from this point forward ancient authors expanded the meaning of the term "Italiote" to include the southern Italian peoples in their collective struggle with Tarentum against Rome.[668]

Pyrrhus demanded that the Romans observe and even safeguard the Italiote Greeks' liberty, and restore to the Lucani, Bruttii, Samnites, and Daunii all that the Romans had taken from them in war.[669] Whether his arbitration with the Romans on behalf of the Italians was of genuine good will, or part of the necessary formalities for his plans, is impossible to say. The Romans balked, incited by the curmudgeon Appius Claudius Caecus, who urged the Romans to retain their ancestral war spoils, wrested from the Lucani and others.

Drawing primarily on Livy, the historian Florus's (second century AD) remarks

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[668] F. Prontera, "L'Italia nell'ecumene dei Greci," in *Geographia Antiqua*, vol. 7, 5-15 (Florence: Leo S. Olschki, 1998).

[669] D.H. *Ant. Rom.*19.9.

shed light on Lucanian relations with Tarentum in this period.[670] He calls Tarentum the *caput belli*, which must mean something like instigator or impetus behind the war.[671] A few lines later Florus surprises us even more: Tarentum, the *opus* of Sparta, was the "head" (*caput*) of Calabria, Apulia, "and all of Lucania" (*totiusque Lucaniae*); these latter words indicate Florus's knowledge of the Lucanian tribal system.

La Greca understands the term *caput* here to mean capital.[672] This is unacceptable for a number of reasons, the first being that no other source declares Tarentum the capital of the Lucani, nor is there any material data supporting this idea. One explanation is that Tarentum is indeed the capital of these regions, but Florus is thinking in geographical terms only, and specifically of the coastlines, in which the independent Greek poleis possessed a swathe of land on the coast that was not Lucanian politically.[673] This explanation still fails to account for the difficulty in making a Greek polis "capital" of any region. More plausibly, by *caput* Florus means "chief city", which certainly would be true: Tarentum was the most powerful Italiote city, and its actions had serious implications for the rest of the region. Polybius mentions the commercial influence that

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[670] Flor. 1.13. There is trouble with the manuscript here, and the apparent meaning: "The last engagement was fought under the leaders already mentioned above on the Arusine Plains in Lucania." The Arusine Plains in Lucania are completely unknown, and our several other sources on the Pyrrhic Wars state that the final battle was Beneventum in Samnium. According to La Greca, 143, "A correction is proposed for par. 7: *Apud Heracleam Lucaniae fluviumque Sirim Laevino consule etc.* Wherever the last battle was, the reading is difficult; the old manuscripts have "sybarus inis" which some call "sub arinis." It could even have been "Sybaris in his quos vocant campis," refering to the fields of Sybaris, next to Paestum. I reject this in favor of Beneventum. Cf. Jord. *Rom.* 150-1.

[671] Salmon, *Samnium*, 284.

[672] La Greca, 143; 188.

[673] Cf. Amm. Marc. 15.9.7.

Tarentum had.[674] Furthermore, Florus's earlier use of *caput belli*, chief cause of the war, establishes a context for this latter interpretation of Tarentum as "chief city." Florus does not even name the conflict in question the Pyrrhic Wars, but the Tarentine Wars. He then goes on to bolster the credentials of Tarentum in his readers' eyes, with images of huge walls, a large harbor, and almost a providential position. He even engages in some hyperbole: "[this war ruined]... in fact, the whole of Italy." It is unlikely that he in the second century AD is using here a modified form of the old meaning of *Italia*, the toe of Italy. More likely he is adding to the flavor and drama of his narrative by "upping the stakes" regarding this Greek city, its war with Rome, and the consequences of its defeat. The war's results were ominous, portending "trans-sea triumphs."[675] Thus Tarentum is the focus, the *caput* of this war, the primary city of the regions Calabria, Apulia, and Lucania; it is not the capital of the Lucani.

We might say that the Lucani were the first casualty of the Pyrrhic War, since Laevinus's army first moved to confront Pyrrhus, plundering all through Lucania. But strangely the Lucani do not even participate at Heraclea, though it was in their territory.[676] After the battle Pyrrhus reproves the Lucani and Samnites sharply for their absence, which could have been a tactical error, but this seems unlikely to have happened with both people. Rather, I suggest that the Lucani and Samnites were rethinking their position in the war, and decided to sit out the battle to see if indeed Pyrrhus could win.

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[674] Polyb. 10.1.1-9.

[675] Flor. 1.13.18.1.

[676] Plut. *Pyrrh.* 16.4; 17.10.

They arguably had the most to lose should the Romans have triumphed. Once Pyrrhus's victory became apparent, they showed up late, probably under some pretext, relying on his leniency, and throwing their full support behind him.

After his victory at Heraclea, Pyrrhus wisely followed up with a pillaging march on Rome, though he wintered in Campania (280/279 BC); he had Lucanian and Bruttian contingents with him.[677] Pyrrhus failed to besiege the city, but instead clashed with Rome at Asculum in 279 BC.

D. Asculum

This battle is an excellent example of Lucani fighting within a Greek system, although the former do not come off well against the Romans: after a short while they turn and flee along with the Bruttii and Tarentines stationed next to them.[678] Dionysius has several facts wrong here, some of which concern the Lucani. He states that the third legion faced them, but that they were routed by the fourth. Later (20.3.5) he splits the difference, saying simply that the third and fourth legions had routed their foes.

We also have a discrepancy on the position of the Lucani. Frontinus puts them on the left, stationed next to the Bruttii and Salentines.[679] Dionysius has the Lucani in the middle. This discrepancy has important ramifications, because it concerns ancient perceptions about Lucanian trustworthiness and fighting prowess. The center is not the

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[677] Paul. Diac. *Hist. Rom.* 2.12.

[678] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 20.1.1-4; 2.6-3.1.

[679] Front. *Strat.* 2.3.21.

place of honor, but, in fact, the place generals put troops who were at best not steadfast, at worst completely untrustworthy. Alexander frequently employed this policy, supposedly based in Homer.[680] There is probably no resolution to the problem. However the true disposition of the Lucanian infantry may have been, the Lucanian cavalry were on the left, according to Dionysius. Pyrrhus's suspicions of the unreliability of the Lucani, Bruttii, and Tarentines proved true, to his detriment: the Lucani and Bruttii fought "no great while," and then fled; the Tarentines followed suit.[681] Only Pyrrhus's genius saved the battle.

After his victory at Asculum, the Lucani and Bruttii took the opportunity to besiege Thurii once again in 278 BC. Fabricius returned to pacify them.[682] It is unclear whether Thurii had received another Roman garrison after Asculum, though they certainly had the motive to do so, under pressure from the Lucani, Bruttii, and even Tarentum. However, Rome may not have been in a position to provide this aid.

Militarily, there are several points of note in Rome's defense of Thurii. The Romans show great wisdom in sending Fabricius on this task; we may read into this an understanding that this area was very difficult to conquer, and thus an experienced commander was necessary. There were essentially no real roads through Lucania at this time, except perhaps one between Capua and Rhegium. We have already seen two

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[680] Hom. *Il.* 4.297: "ἱππῆας μὲν πρῶτα σὺν ἵπποισιν καὶ ὄχεσφι,/πεζοὺς δ' ἐξόπιθε στῆσεν πολέας τε καὶ ἐσθλοὺς/ἔρκος ἔμεν πολέμοιο· κακοὺς δ' ἐς μέσσον ἔλασσεν,/ὄφρα καὶ οὐκ ἐθέλων τις ἀναγκαίῃ πολεμίζοι." Cf. Amm. Marc. 24.6.9.

[681] The Tarentines were proverbially soft: cf. Iuv. *Sat.* 6.297; Flor. 1.81.

[682] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 20.4.2; Eutr. 2.14.2-3. Cf. Paul. Diac. *Hist. Rom.* 2.14.

skilled Greek generals lose their lives in this territory. The Thurini had learned in the fourth century how deadly a Lucanian trap could be (10,000 lost). Furthermore, we can see here that the Lucani and Bruttii had made great strides in their knowledge of siege warfare—they constructed a palisade around Thurii. The Rhegian request for a Roman garrison (a very bad idea, in hindsight) subtly implies that the Lucani and Bruttii would have besieged Thurii successfully had it not been for the Romans.

Rome saw such difficulties with the potential endeavor that she provided him with a colleague experienced in the region, and with operating alongside Fabricius. Q. Aemilius Papus shared the consulship with Fabricius in 282 and 278 BC; Frontinus mentions his shrewd tactics on the coast of Lucania.[683] No Aemilius Paulus attacked the Tarentines; this must have been Papus.[684] During his first consulship he fought the Etruscans, but that does not necessarily preclude him from campaigning in Lucania in the same year. We definitely see him as an ambassador to Pyrrhus in 280 BC, and then again on campaign with Luscinus in Lucania (278 BC). Thus it seems that the Romans thought it crucial to send commanders experienced in the area, and a pair who had worked together on campaign.

Fabricius again triumphed over the Lucani. Yet it seems that the Lucani and Bruttii were not yet totally pacified, since they continued to resist Rome, this time as a garrison of the Crotoniates. Frontinus declares that the city was then impregnable with the Lucanian reinforcements; the consul Cornelius Rufinus only succeeded in taking the

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[683] Front. *Strat.* 1.4.1.

[684] Cf. Zonar. 8.2.

city by tricking the Crotoniates to dismiss their allied Lucani prematurely.[685]

This is another perfect example of how a rigid (and traditional) interpretation of "Lucani versus Italiotes" does not find support within the evidence. The Crotoniates were willing to invite barbarian troops, with whom they had probably been at war many times over the centuries, in order to preserve their sovereignty in the face of a serious, impending threat. Yet at the same time we can see misgivings, too, when they readily dismiss their barbarian allies after the threat had (supposedly) subsided.

During Pyrrhus's time in Sicily, Roman armies continued to extend their control of Lucania, judging from the terse statements in the *Periochae*.[686] After the fall of Croton Laevinus left a garrison in those parts of Lucania under Roman control. This difficult war zone required a heavy commitment of Roman forces to subjugate the Lucani (which would not actually take place for several more years). In the next year (277 BC), the consuls Junius and Rufinus devastated Samnium and Lucania.[687] The inscriptional evidence attests to triumphs in six of seven years between 278 and 272.[688] Aurelius Victor (fourth century AD, drawing on Suetonius and perhaps Cato the Elder's *Origines*) elaborates on one of these campaigns, the successful operations of Marcus Curius Dentatus against the Lucani:

Marcus Curius Dentatus first celebrated a triumph over the Samnites, whom he

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[685] Frontin. *Strateg.* 3.6.4. Cf. Zonar. 8.6.2-5; Diod. Cass. 10.136-137.

[686] Liv. *Per.* 13: "Res praeterea contra Lucanos et Bruttios, Samnites et Etruscos prospere gestas continet."

[687] Zonar. 8.6 (c. 649a-c; 652d) (=Dio Cass. *Hist. Rom.* 10.136-139).

[688] Zonar. 8.6; *Fasti triumphales* in *CIL* I^2 p. 46: "C. Iunius C. f. C. n. Brutus Bubulc(us) an. CDLXXVI cos. II de Lucaneis et Bruttieis non. Ian."; Liv. Epit. 12-14; Eutr. 2.8; Val. Max. 1.8.6.

> thoroughly subdued all the way up to the Adriatic. Returning to the assembly, he said, "I seized so much land that it would have been a wasteland if I had not captured so very many men; but I seized so many men that they would have died of hunger if I had not seized so much land."[689]

The clue "*usque ad mare superum perpacavit*," along with the inscriptional evidence, indicates that Aurelius Victor here has mislabeled Dentatus' opponents Samnites, probably from apathy rather than ignorance; these are Lucani.

E. Beneventum

The Lucani fought hard during this decade, judging by the unprecedented number of triumphs that one people yielded to Rome in such a short amount of time; however, ultimately they could not resist the combined might of Rome and the Latins, and they, along with the rest of his Italian allies, pleaded with Pyrrhus for protection.[690] Justin's *socii Italici* certainly refers to the Greeks, but must also have included the Lucani and Bruttii, despite the fact that we have seen evidence of Lucanian-Italiote conflict at this time; three-party alliances in Magna Graecia never prevented two parties from making war on each other. Pyrrhus returned to Italy and faced Rome one last time at Beneventum. According to Plutarch he made a crucial blunder by dividing his army in two; perhaps he underestimated Roman strength. One half he sent into Lucania to block the consul L. Cornelius Lentulus Caudinus from aiding his colleague; the other half he led against Manius Curius near Beneventum in Samnium.[691] Though the battle was a

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[689] Aur. Vic. *De vir. ill.* 33.1-5.

[690] Justin. 23.3.5.

[691] Plut. *Pyrrh.* 25; Heurgon, *Rise of Rome*, 215.

stalemate, or at best a minor Roman victory, Pyrrhus had lost, for his resources were mostly exhausted, and Rome could draw on seemingly interminable resources from her Latin allies; plus, Rome had finally figured out how to defeat elephants. Interestingly, Florus (apparently independent of his primary source Livy), on whom Orosius relies for his matching account, states that the Romans defeated Pyrrhus not at Beneventum, but on the unknown Arusine Plains in Lucania.[692] Frontinus, on the other hand, set the battle at Malventum/Beneventum, but he names the surrounding area the Arusine Plains.[693] The textual evidence for Beneventum is much better than a Lucanian site, which we must reject without further support. Regardless, Pyrrhus withdrew to Epirus as a conqueror, one of the greatest generals in antiquity, until an old woman brained him with a roof tile in Argos. All of exhausted Lucania fought Rome for three more years. This was a hopeless effort, as Rome now controlled the vast resources of all peninsular Italy, and Lucania was crushed.

IV. Aftermath of the Pyrrhic Wars

A. Paestum[694]

The Romans took quick steps to secure the area, for Roman armies had been in Lucania for almost eight years straight, beginning with Pyrrhus's invasion in 280 BC and

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[692] Flor. 1.13.11; Oros. 4.2.3.

[693] Front. *Strat.* 4.1.14.

[694] For the colony at Paestum, see M. Gualtieri, *La Lucania romana. Cultura e società nella documentazione archeologica* (Naples: Loffredo, 2002), 19-24; Torelli, *Tota Italia*, 43-88.

ending with the final triumph of Papirius and Carvilius over the Lucani in 272 BC.[695] In many ways, Lucania is a perfect case study for Badian's theories on Roman Republican imperialism: Rome could no longer afford *not* to annex Lucania after the Pyrrhic wars.[696] Her efforts to shore up Roman power in the area center around Poseidonia, with good reason. First, Rome planted the Latin colony of Paestum there in 273 BC.[697] This well-calculated move punished the Lucani for rebelling with Pyrrhus, as it established a strong Roman presence in Lucania's most illustrious town.[698] The Roman consul Claudius Canina who planted the colony had extensive dealings with the south. The inscriptional and artistic evidence demonstrates how the Romans rapidly came to dominate the city.[699] Rome had already secured northeastern Lucania through the colony at Venusia (291 BC), which isolated the Lucani from their Hirpini neighbors.[700]

Strangely, despite the constant war between the Romans and Lucani over the past twenty years, cultural and political ties between the two begin to develop in Paestum rather quickly, which led, ultimately, to full patron-client relations by the Second Punic War.[701] But planting this colony also had serious negative repercussions for the Lucani

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[695] Liv. *Per.* 14. As La Greca notes (207-8), "This is the only time Livy says Posidonia; this could be an error by Livy, or his compiler." Brunt, *Italian Manpower*, 359 states in error that Rome founded the colony on land annexed from the Picentines; this is impossible, given that Rome did not transplant the Picenes to Picentia until 268 BC; cf. Liv. 24.9.8. See also Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 544.

[696] E. Badian, *Roman Imperialism in the Late Republic*[2] (Oxford: Blackwell, 1968).

[697] Vell. 1.14.7.

[698] Salmon, *Colonization*, 63.

[699] La Greca, 207-8.

[700] E.T. Salmon, *Roman Colonization under the Republic* (London: Thames and Hudson, 1969), 60-2.

[701] Wonder, "Paestum," 8; 36 ff.

in Paestum. Presumably land annexations for allotments to Latin farmers preceded the colony. The appearance of the city changed dramatically—streets were moved, and buildings were torn down to make room for Roman architectural needs and preferences.[702] The whole process disrupted traditional Lucanian lifestyle, as the Romans probably intended.

To shake up the Lucanian grip on the area even further, Rome resettled tens of thousands of Picenes around Paestum in 268 BC. These efforts, and the sheer, repeated success of Roman armies throughout the late 280s and 270s, brought the Lucani to acquiesce. We know something more about Roman exactions in the region. Rome demanded large quantities of lumber from the Bruttii.[703] This situation probably applied to the Lucani, too, given the region's thick forests, and Rome's shipbuilding needs.[704]

B. The Picentine Settlement

We must discuss a strange interlude in the narrative of Lucania, a small event from most perspectives, but landscape-changing (both culturally and literally) to the Lucani.[705] In 268 BC the consul Appius Claudius Rufus conquered the Picenes. Instead of selling some of them into slavery, or burdening them with heavier tributes and

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[702] Mello, *Paestum*, 136-7.

[703] D.H. *Antiq. Rom.* 20.15.1-2.

[704] La Greca, 133. Pliny (*HN* 14.127) and Strabo (6.1.9) attest to the important timber trade in the Sila region. Even centuries later, Gregory the Great sought lumber from Bruttium to build churches: Greg. *Epist.* 12.20-23 (Migne LXXVII col. 1230-1233).

[705] Sources on the Picene settlement of the Silaran plain: Str. 5.4.13; Dionys. *Per.* 361; Plin. *HN* 3.70; Ptol. 3.1.7; Nicephorus Blemmides, *Geogr. sin.* 331-402 (p. 460-1, Muller, 1965).

compulsions, the Romans opted for the unique solution of settling some of them on the Silaran plain near Paestum.[706]

Pliny the Elder says that Rome resettled 360,000 Picenes, but this is much too high.[707] Very few sources discuss this event (presumably the transformed lives of these myriads of people did not concern the Greeks and Romans); in fact, imprecision of terminology in the sources muddies the entire discussion. Ancient writers use the term "Picentes" without specifying whether this is the people of "old Picenum" or Silaran Picenum. To make matters worth, authors like Dionysius Periegetes call the Silarus area "Πευκεντίνου", which is also bothersome, since the Peucetii lived not too far away in Apulia.[708] To avoid confusion, following a pattern found in Strabo, I use the following terminology: Picenum and Picenes will refer to the old country (the Adriatic Sea region) and inhabitants of that area, respectively, and Picentia and Picentes will refer to the new

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[706] Str. 5.4.13. This passage has some problems with its readings: see La Greca (336) for a summary of difficulties. I have chosen to read here "Lucania" instead of "Campania", since the context demands it, and since Strabo clearly thought that the Lucani were Samnites, who had possessed Campania since c. 421 BC. See also A. Greco and E. Greco, "L'agro picentino e la Lucania occidentale," in *Società romana e produzione schiavistica I. L'Italia: Insediamenti e forme economiche*, ed. A. Giardina and A. Schiavone (Rome: Laterza, 1981), 137-42.

[707] Plin. *HN* 3.13.110; cf. 3.5.38.

[708] Dion. Per. *Orbis descriptio*, 357-363: "τῇ δ' ἐπὶ Καμπανῶν λιπαρὸν πέδον, ἧχι μέλαθρον/ἀγνῆς Παρθενόπης, σταχύων βεβριθὸς ἀμάλλαις,/Παρθενόπης, ἣν πόντος ἑοῖς ὑπεδέξατο κόλποις./πρὸς δὲ νότον, μάλα πολλὸν ὑπὲρ Σειρηνίδα πέτρην,/φαίνονται προχοαὶ Πευκεντίνου Σιλάροιο·/ἄγχι δὲ Λευκανοὶ καὶ Βρέντιοι ἄνδρες ἔασι,/τοσσάτιον ναίοντες, ὅσον Λευκὴν ἐπὶ πέτρην." *Scholia in Dion. Per.* 360: "Πρὸς δὲ νότον] τῆς Σειρῆνος Παρθενόπης, ἐς ἣς καὶ Σειρηνὶς πέτρα. Λέγει δὲ τὴν Νεάπολιν. Ἴσως δὲ διὰ τὸ ἐπ' ὄρους αὐτὴν κεῖσθαι. Ἐνταῦθα γὰρ ἐτιμᾶτο ἡ Παρθενόπη. -Σίλαρος δέ ἐστι ποταμὸς κατωτέρω Λευκανῶν. Πευκεντίνου δὲ, διὰ τὸ ἐν αὐτῷ οἰκεῖν τὸ ἔθνος τοῦτο." Why this scholiast thinks that the Silarus is below ("κατωτέρω") the Lucani is unclear. Later (375) the scholiast says that the Marsi are above Sybaris, which is not really close at all to the truth, even for the Greeks with all of their distorted geography. Perhaps this scholiast thought that the Hirpini were the Marsi, which is slightly closer to the truth, but still unsatisfactory.

Silaran settlement and the new inhabitants, respectively.[709]

Why did the Romans settle the Picenes near the Sele? The separation itself makes sense, undermining the new group's organizational capabilities; after the Second Punic War, when the Picentes revolted to Hannibal (and the Picenes did not), the former lost their capital and were reduced to living in scattered villages. Geographically, the Picenes were technically now farther away, though the Via Appia made that journey easier than crossing the Apennines to Picenum. This decision also constrained Rome to fortify Salerno to watch over the Picentines. But I suggest that there were military and political implications involving the Lucani behind Rome's decision. The 273 BC colony at Paestum, in fact, is a clue to the thinking of the Romans, who had only very recently conquered the Lucani. The Romans had learned from their experience with Pyrrhus that southern Italy was crucial, and her business in the area was not finished. In 268 BC the First Punic War is only four years off, and Rome certainly saw the need to bolster her presence in the only real ship-building area of the peninsula, especially an area so close to Sicily. She also foresaw more trouble with Tarentum. Furthermore, the Picenes were dangerously close to both the Umbrians and the Senones Gauls, who had recently caused a great deal of trouble (culminating at Sentinum). Dispossessing the Picenes not only weakened Picene stability, but it also kept them closer to where Roman armies were

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[709] Hdn. *Katholic prosody* 3.1 p. 390 : "ἔτι καὶ Συρρεντόν πόλις Τυρρηνίας, ἣ καὶ Συρρέντιον, καὶ Πικεντόν. οὕτω γὰρ Φλέγων Πικεντίαν πόλιν Τυρρηνίας καλεῖ." Martianus Mineus Felix Capella *De nuptis Philologiae et Mercurii* 6.638: "...mox Campania Picentesque ac Lucanum latus Bryttiumque coniungitur." St. Byz. *Ethnica* ad v. Picentia: "Πικεντία, πόλις Τυρρηνίας. Φλέγων δὲ Πικεντόν αὐτὴν καλεῖ. οἱ ἐνοικήτορες Πικεντῖνοι, καὶ τὸ θηλυκὸν Πικεντίνη." This attests to the continued presence of the Etruscans, though obviously not in the fifth century AD, perhaps as late as the Picentine settlement of 268 BC.

stationed. This also had an unsettling effect on an already very diverse area: Paestum had a dominant Lucanian element, a strong Greek element, perhaps traces of Etruscan and Ausonian elements, and a large Roman colony. This choice of resettlement may not ultimately have kept southern Italy (and the Lucani) loyal, but we cannot know if it did stave off rebellion; the Picenes are one of the few people to remain fiercely loyal to Rome during Hannibal's invasion. We may add one final motive. Perhaps not coincidentally, in 268 BC Rome began to strike her own coins, and to take an active (if rudimentary) role in the economy of Italy, since peninsular Italy was effectively subject to her.[710] Hindering the threat of revolt from the Picenes and Lucani created a more peaceful environment for economic activity, both across the peninsula east of Rome, and down the Tyrrhenian coastline to Rhegium.

C. 268-217 BC

Our knowledge of Lucanian affairs for the next fifty years is abysmal, since our written sources are almost entirely silent or missing (in the case of Livy) until the outbreak of the Second Punic War. Frequently, narrative histories of Lucania generally skip from the foundation of Paestum to 217 BC. There is some evidence of the incipient transformation of southern Italy toward a more Roman-looking world, though I hesitate to use the word "Romanization," because of the underlying assumption behind this term that a Romanized people somehow lost all of their previous distinction.[711] Certainly the

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[710] Salmon, *Making*, 70.

[711] For this process in Lucania, see A. Russi, "La romanizzazione: Il quadro storico. Età repubblicana ed età imperiale," in *Storia della Basilicata*, vol. 1, ed. G. de Rosa and A. Cestaro (Rome: Gius. Laterza &

Lucani found ways to express their unique "Lucaninity" within the confines of a rather hegemonic Roman culture (and government). Nevertheless, Lucanian society did begin to adopt Roman customs and institutions at this time (voluntarily or not).[712] Great language changes began to take place with the advent of Rome—at places like Paestum and Venusia Latin inscriptions begin to appear. Presumably the Lucanian elite began adopting Latin extensively at this time, at least around these colonies, if they had not done so already.[713] However, Oscan still dominated as the primary tongue, since Oscan inscriptions are still common through the third century BC.[714] Greek also remained very important to the region—we recall Ennius's reference (found in Festus) to Bruttian bilingualism, for which they were famous.[715]

Other changes came to Lucanian society with the advent of Roman colonies, garrisons, and armies. Either by compulsion or preference the Lucani appear to have

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Figli, 1999), 487 ff.; A. Small, "L'occupazione del territorio in età Romana," in *Storia della Basilicata*, vol. 1, ed. G. de Rosa and A. Cestaro (Rome: Gius. Laterza & Figli, 1999), 559-79; J.P. Morel, "La romanisation du Samnium et de la Lucani aux IVe et IIIe av. J.-C. d'après l'artisanat et le commerce," in *Comunità indigene e problemi della romanizzazione nell'Italia centro-meridionale (IVo-IIIo sec. av. C.): Actes du colloque international*, ed. J. Mertens and R. Lambrechts (Brussels: Institut historique belge de Rome, 1991), 125-44.

[712] Curti, Dench, and Patterson, "The Archaeology of Southern Italy," 186-7.

[713] For bilingualism among the elite, see Adams, *Bilingualism*, 9-14.

[714] For Oscan during this period, see R. Coleman, "The Central Italic Languages in the Period of Roman Expansion," *Transactions of the Philological Society* 84 (1986): 100-131.

[715] Fest., p. 31 L: "BILINGUES BRUTTACES Ennius dixit, quod Brutti et Osce et Graece loqui soliti sint. Sunt autem Italiae populi vicini Lucanis." Cf. Porphyrion, *Comm. in Hor. Sat.* 1.10.30: "CANUSINI MORE <BILINGUIS>. Bilinguis dixit, quoniam utraque lingua usi sunt, sicut per omnem illum tractum Italiae, quoniam ex maiore parte Graeci ibi incoluerunt, ex quo Magn<ae> Graeciae nomen accepit. Ideo ergo et Ennius et Lucilius 'Brutta<t>e bilingui' dixerunt"; Steph. Byz. s.v. Ὀπικοί. See A. De Franciscis and O. Parlangèli, *Gli Italici del Bruzio nei documenti epigrafici* (Naples: L'Arte Tipografica, 1960), 10-1. I suggest that Ennius's words could be an example of boasting of his pseudo-homeland: he was born Messapic, but he was found in a Calabrian legion (Hor. *Carm.* 4.8; Ovid. *Ars. Am.* 3.409).

begun abandoning their traditional fortified mountain refuge-towns for lower-elevation urban centers. At the same time, their rural sanctuaries may have become even more important as meeting centers for the various Lucanian tribes.[716] Secondly, Lejeune has proposed that beginning in the fourth century BC, and continuing through the third, the traditional Lucanian naming pattern of "praenomen + genitive patronymic" changed through the addition of a gentilic after the praenomen, which is nearly the traditional Roman naming system.[717] Lucanian allied combat units most likely fought alongside Rome in the First Punic War and against the Gauls of northern Italy; Paestum provided ships, being a *socius navalis*. Roman political culture made inroads, too, and it is perhaps in this period that traditional Lucanian offices began to look more like Roman magistracies (though the meddicate continued into the second century BC). Unfortunately, we can say little else that is not speculation; it is not until the Second Punic War that our sources take interest in Lucania once again.

V. The Second Punic War

Scholars have analyzed Hannibal's movements and decisions *ad nauseam*, so we will not treat them here, unless specifically set in Lucania. Instead, we are concerned with how the Second Punic War affected the Lucani, and their relations with the Romans,

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[716] E. Isayev, "The Role of the Indigenous Centres in Lucania and Their Collapse in the III C. BC," in *Modalità insediative e strutture agrarie nell'Italia meridionale in età romana*, ed. E. Lo Cascio and A.S. Marino (Bari: Edipuglia, 2001), 107-28.

[717] M. Lejeune, "Langue et civilisation des Lucaniens," *Atti del convegno di studio della deputazione di storia patria per la Lucania (Potenza-Matera, 18-20 ottobre 1971)*, in *Archivio storico per la Calabria e la Lucania* (Rome: Collezione Meridionale Editrice, 1972), 83.

the Greeks, and their neighbors.[718] This war both highlighted and exacerbated major divisions in Lucanian society, both socio-economical and tribal-political; these divisions would have great consequences for the Lucanian people. For now, we note the ecological and demographic repercussions on Lucania from the Republic's greatest conflict.[719] Some suggest that only in 1950 did Italy recover from the deforestation and soil deterioration in the Second Punic War. Lucania bore a significant portion of this depredation, with Roman and Carthaginian armies plundering it for decades. In the years after Cannae (216 BC), when fear of an open battle with Hannibal terrified Roman commanders, the latter played a game of cat-and-mouse with Hannibal's generals while he ran back and forth from Capua to Lucania between conflicts.[720]

A. The Role of the Lucani in the Second Punic War

Lucanian involvement in the Second Punic War is very complex. At some point a significant portion of the Lucanian tribes revolted from Rome, along with the Picentines and Bruttii.[721] This was a major blow to Rome's allied contingent strength (besides the

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[718] For the Second Punic War, and specifically Lucania's role in it, see J. Briscoe, "The Second Punic War," *Cambridge Ancient History*^{2}, vol. 8, ed. A.E. Astin *et al.* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1989), 44-80 (especially 53-6); Cappelletti, *Lucani e Brettii*, 128-71.

[719] Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy* vol.2, 10 ff., but especially 33, n. 5 and 165, n. 4; E. Gabba and M. Pasquinucci, *Strutture agrarie e allevamento transumante nell'Italia romana (III-I Sec. a.C.)* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1979), 42.

[720] App. *Hann.* 38.162-3; 43.183-5.

[721] Str. 5.4.13.

loss of many of her other allies).[722] Yet some Lucani remained faithful, as the Gracchus episode makes clear.[723] Surprisingly, our evidence of Romans actually fighting against Lucanian forces is surprisingly sparse. More often than not our sources only tersely mention a Lucanian presence in Hannibal's or Rome's armies, with little additional information.

After Cannae, as the Romans regained their confidence, many important battles took place in Lucania, with the Carthaginians and Romans trading victories, but the Lucani were the real losers in many respects. In 215 BC Tiberius Sempronius Longus defeated Hanno in Grumentum.[724] But Hannibal destroyed Gracchus's army in Lucania (212 BC), which Toynbee considers the worst Roman disaster of the war after Cannae.[725] The Romans and Carthaginians razed and plundered numerous Lucanian fortified towns and cities, at great loss of life, year after year.[726] The situation got so bad in Lucania that both Hannibal and the Romans chose to resettle loyalists outside the area for their own safety.[727] The rapacious tax-collector Pomponius Veientanus brashly pillaged Lucania before being captured by the Carthaginians, though it is unclear whether he did this at the

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[722] For Lucanian contingent strength before the war, see Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 488-498 *passim*.

[723] See Chapter 2, p. 90 ff. Silius Italicus (11.1-13) does not even mention the Lucani among the peoples who revolted, though he does mention the Bruttii and Hirpini. Cf. Liv. 22.61.11-12; Liv. 23.11.11. Frederiksen (*Campania*, 238) is mistaken that all the Lucani revolted to Hannibal.

[724] Liv. 23.37.10-11.

[725] Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 473.

[726] Liv. 24.20.1-6.

[727] App. *Hann.* 210-11.

head of an army or through standard Roman tax farming practices; the method probably mattered little to the Lucani.[728] Several consuls even were killed in Lucania, including Marcellus (208 BC), one of only three recipients of the *spolia opima*, and Gracchus, victim of perhaps the most notorious episode of treachery in Roman history (212 BC).[729]

Eventually Hannibal could no longer resist the Roman machine. Despite the losses of perhaps hundreds of thousands of men, several consuls, and innumerable lesser magistrates, the Romans eventually forced Hannibal to abandon Lucania and entrench in Bruttium. The full return of Lucania back to Roman dominion is difficult to place; Lucanian loyalties were highly divided among the tribes. However, Livy establishes that the process began as early as 209 BC.[730] This passage does not specify how many of the Lucani returned to Roman allegiance. We also note here the development of a broad foreign policy schism between the Lucani and the Bruttii, who remained faithful to Hannibal through Zama in 202 BC.

Later, however, Livy mentions that Hannibal returned to Grumentum (207 BC) to recover some lost *oppida*; here Rome won a great victory over Hannibal (who lost thousands of men, and four elephants), which we may suppose must have signaled to the still-defected Lucani that Hannibal's cause in Italy was lost, and that Rome would,

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[728] Liv. 25.3.5-9.

[729] Plut. *Marc.*29.1-3. Hannibal also cut down the brash and overconfident centurion Centennius in Lucania, along with 7,000 men: see Liv. 25.19.6-17; Oros. 4.16.16. Numistro in Lucania saw several battles (Front. *Strat.* 2.2.6). Later Marcellus defeated Hannibal there (Liv. 27.2.4-10); Plut. *Marc.* 24.6-9; cf. *CIL* X.1, 433-443.

[730] Liv. 27.15.2-3.

indeed, be sovereign over the Italian peoples.[731] Rome had checked Hannibal in every quarter in Lucania; the Punic commander desperately needed reinforcements in the south to continue his siege of Italy. But after the devastating Battle at the Metaurus (207 BC), only a few Lucanian towns remained to Hannibal.[732] Even after the battle a few Lucani fled with Hannibal into Bruttium.[733] But the final return of the Lucani to Roman allegiance was mostly bloodless, in fact.[734]

B. Consequences for the Defector Lucani and Bruttii

Thus, 207 BC stands as a *terminus ante quem* most of the Lucani returned fully to Roman allegiance, either voluntarily, or through subjection. Like their land, the Lucani had suffered dreadfully, at the hands of both the Romans and Hannibal, since it had been a primary theater of war, and because the Lucani had split along tribal divisions on both sides of the battle line.[735] The archaeological record indicates that in the last decades of the third century the Lucani continued the process of abandoning traditional sites, which

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[731] Liv. 27.41-42.

[732] App. *Hann.* 225; cf. Liv. 27.43.11–44.3; Sil. 15.544-545; Val. Max. 7.4.4; Zonar. 9.9.

[733] Liv. 27.51.12-13.

[734] Liv. 28.11.12-15; App. *Hann.* 54. Livy's emphasis on the *tota gens* of the Lucani reveals his basic understanding of Lucanian tribal differences. La Greca, 322, uses Sil. 17.432-443 to argue that some Lucani remained loyal to Hannibal, judging from the ethnics, toponyms, and hydronyms Silarus, Caudinus, and Laus. Silius even notes that their languages are *consona*, which could hold true for Lucanian and Bruttian. Cf. Liv. 27.51.12-13; 30.20.5-6; 33.6; 35.9; App. *Hann.* 59-60; Pol. 15.11. This certainly seems possible, but further certainty is not justifiable. For Bruttium as guerrilla-warfare country, see T.P. Wiseman, "*Viae Anniae*," *Papers of the British School in Rome* 32 (1964): 34-7.

[735] Crawford, 100.

they had begun to do as early as the mid-third century BC.[736] Appian notes that Hannibal's presence during the war was detrimental even to his Lucanian allies in the last years.[737] But despite his predatory conduct, the withdrawal of Hannibal afforded those tribes who had revolted from Rome no realistic hope of success. The consequences were severe. Rome humiliated the Lucani, Bruttii, and Picentines by temporarily relegating them to non-combat roles in the army. More severely, Rome annexed more than half of Lucania, and nearly half of Bruttium (and much of this was the fertile river valleys).[738] Likely most of this land confiscated from rebel Lucanian tribes was given to those tribes that had remained loyal, which further ingratiated the Lucanian elite to their Roman patrons, and to the Republic in general.[739]

VI. The Second Century BC

The history of the Lucani in the second century BC is almost as obscure as their prehistory.[740] Few historical accounts of Italy's history during the century survive. Livy's

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[736] Isayev, 156-8.

[737] App. *Hann.* 250-1. Livy 27.35.9-13 confirms that Lucania remained a war province (naturally) until Hannibal's departure; presumably, due to its maritime strategic importance, it remained so until the final defeat of Carthage.

[738] Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 2, 119-121; David, 66-71; C. Delano-Smith, *Western Mediterranean Europe: A Historical Geography of Italy, Spain, and Southern France since the Neolithic* (New York: Academic Press, 1979), 100-1.

[739] Salmon, *Samnium*, 302. See App. *Hann.* 252-3. The Bruttii did not receive pardon, unlike the rest of the Lucani. The Romans also humiliated them, along with the defector Picentines and Lucani, by temporarily relegating them within the Roman army to the most shameful, menial ranks of couriers and pages. As we shall see later, this ban was not permanent.

[740] For a general history of the period (but, understandably from the dearth of source material, only the briefest mention of the Lucani), see E. Gabba, "Rome and Italy in the Second Century B.C.," *Cambridge Ancient History*[2] vol. 8, ed. A.E. Astin *et al.* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1989), 197-243.

work to 167 BC survives, but after Zama in 202 BC his perspective pulls back to take in Rome's new ventures to the east and west; backwater, conquered regions like Lucania were not as important. However, Rome did expend some effort in these areas, mostly by planting colonies and annexing land to satisfy the tastes of the Roman elite and the need to settle a burgeoning Roman and Latin soldiery.

A. Buxentum

To tighten her control of the Tyrrhenian Sea coasts, Rome deliberated in 197 BC whether to found five colonies for that purpose, one of which was at Pyxus (Roman Buxentum), in 194 BC.[741] Presumably the city was heavily depopulated in the Second Punic War, if not totally desolate. This new Roman colony would include Latins, who in 195 BC had agitated unsuccessfully for full Roman citizenship.[742] Livy probably errs when he says, "The lands allotted (the colonists) formerly belonged to the Campani."[743] While this was true for Puteoli, Volturnum, Liternum, and Salernum, the Campani never controlled Pyxus. Livy clumped Buxentum in this group of Campanian colonies because he did not think such minutiae worth clarifying.

In less than a decade the colony had failed: Sp. Postumius Albinus (cos. 186 BC) found the place deserted.[744] Buxentum was refounded that year; Velleius Paterculus says

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[741] Liv. 32.29.3-4. See Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 145; Salmon, *Colonization*, 97-9.

[742] Liv. 34.42.5-6.

[743] Liv. 34.45.1-2.

[744] Liv. 39.23.3-4. Albinus's name matches an obscure god "Albinus" in Lucania during the imperial

another attempt was made around 154/153 BC.[745] We may speculate that this string of failures lends some weight to the idea that the Greek foundation of Pyxus c. 471 BC was, in fact, a refoundation. Apparently the location was not favorable enough to remain viable. La Greca offers the development of *latifundia* as another cause, but this explanation, and, indeed, the existence of *latifundia* in general, is problematic.[746] Perhaps the Romans did not foresee how the devastation of the Second Punic War would disrupt the economy and livability of the region.

B. Other Colonies, Annexations, and Land Reform

Roman colonization efforts in the south did not stop with the failure at Buxentum. Unfortunately, our knowledge of colonization in Lucania during the second and first centuries BC is very inferior (for example, it is unclear whether the Gracchi or Sulla founded colonies at Abellinum or Grumentum).[747] In 193 BC Thurii received a Latin colony under the name *Copia*; that centuries-old conflict was officially at an end. The new Via Popilia from Capua to Rhegium saw the foundation of Forum Popilii in Lucania in either 159 or 132 BC. Later, Tiberius Gracchus's famous lamentations of the

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period.

[745] Vell. 1.15.3.

[746] J. Percival, *The Roman Villa* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1976), 119; G. Barker and J. Lloyd, *Roman Landscapes. Archaeological Survey in the Mediterranean Region.* Arcaheological Monographs of the British School at Rome 2. (London: British School at Rome, 1991), 238; K. D. White, "Latifundia," in *Bulletin of the Institute of Classical Studies of the Unviersity of London* 14 (1967): 62-79; La Greca, 227-32.

[747] Salmon, *Making*, 132; Salmon, *Samnium*, 390. Bruttium received colonies, too: see G.F. La Torre, *Blanda, Lavinium, Cerillae, Clampetia, Tempsa: Lucania et Bruttium I (serie IGM 1:50000)* (Florence: L.S. Olschki, 1999), *passim*.

deteriorated state of the Etruscan countryside (Lucania probably looked worse) led to his revolutionary land redistribution proposals, which, in the south, gave private land to Roman colonists. These Gracchan land commissioners were particularly active in Lucania: a high percentage of marker stones have been found in the region.[748]

Land annexations and reassignments wreaked havoc on traditional Lucanian patterns of society and agriculture.[749] The Romans were well aware of the implications of these colonies and land transfers: "viritane assignations of land increasingly interspersed Romans among the non-Roman population of Italy; the resulting patchwork was a powerful force for the gradual Romanization of the peninsula, particularly combined with the fact of Roman government."[750] But that was the point: Roman citizens in a position of political (which means military) and economic dominance throughout the peninsula would ensure tranquility.

Other factors made the second century BC very difficult for the Lucani. Hannibal's war crippled the region through deforestation and depopulation. The Lucani also stopped minting coins after the Punic War. This may be due to Roman injunction, but Paestum continued to mint its own coins long afterward, so this cessation may be the product of difficult economic times (which induced reliance on Roman coinage).[751]

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[748] *CIL* I^2.638; P. Simelon, *La propriété en Lucanie depuis les Gracques jusqu'à l'avènement des Sévères* (Brussells: Latomus, 1993), 9; 63-4; A. Russi, *La Lucania romana. Profilo storico-istituzionale* (San Severo: Gerni, 1995), 36-40.

[749] Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 239-47; B. Nagle, "An Allied View of the Social War," *American Journal of Archaeology* 77, no. 4 (1973): 375-7.

[750] Crawford, 117.

[751] Head, 70.

Lucanian merchants, like many Italians, spent much time in the Aegean, disrupting traditional family patterns.[752] So did the extended tours that Lucanian military units served, such as in Spain and the east. Roman power and culture spread at a time of increased exploitation of Italian soldiers, who faced heavy casualties, especially in the Numantine War; their rewards were nil, after brutal campaigns such as those against the Gauls at the end of the second century BC.[753]

During this century Oscan began to yield to Latin in Lucania (much later than in Samnium); the Latin alphabet replaced the Tarentine, judging from the late second-century BC Tabula Bantina.[754] While some Lucani surely continued to use Oscan, many must have adopted Latin, especially among the elite, whose growing connections with the Roman elite encouraged the change. Roman domination also distorted traditional power relationships in Lucania: the elite began to favor patron-client connections with Roman nobles, and to follow Roman patterns of distinction. For example, while the Utiani tribe continued to play a role in the affairs of Rossano (even into the Empire), they began to

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[752] Hatzfeld, *Les trafiquants*, 17 ff.; E. Campanile, "La diaspora italica: Implicazioni storico-culturali di fatti linguistici," in *La cultura italica: Atti del convegno della società italiana di glottologia, Pisa, 19 e 20 dicembre 1977* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1978), 106-17.

[753] Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 65 ff.; Sherwin-White, 127; P. Bruun, "The Roman Census and Romanization under Augustus," in *Studies in the Romanization of Etruria* (Rome: Bardi, 1975): 444; Gabba, "Il problema dell 'unita' dell'Italia romana," in *La cultura italica: Atti del convegno della società italiana di glottologia, Pisa, 19 e 20 dicembre 1977* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1978), 15-8; V. Ilari, *Gli italici nelle strutture militari romane* (Milan: A. Giuffrè, 1974), 166-73; 183-4.

[754] The first-century AD pharmacologist and physician Dioscurides thought that the Lucani used a unique Oscan word for a specific kind of plant, but, no more than the famous Atellan farces still performed in Oscan in the first century AD, this cannot establish that the Lucani still spoke Oscan by this period. It does, at the very least, demonstrate that at least one source thought the Lucani somehow distinct from the Romans as late as the first century AD. Dioscurides Pedanius, *De Materia Medica* 4.127: "βούγλωσσον· προφῆται γόνος αἰλούρου, Ὀσθάνης σαννουχί, Αἰγύπτιοι ἀντουεριμβέσωρ, Ῥωμαῖοι λίγγουα βόβουμ, οἱ δὲ Λευκανοὶ <κορράγω>, Ἄφροι λασουνάφ, Δάκοι βουδάθλα."

imitate Roman public evergetism and display on buildings rather than through traditional Lucanian outdoor shrines.[755]

Economic and social norms were disrupted, as Roman and Lucanian elites gobbled up the smaller farms of free Lucanian farmers.[756] The archaeological evidence indicates that in the second century BC the coastal lowlands of southern Italy were more affluent than the interior; scholars interpret this as a return of Italian merchants (*negatiatores*) bringing wealth from Mediterranean trade.[757] Actually, this shift of wealth from the rural highlands to the Tyrrhenian coast had begun a century earlier.[758] But this contrast is misleading: even the coast shows signs of deterioration (Buxentum was not an isolated case). Certainly by the second century malaria had begun to encroach on the region, and large tracts of land were left fallow due to increased depopulation, or they simply reverted to swamp because of changing river courses and stagnation.[759]

These land annexations, colonies, and military and financial burdens continued to

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[755] P. Simelon, *La propriété en Lucanie depuis les Gracques jusqu'à l'avènement des Sévères* (Brussells: Latomus, 1993), 160 ff.

[756] Salmon, *Samnium*, 318; for this practice in Italy in general, see K. Hopkins, *Conquerors and Slaves* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1978), 103 ff; *contra* M. Frederiksen, "The Contribution of Archaeology to the Agrarian Problem in the Gracchan Period," *Dialoghi di Archeologia* 4-5, no. 2-3 (1970-1971): 330-357, though his findings may offer a more balanced picture of the survival of the small landholder after the Second Punic War. For an argument against senatorial involvement in large-scale viticulture, at least in the Republic, see N. Purcell, "Wine and Wealth in Ancient Italy," *Journal of Roman Studies* 75 (1985): 5-6.

[757] J. Lloyd, "Farming the Highlands: Samnium and Arcadia in the Hellenistic and Early Roman Imperial Periods," in G. Barker, and J. Lloyd, *Roman Landscapes. Archaeological Survey in the Mediterranean Region*, Archeological Monographs of the British School at Rome, vol. 2 (London: British School at Rome, 1991), 184.

[758] Lloyd, "Farming the Highlands," 196. See Liv. 34.45; 39.23.

[759] Mello, 145.

transform a region already severely laboring from the effects of the third-century's wars.[760] Rome's new position as queen of the Mediterranean compelled the allied states to defer to her, which must have fostered even more cultural and political interaction. On the other hand, the birth of a Roman-Italy ideology continued to transform Lucanian society into something new, a "Roman Lucania."[761] The Lucani had undergone *radicale inversione*, as Torelli captures so succinctly.[762]

VII. The Social War

In the late second century BC Rome's attitude toward her allies increasingly reinforced their inferiority. Magistrates frequently mistreated the Italian peoples, who lacked the legal shield of the *ius provocationis*. Italians in the Roman army, though fully incorporated after Marius's reforms, still received only reduced shares after military victories. Abuses like these were salt in the wound after having lost their sovereignty and unique cultural and political institutions. They endured these inequalities, despite being "of the same race," or so Velleius thought.[763] Perhaps Rome's decision to scatter colonies throughout Italy at key defensive positions delayed an Italian reaction for some time; likewise, the Italian elites, who had the power to suppress the indignation of their

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[760] E. Gabba, "Aspetti dell'assimilazione delle popolazioni italiche nel II secolo," in *Lingua e cultura degli Oschi*, ed. E. Campanile (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1985), 35 ff.

[761] E. Gabba, "Il problema dell 'unita' dell'Italia romana," in *La cultura italica: Atti del convegno della società italiana di glottologia, Pisa, 19 e 20 dicembre 1977* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1978), 14.

[762] M. Torelli, "La romanizzazione dei territori italici," in *La cultura italica: Atti del convegno della società italiana di glottologia, Pisa, 19 e 20 dicembre 1977* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1978), 84.

[763] Vell. 2.15.2.

respective tribes, tolerated minor abuses so long as they preserved their basic interests.[764] Eventually, however, Italian patience with Roman exploitation had reached the point of no return in the early first century BC. The Italian peoples threw off their Roman yoke, and put up a fierce resistance in the so-called Social War (91-88 BC), which threatened the foundations of the Republic for two or three years almost as badly as Hannibal had. We are concerned primarily with the events of this war insofar as they relate to the Lucani, and their relations to Rome.[765]

While Dench is correct that we must discard some conception of the *socii* as a war of unified Sabellian peoples (*contra* Salmon), we may presume that Lucanian motives were similar to those of the rest of the Italians: a desire for a larger share in the political process, envy of the *ius provocationis*, and frustration at the inequity between Roman and Italian profits through Mediterranean conquest, to name a few.[766] In some ways this conflict grew from the collective anger of the Italian lower classes.[767] But political machinations among the elite also spurred the Italians to revolt. They, like the growing Italian mercantile class, were no longer satisfied with the prospects of preserving their interests while lacking Roman citizenship, especially after the murder of Marcus Livius

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[764] E.T. Salmon, "The Cause of the Social War," *Phoenix* 16, no. 2 (Summer 1962): 107-119.

[765] For the history of the Social war, see E. Gabba, "Rome and Italy: The Social War," *Cambridge Ancient History*^{2} vol. 9, ed. J.A. Crook, A. Lintott, and E. Rawson (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1994), 104-128 (and especially 115-123 for the role of the Lucani).

[766] Bruun, 435-503; Sherwin-White, 127; Brunt, *Italian Manpower*, 358-65; P.A. Brunt, "Italian Aims at the Time of the Social War," *Journal of Roman Studies* 55 (1965): 91-7; J.S. Richardson, "The Ownership of Roman Land: Tiberius Gracchus and the Italians," *The Journal of Roman Studies* 70 (1980), 1-11.

[767] Lepore, "La Tradizione," 56-7.

Drusus, who had almost succeeded in building Rome's largest *clientela* via enfranchising the Italians.[768] Whether or not his reasons were altruistic, the Italians had placed all their hope of a non-military solution in his hands, and his death ignited the Social War.[769] These Italian elites, blocked from enjoying Roman political rights illegally, were ripe for rebellion, according to the first-century AD Asconius.[770] Presumably the Lucanian elites were able to direct the tribes as a whole for one last effort to eke out some kind of advantageous political and economic agreement with Rome

A. Lucanian Entry

When the Lucani joined the revolt is unclear. Some sources set Lucanian entry just after the slaughter at Asculum.[771] But Orosius, who may be drawing on Livy, includes the Lucani among the initial parties.[772] The question seems unanswerable, but we may suppose that Lucania's distance from Rome would predispose her to revolt very early with the other Italians. Finally, we should note that both Appian and Orosius list the Picentes among the peoples who revolted, but this must refer to the original Picenes,

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[768] E. Gabba, *Republican Rome, the Army, and the Allies*, tr. P.J. Cuff (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1976), 75; E. Badian, "Roman Politics and the Italians," *Dialoghi di Archeologia* 4-5, no. 2-3 (1970-1971): 408.

[769] Bruun, 463; F.G.B. Millar, "Politics, Persuasion and the People before the Social War (150-90 B.C.)," *Journal of Roman Studies* 76 (1984): 10-1.

[770] Asc. *Pro Cornelio de Maiestate* 67C: "Hi enim legem eam de qua loquitur de redigendis in suas civitates sociis in consulatu tulerunt. Nam cum summa cupiditate civitatis Romanae Italici populi tenerentur et ob id magna pars eorum pro civibus Romanis se gereret, necessaria lex visa est ut in suae quisque civitatis ius redigeretur. Verum ea lege ita alienati animi sunt principum Italicorum populorum ut ea vel maxima causa belli Italici quod post triennium exortum est fuerit."

[771] App. *BC* 1.5.39; Livy *Per.* 72.

[772] Oros. 5.18.1.

since Asculum was, in all our sources, the origin of the revolt.

B. Lucanian High Command

Given the normal paucity of individual Lucanian names in the sources, our list of generals for the social war is impressive. For example, we hear that late in the war the Samnites were few, the Sabelli in Nola were perishing, and only Lamponius and Clepitius and their followers were left with the remnants of the Lucani.[773] Perhaps they had achieved some kind of notoriety or respect; we note that Clepitius remained active even fourteen years after the slave war.[774] Appian calls the Lucanian Marcus Lamponius one of the chief commanders of the war.[775] As we shall see, he had an extensive, if ultimately fruitless, career fighting the Romans. But Florus does not mention Lamponius, and, in fact, the Samnite Pontius Telesinus commands the Lucani armies.[776] This probably derives from the future Battle at the Colline Gate, at which Telesinus led the combined Lucanian/Samnite forces.

C. Lucanian Performance

Lucanian performance in the Social War varied. On the one hand, Lamponius had some success against Rome, defeating Licinius Crassus and driving a Roman army

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[773] Diod. Sic. 37.2.4; 2.11.

[774] Lepore, "La Tradizione," 57.

[775] App. *BC* 1.40.

[776] Flor. 2.6.

into Grumentum.[777] We also hear of the death of the legate Aulus Gabinius at the hands of the Lucani.[778] On the other hand Appian tells us that Sulla defeated the Hirpini in part because of the failure of the Lucani to provide support.[779] Following the general trend of the Social War, the Italians' initial successes gave way to Roman victories later in the war. As early as 90 BC, when the war was still undecided, Lucius Julius Caesar emboldened the Senate to exchange its mourning garb for their normal togas on account of his victory over the Samnites and Lucani, in which he had slain "many thousands of the enemy."[780]

VIII. Social War, Civil War

The Lucani fought on, with some of the Samnites, long past the rest of the Italian peoples; indeed, while 88 BC is the traditional date for the end of the war (when the Italians obtained suffrage), it does not signal the end of hostilities for at least some of the Lucanian tribes. Perhaps as late as 87 BC the Lucani under Tiberius Clepitius threatened to invade Sicily.[781] While some modern scholars see continued resistance within the context of the Civil War, the reality must not have been so neat to the Samnites and Lucani. Their motives varied, including some kind of allegiance to Marius, but freedom

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[777] App. *BC* 1.41. It is seems likely from this episode, though not totally secure, that Grumentum had remained loyal to Rome.

[778] Liv. *Per.* 76.

[779] App. *BC* 1.51.

[780] Oros. 5.18.14-15.

[781] Diod. Sic. 37.2.13-14; Sherwin-White, 146.

from Rome, and the prospects of plundering the city that had harmed them so often over centuries, also stirred them to action. Additionally, the Lucani and the Samnites apparently did not get suffrage with the rest of the Italians who had surrendered, as punishment for their continued rebellion.[782] Salmon believes that the Lucani and Samnites obtained Roman citizenship in 84 BC, but Brunt suggests that they received it as early as 87 BC, perhaps as a gift from Marius and Cinna for loyalty against Sulla.[783]

Throughout the Civil War the Lucani provided important support to the Marian party, though not all the Lucani remained under arms until the Colline Gate. We must presume that, given Lucanian tribal differences, some tribes adhered more fervently to the Marians than others; the rest went home, especially if they had been collectively enfranchised sometime around 87 BC. Nevertheless, many Lucani fought alongside Marius on several occasions, beginning with the siege of Praeneste, at which a huge Lucanian and Samnite army opposed Sulla unsuccessfully.[784] Only a short time later, after Metellus had defeated the Marian generals Carbo and Norbanus, an entire legion of Lucani deserted to Sulla; their general Albinovanus followed soon after when he deceptively slaughtered a great number of Marian lieutenants at a banquet.[785] Like the Tiberius Gracchus episode a century earlier, here we see a Lucanian general with deep connections to the Roman elite (judging from the banquet, and the trust reposed in him)

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[782] App. *BC* 1.53.

[783] Salmon, *Making*, 131; Brunt, *Italian Manpower*, 90; 93.

[784] App. *BC* 1.90.

[785] App. *BC* 1.91.

betraying and murdering his guests. This loss was a serious blow to the Marian war effort, leading to further defections, and ultimately the suicide of Norbanus.

A. The Battle of the Colline Gate

Finally, in 82 BC an army of Samnites and Lucani marched on Rome in a whirlwind assault, opposed at the last moment by Sulla at the Colline Gate.[786] The Samnites and Lucani must have mustered extremely quickly, for Rome was completely unprepared, except for Sulla's immediate forces. Plutarch's comments that the Lucani and Samnites were the most hostile to Rome and most warlike of the Italians probably echo common sentiments of the day.[787] In fact, Sulla feared these people more than Carbo and Marius the Younger. Many Romans thought that they would return to a plundered city.

The Italians fought hard through the night, but the genius of Crassus won the day. Ironically, Crassus had ample experience fighting Lucanian brigands and slaves in the Spartacus revolt, but would later die at Carrhae in 53 BC at the head of thousands of Lucanian soldiers.[788] Plutarch mentions that the Lucani and Samnites assaulted the Antemnates as a common enemy, hoping to receive Sulla's mercy, but they were mistaken. The picture of Roman senators listening to Sulla speak as Samnites (and some

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[786] App. *BC* 1.93.

[787] Plut. *Sull.* 29.1-8.

[788] Plin. *HN* 2.147.

Lucani) were slaughtered is one of the more gruesome scenes of Roman history.[789] The dictator had 4,000-6,000 "criminals" cut down in the Circus Flaminius and the Campus Martius.

B. Aftermath for the Lucani

We may speculate that a significant portion of the Lucani survived the battle besides their general, Marcus Lamponius.[790] Appian does not list them as shot down like the Samnites, nor does Strabo, who downplays the role of the Lucani when he says that Sulla faced the Samnites "almost alone."[791] Regardless, this defeat was truly the twilight of Lucanian efforts to liberate themselves from the might of Rome.[792] Ultimately, the Social War broke Lucania, like the rest of Italy. Sulla's confiscations are well-known; he awarded his veterans huge tracts of land snatched from the Italian communities that had opposed him, presumably including Lucania.[793] Plausibly, it is a result of these confiscations that the Romans began to acquire their beautiful coastal Lucanian villas.

It is no longer fashionable, nor tenable, to say that the Roman military machine absorbed the defeated Italian peoples, who completely lost their identity and became indistinguishable from the rest of the peoples of the Republic. In the past twenty years or more, scholars have made great strides in establishing the continuity of cultural

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[789] Plut. *Sull.* 29.7-30.3.

[790] Lamponius is conspicuously absent from Vell. 2.16.1-3.

[791] Strabo's version (5.4.11) coincides well with Appian's, but dwells perhaps even more on Sulla's cruelty.

[792] Racioppi, 405-19.

individuality in spite of Roman political domination, with good reason. Yet Lucania did change, dramatically, because of the Social War, after which we must speak of a Roman Lucania, very different from the Lucania of the third century. At the very least, our sources make clear that the Social War devastated the region, presumably meaning its ecology, domestic culture, and population (Florus says it surpassed the destruction of the Second Punic War).[794] One Carbo "scattered the Lucani," which seems to find a parallel in Pompeius Strabo's atoning slaughter and destruction of Asculum.[795]

Politically, the Lucani had already obtained citizenship. But Romanization after the Social War must have increased rapidly: fewer Lucani remained to propagate their unique culture, and an attitude of defeatism probably sped up the transformation (which had been advancing for centuries); it seemed that both external enemies (the Romans) and nature itself (the spread of malaria) warred against any hope of Lucanian sovereignty. Sullan colonies (perhaps at Abellinum or Grumentum) also played a role.[796] The inscriptional evidence indicates that during the first century BC Roman *gentes* begin to appear in quantity, though Sabellian names remain numerous.[797]

The Lucanian tribes already had abandoned their quasi-democratic governments as outmoded, given Roman hegemony; the kingship had long since lapsed by the first

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[793] App. *BC* 1.100.

[794] Flor. 2.6.18.11-14. Liv. 30.19.10 puts Ocriculum in Bruttium.

[795] This is probably Cn. Papirius Carbo, though it could be Gaius or Gaius Arvina (See Cic. *Fam.* 9.21.3; Broughton, *MRR* 2.33).

[796] Salmon, *Making*, 132

[797] V. Bracco, "Criteri e note per una cronologia delle gentes in Lucania," *Rendiconti: Accademia nazionale dei Lincei, classe di scienze morali, storiche e filologiche* 21 (1966): 138.

century BC (generals like Marcus Lamponius would have been kings in previous centuries). Salmon notes the political difficulties before this period of reorganizing Lucanian communities: the Tabula Bantina seems to record this transition, which eventually culminated in Bantia becoming a duoviral *municipium*, as many Lucanian communities must have done by the end of the Social War, forcefully, if needed (though Salmon asserts that Samnite and Lucanian stubbornness at least acquired for themselves *duoviri municipia* instead of *quattuorviri*).[798] The rest of the Lucanian *oppida* probably were organized into one of these two *municipium* types, further disrupting traditional Lucanian organizational patterns. And while we cannot pinpoint exactly when the Lucani began speaking Latin primarily, by the mid-first century BC Oscan must have given way to Latin (though Oscan certainly persisted in hold-out mountain communities). More generally, while the Lucani still probably preserved an outward veneer of cultural sovereignty, in this period they must have embraced *Romanitas* (especially since Roman and Latin colonists had probably become a majority in much of old Lucania). Two centuries of Roman rule, and the losses of war, had taken not only a physical but also a psychological toll. The Lucani now resigned their best hopes of preserving their interests to the *Pax Romana*. As Salmon captures so pithily (and callously),

> [The] Italians for their part were content to be assimilated. They might regret the passing of the old order and the disappearance or transformation of their ancestral states, but they had reason not to repine. They had acquired the Roman citizenship and become members of the imperial nation. The sooner they now became Romans

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[798] See Salmon, *Making*, 137-8; 177 for the statement that resistance ensured that they obtained *duoviri municipia* versus *quattuorviri municipia*; Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 114; Sherwin-White, 209-14; Laffi, "Sull'organizzazione," 47-54; E. Bispham, *From Asculum to Actium. The Municipalization of Italy from the Social War to Augustus* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2007), 385-6.

in fact, as well as in law, the better.[799]

IX. The First and Second Triumvirates and Lucania

Italian hopes for independence died, along with thousands of Sabelli, at the Colline Gate. Like most of Italy, Lucania had suffered in so many ways since the third century: the Second Punic War, the Social War, banditry, and even pirate raids (before Pompey's settlement of that issue).[800] This is not to say that Italian individualism did not play a role in the post-Sulla civil wars of the first century BC. But in these conflicts the Italian peoples, greatly weakened and splintered by Sulla's proscriptions, had abandoned any hope of sovereignty, and had settled for ending up on the winning side.

Any surviving spirit of independence among the Lucani disappeared in these wars—especially those of the Second Triumvirate—which further devastated Italy, including Lucania.[801] Antony, Lepidus, Sextus Pompeius, and Octavian fought several naval engagements off of Buxentum during the 30s, all of which must have required an inordinate amount of timber for ships. They also emulated Sulla by planting colonies in Italy, including Lucania. We hear very little about Lucanian politics *vis-à-vis* Rome throughout this period, and the region (to become with Bruttium *regio* III after Augustus's reorganization) partially fades into obscurity. Given that this is a time of great flourishing in Latin literature, perhaps we can see in this obscurity evidence of the fusion of the Lucanian identity with that of the Roman Republic. The first centuries BC

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[799] Salmon, *Making*, 140.

[800] Plut. *Pomp.* 24.5-7.

[801] App. *BC* 5.12; 22; 27; Dio 47.14; 48.6; 48.9.

and AD may have been the age of Italy—and some Lucani did enter the senate—but for the most part, Lucania, despite the beautiful coastline, was relegated to a backwater territory of little overall importance.[802]

X. The Slave Armies of Lucania

Looking across two centuries of warfare in the middle and late Republic, we see that more than once Roman commanders (and others) raised armies in Lucania from its slave population. It is impossible to say with certainty from how far away slaves may have come to join these armies, though it is unlikely that large droves of slaves from distant Italian tribes could successfully make it to Lucania to join a larger movement. To understand what impact these slave armies had on Lucanian history, we must look at each instance individually.

A. Slave Armies in the Second Punic War

During Gracchus's operations against Hannibal in Lucania, the former was forced to rely on locally-conscripted slave armies to supplement regular Roman forces.[803] Florus heaps praises on these slaves who (in his mind) overcame the natural inclination of

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[802] E. Gabba, "Il problema dell 'unita' dell'Italia romana," in *La cultura italica: Atti del convegno della società italiana di glottologia, Pisa, 19 e 20 dicembre 1977* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1978), 22; Salmon, *Making*, 142 ff.; n. 427, which cites Cic. *Phil.* 3.15 and Vell. 2.127 as evidence that by the first century BC Italian background was not a hindrance to political advancement.

[803] Flor. 1.22.28-30.

their status in order to fight bravely and become true Romans.[804] Gracchus's slave army later fled from its standards after losing its leader (to Lucanian treachery).[805] It is interesting that the consuls charged with retrieving these runaway slaves do not search the woods and hills for these slaves, but rather the smaller towns and markets ("*per fora conciliabulaque*"). Perhaps this was a fruitless effort, but Livy implies just the opposite in his words "*haec omnia intentissima cura acta.*" We can envision a scenario in which these manumitted slaves assumed that their freedom rested solely on the authority of Gracchus, and when he fell, they feared its revocation; but when the consuls came through these areas, presumably promising that the slaves' manumission would be honored, the slaves returned to their ranks.[806]

B. Spartacus

For three years the Roman-trained gladiator Spartacus defied the odds and defeated army after army.[807] His forces were out-trained (consisting to a large extent of runaway slaves) and out-equipped (Frontinus informs us that they used wicker shields),

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[804] The Romans occasionally offered to manumit slaves who fought on behalf of Rome—see Flor. 2.8.1; cf. Val. Max. 5.6.8; 7.6.1.

[805] Liv. 25.20.4; 22.1-4.

[806] La Greca (218) thinks that the consuls probably met with little success in finding these slaves.

[807] For Spartacus in general see B. Shaw, *Spartacus and the Slave Wars: A Brief History with Documents* (Boston: Bedford's/St. Martins, 2001); A.M. Ward, *Marcus Crassus and the Late Roman Republic* (Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 1977), 83-98. For sources on Spartacus see G. Stampacchia, *La tradizione della guerra di Spartaco da Sallustio a Orosio* (Pisa: Giardini, 1976), *passim*.

but Spartacus was a brilliant general, as the Romans found out to their own detriment.[808] Although Spartacus's exact movements are obscure (except for his final defeat in Bruttium), ancient authors make clear that Lucania saw much of the fighting.[809] Throughout the revolt Spartacus plundered southern Italy.[810] Crassus and Spartacus are thought to have fought particularly hard around Mount Calpazio, near Paestum.[811] The depredations of war were not the only result of the Spartacus war for Lucania. Spartacus mustered many of his troops from Lucania and the surrounding regions; most of these were "slaves, deserters, and riff-raff."[812] The slave army grew to enormous proportions (Appian says 120,000), after which he captured Thurii. In Sallust's account, Spartacus believed that he could augment his army in Lucania with not only rabble slave bands, but also choice fighters (*lectis viris*).[813] It is only ten years since the Battle of the Colline Gate, and it is not unreasonable to suggest that Spartacus hoped that at least a portion of the Lucanian tribes would revolt. After such support failed to materialize, he gave his

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[808] Front. *Strat.* 1.7.6: "Spartaco copiisque eius scuta ex vimine fuerunt, quae coriis tegebantur." Cf. Flor. 2.8.6; Sall. *Hist.* 3, fr. 102; Serv. *In Verg. Aen.* 7.632 for similar shields used by the Lucani; perhaps this suggests that Lucanian slaves constituted a significant portion of Spartacus's slave-troops.

[809] Lucius Ampelius *Liber Memorialis* 45.3. See also Front. Strat. 2.4.7; 2.5.34; Oros. 5.24.5-8; Plut. *Crass.* 10-11.

[810] Florus 2.8.5.20.

[811] Front. *Strat.* 2.4.7; 2.5.34. The name of this mountain is not secure (Camalatrum or Calamatium or Calamarco), but scholars have made a good case for its position near Poseidonia. For bibliography and discussion see La Greca, 149; Mello, *Paestum Romana*, 138-9. Cf. Oros. 5.24.5-8; Plut. *Crass.* 11.4-5.

[812] App. *BC* 1.117-120. Picenum here could refer to Picentia, since Spartacus is in Thurii right after his Picenum battle; this error may be a copyist's error, or Appian's confusion over the difference between the two areas.

[813] Sallust, *Hist.* 3.fr. 98-99;A. Russi, "Spartaco e M. Licinio Crasso nella Lucania e nel Bruzio," in *Studi in onore di A. Garzetti*, ed. C. Stella and A. Valvo (Brescia: Ateneo di Brescia, 1996), 355-60.

army over to plundering the area. The farmers fled to the mountains, which is reminiscent of both past and future: as early as the sixth century BC the Lucani had learned the value of their mountain safe-havens, and would later follow the same pattern on a permanent basis to flee the chaos and instability of the late Empire.

Yet Spartacus could not withstand the full brunt of the Roman military machine and the generalship of Crassus (spurred by Pompey's imminent intervention).[814] They fought once in Picentia (and not Picenum: only the former location accords with Spartacus's retreat through Lucania, and Sallust's comment that a Picentine prisoner guided Spartacus).[815] This may be Crassus's victory near the river Sele in 71 BC.[816] Plutarch locates the battle near the "Lucanian swamp," which La Greca places on the left bank of the Sele north of Paestum.[817]

Crassus dug in here (around Eboli) to prevent Spartacus's escape north. Eventually, Spartacus retreated into the toe of Bruttium, where he fought to the death, in the last slave revolt of import in all of Roman history. The episode has great implications for the fate of Italy, and indeed that of the dying Republic itself, but it also affected Lucania uniquely: numerous armies lived off of the land, punishing a region still recovering from the devastating Hannibalic and Social Wars. Some armies even sprang from the land, which must have had serious repercussions on the Lucanian slave trade,

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[814] Plut. *Crass.* 10.1-11.11.

[815] Sall. *Hist.* 3.fr. 98-99.

[816] Oros. 5.24.5-8.

[817] Plut. *Crass.* 10-11. Cf. Front. *Strat.* 2.4.7; 2.5.24.

and the economy. Finally, in this last conflict perhaps some lingering hopes of Lucanian sovereignty faded away permanently.

XI. Lucanian-Roman Connections

A. Development

The preceding analyses of Lucanian history reveal, along with other evidence, a firmly entrenched network of Lucanian-Roman connections, probably based on traditional patron-client relationships. We may suppose with some confidence from the Lucanian lower class revolt in 296 BC (which Rome suppressed with the approval of the Lucanian nobles) that links had already begun to develop between the Roman and Lucanian elite at that time.[818] The Lucanian embassies to Rome in 326 BC, and the subsequent alliance, provide a possible beginning of friendly associations.

Mello's important prosopographical work establishes numerous onomastic links between what must have been Lucanian elite families and those of Rome, especially after the foundation of Roman Paestum in 273 BC.[819] The artistic evidence at Paestum indicates, for that city at least, that the Lucanian elite began to assimilate Roman culture after the planting of the Roman colony in 273 BC. We note the Centennius family, one of whom had founded Paestum sixty years earlier, and another had plundered Lucania.[820]

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[818] For the development of connections between Rome and southern Italy, see K. Lomas, "Urban Elites and Cultural Definition: Romanization in Southern Italy," in *Urban Society in Roman Italy*, ed. T.J. Cornell and K. Lomas (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1995), 107-120.

[819] Mello, *Paestum*.

[820] Liv. 25.19.6-17; La Greca, 217.

La Greca sees another connection in the Otacilius family. Livy remarks that one Titus Otacilius was commissioned to defend the coast of Magna Graecia during the Second Punic War (probably drawing on a significant contribution from Paestum).[821] Earlier, Otacilius as pontifex had dedicated a temple to Mens, who, in a later era, had a significant cult at Paestum.[822] Together, these constitute a reasonable case for the Otacilius family being the link between Mens and Paestum, and thus an important connection between Lucanian Paestum and Rome. Likewise, the Digitius cognomen, which the marine who famously contested with a legionnaire for the mural crown in Spain under Scipio bore, is ubiquitous in Paestan inscriptions.[823]

Livy makes clear that the Lucani who betrayed Gracchus were very familiar to him as his former guests.[824] Flavus returned the favor in Lucania, hosting Gracchus (who, according to Valerius Maximus, while sacrificing in Lucania had unwisely ignored omens telling of his future treacherous death).[825] Such connections could not have developed very quickly; in fact, the evidence here shows all the indications of the existence of a patron-client relationship between Gracchus and Flavus.

Second, Flavus must have had significant sway among the Lucani to convince

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[821] Liv. 26.1.12-13; La Greca, 219. For Paestum's contributions to Rome's naval forces, see also Liv. 26.39.1-5.

[822] Liv. 22.10.10; 23.31.9.

[823] Liv. 26.48.5-14; see La Greca, 220, and Mello, *Paestum romana*, 40-42. This Digitius or a kinsman performed rather poorly as a general in Spain after the Second Punic War: Liv. 35.1.1-2; 2.1-5; see also Liv. 37.4.2; 41.22.3; 42.27.6-8; 43.11.1.

[824] App. *Hann.* 35.150-152.

[825] Val. Max. 1.6.8.

Gracchus to attend a sham meeting of Lucanian generals; most scholars suppose him *meddix*. Only a close connection like a friendship-based patron-client relationship can explain how Gracchus, a seasoned general with presumably adequate knowledge of Lucanian ways, suspected nothing.[826] He must have trusted Flavus deeply to ride off into the hinterland of Lucania with only a paltry thirty cavalry as a guard. Gracchus was highly mistaken. We can only imagine his rage just before his death at having been betrayed by so close a friend and client—Flavus was not *hostis*, but *inimicus*.

B. Lucani and Romans in Augustus's "Age of Italy"

After the Social War the Lucani obtained Roman citizenship, which eventually opened membership in the Roman senate to Lucanian nobles. We have already mentioned Gaius Terentius Lucanus, who may have been a Lucanian Roman senator, though his *floruit* date of the second-century BC is quite early. But after Actium opportunities abounded: the Augustan era was the age of Italy. Tacitus, quoting a speech by the emperor Claudius, mentions Lucanian senators.[827] We note a Tacitean peculiarity: in this and one other passage Tacitus uses the phrase "thing X from northern Italy (either Etruria or Turin) is found all the way down to southern Italy (Lucania)."[828] Perhaps this

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[826] Liv. 24.15.1-8.

[827] Tac. *Ann.* 11.24. Lomas (*Western Greeks*, 21) thinks very few senators haled from south of Campania. See also G. Camodeca, "Ascesa al senato e rapporti con i territori d'origine Italia Regio I (Campania, esclusa di zona di Capua e Cales), Regio II (Apulia e Calabria), Regio III (Lucania e Bruttium," in *Atti del colloquio internazionale AIEGL su epigrafia e ordine senatorio, Roma, 14-20 maggio 1981* (Rome: Edizioni di storia e letteratura, 1982), *passim*.

[828] An interesting parallel is found in 2 Sam. 6:10: "...from Dan to Beersheba."

was an idiom that meant "(these things) were everywhere" or something to that effect.[829] But we must be very cautious: Claudius is relying on hyperbole to make a point. By the mid-first century AD the term "Lucanian" had evolved to become as much a geographic term as an ethnic term, if not more: how many "pure Lucani" were part of the senate is impossible to determine.

C. Lucanian Levies

How did these connections influence Lucanian military service in the Roman army? Apart from their own conflicts, Lucanian mercenaries had long served in armies throughout Magna Graecia. The inscriptional evidence indicates that Lucanian soldiers comprised part of the Mamertines (Polybius and others casually clump Sabelli of various ethnicities under the term "Samnite").[830] We saw in Chapter 4 that Mamercus sought help from the Lucani against Syracuse; his Sabellian contingents likely contained Lucani. Tagliamonte recalls the names of Lucanian mercenaries like Βάκχιος, Λεύκων, Λέων, [Βίβιος] Βιβίου, Διονύσιος, Θεόδωρος Ἀρτεμιδώρου, and Μενέδημος from inscriptions at Athens and Delphi.[831]

We first see Lucanian contingents fighting for Rome against the Gauls in 231 BC.[832] Later, at least some of the Lucanian tribes fought alongside Rome against

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[829] Tac. *Ann.* 14.21. See also Liv. 28.10.7-9 for this strange Etruria/Lucania divide.

[830] G. Tagliamonte, *I figli di Marte,* 193.

[831] G. Tagliamonte, *I figli di Marte,* 210-1; Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 2, 369.

[832] Pol. 2.24.10-12: "...Λευκανῶν δὲ πεζοὶ μὲν τρισμύριοι, τρισχίλιοι δ' ἱππεῖς...."

Hannibal at the outset of the Second Punic War.[833] Lucanian treachery in the Second Punic War may have had a temporary consequence for the Lucani in the Roman military system: the Romans reduced them (along with the Picentes and Bruttii) to couriers and letter-carriers.[834] This was a harsh and humiliating punishment: this demotion provided little opportunity to distinguish oneself. But some scholars maintain incorrectly that this became standard Roman policy not to use Lucani as regular forces.[835] The Romans used soldiers from Lucanian tribes that remained loyal throughout the Second Punic War, even after the defection of other tribes.[836]

The Lucani continued to serve in the Roman army throughout the Republic and Empire. In 104 BC Lucanian irregulars took part in the Slave War. Later, 600 Lucani fought under Titus Clepitius with Lucullus, Sulla's general.[837] More significant was the disastrous battle of Carrhae (53 BC). According to Pliny the Elder, the gods had forewarned Crassus, but he marched into Parthia anyway, taking with him perhaps seven legions, comprised to a great extent of Lucanian soldiers.[838] We can presume that his years spent in Lucania and the surrounding territory fighting Spartacus yielded numerous

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[833] Sil. 8.561-586.

[834] Str. 5.4.13.

[835] Pauly-Wissowa, s.v. Lucania; Tagliamonte, *I figli di Marte,* 216. In addition, only the Bruttii received the unique consequence of being only punishers and executioners in the Roman army after the defeat of Hannibal: See Gell. *NA* 10.3.18-19; Brunt, *Italian Manpower*, 280.

[836] Liv. 24.20.1-6.

[837] Diod. Sic. 36.8.1.

[838] Plin. *HN* 2.57.147; cf. Joannes Laurentius Lydus, *De ostentis*, 6.13: "κατερρύη δὲ καὶ σίδηρος ἐπὶ Λευκανίας ἀνθ' ὑετοῦ, Κράσσου τὴν ἐπὶ Πέρσας [ὁρμῶντος ἐπιστρατεί]αν." For Crassus's army size, I follow Brunt, *Italian Manpower*, 461-3.

connections with Lucanian elites. Generals in the first century BC raised armies more loyal to themselves than to Rome, and thus Crassus drew on his clientele to raise the army necessary to capture that elusive triumph (thanks to Pompey's conniving usurpation of Crassus's efforts against Spartacus).

Cato Uticensis levied troops among the Lucani and Bruttii against Caesar in 49 BC.[839] Interestingly, Caesar calls these men *cives*: the Lucani had been citizens only about thirty-five years. Despite the lengthy resistance that the Lucani had put up, they appear to be fully incorporated into the Roman military machine and citizen body at this point. At another point in the Civil War, Lucanian prisons provide soldiers (or bandits, depending on one's perspective) for the Pompeian Annius Milo.[840]

D. Consequences of Lucanian-Roman Connections

These Lucanian-Roman connections had a significant impact on the Lucani, and even the Romans. Paestum kept the faith during the Second Punic War, and this is due, in part, to the presence of a Roman colony; however, it may also be evidence of a coastal-Lucanian-tribal preference to remain loyal to Rome. Paestum was something like a gateway of Romanization to the rest of Lucania, but we may presume that Lucanian service in the Roman army advanced the process, too. Eventually the Lucani abandoned the Tarentine Greek alphabet and adopted the Latin alphabet, as the Tabula Bantina

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[839] Caes. *BC* 1.30.

[840] Caes. *BC* 3.22.1-3. Milo died at Compsa on the Lucanian border, where it supposedly rained baked bricks while he pleaded his case in court (Plin. *HN* 2.57.147).

shows. Not too long afterward the Lucani must have abandoned Oscan; when this happened is unclear, but was probably complete by the end of the first century AD, notwithstanding a few remote mountain holdouts (Italy has areas today that still speak Greek). Certainly the Lucanian quasi-democracy, and its regal institution, had lapsed by the Social War.

But cultural interaction is a two-way street, as we saw earlier when evaluating Lucanian-Greek connections.[841] Roman armies must have adopted some "Lucaninity" and taken that back to their homes. Soldiers named the Lucanian sausage, which became an everyday part of Roman life.[842] Livy records several episodes of Lucanian soldiers receiving prizes for their bravery, and also to ensure their loyalty; one knight got to keep his lover in camp. The vivacity of these stories probably reached beyond our normative elite Roman authors like Cicero and Livy, down into the typical Roman household. Though elephants are very non-Italian, the ubiquitous term "*Luca bos*" cannot have failed to encourage a memory of Lucanian culture in the minds of the Romans. We may even say that the life of stereotypes like Lucanian treachery left its mark on the Roman conscience, too. We shall have more to say in Chapter 6 about how the Romans used images of the Lucani to highlight their own identity.

XII. The Decline of Roman Lucania

Our sources lament a general decline in all of Magna Graecia, evident by at least

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[841] See above, p. 153.

[842] Varro, *LL* 5.22.11.

Cicero's day, though he may have painted an overly bleak picture.[843] Archaeology confirms that populations in Lucania eventually decreased, and settlement patterns changed, beginning as early as the second half of the third century BC, and intensifying by the early first century BC: the Lucani began to settle hill and mountain tops, in almost a pre-medieval pattern for safety.[844] Scholars debate when this happened, and how quickly; the cause is presumed to be the growing troubles of the later Roman Empire.

Some scholars challenge this pessimistic assessment: Lomas and others optimistically describe the situation as economically changed, but not in decline.[845] Their caution and analysis are sensible. Yet the literary sources are adamant, the proximity of which in time and location (we recall Cicero's extensive travels in southern Italy) make total error on their part highly unlikely. Strabo thought that the process had begun before his day (the first century BC).[846] He depicts the situation in Lucania as quite bad: it no longer has cities (but what of Paestum?); instead the people live in mere settlements of no repute, like Grumentum and the mysterious Vertinae and Calasarna.[847] Venusia is the closest thing to a city, but it is not even Lucanian (though we note Strabo's uncertainty,

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[843] Cic. *Amic.* 13; Dio Chrys. *Or.* 33.25; Juv. *Sat.* 3.1-3. See S.L. Dyson, *Community and Society in Roman Italy* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1992), 27-45, for a less pessimistic evaluation: rural Italy had experienced significant overpopulation, and thus could absorb such losses.

[844] Adamesteanu, "Scavi e ricerche," 27.

[845] Lomas, *Western*, 120 ff.; M.L. Gualandi, C. Palozzi, and M. Paoletti, "La Lucania orientale," in *Società romana e produzione schiavistica I. L'Italia: Insediamenti e forme economiche*, ed. A. Giardina and A. Schiavone (Rome and Bari: Laterza, 1981), 155-74.

[846] Str 6.1.3.

[847] Vertinae and Calasarna may have lain between Grumentum and Venusia: see E. Greco, "Petelia, Vertinae, e Calasarna," in *Annali del seminario di studi del mondo classico. Sezione di archeologia e storia antica*, vol. 2 (Naples: Istituto Universitario Orientale, 1980): 83-92.

just like Horace's). The Lucanian once-glorious tribal differences (and Strabo, here, in an uncharacteristic moment, seems to speak positively about these Lucanian particulars) are gone, mashed into an amorphous mess of disorganization.[848]

Culturally, centuries of submission to Roman rule bred dependence on Rome (perhaps after 268 BC no Italian community was truly independent), as the benefits of adhering to Roman cultural patterns far outweighed the strict retention of old Lucanian forms. By the mid-first century AD, and certainly in the following century, funerary inscriptions from Lucania are almost exclusively written in Latin.[849] The advance of the Latin language—one of the most effective methods of assimilation—unified the peoples of Italy (we remember that the Tabula Bantina was written in the Latin alphabet, and not the traditional Tarentine script).[850] Lucanian-Roman connections among the elites (who had a vested interest in the success of the Roman system) encouraged uniformity.[851] Even religion in Lucania Romanized to some extent: elite families turned to a Roman-style of urban munificence, instead of the traditional Lucanian outdoor sanctuary, such as around Rossano di Vaglio.[852]

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[848] Hands (173) supposes that the Bruttii prospered more than the Lucani, and suffered less from the Romans, judging from the dearth of coins in Lucania when compared to Bruttian finds. Brunt (*Italian Manpower*, 280) counters that Bruttian absence in the Social War indicates otherwise.

[849] K. Lomas, "Local Identity and Cultural Imperialism: Epigraphy and the Diffusion of Romanisation in Italy," in *The Archaeology of Power*, ed. E. Herring, R. Whitehouse, and J. Wilkins (London: Accordia Research Centre, 1991), 231-9.

[850] E. Campanile, "Le latinizzazione dell'osco," in *Scritti in onore di Giuliano Bonfante,* vol. 1 (Brescia: Paideia), 109-120.

[851] Salmon, *Making*, 65; 67.

[852] Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 171; J.R. Patterson, "Crisis: What Crisis? Rural Change and Urban Development in Imperial Appennine Italy," *Papers of the British School at Rome* 55 (1987): 134-44.

Economically and demographically, Lucania had slowly deteriorated after centuries of wars and annexations.[853] Habitation patterns differed extensively from the glory days of Lucanian sovereignty before the advent of Rome: much-shrunk communities looked to safer, humbler environs.[854] The Gracchan land commissioners crippled the allies, including the Lucani; the Oscan south had it worse than anybody else (eight of the nine surviving terminal stones from Italy came from south Italy, and four of these were from Lucania).[855] The introduction of *municipia*-style government, three centuries of land confiscations (assuredly of the most fertile soil), and the settlement of veterans (Sullan and Triumviral) broke up traditional Lucanian communities and social/cultural patterns, judging from the decline of Oscan names in the epigraphical evidence.[856] Those Lucanian farmers who had retained their land sometimes sold it to wealthy Roman and Lucanian speculators and/or elites, who eventually possessed

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[853] Guzzo, "Lucanians, Brettians and Italiote Greeks," 234-5.

[854] Lomas, *Western*, 88: "The South was still a restless place and land allocations may have been made with the entention of creating a stronger Roman presence to offset this. It had a powerful effect on local settlement patterns, as demonstrated in western Lucania, where the flourishing Lucanian site at Roccagloriosa was abandoned shortly after the foundation of Buxentum and settlement density increased markedly in the area around the colony." See also M. Gualtieri and F. de Polignac, "A Rural Landscape in Western Lucania," in *Roman Landscapes. Archaeological Survey in the Mediterranean Region*, Archeological Monographs of the British School at Rome, vol. 2, ed. G. Barker and J. Lloyd (London: British School at Rome, 1991), 194-201. For Flavian colonists in Paestum 71 AD: Tac. *Ann.* 14.27; Prob. *Georg.* 4.125; Mello, 119-25.

[855] Salmon, *Samnium*, 362; Toynbee, 10-36; Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 54; 87; Brunt, *Italian Manpower*, 280-1; E. Greco, *Magna Grecia*, 56-8, 163-5; *CIL* I^2.638. For opposition to the Gracchan land reforms, see Gabba and Pasquinucci, *Strutture*, 64-73.

[856] Brunt, *Italian Manpower,* 280-1; Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 88.

massive holdings in southern Italy; this process continued into Imperial times.[857] And Spartacus's revolt hurt Lucania far more than any other part of Italy, since the victims of the slave army's depredations were Lucanian farmers, while the army itself absorbed probably a high percentage of Lucanian slaves (many of whom Crassus killed after victory in 71 BC).[858] The Lucani had lost the means of subsistence, and could no longer have been very numerous.[859] Finally, the area began to suffer from malaria, which may have been more destructive than either the Hannibalic or the Social War. As evidence supporting Cicero's judgment (and the consensus view) of the decline of Lucania and Magna Graecia in general, we recall that one of our two most important inscriptions detailing the alimentary programs of the High Empire was found in Velia.[860] While there are myriad debates about exactly why the emperors enacted these programs (a debate that we cannot take up here), it does seem reasonable that the imperial government intended these alimentary programs to benefit the communities and regions in which they were based, which had experienced some kind of demographic and economic deterioration.[861]

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[857] M. Gualtieri and F. de Polignac, "A Rural Landscape in Western Lucania," in *Roman Landscapes. Archaeological Survey in the Mediterranean Region*, Archeological Monographs of the British School at Rome, vol. 2, ed. G. Barker and J. Lloyd (London: British School at Rome, 1991), 200.

[858] Fugitives from Spartacus's army continued to trouble Lucania (around Thurium) as late as 60 BC: Suet. *Aug.* 3.1: "Ex praetura Macedoniam sortitus, fugitivos, residuam Spartaci et Catilinae manum, Thurinum agrum tenentis, in itinere delevit, negotio sibi in senatu extra ordinem dato."

[859] Brunt, 284 ff. For Rome and Carthage's scorched-earth policy, see Liv. 24.13, 36; Polyb. 1.56.10.

[860] *CIL* XI.1147. Lucania eventually had its own overseer of the program, much like its future *corrector Lucaniae*: *CIL* XIV.2922. See A. Russi, *La Lucania romana. Profilo storico-istituzionale* (San Severo: Gerni, 1995), 79-80.

[861] R. Duncan-Jones, *Structure The Economy of the Roman Empire: Quantitative Studies* (Cambridge: University Press, 1974), 291-319; P. Garnsey, "Trajan's Alimenta: Some Problems," *Historia: Zeitschrift für Alte Geschichte* 17, no. 3 (July 1968): 367-381; G. Woolf, "Food, Poverty, and Patronage. The Significance of the Epigraphy of the Roman Alimentary Schemes in Early Imperial Italy," *Papers of the*

Conclusion

This is not to say that a substratum of Lucanian culture did not survive. The resulting confluence of Lucani, Romans, and Latins made something new, who still called themselves Lucanian. Even today the Italian dialect of Basilicata is unique (and residents still call the area Lucania).[862] Certainly Romanization transformed the Lucani in many ways, and perhaps it is only right to begin speaking of the inhabitants of Lucania in the Roman Empire with some clunky title such as "Roman-Lucani." Strabo's opinion is quite clear: "Now they have become Romans."[863] But would they not have called themselves Lucani, too? We cannot rely on inscriptions, which represent such a minute sliver of the area's population, and which are unconcerned with identifying the cultural and ethnic composition of the inhabitants of the area, anyway. We wish to avoid the pit-trap of earlier Roman historiography, which clumps them together with the masses of conquered peoples, arms them with a *galea*, *scutum*, *gladius*, and two *pila*, and calls them Romans; yet they were certainly not the Lucani of the third century BC.

British School at Rome 68 (1990): 197-228; F.G.B. Millar, "Italy and the Roman Empire. Augustus to Constantine," *Phoenix* 40 (Autumn 1986): 300; J.R. Patterson, "The Emperor and the Cities in Italy," in *"Bread and Circuses": Euergetism and Municipal Patronage in Roman Italy*, ed. T. J. Cornell and K. Lomas (New York: Routledge, 1996), 89-101; Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 118; C.P. Jones, "Eastern Alimenta and an Inscription of Attaleia," *The Journal of Hellenic Studies* 109 (1989): 189-191; F.C. Bourne, "The Roman Alimentary Programme and Italian Agriculture," *Transactions of the American Philological Association* 91 (1960): 47-75; Lomas, *Roman Italy*, 221.

[862] H. Lüdtke, *Lucania* (Pisa: Pacini, 1979). For Lucania instead of Basilicata see A. Mennonna, *Un Dialetto della Lucania*, vol. 1 (Galatina: Congedo, 1977), ix: "Nel campo della dialettologia italiana la Lucania (già detta spesso Basilicata)...."

[863] Str. 6.1.3.

Chapter 6: Greek and Roman Attitudes toward the Lucani

In previous chapters we have examined the literary evidence to understand who the Lucani were politically, socially, culturally, and religiously. In Chapters 3 and 4 we concentrated on the Lucanian experience *vis-à-vis* the Greeks, in Chapter 5 that with Rome. This chapter intends to examine how and why Greek and Roman authors depicted the Lucani. These writers were little concerned with the Lucani: to the Greeks they were just another fringe barbarian people who threatened the polis, and to the Romans they were another stepping stone on the road to controlling the Italian peninsula. Against these general backdrops Greek and Roman writers employed the image of the Lucani to serve a variety of purposes, which we will explore here. Finally, we consider how the Lucani responded to these depictions (both false and accurate), and adopted them for their own benefit.

I. *Lucanus Perfidus*

The reputation of the Lucani among Greek and Roman authors varies widely. Quite often the Lucani come off rather poorly. This should not surprise us: the Greeks (and, apparently, the Etruscans) long had condemned the Sabellian peoples for their notorious perfidy and ruthlessness. Here, we focus on the ubiquitous denigratory remarks that Greek and Roman authors dish out on the Lucani. In many ways, according to Greek and Roman environmental determinism, the Lucani were a product of their habitat, lowly and unprincipled, and, according to one author, driven by envy and strife.[864] Isocrates

[864] Plut. *Mor. de Romanorum fortuna*, 321.F.4.

dubbed the Lucani of "ignoble origin."[865] Apollonius of Tyana once mocked the Ionians for rejecting names reflecting their noble origins, and instead adopting base names such as the Romans and Lucani had.[866] Livy pronounced judgment on such a people: "...the Lucani maintain a fidelity that is malleable with the changes of fortune, as the character of most of them is disposed."[867]

A. Lucanian Treachery in the Fourth and Third Centuries BC

One image indicative of the ignoble Lucanian character is the idea of the *Lucanus Perfidus*, the treacherous Lucanian, untrustworthy and given to betrayal at any moment.[868] We have already seen how the Greeks lamented the death of Alexander Molossus, treacherously killed by his own personal hand-picked Lucanian guard. We also considered the earliest example of Lucanian treachery against Rome, when the Tarentine machinators instigated the Lucani (326 BC) to rebel. Lucanian-Roman relations consisted of a long string of revolts throughout the early third century BC. The

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[865] Isoc. *De Pace* 49-50.

[866] Epistle of Apollonius of Tyana 71: "οα'. Ἴωσιν. Ἕλληνες οἴεσθε δεῖν ὀνομάζεσθαι διὰ τὰ γένη καὶ τὴν ἔμπροσθεν ἀποικίαν, Ἕλλησι δ' ὥσπερ ἔθη καὶ νόμοι καὶ γλῶττα καὶ βίος ἴδιος, οὕτω καὶ σχῆμα καὶ εἶδος ἀνθρώπων. ἀλλ' ὑμῶν γε οὐδὲ τὰ ὀνόματα μένει τοῖς πολλοῖς, ἀλλ' ὑπὸ τῆς νέας ταύτης εὐδαιμονίας ἀπολωλέκατε τὰ τῶν προγόνων σύμβολα. καλῶς οὐδὲ τοῖς τάφοις ἐκεῖνοι δέχοιντ' ἂν ἅτε ἀγνῶτας αὐτοῖς γενομένους, εἴ γε πρότερον ἡρώων ἦν ὀνόματα καὶ ναυμάχων καὶ νομοθετῶν, νυνὶ δὲ Λουκούλλων τε καὶ Φαβρικίων καὶ Λευκανίων τῶν μακαρίων. ἐμοὶ μὲν εἴη μᾶλλον ὄνομα Μίμνερμος."

[867] Liv. 8.24: "...et ducentos ferme Lucanorum exsules circa se pro fidis habebat, ut pleraque eius generis ingenia sunt, cum fortuna mutabilem gerentes fidem."

[868] Scholars have perpetuated these stereotypes—Isocrates' translator George Norlin defines the Lucani thus: "[The] Lucanians [were] a rude people, noted for their ferocity, in Southern Italy." Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 2 (107) sets Lucania within the "zone of social backwardness."

Romans remembered bitterly the faithless words of the Lucanian ambassadors in 298 BC who pleaded with Rome to protect them, only to revolt again two years later, and again with the arrival of Pyrrhus.[869]

B. Lucanian Treachery in the Second Punic War

Hannibal's invasion offered some Lucanian tribes a renewed opportunity for freedom. The traitor Flavus pressed Mago to permit the Lucani to remain "...*liberos cum suis legibus uenturos in amicitiam*...."[870] Throughout the sixteen years of Rome's deadliest war we find numerous episodes in which the Lucani betrayed Rome.

On the individual level two events generated much attention in our sources. In the first, a brave Lucanian knight in the army of Fabius Maximus disobeys his general's orders for the love of a woman. Contrary to expected military discipline, Maximus is not only lenient with the Lucanian, but in fact gives him the girl.[871] Actually, Plutarch's story falls within a long sequence of Second-Punic-War betrayals involving Lucania, Bruttium, and the rest of Magna Graecia.[872] In Cassius Dio's version (early third century AD) the commander is Marcellus, not Fabius Maximus.[873] The story has a ring of legend to it,

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[869] Liv. 10.11.11-12.3.

[870] Liv. 25.16-17.

[871] Plut. *Fab.* 20.5-9; cf. Aur. Vic. *De Vir. Ill.* 43.5; Plut. *Apophth. Fab.* M. 4/195 E.

[872] Section 19: Marcellus (cf. *Marc.* 29); Fabius almost betrayed by Metapontines. Section 20: a Marsian and a Lucanian. Section 21: a Bruttian. Section 23: a Nolan. In Valerius Maximus's account (7.3.7) the Lucanian knight fell in love with a *scortus*. For a very similar scene involving a brave Nolan knight, see Liv. 23.15; the infantryman of Val. Max. 7.3.7 may duplicate Livy's knight.

[873] Dio Cass. 15.57.33.

and seems to have fit the reputation of Lucanian perfidy well. Frontinus tells a different kind of story regarding a brave Lucanian knight who led a cavalry wing; he was seriously contemplating switching sides when Fabius secured his loyalty with the gift of a warhorse and money.[874] Only Statilius's bravery saved him from a traitor's death. This man may be Livy's Marius Statilius, the prefect who led a Lucanian scouting troop for Rome against Hannibal.[875]

We should also examine this gift of a horse, by which Fabius Maximus secured Statilius's loyalty. Horses apparently played an important role in Lucanian elite culture, as paintings like the Return of the Warrior indicate. We have already seen from their victory over the Thurini in 389 BC that the Lucani could field a sizeable cavalry. Varro speaks of horse breeding in Lucania, a labor-intensive industry reserved primarily for the elite.[876] It seems reasonable that Roman generals took advantage of this cultural trait when dealing with Lucanian soldiers. In fact, this episode became something of a trope, as we see it elsewhere in the context of the Second Punic War, once concerning the famous consul and general Claudius Marcellus (where the soldier is a Campanian, though the surface connection between his name and Bantia, a small town technically in Lucania but on the border with Apulia, may indicate an originally Lucanian provenance), and once concerning a Marsian whose loyalty Fabius retained through the gift of a

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[874] Front. *Strat.* 4.7.36; cf. Sex. Vic. *De Vir. Ill.* 43.5.

[875] Liv. 22.42.4; 43.7. Note that *Lu* 14, a late fourth-century BC dedication to Jove on a stele in the assembly hall of Paestum by a meddix Statis, cannot refer to the same individual here in Livy. Rix calculates that two or perhaps three letters are missing before *–εσ*, which makes Statilies impossible, even with an abbreviated gentilic.

[876] Varro, *R.R.* 2.10.11.

warhorse.[877]

The general pattern of these stories reveals an expectation that Lucanian warriors were fickle in their loyalties. Greek and Roman authors presumed that the Lucanian tribes as a whole were not to be trusted, which the betrayal of Gracchus captures.[878] Later authors like Cicero and Silius Italicus immortalized Gracchus as a brave Roman who sacrificed all against Rome's enemies.[879] The Lucani had violated the natural law of the ancient world between a host and his guests. The Second Punic War had sealed the reputation of the faithless character of the Lucani. In a speech designed to enflame public support for a Roman expedition against Philip V of Macedonia (200 AD), the consul Galba used Lucanian perfidy to terrify the Romans into action.[880] The Romans saw episodes like these, in conjunction with several pitiable examples from Roman history where the Lucani capitalized on and betrayed Roman trust, as proof of an innate predisposition among the Lucani toward faithlessness.

C. Lucanian Treachery in the Social War/Civil Wars

In the eyes of the Romans, the Social War was Italian treachery at its worst. Roman magistrates were slaughtered at Asculum in peacetime. The Lucani had their act

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[877] Campanian: Front. *Strat.* 3.16.1. For the same episode, see Liv. 23.15.7-16.1. Marsian: Plut. *Fab.* 20.1-3.

[878] Liv. 25.16-17.

[879] Cic. *Tusc.* 1.37.89; Sil. 12.475-478.

[880] Liv. 31.7.8-12. This passage indicates that, to Galba (or Livy) at least, Lucania and Bruttium did not fall within the label of Magna Graecia.

of treachery, too, though the full narrative is lost to us; apparently some Lucani (the diction implies a host, client, or friend) had deceived and captured one Servius Galba, who may be the consul of 108 BC, or his son; an unknown woman freed him.[881] She may be a literary figure, just like the trope of the "citadel-betraying lover." As to the Lucani, their guilt was manifest, for they had broken the natural law of hospitality, not to mention their *fides* with Rome, by treacherously capturing a consul.

As we saw earlier, the Civil War between Marius and Sulla also witnessed another notorious example of Lucanian treachery, when an entire legion of Lucanian soldiers defected to Sulla (after Sulla's general Metellus had defeated Carbo and Norbanus).[882] Even worse, the Lucanian general Albinovanus slew his Roman guests at a banquet, breaking the natural law of host-guest relations, just as Flavus had done to Tiberius Gracchus in the Second Punic War. The consequences of Lucanian treachery were dire for the Marian party: the murder of important lieutenants; the defection of numerous camps to Sulla; the suicide of Norbanus. This episode did not offend Roman authors as much as the betrayal of Tiberius Gracchus during the Second Punic War, perhaps because Norbanus, and ultimately the Marian party, did not command the kind of respect that Gracchus did.

II. *Lucanus Fortis*

A. Individual Instances

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[881] Liv. *Per.* 72.

[882] App. *BC* 1.91.

Lucanian bravery is also a frequent motif among Roman writers—often in an episode that demonstrates Lucanian perfidy, ironically. Marcus Statilius is *fortissimo* in Sextus's account; in Dio the Lucanian cavalryman was an excellent fighter.[883] Diodorus Siculus tells of the Lucanian commander Titus Clepitius, who was not only a good general, but also "περιβόητος" in manliness.[884] Though a knight like Statilius had disobeyed camp protocol, or was about to betray Rome, his reputation for bravery not only saved him, but even enriched him. The Romans respected the fighting prowess of the Lucani—without which the previous episodes do not make sense. Dench has argued persuasively that despite centuries of animosity, the Romans hovered between scorn and commendation of certain traits of the Samnites; for the Lucani, this must be their reputation for bravery.[885] Florus praises the Lucani as "the flower of our bravest and most trusted allies...."[886]

Even the land contributed to their image as a strong people: Lucania was a tough place, and, to the ancient mind, the geography of an area had a direct impact on the disposition of the people. Livy thought that Alexander the Great would have found the mountains (and brave savages) of Lucania far more difficult to conquer than the effeminate Persians and Indians whom he had faced.[887] When dying of a Lucanian spear

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[883] Dio Cass. 15.57.33; Sex. Vic. *De Vir. Ill.* 43.5.

[884] Diod. Sic. 36.8.1 = Posidonius Fragm. 197: "ἐκ δὲ τῆς Λευκανίας ἐξακοσίους, ὧν ἡγεῖτο Κλέπτιος, ἀνὴρ στρατηγικὸς καὶ ἐπ' ἀνδρείᾳ περιβόητος."

[885] Dench, 57.

[886] Flor. 2.6.

[887] Liv. 9.17.17; see also Liv. 9.13.7 for his famous words (specifically referring to the Samnites) on how savage mountain villages prey on imbellicose coastal people.

wound Alexander Molossus supposedly considered the Asian foes of his youth as but women when compared to his current Lucanian enemies.[888]

B. The Lucani as Worthy (Defeated) Enemies

Besides these accounts of specific acts of Lucanian bravery, we also mark the esteem that the Lucani held in the eyes of the Romans by how frequently Roman writers extol the Lucani as worthy opponents whom the Romans had defeated.[889] Like the *Lucanus Perfidus*, the image of the worthy (defeated) Lucanian came originally from the Greeks. Leonidas of Tarentum (*fl.* early third century BC) sang the praises of Hagnon's valor via the dedicated spoils of defeated Lucani:

> (34) Eight oblong shields, eight helmets, eight woven corselets, as many bloody sickle-swords, all these spoils stripped from the Lucani has the fell warrior Hagnon, son of Euanthes, dedicated to Coryphasian Athena.
> (35) These shields, taken from the Lucani, these harnesses, and these double-pointed spears all lined up in a row, have been subdued, pining for horses and men—all are dedicated to Pallas; dark death has swallowed them.[890]

These poems probably refer to Cleonymus's campaign against the Lucani in 303 BC, or

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[888] Liv. 9.19.

[889] The Romans did denigrate the Lucani, such as before the battle at the Calor at Beneventum, 215 BC (Liv. 24.15.1-8).

[890] Leon. 34 (Clack)/*Anth. Gr.* 6.129 (Gow and Page): "Ὀκτώ τοι θυρεούς, ὀκτὼ κράνη, ὀκτὼ ὑφαντοὺς/ θώρηκας, τόσσας δ' αἱμαλέας κοπίδας,/ταῦτ' ἀπὸ Λευκανῶν Κορυφασίᾳ ἔντε' Ἀθάνᾳ/Ἅγνων Εὐάνθευς θῆχ' ὁ βιαιομάχος. Leon. 35 (Clack)=*Anth.* 6.131 (Gow and Page): "Αἵδ' ἀπὸ Λευκανῶν θυρεάσπιδες, οἵδε χαλινοὶ/στοιχηδὸν ξεσταί τ' ἀμφίβολοι κάμακες / δέδμηνται, ποθέουσαι ὁμῶς ἵππους τε καὶ ἄνδρας,/ Παλλάδι· τοὺς δ' ὁ μέλας ἀμφέχανεν θάνατος." These poems are very important passage for our knowledge of Lucanian military equipment. The Lucani utilized the standard Samnite oblong *thureous* shield, the curved sickle-sword *kopidas*, and even spiked spear-butts for close combat. For a general treatment of Leonidas's poetry, see M. Gigante, "La cultura a Taranto," in *Taranto nella civiltà della Magna Grecia. Atti del decimo convegno di studi sulla Magna Grecia. Taranto, 4-11 ottobre 1970* (1971), 76-131.

some conflict a few years afterward.[891] His Lucanian opponents were brave combatants to the end. Their weapons speak, regretting the loss of their horses and knights; this too, even in defeat, is the language of a worthy opponent.

The same held true for the Romans. Julius Caesar, according to Dio Cassius, listed the Lucani among the fierce peoples whom the Romans had mastered.[892] Scipio Africanus implies that the Lucani were once worthy enemies.[893] The context is a mutiny that arose with a rumor of his death. He could understand had the Roman mutineers united with a noble group like Pyrrhus or his Lucanian allies, but how could they attach themselves to such base villains as Mandonius and Indibilis? The Lucani were once enemies, but enemies worthy of respect.[894]

III. *Lucani Barbari*

To most Greek and Roman writers, the Lucani were typical barbarians. They had several admirable traits (their bravery, justice, and hospitality). But most pictures of the Lucanian people are pejorative. This very image of Lucania as a backward, rustic, wild region of uncivilized men troubled Horace, perhaps the most famous Lucanian ever, depending on his (unknown) lineage, and how one defines Lucania, which even he could

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[891] A. Mele, "Leonida e le armi dei Lucani," in *Mathesis e philia: Studi in onore di Marcello Gigante*, ed. S. Cerasuolo (Naples: Università degli Studi di Naples Federico II, 1995), 112-4.

[892] Diod. Cass. 38.37.5.

[893] Liv. 28.28.

[894] Likely the Lucanian *paideia* also earned martial credibility among the Romans.

not do:[895]

> It delights me to combine words in metrical feet, after the manner of Lucilius, who is better than both of us. He once entrusted his secrets to his books, as though to faithful friends, nor, if things had turned out poorly or well, did he run to anyone else; from which it happens that the whole life of this old man lies open, as if it had been painted on a votive tablet. I am following his example, though I am in doubt whether I am a Lucanian or an Apulian; for the Venusinian farmer plows on the border of both peoples; he (as the old story goes) was sent for this purpose, once the Samnites had been expelled, lest the enemy attack the Romans anymore, through vacant territory, or lest the Apulian nation, or the fierce Lucanian people, should incite war. But this pen will not attack any man breathing, and will defend me like a sword that is sheathed in the scabbard: why should I try to draw it, safe as I am from terrible bandits?[896]

These lines follow a standard Roman custom of self-deprecation, as his origin relegates him below the noble Lucilius. In an effort to save face Horace feebly hints at a Roman bloodline, though we find guilt of a "polluted" family tree (i.e. Apulian or Lucanian ancestors) in the ambiguity of his heritage. More blatantly we see that the Lucanian people are a *violenta hostis*, who seem ever on the verge of invasion. This ferocity contrasts vividly with Horace, who is peaceful, fighting only in self-defense; and while the "violent bandits" technically refers to his literary enemies, there can be no doubt that it contrasts with the Lucani and Apulii of this passage, and especially with the image of them as violent brigand-shepherds.[897]

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[895] Horace was the son of a freedman of unknown ethnicity. Porphyrion, *Comm. in Hor. Carm.* 1.28.26 notes: "Venusia colonia est inter Lucaniam et Apuliam, patria poetae"; cf. *Vita Horatii*, 1. Appian (*BC* 1.42) seems to think that Venusia was Apulian. Strabo (5.4.11) clearly believes that Venusia was Samnite, but he also thinks that the Lucani were Samnites, too; see Str. 5.3.1; Str. 6.1.3; 6.3.7.

[896] Hor. *Sat.* 2.1.28-42. See A. Russi, "Orazio Lucanus an Apulus anceps: (Sat. II 1, 34)," in *Archivio storico pugliese,* vol. 48 (1995): 7-16.

[897] See below, p. 297. For more on Horace and Lucania, see D. Gagliardi, "La Lucania," in *Bimillenario della morte di Q. Orazio Flacco: Atti del convegno (Venosa 8-15 novembre 1992)* (Venosa, 1993), 181-192.

Silius Italicus (first century AD) depicts the Lucani as tough, rugged men who almost seem to draw their strength from the forests and hills.[898] These young Lucanian men run around cloaked in shaggy beast skins, nourished by hunting, living in the forest, drinking from the rivers, and working hard. The Greeks and Romans certainly did not miss the association between the practice, the people, and the very land itself.

Another telling passage, though not without its own problems, is that of Aristoxenos, as Athenaeus relates in the *Deipnosophistae*:

> On which account [that artists today make it their primary goal to gain the applause of their spectators] Aristoxenos in his book *Promiscuous Banquets* writes: "We act in such a way as do the Poseidoniates who dwell in the Tyrrhenian gulf. It happened to them that though they were originally Greeks they completely barbarized, becoming Tyrrhenians or Romans, and they changed their language, and all the rest of their habits, but they do celebrate one Greek festival even today, in which they meet and recall all those ancient names and customs, and after bewailing the loss to one another and crying, they depart. And so," he says, "since the theaters have completely barbarized, and since music itself has entirely digressed into a state of great ruin, being few, we will recall to ourselves what music once was."[899]

The Lucani are absent from this description of Paestum's barbarization. Scholars have proposed various emendations to account for the discrepancy, such as expunging "ἢ Ῥωμαίους", which thus would set the passage in the Lucanian era; others set the whole passage after the Roman conquest, bypassing the Lucanian era.[900] A simpler explanation exists. We cannot hold Aristoxenos (fourth century BC) to the most rigorous historical standards—his book is entitled "Promiscuous banquets," after all. This is not a critical inquiry into how things really were, but a satirical lamentation on the state of art. By

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[898] Sil. 8.561-586.

[899] Aristox. 124 W (=Ath. 14.31.632a-b).

[900] Gigante, "La cultura a Taranto," 75-6.

"Tyrrhenians" he probably means all the inhabitants of the Paestan plain, including the Lucani. Aristoxenos is more concerned with condemnation than precision: it is rabble such as these barbaric Lucani who have destroyed the once great poleis of Magna Graecia, along with their wonderful theaters.[901]

Finally, the third century AD musician and writer Aristides Quintilianus aims another scathing swipe at the Lucani.[902] Music soothes the savage beast, and feral men like the Lucani. There are two primary failures in the argument of *paideia*: lack of taste and bad taste. The Lucani and Opikoi have the former, being "wholly without taste..., obtuse, and bestial." These classic barbarians are slaves to their bellies, hunger clouding their minds. This contrasts sharply with sophisticated Greeks, who are happy on account of virtue and every science, and who excel in human feeling. One of the most interesting things about this passage is that the third-century AD Aristides still distinguished a distinctly Lucanian element long after the Lucani had fully "Romanized." Presumably this is primarily a geographical term.

IV. Ugly Lucania

In the minds of many writers, the landscape of Lucania comes off very badly, a

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[901] See also D. Asheri, "Processi di 'decolonizzazione' in Magna Grecia: Il caso di Poseidonia lucana," in *La colonisation grecque en Méditerranée occidentale: Actes de la rencontre scientifique en hommage à Georges Vallet, organisée par le centre Jean-Bérard, l'Ecole française de Rome, l'istituto universitario orientale et l'universita degli studi di Naples Federico II, Rome, Naples, 15-18 novembre 1995* (Rome: Ecole française de Rome, 1999), 361-5, though Asheri presumes a Lucanian conquest of Poseidonia in his discussion of the supposed barbarization of the city.

[902] Arist. Quint. *De mus.* 2.6.

typical mountain haven for barbarian peoples. Even today the southern spine of the Apennines makes Lucania difficult to traverse—"*duro ed aspro*," Magaldi tersely summarizes.[903] The land appears rustic, backwards, and hideous in many ancient writers, to the point of Lucania becoming almost a trope for barbarity. This reputation continued into the early Empire; Statius breathed a sigh of relief after his friend returned safely from such a horrible, monstrous place.[904]

Even the lovely Lucanian Tyrrhenian coast could not completely escape some criticism; after all, it did harbor the deadly Sirens, Scylla, and Charybdis. Strabo condemns the entire Silaran plain as noxious.[905] The second-century BC satirist Lucilius complains that the road through coastal Lucania is ruinous and muddy (a sentiment that Cicero later shared).[906] Like the roads, the people of the area are unrefined: "for in those regions the dirt-encrusted pot and the stalk of bitter root are considered honey sweet; they have no oysters, clams, asparagus..."[907] Crude belching and flatulence follow, low-brow satisfaction with a rustic meal. To make matters worse, the Sele river mouth was notorious for some kind of massive, pestiferous gadfly. Vergil complains about these

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[903] Magaldi, *Lucania romana,* 13.

[904] Stat. *Silv.* 3.2.78-89.

[905] Str. 6.1.2.

[906] Lucil. 3.109; Cic. *Ad Att.* 3.2. For a more neutral view of this Tyrrhenian coast road from Rhegium to Rome (via Bruttium, Lucania, and Campania), see Str. 6.3.7. Horace complained of difficulties travelling along the Adriatic (*Sat.* 1.5.94-95).

[907] Lucil. 3.123-143. Lucilius's *Syra caupona* (both inn and innkeeper) is an intriguing figure at this juncture. Could this be a play on words hinting at the Sirens?

monster mosquitoes, the *asilus*, terrorizing cattle between the Sele and the Tanagro.[908] Commenting on Vergil, Probus and Servius reiterate just how annoying they were: "*...bubus maxime nocens.*"[909] The unpleasant association between the pest and the Sele endured a long time, as we even see it in the sixth/seventh AD century martyrologium of St. Vitus.[910]

A. *Silviae pastionesque*

Lucania is particularly difficult country. The mountains are very steep, separated almost entirely by the deep river gorges of the rivers Sele, Bradano, Sinni, and Lao. One modern author compared the region to a rider mounted on the rocky, uneven steed of the Apennines.[911] Cato the Elder attests to the use of mountain sleighs, presumably since

[908] Ver. *Georg.* 3.146-156. See also Sen. *Ad Lucil.*58.1-2

[909] Probus *In Verg. Georg.* 3.146-149: "Silarus flumen est Lucaniae, portus Alburnus et eiusdem nominis mons ad sextum a primis tabernis. Mentionem facit Lucilius hoc versu: 'Quattuor hinc Silari ad flumen portumque Alburnum.' ASILO. Genus est tabani adeo acre, ut soleat armenta bucera inquietare: vocatur Graece οἶστρος." Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Georg.* 3.146: "Ordo talis est: circa lucos Silari, fluminis Lucaniae, et Alburnum, eiusdem montem, est plurimus volitans: ac si diceret, est multa musca. 'Volitans' autem modo nomen est, non participium. Et aliter: ordo 'est pluriumus volitans circa lucos Silari Alburnumque virentem ilicibus.' 'Volitans' absolute. Silarus et Alburnus in Lucania sunt montes. Nigidius de animalibus 'Asilus est musca varia, tabanus, bubus maxime nocens. Hic apud Graecos prius μύωψ vocabatur, postea (a) magnitudine incommodi oestrum appellarunt.'"

[910] *Passio S. Viti* 2.17 (p. 1025): "Descendit autem Angelus Domini, et elevavit eos de catasta; et subito inventi sunti iuxta fluvium, qui dicitur Siler, et requieverunt sub arbore; invocante S. Vito Dominum et dicente: Domine Iesu Christe, fili Dei vivi, perfice desiderium cordis eorum, qui in tuo sancto nomine volunt gloriari de passione martyrii mei. Custodi illos, Domine, ab omnibus periculis huius seculi, et perduc eos ad gratiam et gloriam magnificentiae tuae; et per dies quatuor natalis mei, musca non appareat, quae imago est daemonum, in hoc loco martyrii mei. Et cum complesset S. Vitus orationem, facta est vox de caelo, dicens ad eum: Vite, exauditae sunt orationes tuae. Et his dictis, beatae Sanctorum animae, sacris egressae corporibus, in similitudine columbarum nive candidiores, comitantibus eas Angelorum psallentium choris, caelum cum gaudio petierunt." The martyrs St. Vitus, Modestus, and Crescentia play an important role in the early Christian history of Lucania: *Passio S. Viti* 1.1; *Passio S. Viti* 2.10 (p. 1024). Cf. Jerome *Martyrologium* XVII Kal. Iul.

[911] M. Petrarulo, *Viaggio nel paese dei Lucani* (Rome: N.E.M.I., 1966), 5.

wheeled carts proved useless in rugged areas.[912] Cicero calls the land journey through Lucania "*molestum.*"[913] The coastline was somewhat more hospitable, and better for farming; mountain ranges and forests dominate the interior. Agricultural production still remains low; today Campania produces four times as much wine as Basilicata, even though Campania is only about one-third larger. Thus, the primary economy for thousands of years has been transhumance.[914] Modern scholars have long recognized a typical pattern of transhumance in Lucania: herdsmen pastured their flocks in the mountains during the summer, moving them when winter came along long-trodden paths (*tratturi*) from western and central Lucania to the flat lands between Mount Gargano and the Silentian promontory.[915]

Unfortunately, this institution is somewhat scarce in the literary evidence; commenting on Horace's obscure reference to southern Italy in Epode One, Porphyrion alludes to the practice of transhumance:

> "Or that my cattle may exchange their Lucanian pastures for Calabrian ones before the scorching Dog-star": indeed, the meaning here is ambiguous, but since he says "before the scorching Dog-star" and since it is quite obvious that Calabria is very hot,

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[912] Cato *De Agr.* 135.1.

[913] Cic. *Att.* 3.3.

[914] For a general definition, with variations, of transhumance, see W. Goldschmidt, "A General Model for Pastoral Social Systems," in *Pastoral Production and Society* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1979), 15-27. For transhumance in Italy, see E. Gabba and M. Pasquinucci, *Strutture*, 79 ff.; Toynbee, *Hannibal's Legacy*, vol. 1, 288; J.M. Frayn, *Subsistence Farming in Roman Italy* (London: Centaur Press, Ltd., 1979), 34-40; J. Thompson, "Pastoralism and Transhumance in Roman Italy," in *Pastoral Economies in Classical Antiquity. Proceedings of the Cambridge Philological Society*, supp. 14, ed. C.R. Whittaker (Cambridge: Cambridge Philological Society, 1988), 213-5.

[915] E. Gabba and M. Pasquinucci, *Strutture, 170.* Transhumance in the primary sources (not an exhaustive list): see Strabo 6.1.4; Justin. 23.1.12; Varro *Rust.* 2.1.2, 2.10.11; Hor. *Ep.* 1.27-8.

> it appears that he is saying this: "I fear that my cattle may cross from Calabria into Lucania before the hottest part of the summer."[916]

These paths, which cannot have changed much over thousands of years, were the natural routes that the earliest immigrants to southern Italy followed. Transhumance, and the shepherd, specifically, left an indelible mark on the minds of Roman authors. In some ways, little has changed; the herdsman, though modern economic principles and laws on land usage in Basilicata restrict him more, is not an uncommon sight in the region. However, Horden and Purcell have attacked books and movies such as *Christ Stopped at Eboli* for depicting a world that has never existed, and it does seem true that the idea of complete isolation is not totally accurate.[917] The Greek cities were not very far away. Nevertheless, the geography of the area made a deep impression on the ancient writer, and thus influenced his attitude of the area and the populace at large, both inside and outside of Lucania. Seneca thought the region most nightmarish:

> Hence men undertake broad journeys, and wander over remote shores, and their fickleness, always troubled with the present, proves itself now on land and now on sea. "Now let us seek Campania," they say. Then, when soft living becomes tiresome, "Let us see the wild parts, let us seek out the remote parts of Bruttium and Lucania." Nevertheless among those deserted areas something pleasant is missing, in which their self-indulgent eyes may be relieved from the enduring squalor of those rugged places: "Let us head for Tarentum and its famous harbor and its mild winter climate, and a region rich enough to have a great throng of people, even in antiquity. Let us now turn our course toward Rome: too long have our ears missed the shouts

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[916] Porphyrion, *Comm. in Hor. Epodos* 1.27-28: "PECUSVE CALABRIS ANTE SIDUS FERVIDUM LUCANA MUTET PASCUIS. Ambigua quidem elocutio est, sed cum ante sidus fervidum dicat et Calabriam manifestissimum sit caloratam esse, apparet eum hoc dicere: non ut pecus ante ferventissimum aestatis tempus ex Calabria in Lucaniam transeat." See also Varro, *R.R.* 2.9.5-6. Here, shepherds' dogs return from Lucania to Umbria, which La Greca (363) sees as evidence of commercial husbandry between Umbria and Lucania.

[917] P. Horden and N. Purcell, *The Corrupting Sea: A Study of Mediterranean History* (Malden, Massachusetts: Blackwell Publishers, 2000), 466-70.

and the din"; it pleases them even now to enjoy human blood.[918]

The roads are terrible, the people are terrible, and so is the culture (or lack thereof), as he moves from refined Campania to barbaric Lucania. These places are "*deserta,*" "*horrentium,*" lacking "*amoeni*" and with lots of "*squalore*" from which our "*luxuriosi oculi*" need to be relieved (*releventur*). Unlike Tarentum, the region lacks people, and the shouts and din of public spectacles. This final point may confirm the depopulation that the archaeological material indicates.

As late as the fourth century AD the region bore this unpleasant reputation. Avienus paints one of the most unflattering depictions of Lucania:

> From here the Campanian field scatters the soil. In this area at one point the waters enveloped Parthenope gliding into the sea's surface from the coaxing bay. If you should turn your eyes toward the warm Southerly, you will notice the lofty peaks of Picenum [i.e. Picentia]. The foliage of a great deal of leaves is strewn there, and Bacchus covers the fields with his vines spread out everywhere. Then the region of the Lucani bristles with its crags that loom from on high; numerous stones make the uneven soil very rough, and the forests appear impenetrable with their endless trees. Moving on, the fierce Bruttian cultivates the land among the thorns, and occupies faithless citadels, up to the point where Sicanian streams stretch to the sea, and where the lands have separated, the waters turn the ever unstable sea, where either the Adriatic tide spews much sea weed far off onto eastern shoals, or where the abyss of the Tyrrhenian sea whirls.[919]

It does not help Lucania's reputation that, beforehand, Avienus portrays the Picentine Silaran territory quite positively (even though this is really Lucanian territory, too). His

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[918] Sen. *Tranq.* 2.13.

[919] Av. *Desc. Orb.* 496-510: "hinc Campanus ager glebam iacit: hic freta quondam/Parthenopen blando labentem in marmora ponti/suscepere sinu: tepidum si rursus in austrum/convertare oculos, nemorosi maxima cernes/culmina Piceni: coma largi palmitis illic/tenditur, ac fuso Bacchus tegit arva flagello./ tunc Lucanorum regio insurgentibus alte/cautibus horrescit: scrupus sola creber iniqua/asperat, et denso caecantur stipite silvae./ Bruttius hinc dumos acer colit inter, et arces/obsidet infidas, donec sicana fluenta/intendant pelagus, displosisque aequora terris/instabile inclinent semper mare, qua vel eois/Hadrias unda vadis largam procul expuit algam,/vel qua Tyrrheni praeceps involvitur aestus."

opinion is clear: Lucania is an unpleasant area, in soil, topography, flora, and fauna. We also should note that his descriptors carry some kind of alternative, pejorative meaning: *horrescit* doubles to mean bristle up, or become terrified; *scrupus* signifies worry; *asperat* also means "irritates" or "enrages." Whether this was intentional is difficult to say; we might only note that such alternative associations did not resonate poorly with what Avienus intended.

B. The *Lucanica*: Food Fit for the *Barbaroi*

Under the name of Apicius has survived the only nearly-complete cookbook of the ancient world. This senator who lived during the reigns of Augustus and/or Tiberius did not write the entire work, but some of it probably was his. Assuredly, our conceptions of cooking differ vastly from his, and perhaps that of the ancient Greek and Roman world as well. Unfortunately for Apicius, his 10,000,000 sesterces estate was insufficient to maintain the kind of aristocratic lifestyle required, and he felt compelled to commit suicide in despair.[920] But his cookbook contains a number of fascinating recipes, most importantly (for our purposes) the *Lucanica*/*Lucanicus*, Lucanian sausage.[921]

Even today both Italy and Greece have a long, un-linked sausage bearing the name of the Lucani (*Luganega* and λουκάνικο respectively). How ancient authors depict

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[920] Sen. *Helv.* 10.

[921] Apic. 2.4: "Lucanicas similiter ut supra scriptum est: Lucanicarum confectio teritur piper, cuminum, satureia, ruta, petroselinum, condimentum, bacae lauri, liquamen, et admiscetur pulpa bene tunsa ita ut denuo bene cum ipso subtrito fricetur. Cum liquamine admixto, pipere integro et abundanti pinguedine et nucleis inicies in intestinum perquam tenuatim perductum, et sic ad fumum suspenditur." The fourth-century AD grammarian Flavius Sosipater Charisius (*Gramm.* 1, p. 94 Keil) and the famous seventh/eighth

the Lucanian sausage leaves no question that the entree was an inexpensive base for other dishes, and was not very illustrious.[922] According to Varro, Roman soldiers on campaign in Lucania named the sausage (we do not know what the Lucani called their own dish).[923] The Lucanian sausage was a ubiquitous, simple dish; some authors deprecate it as a very base food, like "American" corn in England today: the fourth-century AD Ammianus Marcellinus even derides the commoners who would eat that sort of thing.[924]

According to the *Historia Augusta* the wicked emperor Caracalla once cracked a joke about Lucanian sausages: "And when he had defeated the Germans he called himself Germanus, either in jest or in earnest, since he was foolish and mad, alleging that had he conquered the Lucani, he should have been given the name Lucanicus."[925] As always when working with the *Historia Augusta* we must be very careful. But the assumption and irony driving the joke is that the emperor of Rome would be "sausage" if he had defeated the right (base) people, the Lucani. We may even detect a hint from this joke that the *Lucanicus* was a low-brow euphemism for the male genitalia, but without evidence it must remain only speculation.

The lawyer Sabellus received from his poorer clients paltry bribes like Lucanian

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century AD archbishop and etymologist Isidore of Seville (20.2.28) believed that this dish was a Lucanian creation.

[922] The ancient diet for the average person (whoever that was) consisted of much less meat consumption than the diet of the average modern westerner (whoever that is), so one could argue that any meat would be a delicacy, but this seems rather unconvincing.

[923] Varro, *LL* 5.22.11.

[924] Amm. Marc. 28.4.28-9.

[925] Hist. Aug. *M. Ant.* 5.6: "Et cum Germanos subegisset, Germanicum se appellavit vel ioco vel serio, ut erat stultus et demens, adserens, si Lucanos vicisset, Lucanicum se appellandum."

sausages, according to the first-century AD poet Martial.[926] His contemporary Statius jokes with Plotius Gripus to send something better than his terrible book.[927] Though superior to that piece of work, the Lucanian sausage, sitting among other lowly vessels, is the perfect picture of mundanity. Statius was no stranger to the Lucanian sausage, since he was probably born at Velia; we can hear his inherent distaste for the banal food of the Lucanian commoners (which image the Velians probably played up, since they took such great pride in supposedly having maintained Grecian purity, at least up until the Roman conquest).[928]

But our best picture of the lowliness of the Lucanian sausage comes in Cicero's joking letter to Papirius Paetus:

> For I'd like to see the man who would dare to serve me what you describe, or even a polypus looking as red as Jupiter Miniatus. Believe me, you won't dare: before my arrival the fame of my new-found elegance will reach you; you will stare in wonder at it. But there's no use in putting any hope on your hors d'oeuvre; I've totally given up: for back then your olives and Lucanian sausages used to make me sick. But why all this talk? Let me only get to you.[929]

The passage is filled with numerous inside jokes, some of which are even now obscure. But the reference to the Lucanian sausage is clear. Like the octopus mentioned beforehand, *Lucanicae* are poor fare, unfit for a respectable guest, but sufficient for

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[926] Mart. 4.46.1-11. 13.35 also calls the *Lucanicus* a good side dish for mush. This is one of the few attestations to Lucanian Picentia, although note that 4.46.12 speaks of a *Piceno* just after a reference to *Lucanica.*

[927] Stat. *Silv.* 4.9.32-39.

[928] For Velia as Statius's father's birthplace, see Stat. *Silv.* 5.3.124-129.

[929] Cic. *Fam.* 9.16.8-9.

Cicero in his humble state.[930]

V. Wild Lucania: Bears, Boars, and *Boves*

Perhaps one of the strongest images of Lucania is its reputation as a wild, rugged region, where bears and boars lurk. Lucania even spawned fantastic creatures: the second-century AD physician Galen speaks of Lucanian half-bear, half-pigs.[931] Other oddities abounded: according to the Hellenistic scholar Aristophanes Byzantius, Lucanian horses are small bodied, modest, ugly in color, ugly to look at, but among the toughest under yoke, if not a bit feisty.[932] Among Lucania's marvels we find *prodigia* like horse-footed and monkey-headed lambs.[933] What do such pictures say about the Lucani themselves? The Lucani come off as a people somehow acclimated to all this, if not assimilating many of these beasts' negative traits.

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[930] In his scathing assault on the practices of pagans, the third/fourth century AD Christian author Arnobius (*Adversum nationes* 2.42) lists Lucanian sausages as among the delicacies enjoyed by such profligates. But this is the satire of early Christian apologetics, so we must be cautious.

[931] Gal. 6.666: "οὔκ ουν ἔτι δεήcομαι λόγων μακρῶν εἰc τὸ τὰ καθ' ἕκαcτον ἔθνοc ἐπιχώρια τῶν ζῴων ἅπαντα διέρχεcθαι, καθάπερ ἐν μὲν Ἰβηρίᾳ τὸ τοῖc λαγωοῖc ὅμοιον ζωῦφιον, ὃ καλοῦcι κούνικλον, ἐν Λευκανίᾳ δὲ τῆc Ἰταλίαc τὸ μεταξύ πωc ἄρκτου τε καὶ cυόc, ὥcπερ γε καὶ τὸ τῶν ἀρουραίων μυῶν ἢ μυωξῶν καὶ τῶν καλουμένων ἐλειῶν ἐν μέcῳ κατά τε τὴν αὐτὴν χώραν τῆc Ἰταλίαc ἐν ἄλλοιc τε πολλοῖc τόποιc ἐcθιόμενον."

[932] Arist. Byz. *Hist. anim.* 2.602: "Λευκανοὶ δὲ ἵπποι φαῦλοι, μικροὶ τὸ σῶμα, δυσειδεῖς τὸ χρῶμα, αἰσχροὶ τὰς ὄψεις, ὑπὸ ζυγὸν δὲ ἐργαστικώτατοι." Cf. Hippiatrica, fragmenta timothei Gazaei sec. 12: "Σικελοὶ ταύτὸν ἂν ἦσαν τοῖς Λευκανοῖς, ἀχθέντες δὲ ἄμφω καλοὶ γένοιντ' ἄν."

[933] Iul. *Obseq. Prodig.* 43. Other signs in Lucania associated with animals include: milk rain; a fire from heaven that consumed a lamb; a five-footed foal (Liv. 31.12.5-7). Lucania has other strange portents: flying weapons at Compsa (Iul. *Obseq. Prodig.* 17), gaping chasms (38), iron rain (Plin. *HN* 2.57.147; cf. Joannes Laurentius Lydus *De ostentis* 6.13), and the sky ablaze (Liv. 31.12.5-7).

A. Lucanian Bears

Varro presumes an association between bears and Lucania when he notes: "The origin of the word for bear is Lucanian, or our ancestors, like the Lucani, named it from its growl."[934] To Ovid, the Lucanian bear was big, scary, and stupid.[935] Martial's Daedalus wished for his namesake's invention when facing a Lucanian bear in the arena: "O Daedalus, since you are so sliced up by this Lucanian bear, how desperately you wish you could have your wings now!"[936] The image of the Lucanian bear apparently transcended the beast itself; rather, it applied to the residents of this wild land that nourished the animal. That is the point behind Tertullian's nonchalant swipe at a certain Lucan the Lucanian, who is naturally ursine in disposition.

> I believe, however, that the salvation of the soul does not need to be reconsidered: for nearly all heretics, in whatever way they want to understand it, at least do not deny it. Somehow that one heretic Lucan will figure it out, he who does not even spare this nature, which (as Aristotle did) he disperses and substitutes something else in its place, saying that he will rise again as a third something, neither soul nor flesh, that is, not a man, but perhaps as a bear, being a Lucanian.[937]

The nonchalant nature of Tertullian's attack presumes that his readers were familiar with a common association between Lucanian bears and the people of the region.

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[934] Varro, *LL* 5.20.100: "Ursi Lucana origo vel, unde illi, nostri ab ipsius voce."

[935] Ov. *Hal.* 58-59: "Foedus Lucanis provolvitur ursus ab antris, quid nisi pondus iners stolidaeque ferocia mentis?"

[936] Mart. *Spect.* 8: "Daedale, Lucano cum sic lacereris ab urso,/quam cuperes pinnas nunc habuisse tuas!" Finally, we recall that Pliny (*HN* 3.11.98) names, among his list of Lucanian tribes and towns, the suspicious *Ursentini*.

[937] Tert. *De Resurrect.* 2.12. This heretic Lucan may be identifiable: see Hippol. *Haer.* 7.37.

B. Lucanian Boars

Boars may even be more indicative of the Lucanian wilderness. Statius uses the ferocity of the Lucanian boar in a powerful simile describing the murderous Tydeus.[938] Here we see a wild, ravenous boar in mortal combat with a Lucanian hunter. Wielding his lance (quite effectively, to the consternation of the thrashing boar), he seems unable to escape association with the ruggedness of Lucania itself.

Hunting played an important role in Lucanian culture, an institution that the Greeks and Romans seem to have applied to the people as a whole, judging from all these examples of bears and boars roaming the land.[939] Hunting certainly can be a positive image, such as when it represents an important rite of passage, a test of strength, or sport for royalty. But the value changes when it is an entire "barbarian" region or society hunting for food; in this situation, hunting represents a lack of civility: the people are not cultured enough to know how to till the land. The image of the Lucanian hunter represents a gruff, martial, semi-wild barbarian whose habitat and disposition are not unlike the animals that he hunts and the wildernesses over which he ranges.[940]

Horace introduces a rugged Lucanian hunter in an assault on the habits of the wastrel Nomentanus.[941] This Lucanian strikes an unflattering pose: he is one of the *vulgus* who possess a skill suited only to satisfy Nomentanus. He is dressed (or, rather,

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[938] Stat. *Theb.* 8.529-535.

[939] Magaldi, 49-54.

[940] In Grattius Faliscus's *Cynegeticon* (117-123) the narrator is frustrated with the Lucanian hunter's unfair and unheroic weaponry. Even more intriguing, it is an Arcadian named Dercylos who first laid nets to trap animals, and we have already mentioned the link between images of Arcadia and Lucania in our sources.

booted) ruggedly (*ocreatus*), he sleeps in the snow, and, really, the only value of his existence (to Nomentanus and Horace) is that he can catch a boar.[942] The Lucanian hunter's quarry shows up again later in Horace's Satire, this time on the table of the rich Nasidienus.[943] His boast that the boar was caught in a gentle south wind, and thus tender, is just a smokescreen to cover the fact that it indeed was not tender, but cheap and old. Regardless, we see that to Horace Lucanian hunters—not too much different from the boars that they sought—roamed the region to provide delicacies (or sham delicacies) for civilized Roman nobles.

C. Lucanian Cows

Certainly the most interesting beast associated with Lucania is the *Luca bos*, the "Lucanian cow," i.e. an elephant.[944] The term developed very early in the third BC, as Naevius attests: "...and sooner will a lobster bear a Lucanian ox."[945] A little later (193 BC) Plautus exploited the *Luca bos* for a comical scene of footstomping: "**Olympio:** O, my teensy little darling wife! What's that about?! **Lysidamus:** What's the matter? **Olympio:** She's stomped on my foot like a Lucanian ox! **Lysidamus:** [*aside*] By the

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[941] Hor. *Sat.* 2.3.224-238.

[942] Frayn, *Sheep-Rearing*, 86.

[943] Hor. *Sat.* 2.8.1-9.

[944] Latin "*Luca*" is derived from Oscan **Lúkvans*.

[945] Naev. *Belli Poenici fragmenta*, 65-6: "atque prius pariet locusta lucam bouem."

way, a mist is not as soft as this one's bosom!"[946]

The phrase seems to have fascinated ancient grammarians and other writers interested in etymologies.[947] Varro elaborates:

> A *Luca bos* is an elephant; I have found two different versions why it is called this. In the commentary of Cornelius the *Lucas* came from the Libyans, but in that of Vergil, it came from the Lucani; from this latter because our soldiers called it a *Luca bos*, since the largest four-footed creature that they had known was called an ox, and in the war against Pyrrhus they had first seen elephants in Lucania among the enemy, and since that also was a "horned" four-footed creature (since many people say that their teeth are horns), they thought of it as a Lucanian ox. If they had been named *Luca* from Libya, perhaps panthers and lions would not be called *Africae* beasts, but *Lucae*; nor would bears be called *Lucani* but *Luci*. For this reason I think that *Luca* comes from light [*luce*], because these beasts shone from afar on account of their regal golden shields, with which their towers at that time had been adorned.[948]

Varro's explanation does not seem to have satisfied most, who prefer the standard Lucanian origin. The Romans first saw elephants on the battlefield against Pyrrhus, and the image of them towering over the armies of Rome (along with the losses in war that they caused) left a deep impression on them.[949] The expression had a long lifespan: we have already mentioned Naevius and Plautus; Lucretius painted grisly scenes of Carthaginian elephants running amok through the legions.[950] But even imperial writers like Florus (second century AD) speak of the *Luca bos*.[951] The term had metaphorical

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[946] Plaut. *Cas.* 842-847: "**OL.** O, corpusculum malacum. Mea uxorcula — quae res? **LY.** Quid est? **OL.** institit plantam quasi luca bos. **LY.** Tace sis, nebula haud est mollis aeque atque huius est pectus."

[947] Isid. 12.2.15; Plin. *HN* 8.6.16; Solin. 25.15.

[948] Varro *LL* 7.3.39-40. See also M. Raoss, s.v. Luca Bos, in *Dizionario epigrafico di antichità romane*, 1880-1881.

[949] Liv. *Per.* 13.

[950] Lucr. 5.1302-1304; 1338-1340.

[951] Flor. 1.13.28.

credit even in Ausonius (fourth century AD): "Why do you shun me, neighbor to the walls of Saintes, as of old the Roman youth fled from the Lucanian oxen who renewed the battle with exceeding fury?"[952] The fifth-century AD military treatise writer Vegetius exhorted his readers through a picture of a bold centurion who once chopped off the trunk of a *Luca bos* while fighting in Lucania.[953]

Is it possible that the "Ugly Lucania" image played a role in the adoption of the term *Luca bos*? Put another way, had Pyrrhus landed in Umbria or Etruria, would the elephant have been called the *Umbrica bos* or the *Tusca bos*?[954] In the early third century BC Lucania was a troublesome, remote place of danger for Roman armies. Several Roman commanders celebrated triumphs over the Lucani, and yet they had to return time and again to the area, not only to suppress the Lucani, but also to repel foreign threats like Pyrrhus or Hannibal. The Romans clearly saw Pyrrhus as the oppressive, eastern tyrant, with his elephants and arrogant overtures of friendship. Thus, the term *Luca bos* goes beyond just the fact that the Romans first saw elephants there; the place itself added its orneriness and inaccessibility to the term. I suggest that the image value of Ugly Lucania did contribute to the development of the term.

D. Shepherds of Ill Repute

To some ancient writers the Apennine shepherd bore a quaint reputation as

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[952] Aus. *Ep.* 11.

[953] Veg. *Mil.* 3.24.5-7.

[954] Plautus used a comparable form, *Campans*, in *Trinummus* 545.

incorruptible men who enjoyed "civilization without decadence." The evidence indicates that transhumance and pastoralism are not indicative of backward societies, but rather require a sophisticated social structure to execute.[955] But the general picture of the shepherd is that of a backwards, unsophisticated, low-brow brute who is devoid of civility, like the monster Polyphemus, well-suited to the barbarity of the region itself. According to ancient authors, besides the bears, boars, and their hunters that roamed Lucania, the area harbored shepherds and brigands. Shepherds even trained the children of the Lucani to live in a wild, brigand-like, aggressive manner; this reputation seems to have stuck.[956]

In fact, a much less clear line of demarcation existed between thieves and shepherds than we would set today. The ancient world expected them to prey upon targets of opportunity, or at least be a general nuisance. And Lucania was a fitting habitat for "these kinds of people."[957] It was the Bruttian shepherds who had the audacity to break from their progenitors. An inscription from Polla in Lucania shows the author driving out squatter-shepherds to make land for farming.[958] The Theodosian code (admittedly very late) outlawed the use of horses in Lucania in order to curb shepherd-

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[955] Dench, 113-7.

[956] Justin. 23.1.1-17.

[957] Juvenal thinks (*Sat.* 8.163-182) a Lucanian *ergastulum* fitting for the kind of company that the the immoderate Lateranus keeps.

[958] *CIL* X.6950; T.P. Wiseman, "Roman Republican Road-Building," *Papers of the British School at Rome* 38 (1970): 122 ff.

brigandage.[959] Thus, it appears that the region carried the poor reputation of being the lawless haven of uncivilized shepherd-thieves.

VI. Beautiful Lucania

Instead of a rural, rustic, boar- and bear-infested wild land, Lucania appears in some sources a place of healthy air, beautiful flowers, fine dining, and a relaxed, pleasant lifestyle. Some authors, like Horace, seem torn in their estimation of Lucania, occasionally denigrating it, at other times praising its *otium*-inspiring virtues. Coastal Lucania became something of a tourist attraction, known for its slow lifestyle and healthy climate (the perfect qualities necessary for the villa of repose of a Roman noble like Cicero, Horace, or Maxentius), and its strange combination of an agrarian, riparian, and coastal character. Many of these images center on the Silarus mouth region—and this despite Strabo's insistence that the area was noxious.[960] But the *flora* of the area truly captured the attention of ancient writers. We will begin with one of the most famous examples of "Beautiful Lucania," the roses of Paestum.

A. The Roses of Paestum

The Paestans were famed cultivators. Numerous authors, both Greek and Roman,

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[959] Cod. Theod. 9.30.1-5.

[960] Luc. 2.421-427. This is an alternative reading of "*culta*", fields, which is preferable to "*tesca*", moors; cf. Col. *De Agr.* 10.127-136. See La Greca, 100-1. Noxious: Str. 6.1.1.

praise their roses, which were especially interesting to poets.[961] The sheer longevity of this image is instructive: as late as the fifth century AD writers were still singing their praises. The flowers bloomed bi-yearly, and became a lucrative trade for Lucania.[962] The Paestans were so successful in their industry that the Paestan rose became something of a trope in literature; Propertius used it in a curse-poem for a hyperbolic comparison between the mundane and the exceptional.[963] Even legend developed around these roses: Aeneas and his companions pass the island of Licosa and (anachronistically) the gardens of Paestum.[964] The superior fragrance of the Paestan rose also undergirds Ovid's adynaton describing Atticus's love for the poet.[965] Vergil, too, appreciated the lovely Paestan roses, as he takes a "wide view" over all of the Lucanian Sele.[966] Clearly, this is a very different picture of Lucania—not a wild region inhospitable to men, but rather a place suitable for those with more refined souls.

The power of the image continued into the Empire.[967] Columella speaks of the roses as a present-day event, giving us a first century AD reference point for these

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[961] For the roses of Paestum as an indicator of the recovery of the city from the ravages of malaria in the second century BC, see Mello, 151 ff.

[962] Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Georg.* 4.119: "BIFERIQUE ROSARIA PAESTI: Paestum oppidum Calabriae est, in quo uno anno bis nascitur rosa. Et aliter: Paestum urbs Lucaniae. Haec civitas Posidonia dicitur et est in agro Sallentino, colonia Tarentinorum."

[963] Prop. 4.5.61-62.

[964] Ov. *Met.* 15.703-12.

[965] Ov. *Pont.* 2.4.25-34.

[966] Ver. *Georg.* 4.116-124, which may indicate that the regional industry produced other flowers, too.

[967] P. Simelon, *La propriété*, 50.

gardens.[968] The Paestan rose also made a great impact on Martial; for example, he is fond of the roses' sharp color for use in his erotic poetry: "...let his lips redden, rivaling Paestan roses."[969] This flower's perfume became a poetic term for sweet breath, like Attic honey.[970] Even the roses of the lush gardens of magical Egypt cannot compare to those of Paestum.[971] Their growers knew very well the superiority of their product: sending poems to Nerva was as silly as giving flowers to Paestans.[972] But the highest praise that Martial could bestow on the roses of Paestum is that they are one of the few flowers worthy of his poetic crown.[973]

Poets of the late Empire also used the image. Solinus (fourth century AD) so highly esteemed these amazing roses, and the beautiful territory in which they flourished, that he included them in the wonders of southern Italy.[974] Ausonius, the pastoral poet of the fourth century AD, relied on the image.[975] La Greca wonders if the narrator's stroll

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[968] Col. *R.R.* 10.35-40.

[969] Martial 4.42.10: "...Paestanis rubeant aemula labra rosis." Cf. *Anth. Lat.*, *Carm.* 121.

[970] Martial 5.37.9-10: "fragrauit ore quod rosarium Paesti,/quod Atticarum prima mella cerarum."

[971] Martial 6.80.

[972] Martial 9.26.1-6.

[973] Martial 9.60. Martial (12.31) also thought his own flowers not inferior to the roses of Paestum.

[974] Solin. 2.22.

[975] Aus. *De rosis nascentibus* 1-20. Ausonius's use of the word *Lucaniacus* has intrigued scholars; it is thought to refer to a *Lucaniacus fundus* in Gaul, perhaps at Lupiac. See: Aus. *Epist.* 16; 22.7; 22.39; *Epigr.* 48.1; cf. Paul. Nol. *Epist.* 10.256; N.M. Kay, *Ausonius Epigrams* (Duckworth: London, 2001). Several other epigrams mention similar Lucanian-sounding words, especially among his family's names, which must stem from the same area in Gaul. His wife was an Attusia Lucana Sabina and his father-in-law Attusius Lucanus Talisius. Paulinus in his letter to Ausonius refers to the *Lucaniacus fundus*, but he calls it "*Lucanus*." *Epist.* 11 to Tetradius even mentions the *Luca bos*. This, however, is insufficient evidence to suggest that his *Lucaniacus fundus* was in Lucania and not in Gaul, since the evidence for the latter is overwhelming, judging from his own writings.

through rose gardens "as luxurious as those of Paestum" may actually be set in the Silaran plain. He also draws a connection between the schools of medicine of the Sorrentine peninsula, and what must have been a thriving unguent and perfume trade, with the rose gardens of Paestum.[976]

To the fifth-century Martianus Mineus Felix Capella the Paestan rose is lovely, unlike a very different feature of the coast, the rocks of the sirens.[977] Even in the sixth century AD, the image of their flower retained some poetic value. Ennodius, writing as late as 521 AD, hints at the color of the Paestan fields.[978] The rooster of *Anthologia Latina carmen* 121 struts around, more resplendent than Paestan roses.[979] It is unclear from these passages whether the Paestan roses were still being cultivated at this time. We might suppose this unlikely, given the deteriorated state of Lucania in Late Antiquity.[980] It is possible that the image of the Paestan rose had lived on only through poetry, but we cannot be sure.

What can these passages tell us about the Lucani? Because Paestum was such an amalgamation of peoples, especially after the Roman conquest, it almost certainly had

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[976] La Greca, 55-6. Claudian's *Carm.* 10.243-250 also briefly mentions the Paestan rose.

[977] Martianus Minneus Felix Capella, *De nupt.* 6.641: "Cetera Italiae memoranda nec poetae tacent, ut Scyllaeum oppidum cum Crateide flumine, quae Scyllae mater fuit, Charybdisque voraginem ac vertiginem tortuosam, Paestana rosaria, scopulos Sirenarum. In Campania amoenis antiauitus nemora."

[978] Ennod. *Carm.* 1.9.146-7; *Dict.* 8.6.

[979] *Anth. Lat.* 121: "De capone Phasiano/Candida Phoebeo praefulgunt ora rubore,/crista riget radiis, ignea barba micat./Alae, colla, comae, pectus, femur, inguina, cauda/Paestanis lucent floridiora rosis./Flammea sic rutilum distendit pinna colorem/ut vibrare putes plumea membra faces."

[980] Though modern estimations of this deterioration may be exagerrated: see Epilogue, p. 320.

lost a strictly Greek, or strictly Lucanian identity. However, it is safe to conclude that the roses of Paestum are one of many attributes that conveyed a positive image in association with Lucania to the writers of the ancient world.[981]

B. Magical Lucania

But that is coastal Lucania; what of the interior? Even there, we see that the ubiquitous mountains and forests did inspire some positive imagery. Many authors, as early as the fourth century BC, attribute to the land a magical quality. The River Sele gets much attention for its magical properties. Apparently, its waters turn wood into stone.[982] Another river near Atena Lucana (the Tanagro) mysteriously plunges underground, only to reappear miles later.[983] The Crathis and Sybaris rivers of lower Lucania and Bruttium supposedly turn cows, sheep, and even men darker or whiter.[984]

[981] One intriguing coincidence of note: the mythological father of Midas, King Pessinus, had a love of roses. The similarity of his name to Paestum must be accidental, nevertheless.

[982] Arist. *Mir.* 95 (838a); cf. Str. 5.4.13. Vitruvius Pollio tells of a "Velian" fountain that dissolves stones, but La Greca (376) believes that in all probability this is near Rieti and Lake Velino (cf. Plin. *HN* 31.5; see Pauly-Wissowa, s.v. Velinus, in VIII A.1.625). See also Eust. *Commentarii ad Dionys. Perieg.* 358 and Plin. *HN* 2.103.226. The petrifiying property of the Sele (and perhaps other rivers in the area) may have made its way into a myth surrounding Hercules, judging from Ath. *Dipn.* 10.56 (441a-b). While wandering near Croton, Hercules approaches a house; there he asks for a drink, and the owner wants to give him good wine. But his inhospitable wife, who had already drunk the good wine, says they should give the stranger water instead. Hercules, perhaps suspecting falsehood, recommends to her husband that he check the wine cask himself; he finds it completely petrified. An allegorical-naturalist interpretation of myth might derive the origins of this story from the petrifying ability of the rivers of Southern Italy. The river Salso may also have this petrifying property.

[983] Plin. *HN* 2.103.225: "Subeunt terras rursusque redduntur Lycus in Asia, ... Et in Atinate campo fluvius mersus post XX milia passuum exit et in Aquileiensi Timavus." For the Tanager, see also Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Georg.* 3.151, where it dries up in summer, but is a torrent in winter; cf. Probus, *In Verg. Georg.* 3.151. Interestingly, Vergil alleges that a Fury lives there. According to Vibius Sequester (185), there also existed a Lucanian *lacus Ampsanctus*, the vapors of which killed birds; Donatus (in Serv. *In Verg. Aen.* 7.563) also sets the lake in Lucania. Ver. *Aen.* 7.563-571 puts the volatile Ansanto in Hirpinum.

[984] Plin. *HN* 31.2.13-14.

Vitruvius Pollio believed that Lucanian shepherds brought their flocks to drink from the river Crathis so that their ewes would change color (which indirectly attests to a thriving coastal sheep trade).[985] The geology of Lucania was mysterious, too. We recall Festus's folk etymology of Lucania based on its soil color. Enchanting honey-colored, star-filled rocks supposedly wash up on the shores of Lucania.[986] Finally, we have already seen Lucania's peculiar fauna: the half-bears, half-monkeys, and even the *Luca bos*, though obviously not indigenous to the area, added to the touch.

The best example of Magical Lucania in the Greek and Roman mind, however, is Horace's Ode 3.4.9-28, which depicts him falling asleep in this wild, enchanted wilderness somewhere near Bantia on the border of Lucania and Apulia:

> Once, when I was a child, fatigued with play, the fabled doves covered me with green leaves as I lay asleep in the Apulian Voltur, just outside the limits of my native Apulia; it was a matter of wonder to all who inhabit the nest of lofty Acherontia, the forests of Bantia, and the rich soil of lowly Forentum, that I was asleep safe and sound from black vipers and bears; that I was covered with sacred laurel and heaped-up myrtle, a child, though not without divine inspiration. Yours, O muses, I am yours, whether I am lifted to the Sabine heights, or whether the cool Praeneste, or the sloping Tibur, or the watery Baiae have pleased me, who am a friend to your fountains and dances; neither the battle line that was routed at Philippi, nor the accursed tree, nor a Palinurus in the Sicilian Sea have destroyed me.[987]

The exact location of Horace's dream is difficult to place.[988] Voltur is west of Venusia, north of the Bradano River, which is Strabo's northern boundary of Lucania. However,

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[985] Vitruv. 8.3.14.

[986] Plin. *HN* 37.10.182.

[987] Hor. *Carm.* 3.4.9-28.

[988] This Palinurus is not Aeneas's helmsman who washed up (alive) on the Lucanian coast and was killed by savage Lucani (see above, p. 124), but Hannibal's helmsman; Hannibal suspected him of treachery and threw him overboard off the coast of Sicily, but later repented of his rash decision.

we have already seen how confusedly Horace viewed his own identity with respect to his homeland, and it is unlikely that the Lucani viewed their own borders as strictly as Strabo and our maps make them out.

Such exactness is a moot point, since this is a poetic image, and probably serves to represent the entire region. This enchanted forest lends credibility to Horace's liminality as a *vatis*, a seer chosen by the gods.[989] Supernatural women and goddesses inhabited the area: we have already seen that a Fury lived in a cave straddling Lucania and Hirpinum. The Sirens were maidens who threw themselves to their deaths on the rocks of Lucania's coast, and now supposedly haunted the region still. The *Suda* (probably drawing on Aristotle) notes that some ancient writers apparently thought that the Sibyl, so famous from Vergil's *Aeneid*, made her abode in Lucania.[990] The land in Horace's poem, like the *vatis* himself, straddles the threshold between civilization and the wild. In this dream sequence doves alight on Horace, lightly strewing leaves on him. Rich fields and dales abound. Yet even here we cannot quite escape the savage character of earlier images of Lucania (many of which are Horace's): black serpents slither through the forest, hulking bears lumber around, which also represent a negative side of Lucania. None hurt him, for he as *vatis* is sacrosanct—and this divine aegis in a way reflects the magical nature of the land.[991]

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[989] For a discussion of Horace as *vatis*, see R.F. Thomas, *Lands and Peoples in Roman Poetry: The Ethnographical Tradition*, in *Proceedings of the Cambridge Philological Society*, supp. 7 (Cambridge: Cambridge Philological Society, 1982), 25-7.

[990] *Suid.* s.v. Sibyl; see also Arist. *Mir.* 95 (838a).

[991] For more *fabulosa* of Horace, see *Carm.* 1.22.7; 1.4.16.

C. Lucanian Wine

Lucania's vintages did not compare with the prestigious Falernian or Vesuvian. Nonetheless, it did have a reputation for quality wine. Even the critical Lucilius, despite his virulent attack on the Lucani as a crude people, admits that their wine is good.[992] As far back as the second century BC, Cato the Elder advised that the vines of Lucania are good for shady and moist areas.[993] Varro echoes Cato's praise of the region's vines.[994] Pliny lists the wine of Lucania as a sweet, excellent vintage.[995] Later he notes the superior wines of interior Lucania, especially around the mysterious Lagaria (which may be Velia or Grumentum).[996] Strabo espouses their healing properties, which coincides well with the general reputation of the coastal region's salubrity.[997] Perhaps we may speculate from Cato and Varro's references to the moistness of the air that they were thinking of a wet, coastal climate.[998]

The second/third century AD Athenaeus specifies one strong and sour wine of the coast (Buxentum/Pyxus), and La Greca thinks his out-of-place Italian reference to

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[992] Lucil. 3.123-143.

[993] Cato *Agr.* 6.4.

[994] Varro *Rust.* 1.25.

[995] Plin. *HN* 14.3.38-39; 14.4.46-47.

[996] Plin. *HN* 14.6.69. For Lagaria, see above, p. 128.

[997] Str. 6.1.14.

[998] The Palinuran promontory is the region's most productive wine area today.

Massiliote wine must mean Velia (from their Massiliote origins).[999] Numerous sources mention the Aminaean vintage, which may be connected to Lucania.[1000] Cristofani sees in Amina[ies] an archaic Etruscan gentile name linked to Pontecagnano.[1001] Hescyhius Alexandrinus (fifth century AD) sets the Aminaean vintage in Peucetia, which may be sloppy terminology.[1002] Some editors emend to *Picentia*, locating Aminaea near Paestum at the mouth of the Sele.[1003] This thesis has some difficulties, including the presumption that references to Aminaea that include the word Falernum actually should read Salernum. But Macrobius associates the Aminaean grape with Salerno: "*uvarum ista sunt genera, Aminaea, scilicet a regione, nam Aminaei fuerunt ubi nunc Salernum est.*[1004] Pliny makes the same connection while discussing the Greek provenance of the Aminaean vine: "*a Surrento ad Silarum amnem triginta milia passuum ager Picentinus fuit Tuscorum, templo Iunonis Argivae ab Iasone condito insignis. intus oppidum Salerni, Picentia.*"[1005] One text also refers to the healing and medicinal properties of Aminaean

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[999] Ath. *Dipn.* 1.48. See La Greca, 50.

[1000] Ver. *Georg.* 2.89-100; Serv. *Comm. in Verg. Georg.* 2.97; cf. Philargyr. *Comm. in Verg. Georg.* 2.92. For another text on the Aminaean vintage, and which may reference an Aminaea near Salerno or the Silarus, see Varro, *Fragmenta operum de grammatica*, fr. 380 (p. 346 F), which is related to Macrob. *Sat.* 3.20.7.

[1001] M. Cristofani, "Gli Etruschi in Campania: nuove evidenze archeologiche ed epigrafiche," in E. Campanile, *Lingua e cultura degli Oschi* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1985), 27; Adamesteanu, "Scave e ricerche," 18 ff.

[1002] Hsch. *Alpha* 3675: "Ἀμιναῖον· δι' ἑνὸς ν τὸν οἶνον λέγει. ἡ γὰρ Πευκετία Ἀμιναία λέγεται." Cf. Hdn. *General prosody* 3.1, p. 390. For the Picentine settlement, see Chapter 5, p. 229.

[1003] See La Greca, 173.

[1004] Macr. *Sat.* 3.20.6-7.

[1005] Plin. *HN* 3.70. For the Greek provenance of Aminaean wine, note Iunius Philargyrius (Iunilius Flagrius) *in Virgil. georg.* 2.97: "sunt et Aminaeae (vites): Aminaeos Aristoteles in politiis hoc scribit

wine, which fits very well with the presumed medical school at Sorrento.[1006] Thus, we may be correct in attributing the Aminaean vintage to coastal Lucania. Regardless, the evidence clearly establishes viticulture as an aspect of Beautiful Lucania's reputation.

VII. The Environment and Lifestyle of Coastal Lucania

A. *Ars Pestana*

Interior Lucania was a dismal haunt to most ancient writers, as we have already seen. But coastal Lucania struck a different impression in the minds of some ancient authors: it was a place salubrious for body and soul. The air was healthy, the water pure. As a result, the health-inspiring qualities of the Lattari Mountains likely influenced the development of the Salernan medical school.[1007] The ancient Greeks began very early, too: by the time of Hesiod (late eighth century/early seventh, though dates vary) Italy had a school of medicine.[1008] This reputation continued into the empire. The second-century AD physician Galen heaps praises on the Sorrentine peninsula for its healthy environment.[1009] In fact, drawing on very late (ninth century AD) glosses from a monk

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Thessalos fuisse, qui suae regionis vites in Italiam transtulerint, atque illis inde nomen impositum."

[1006] Paulus Nicaeensis *Liber medicus*, 65.

[1007] Cass. *Var.* 11.10, mentions a high official at Ravenna sent by his doctors to the Lattari mountains to mend, all at the expense of the administration. For other passages on the healthy climate and other attributes of the Sorrentine peninsula, see Cf. Symmachus *Ep.* 6.17-18, and perhaps Lucr. 2.29-33; 2.355-65; 4.420-425; 4.572-89; 5.461-66; 5.939-52; 6.476-82.

[1008] Galen does not specify where this school is, though the prominence of the Sorrentine and Velian schools makes it quite likely that he means one of these two, or, at the very least, that this school sat on the Tyrrhenian Sea coast. See G. Pugliese Carratelli, "Le scuole mediche," in *Magna Grecia: Religione, pensiero, letteratura, scienza*, ed. G. Pugliese Carratelli (Milan: Electa, 1988), 227-36.

[1009] Gal. 10.360-368 Kuhn (*De metodo medendi* 5.12).

who had access to ancient medical books, La Greca hypothesizes that the region was so famous for its hygienic qualities and medical schools that the ancient term "*ars Pestana*" was synonymous with "the medical practice."[1010] If this terminology is correct, it indicates that in at least one area of life coastal Lucania maintained a very positive image in the minds of Greek and Roman authors, or at least physicians.

B. *Loci Amoeni*

This beautiful side of Lucania attracted not only visitors, but also wealthy patrons looking for a healthy, scenic, and quiet place to repose the soul.[1011] As we saw above, the area long had a reputation for its salutary benefits; but beginning in the second century BC rich Roman nobles began to seek refuge from the bustle of city life (as, presumably, Lucanian, Greek, and Etruscan nobles had done earlier: the archaeological record indicates a sudden settlement of the Silaran plain in the sixth century BC).[1012] Roman elites established these villas as suburban equivalents of the poets' *loci amoeni.*[1013] It is

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[1010] La Greca draws here on Walhfridus Strabo (Strabo Gallus) *De cultura hortorum* 1-3: "Plurima tranquillae cum sint insignia vitae,/non minimum est, si quis Pestanae deditus arti/noverit obsceni curas tractare Priapi," and Glossa *ad Strabonem, De cultura hortorum* 2-3: "PESTANAE: Civitas Campanie, ubi habundant medicant. ARTI: Medicali id est si quis medicus hortorum culturam exercet. PRIAPI: Qui precipuus hortorum cultor fuit."

[1011] Horsnaes, "Urbanization," 97: "The Tyrrhenian coast between Poseidonia and Laos is characterized by mountainous areas with steep slopes reaching almost to the shoreline. The mountains are rich in freshwater sources, and the area is divided by a large number of rivers, forming valleys and alluvial plains around the outlet of the rivers. The area has many small bays around the rivers' outlets that have provided suitable shelter for boats."

[1012] Horsnaes, "Urbanization," *passim*; M. Torelli, "La romanizzazione dei territori Italici," in *La cultura italica: Atti del convegno della società italiana di glottologia, Pisa, 19 e 20 dicembre 1977* (Pisa: Giardini Editori e Stampatori, 1978), 87.

[1013] J.R. Clarke, *The Houses of Roman Italy, 100 BC – AD 250* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1991), 19-23; J. Percival, *The Roman Villa* (Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press,

here that Lucanian painting, so famous from the beautiful tombs at Paestum, survived in the form of villa mosaics.[1014] Many upper-class Romans had multiple villas in coastal Lucania.[1015] Aemilius Paulus, victor over Perseus at Pydna (168 BC), retired to Velia four years later to recover from illness.[1016] We even see Cato Uticensis, nose buried in his Stoic books, surrounded by philosopher friends, enjoying his Lucanian lands that "afforded no mean sojourn."[1017]

Following his hero Cato's example, Cicero spent time down in Lucania, especially during his exile. He wrote many of his letters to Atticus, Brutus, and other friends and family either while on the road from Capua to Rhegium or sailing off of the Lucanian coast. It is quite possible that he was writing from his own holdings in Lucania, such as when he describes a strange dream that he had while on the run.[1018] While this could have been a friend's villa, La Greca notes that his freedman Sallustius is very concerned lest anyone wake Cicero, indicative of Cicero's ownership of the villa.[1019] Further

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1976), 52-9; S. Accardo, *Villae romane nell'ager bruttius. Il paesaggio rurale calabrese durante il dominio romano* (Rome: "L'Erma" di Bretschneider, 2000), 11-25 and *passim*; H. Fracchia, "The Romanization of the *Ager Buxentinus* (Salerno)," in *Modalità insediative e strutture agrarie nell'Italia meridionale in età romana*, ed. E. Lo Cascio and A.S. Marino (Bari: Edipuglia, 2001), 55-73.

[1014] Noviello, *Storiografia*, 48.

[1015] For a literary discription of a typical Tyrrhenian-sea elite villa, which La Greca (312) associates with the villas of Lucania, too, see Sen. *Ad Lucil.* 86.1-8. The area was a natural stopping point for sea-travellers bound for Rome; La Greca (13) suggests convincingly that we see an example of this in Dr. Luke's account in the Book of Acts 28.12-13.

[1016] Plut. *Aem.* 39.1-3.

[1017] Plut. *Cat. Mi.* 20. It is unclear from this passage whether Cato's Lucanian holdings were coastal, interior, or both.

[1018] Cic. *Div.* 1.28.59; cf. Val. Max. 1.7.5.

[1019] La Greca, 78-9.

evidence of Cicero's Lucanian links appear in Milo's harsh 500-mile ban: though assisting Cicero with food or shelter was illegal, the orator seems to have had no problem finding these necessities among his friends in Lucania.[1020]

In fact, La Greca and others have made an intriguing case from some epitaphs found at Atina in Lucania that Cicero's mother (of the gens *Helvia*) may have possessed Lucanian property (especially at Paestum), which eventually came to Cicero.[1021] His wife's family (the Terentii) may have had connections with Paestum.[1022] Other Ciceronian passages attest to villas in the region: on his way to Greece Cicero writes to his friend Gaius Trebatius Testa about the latter's great estate at Velia.[1023] He misses

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[1020] Plut. *Cic.* 31.6-32.3.

[1021] La Greca, 78-9. For other Ciceronian letters written from or about Lucania or Bruttium, see *Verr.* 2.40.99 (he sails from Vibo to Velia); *Verr.* 5.17.44; 18.46 (he sees near Velia the grand boat that the Messenians had dedicated to Verres); *Verr.* 5.158-164 mentions both a man from Conza and the men of Vibo; *Att.* 3.3 (Cicero at Vibo); *Att.* 3.2 (Cicero at Nares Lucanae); *Att.* 3.4 (Cicero at Vibo); *Att.* 16.6.1 (which Mac. *Sat.* 6.4.9 quotes; refers to the Paestan bay); *Planc.* 40-1, 96-7 (refers to Cicero's trip from Vibo to Brundisium); *Div.* 1.28.59 (Cicero stops at Atina and has an important dream); *Div.* 2.67.137 (refers to the "Atina plain"); *Fam.* 9.16.8-9 (mentions the Lucanian sausage); *Phil.* 13.5.11-12 (Pompey's slave retains his master's property in Lucania); *Tusc.* 1.37.89 (The Lucanian betrayal of Gracchus in the Second Punic War). Cicero on aspects of Magna Graecia: *Lael.* 4.13 (the deplorable condition of Magna Graecia in the first century BC); *Sen.* 12.39-41 (famous discussion supposedly between Plato, the Samnite Gaius Pontius, and the Tarentine Pythagorean Archytas); *Tusc.* 1.16.38 (state of the Pythagoreans); *Tusc.* 4.1.2 (Pythagoras influences the Romans); and *Fin.* 5.18.48-49 (learning draws men like the Sirens do). Cicero on Velia: *Balb.* 24.55 (Rome obtained priestesses of Ceres from Velia, and Velia gets citizenship in 90 BC); *Fam.* 9.7.2 (Caesar passes through from Sicily to Rome via Velia; only partial manuscript support); *Fam.* 7.20 (his friend Gaius Trebatius Testa has a villa there, and a medical book of interest to Cicero); *Att.* 16.6.1 (Cicero sails from Velia to Vibo); *Fam.* 7.19 and *Top.* 1.4-5 (Velia to Rhegium); *Att.* 16.7.5, *Brut.* 1.10.4, *Brut.* 1.15.5, *Phil.* 1.4.9-10, and *Phil.* 10.4.8 (Cicero finds Brutus and the Republican fleet at Velia); *Acad. Pr.* 2.23.74, *Acad. Pr.* 2.37.118, *Acad. Pr.* 2.39.122-123, *Acad. Pr.* 2.42.129, *Nat. d.* 1.11.27-28, *Nat. d.* 1.24.66, *Div.* 1.3.5, and *Tusc.* 2.22.51-52 (teachers and teachings from the Eleatic school of philosophy); perhaps *Att.* 7.13.5 (mentions Velian bankers, but this ostensibly is the Velian quarter in Rome) and *Tusc.* 1.48.116 (Alcidamas is from Elea, though it is unclear which Elea). See also D. Musti, "Fonti per la storia di Velia," *La Parola del Passato* 21 (1966): 318-35.

[1022] Cic. *Att.* 11.17a.3. For analysis of a Paestum-Cicero link, see Mello, *Paestum Romana*, 94-9; Lomas, *Roman Italy,* 237; *CIL* X.483: third c. AD, Paestum: epitaph of Digitia Rufina, wife of M. Tullius Cicero.

[1023] Cic. *Fam.* 7.20.

some medical texts there, and a doctor named Fadius (who could be Paestan, Velian, or simply Lucanian, judging from the non-Hellenic name) brings them.[1024] Additionally, La Greca notes the similarity between the villa's name (the *Domus Papiriana*) and the poet Statius's Velian father, Papinius.[1025] Cicero's familiarity with the estate and the area is also telling. In his *Philippics* Cicero mentions that Sextus Pompey's slave (a freedman of Caesar) hoarded his master's Lucanian land, which Antony dared rob from its rightful owner.[1026]

Horace's interest in the area is much more explicit. This is surprising, given his ambivalence, if not antipathy, toward the region in his own poetry, which must have stemmed in no small part from his own shame or insecurity regarding his Apulian or Lucanian origins. Yet Horace asks of Vala

> what the winter's like at Velia, the air at Salernum, what kind of people the country consists of, and how the road is.... (I must head for Lucania; you must tell me) which of the two people the greater share of grain supports; whether they drink stored rainwater, or from perennial wells of never-failing water (for as to the wine of that area I do not trouble myself; at my country villa I can endure and bear anything; when I have come to the coast, I demand that which is high-quality and easy-going, the kind of thing that may drive away my cares, and which may come into my veins and soul with a rich supply of hope, which may supply me with words, and which will make me appear young to my Lucanian girl); (tell me) which tract of land produces the most hares, which boars, which seas harbor more fishes and urchins, that I may be able to return home from there rich like a Phaeacian.[1027]

This is a goldmine of information for coastal Lucania. The inscriptional evidence

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[1024] This is also good evidence for a medical school at Velia.

[1025] La Greca, 327; Stat. *Silv.* 5.3.127-8.

[1026] Cic. *Phil.* 13.5.11-12.

[1027] Hor. *Epist.* 1.15.

indicates that the Numonius Vala family was influential at Paestum.[1028] This letter indicates that they had villas at Velia and Sorrento, and thus were probably influential figures there, too. Horace's Vala is perhaps the father of the ignominious Vala who perished, along with his men, in headlong flight after Varus's disaster in the Teutoberg Forest in 9 AD.[1029]

The poet's curiosity about the area is intriguing. Overtly he appears to know very little about coastal Lucania, hence all the questioning. On the other hand, within his questions we see some kind of familiarity with the area. Most importantly, there is an underlying assumption in Horace's letter that a new Lucanian villa will provide Horace with the kind of rest and relaxation, and status, that Vala must enjoy. He clearly admires the area, judging from how highly he speaks of its refinements, though all of this is wrapped in half-hearted, half-skeptical demands: this coastal-Lucanian villa provides that which is generous and mellow; it drives away cares; it has a rich supply of hope to stay in his veins and soul; it supplies him with poetic material; it makes him feel young; there are ladies around; it has the typical hares and boars (we cannot fail to miss the allusion to that more stereotypical image of wild Lucania); and it has good fishing.

The coastal Lucanian villa was a hit in the second century AD, as Pliny the Younger's letter to Praesens shows.[1030] La Greca identifies the latter as the Caius Brittius

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[1028] See La Greca, 180-1; Mello, 71-2; 118 for the *Numonii Vala* in Paestan inscriptions; *CIL* X.481.

[1029] Vell. Pat. 2.119.

[1030] Plin. *Ep.* 7.3.

Praesens of *CIL* X.468, consul twice, and father-in-law of Commodus.[1031] Praesens shared his time resting in both Campania and Lucania: the former because of his wife's Campanian heritage, the latter due to his own Lucanian background. Pliny playfully reproaches him for his lackadaisical, *iucundissimum* lifestyle. Praesens enjoyed the solitude that his Lucanian and Campanian villas afforded.

As late as the fourth century AD Roman elites enjoyed their coastal Lucanian villas.[1032] The tetrarch Maximian retired there, seeking a respite from his years as co-emperor with Diocletian.[1033] According to Eutropius Maximian specifically chose (*elegerat*) Lucania because of its *agri amoenissimi*.[1034] Lactantius puts them in Campania, but most likely he had multiple villas in southern Italy. [1035] Orosius hints at Maximian's pleasure with his Lucanian villas in the meaningful *morabatur*.[1036] Nevertheless, in late 306 we find him racing to Rome from Lucania (and his beloved *agris amoenissimis*) in order to support his son, who had already usurped the purple.

This idea of Lucania's *dulces recessus* continued well into late antiquity, judging from how favorably Cassiodorus described the area.[1037] King Theodoric granted a certain Eusebius permission to be rejuvenated in sweet Lucania. Despite barbarian invasions, the

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[1031] La Greca, 268.

[1032] Magaldi, 62-5.

[1033] Suid. s.v. Diocletian.

[1034] Eutr. 10.2.3; cf. Paul. Diac. *Hist. Rom.* 10.2.

[1035] Lact. *De mort. pers.* 26; Eutr. 9.27.1-2; Zos. 2.10.2.

[1036] Oros. 7.28.5-6.

[1037] Cass. *Var.* 4.48.

region still possessed the classic pleasure villa in which prominent Roman men such as Cicero, Horace, and even Maximian found repose.

C. Pastures and Produce: Images of the Lucanian Economy

Numerous authors inadvertently attest to Lucania's reputation as well-suited to animal husbandry, an image that combines both the idyllic, pleasant aspects of Beautiful Lucania with the fecund, primordial aspects of Ugly Lucania. Perhaps the earliest image of the abundance of inner Lucania is a fifth-century BC fragment of Metagenes:

> The river Crathis brings down to us huge barley cakes, already self-kneaded; the other river (the Sybaris) pushes a wave of cakes and meats and boiled rays all wriggling the same way. And these little streamlets flow from the one with roasted cuttlefish, and crabs, and lobsters, and, from the other with sausages and trimmings; on this side are simple dishes; on the other side are fried cakes. From high up the river, salt-fish cut in slices and self-boiled rush to the mouth; some fall before one's feet, and fancy cakes swim around us in a circle.[1038]

The rivers Cratis and Sybaris bring to Thurii abundant food, and its provenance must be interior Lucania. That area produced both simple foods and dainty morsels; but, in the mind of Metagenes, these dishes came self-prepared: the barbarian hands that prepared all this food are nowhere to be seen.

The region was not so disgusting (at least in parts) to discourage Theocritus from setting an idyll there, near Sybaris and Thurii; ironically, it depicts a poetic competition between a goatherd and a swineherd, two occupations associated strongly with

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[1038] Metagenes, Fr. 6 (=Athen. 6.269f): "ὁ μὲν ποταμὸς ὁ Κρᾶθις ἡμῖν καταφέρει/μάζας μεγίστας αὐτόματος μεμαγμένας,/ὁ δ' ἕτερος ὠθεῖ κῦμα ναστῶν καὶ κρεῶν/ἑφθῶν τε βατίδων εἰλυομένων αὐτόσε./τὰ δὲ μικρὰ ταυτὶ ποτάμι' ἐνμεντευθενὶ/ῥεῖ τευθίσιν ὀπταῖς καὶ φάγροις καὶ καράβοις,/ἐντευθενὶ δ' ἀλλᾶσι καὶ περικόμμασιν,/τῃδὶ δ' ἀφύαισι, τῇδε δ' αὖ ταγηνίαις./τεμάχη δ' ἄνωθεν αὐτόματα πεπνιγμένα/εἰς τὸ στόμ' ᾖττει, τὰ δὲ παρ' αὐτὼ τὼ πόδε,/ἄμυλοι δὲ περινέουσιν ἡμῖν ἐν κύκλῳ."

Lucania.[1039] Speaking of the area's fecundity, Horace admonishes that wealth does not last forever, so what is the point of having luxurious things—like Lucanian glades—if Orcus will take them away eventually?[1040] This is not the dark recesses of a Lucanian forest, where bandits, bears, boars, or Galen's bear-boars lurk. This is the pastoral-poetry *saltus*, suitable for fleecy flocks, lovers' trysts, and an occasional bit of farming when necessary.

The first-century AD Titus Calpurnius Siculus praises the fecundity of Lucanian flocks, and the region as a whole:

> Let the Stimicon be unconquered, and let the rich man take his rewards, nor only let him rejoice once he takes his goat, but let him take all the sheepfolds that the Thyrsis expiates. He will not, nevertheless, match my joy, nor will there be anything more pleasing to me than the things we saw in Rome, even if someone should give me all the herds of the Lucanian forest.[1041]

He has elevated the sheep-folds of Lucania almost to proverbial status, undoubtedly positive. Even the bulls of Lucania seem to draw on the strength of the Lucanian countryside to plow lush fields.[1042] Porphyrion's comments on Horace indicate that Lucanian pastoral production remained a strong image well into the third century AD.[1043]

[1039] Theoc. *Id.* 5.122-123: "{ΛΑ.} κἠγὼ μὰν κνίζω, Μόρσων, τινά· καὶ τὺ δὲ λεύσσεις./ἐνθὼν τὰν κυκλάμινον ὄρυσσέ νυν ἐς τὸν Ἄλεντα."

[1040] Hor. *Epist.* 2.2.175-182.

[1041] Calp. *Ecl.* 7.13-18: "Sit licet invictus Stimicon et praemia dives/auferat, accepto nec solum gaudeat haedo,/verum tota ferat quae lustrat ovilia Thyrsis./Non tamen aequabit mea gaudia, nec mihi, si quis/omnia Lucanae donet pecuaria silvae,/grata magis fuerint quam quae spectavimus Urbe."

[1042] Lucil. 6.247-248.

[1043] Porphyrion, *Comm. in Hor. Epistulas* 2.2.177: "CALABRIS. Fructuosis. Est enim Calabria praeter ceteros reditus etiam pecuaria, et lanarum mollium ferax, item Lucania. SALTIBUS. Latis fundis porrectis per plurimos montes."

Several sources besides the aforementioned Metagenes attest to the richness of Lucanian agriculture, though it does not compare to rich Campania. Sallust thought Spartacus counted on the richness of the region to feed his armies.[1044] We have already seen the Paestan rose trade, which (according to Martial) provided grain for the region.[1045] All in all, Greek and Roman authors (Horace especially) demonstrate a tension when discussing Lucanian productivity: on the one hand Lucanian farms and pastures flowed with good things, but on the other hand this was the result of its wild fecundity.[1046]

Conclusion

What do all of these images say about the Greek and Roman attitudes of the Lucani? Very much, with one caveat. On one level, the Lucani were of almost no importance to our Greek and Roman authors, who thought them just another barbarian people. To the Greeks these Lucani threatened the existence of the polis, which represented all things good and orderly. In this the Lucani were no different from the Messapii, and the Scythians, and the Persians; the list is extensive. To the Romans, the Lucani posed a very real threat to Roman tranquility, especially around the beginning of the third century BC with Tarentine and Epirote aggression rousing the Lucani to war;

[1044] Sallust, *Hist.* 3.fr. 98-99.

[1045] Mart. 6.80; Mart. 13.47 describes Lucanian Picentine bread, presupposing this grain trade.

[1046] For a discussion of the Lucanian economy, with a focus on Roman Lucania (and comments on the controversial *latifundia*), see Magaldi, 55-60.

and then they were another people to conquer and incorporate.

Yet, judging from how the Greeks and Romans depict the Lucani in all these accounts, I suggest that these writers did so in order to serve their own purposes, though this may have been done somewhat innocently, as part of a deeply engrained set of core values and worldviews. The Lucani are the canvas backdrop onto which Greek and Roman authors project their own identity. The Greeks could not ignore that the Lucani had adopted numerous Hellenic customs and institutions; but they were barbarians. Thus, the Lucani appear as "Greeks gone bad": they were of Greek origin far in the remote past, but had barbarized through distance from the polis and all that it represented. By ascribing this identity to the Lucani and providing a stark background against which to compare themselves, these Greek writers were able to highlight their own "Greekness." This, of course, clouded their objectivity at times: they saw the history of Lucanian-Greek relations as an incessant struggle for survival, whereas the reality on the ground was a very different picture of uneasy but constant neighboring relations interrupted by intermittent warfare.

The Romans are guilty of something similar: highlighting Lucanian perfidy, and emphasizing Roman victories over the brave Lucani, augmented Roman character and prestige. The treacherous Lucanian provided a very good measuring stick—the Romans would never break the *fides* of international law as the Lucani did in 298 BC, nor would they betray their former guests as Flavus did to Tiberius Gracchus. On the other hand, the Lucani were particularly tough opponents, along with the Samnites—they alone fought on after the rest had capitulated in the Social War. Thus, a Roman victory over

the Lucani was an achievement worthy of boasting (and triumph).

Epilogue: Lucania in Late Antiquity

How backward, damaged, and depopulated was Lucania in Late Antiquity?[1047] The archaeological evidence shows some of this: traditional settlements that had been inhabited since the fifth century BC began to be abandoned, perhaps starting as early as the first century AD; population centers moved to higher, more defensible ground, and shrank.[1048] The malarial swamps of Magna Graecia and their noxious effects have been well noted. But some of the literary sources paint a different picture, at least for the early Empire. For example, in the first century AD Columella described a lush, Tyrrhenian Sea coast.[1049] Brunt has shown that Magna Graecia, including Lucania, had certainly suffered when compared to earlier centuries, but had not completely faded into untended pastures and swamps lacking all settlement.[1050] After all, the malarial epidemic eventually subsided in the later Empire; even Paestum, which Strabo thought polluted from its noxious river, continued to produce its famous roses perhaps even into the Medieval period.

When we turn to the late Empire and beyond, we see that the literary sources do not totally agree with the assumptions and conclusions drawn from the material sources about the depopulation of the area, including interior Lucania. Paulinus mentions that pilgrims from the cities (and, notably, not towns) of the surrounding area, including

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[1047] For a general survey of Lucania in Late Antiquity, see Gualtieri, *La Lucania romana*, 253-262.

[1048] Brunt, *Italian Manpower*, 201; 365, notes that Lucania and Bruttium show a very low density of inscriptions (1 per 60 km^2), but this may be due in part from the dearth of suitable stone in those regions.

[1049] Col. *Agr.* 10.127-144.

[1050] Brunt, *Italian Manpower,* 364.

Lucania, have filled Nola during the festival of St. Felix.[1051] Some fifth-century synod acts indicate a thriving church hierarchy (and, thus, congregations) in Lucania.[1052] Paul the Deacon paints a beautiful and sickness-free picture of the inhabitants of the Sele area after the death of Arechis II.[1053]

In the late Roman Empire the area played a valuable role in the Roman economy, and especially its food supply. Rome relied heavily on Lucanian pork, and probably had done so at least in the early Empire, if not the Republic. It is not a coincidence that in later years the Empire exacted tribute from Lucania in the form of pigs, though the journey from Lucania to Rome was still an arduous one.[1054] The Theodosian regulations dealing with the Lucanian pig trade laws are addressed not to a few pig farmers in the mountains; rather, these are major laws designed to insure that an industry important to the lifestyle of Rome (or, at least, the upper classes) maintains its necessary contributions. We may also see the relative importance of Lucania from the *via Herculia*, mentioned in the story of the Twelve Martyrs of Hadrumentum.[1055] While humble compared to other

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[1051] Paul. Nolan. *Carm.* 14.49-85. We must be careful, for Paulinus is drawing heavily on Vergil's gathering of the clans in *Aeneid* 7, and thus this could be an anachronistic misrepresentation of first century BC conditions.

[1052] *Acta Synhodi*, year 499 (p. 399, 400, 409, 410 M): "P. c. Paulini v. c. sub die kal. Martiarum in basilica beati Petri apostoli residente viro venerabili papa Symmacho una cum 1. Rustico Menturnensi, 2. Bonifatio Veliterno, 3. Miseno Cumano, ...44. Florentio Plestano, ...49. Florentius episcopus eclesiae Plestanae subscripsi. Gaudentius episcopus ecclesiae Salernitanae subscripsi. [year 501]: 50. Rusticus episcopus ecclesiae Buxentiae subscripsi. [year 502]: Aprilis episcopus ecclesiae Nucerinae subscripsi. [42. Florentius episcopus ecclesiae Plestinae subscripsi. ...53: Rusticus episcopus ecclesiae Buxentinae subscripsi."

[1053] Paul. Diac. *Carm.* 33.31-38. See La Greca, 260.

[1054] Cass. *Var.* 11.39

[1055] R.J. Buck, "The Via Herculia," *Papers of the British School at Rome* 39 (1971): 87; *Acta Sanctorum* Sept. 1, 129-144.

roads, this *via publica*, built in either the late third or early fourth century AD, ran from modern Ariano Irpino through Venusia, Potenza, Grumentum, to Heraclea; it indicates the region's continued importance to the imperial government.

Lucania may not have been such a political dead-end in the late Empire, perhaps because of the importance attached to the continual smooth operation of the pork trade. The episode involving the demotion of Tetricus in the third century AD demonstrates how important (and powerful) the office of *corrector Lucaniae Bruttiaeque* had become. Tetricus had been a pretender to the throne for years, virtually running his own autonomous empire in Gaul. Mystery somewhat shrouds what happened next: when Aurelian prepared for battle, per a secret agreement, Tetricus switched sides, giving Aurelian an easy victory. That is simple enough. But that Aurelian did not immediately execute Tetricus is shocking, to say the least. It is unlikely that Aurelian, in Rome, feared reprisal from Tetricus's supporters. Instead, he installed Tetricus as *corrector Lucaniae Bruttiaeque*.[1056]

Italian scholars have established the importance of the office of *corrector* in the late empire, and especially that of *Lucaniae Bruttiaeque*.[1057] The term seems anachronistic here in the Tetricus episode—while the title is as old as the reign of Trajan,

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[1056] Eutr. *Breviarium ab Urbe condita* 9.13.2. The *Historia Augusta* (*Aurel.* 39.1) confirms that Tetricus was corrector of Lucania, but *Tyr. Triginta* 24.5 also says that Tetricus was corrector not just of Lucania, but of all Italy. But Aur. Victor confirms the appointment (*Liber de Caesaribus* 35.5); cf. *Epit.* 35.7. Paul the Deacon's account (*Hist. Rom.* 9.13) differs on some points from that of Aurelius Victor.

[1057] See A. Russi, *La Lucania romana. Profilo storico-istituzionale* (San Severo: Gerni, 1995), 87 ff., which includes the inscriptional evidence for known *correctores*.

Diocletian is considered the founder of the office of *corrector* as a regular institution.[1058] Tetricus's appointment must have been a special commission. Paul the Deacon's statement "Aurelian instituted the use of pork meat for the people" (a near copy of Aur. Vict. *Epit.* 35.6) may be of use.[1059] This may refer to some kind of ration, but I believe it suggests a popularization of the meat, judging from the aggressive measures that the imperial government took to favor and encourage the region's pork production, even in the face of external and internal pressures.[1060] Perhaps as a result of this increased government interest in the region the correctorship "matured" or grew in its powers at this time. Tetricus balked at the offer initially, but Aurelian remonstrated with him jokingly that it was better to govern some part of Italy than to be emperor over some remote region across the Alps.[1061] The implication from this passage is that even a traditionally backward region like Lucania/Bruttium is still more prestigious to govern than a typical province. Perhaps Aurelian thought having a capable administrator run the southern Italian region responsible for the pork trade worth the risk of keeping a former pretender alive.[1062]

Other literary evidence indicates that economic conditions did not totally

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[1058] See La Greca, 140-1. Bird (149) believes Tetricus was actually *corrector totius Italiae*, an archaic title that Victor's audience would not have understood in the fourth century. But Aurelian's joke makes it clear that Tetricus governs only part of Italy.

[1059] Aur. Vict. *Epit.* 35.6: "Porcinae carnis usum populo instituit."

[1060] *Cod. Theod.* 11.28.7; *Cod. Theod.* 14.4.4. See also *Cod. Theod. Valent. Nov.* 36; Cass. *Var.* 11.39.

[1061] Aur. Vic. *Liber de Caesaribus* 35.7.

[1062] Lucania and Bruttium remained one combined province in the late Empire, acc. Polemius Silvius, *Laterc.* 1 (MGH A.A. IX p. 535-536): "In Italia XVI: ...Brittia cum Lucania, in qua Regium."

deteriorate during and after the Gothic invasions. Cassiodorus, as *corrector Lucaniae Bruttiaeque* of the early sixth century AD, mentions an invitation to Lucanian shippers to transport food to Gaul, hard hit by famine; this presupposes something of a favorable agricultural environment.[1063] In fact, in his letters Cassiodorus writes of the productivity of the area several times: *Var.* 8.31.4-5 (harvests, vineyards, pastures, horses, clear springs, rich seashores); *Var.* 12.4.1 (groupers/sea bass); *Var.* 12.12 (milks, cheeses, and wines); *Var.* 12.14.1-5 (vines, olives, vegetables, tender chicory, fish); *Var.* 12.15.4-5 (vines, olives, harvests, threshing floors, artificial gardens).[1064] He also mentions a market of Leucothea in Lucania, pointing toward strong economic activity; it must have been fairly important, since it attracted the attention of King Athalric.[1065]

Regarding technology, Cassiodorus referred to a perfectly-clear lamp and a water clock in a monastery; he also commanded these monks to study medicine, and especially the texts of Dioscorides, Hippocrates, Galen, and others from his library.[1066] Perhaps something of the former reputation of the Lucanian coast and Sorrentine peninsula as centers of medicinal study still remained. This level of learning and technology does not fit well with traditional views of the backwardness of early-Medieval southern Italy.

But this was an age of Gothic invasions, and southern Italy was indeed hit very

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[1063] Cass. *Var.* 4.5.

[1064] Varro, *R.R.* 2.10.11: horsebreeding was an important part of the Lucanian economy.

[1065] Cass. *Var.* 8.33. See La Greca, 64.

[1066] Cass. *De Institutione Divinarum Litterarum,* 30-31.

hard. Numerous passages attest to the destruction in the area. Alaric and his Visigoths wreaked havoc on their way to Sicily and Africa; after his premature death, his successor Ataulf finished the destruction of Bruttium, Lucania, and Campania on his return to Rome.[1067] Paul the Deacon lingers on the devastation of the Goths under Alaric and then Totila in the next century.[1068] While he may be guilty of some embellishment as a writer who was quite loyal to independent Lombard dukes (who possessed the lands in question during the eighth century AD), it is still clear that the region suffered. Agathes records that Butilinus and his Franks, just ten years after Totila's devastating campaign, trashed all of Italy, but Lucania especially.[1069] Even the Vandals attacked Lucania between 461 and 463 AD, wreaking havoc in ways that "*qui passi sunt miserabiliter lugenda narrabunt.*"[1070]

The invaders continued to plunder Lucania even after conquest. In the sixth

[1067] Jordanes, *Get.* 30-31.156-159.

[1068] Paul. Diac. *Historia Romana* 12.14; 16.22.

[1069] Agathes, in R. Keydell, *Agathiae Myrinaei historiarum libri quinque. Corpus Fontium Historiae Byzantinae. Series Berolinensis* 2 (Berlin: De Gruyter, 1967), p. 40: "Ἤδη δὲ τοῦ ἦρος ἐπιγινομένου ἐνταῦθα κατὰ τὸ προστεταγμένον ξυνεκροτοῦντο αἱ δυνάμεις καὶ ἅπαντα ἤθροιστο τὰ στρατεύματα. Ναρσῆς δὲ ἐξασκεῖν γε ἐπὶ πλέον αὐτοὺς ἐκέλευε τὰ πολέμια καὶ ἐπερρώννυε τὸν θυμὸν ταῖς καθ' ἡμέραν μελέταις, τροχάζειν τε ἀναγκάζων καὶ ὑπὲρ τῶν ἵππων ἐν κόσμῳ ἀναπάλλεσθαι ἔς τε πυρρίχην τινὰ ἐνόπλιον περιδινεῖσθαι καὶ θαμὰ τῇ σάλπιγγι καταβομβεῖσθαι τὸ ἐνυάλιον ἐπηχούσῃ, ὡς μὴ πάμπαν τῷ ἀνειμένως διαχειμάζειν ἐπιλελησμένοι τοῦ πολέμου, εἶτα ἐν αὐτῷ δὴ τῷ ἀγῶνι μαλθακισθεῖεν. Ἐν τούτῳ δὲ οἱ βάρβαροι σχολαίτερον πορευόμενοι τὰ ἐν ποσὶν ἅπαντα ἐδῄουν καὶ ἐλυμαίνοντο. ὑπερβάντες δὲ ὡς ἀνωτάτω Ῥώμην τε τὴν πόλιν καὶ ἅπασαν τὴν περιοικίδα ἦεσαν ἀνὰ τὰ πρόσω, ἐν δεξιᾷ μὲν ἔχοντες τὰ Τυρσηνικὰ πελάγη, ἐπὶ θάτερα δὲ αὐτοῖς παρετέταντο αἱ τοῦ Ἰονίου κόλπου ῥηγμῖνες. ἐπεὶ δὲ ἐς Σάμνιον τὴν χώραν οὕτω καλουμένην ἀφίκοντο, ἐνταῦθα διεκρίθησαν ἐφ' ἑκατέραν πορείαν. καὶ Βουτιλῖνος μὲν ἅμα τῷ πλείονι καὶ ἀλκιμωτάτῳ στρατῷ ἀνὰ τὰς Τυρσηνικὰς ἠϊόνας ἐχώρει καὶ Καμπανίας τε τὰ πλεῖστα ἐληΐσατο καὶ μὲν δὴ καὶ Λευκανίας ἐπέβη, καὶ εἶτα Βρεττίᾳ προσέβαλλε καὶ μέχρι τοῦ πορθμοῦ προῆλθεν, ὃς δὴ Σικελίαν τε τὴν νῆσον καὶ τὸ τέρμα τῆς Ἰταλίας ἀποκρίνει."

[1070] Victor Vitensis, *Historia persecutionis Africanae Provinciae* 1.51, in *Monumenta Germaniae Historica, Auctores Antiquissimi*, I-XV (Berolini, 1877-1919), 3.1, p. 13.

century AD Cassiodorus lamented the region's treatment at the hands of his protectors; he also took drastic measures to alleviate the situation, including price controls, tax relief, and admonitions to both tenant and landowner not to raise trouble.[1071] The Theodosian Code includes several tax remissions, presumably because of economic difficulties resulting from the devastations of war.[1072] Procopius later laments the harsh exactions of Totila in Lucania and Bruttium.[1073]

But the region, though easy to plunder, was difficult to secure, as Charlemagne would learn centuries later from the rebellious Arechis. The mountains of interior Lucania and Bruttium seemed impassible to many, presenting a formidable tactical challenge to any army.[1074] Independent elites could quickly raise armies of disaffected peasants, and the geography of Lucania afforded critical positions by which they could repel most opponents.[1075] When angered, these Lucanian peasants could become vicious aggressors, at least according to a letter of the seventh-century Theophylactus Simocatta.[1076] To our surprise, he still refers to these people as "the Lucani."

According to Procopius the people of Lucania feared not only the Goths (naturally), but also their Byzantine liberators, who harmed them at times as much as the

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[1071] Cass. *Var.* 12.5.3-5.

[1072] *Cod. Theod.* 11.28.7; 12.

[1073] Procop. *Goth.* 3.6.4-5 (=*De bellis* 7.6.4-5).

[1074] Procop. *Goth.* 3.26.15-23 (=*De bellis* 7.26.15-23). See also Procop. *Goth.* 3.28.4-8 (=*De bellis* 7.28.4-8).

[1075] Procop. *Goth.* 3.18.20-25 (=*De bellis* 7.18.20-25).

[1076] Theophylactus Simocatta, *Ethical Epistles*, 71.

Gothic defenders; they are relieved at the promises that the powerful man Tullianus extracts from the Byzantine general John. Tullianus's position is unclear, as he holds great sway in Lucania and Bruttium, but no official title, it seems. Nevertheless, the Roman patricians, at the behest of Totila, order the Lucanian peasants back to the land, stripping Tullianus of his makeshift army. Finally, it is intriguing that Roman nobles still possessed not only Lucanian holdings, but even the authority to volley off ultimata, as late as the sixth century AD.[1077] This episode shows many promising avenues for research on Lucania in Late Antiquity, though beyond the scope of this study.

The waves of war eventually drove the people to abandon their safe Empire flatland-habitations and settle the fortified mountain tops, one of the hallmarks of the medieval period. Actually, the archaeological record indicates that the Lucani and other peoples of southern Italy utilized fortified refuges even in the pre-history period; the Lucani of the first century BC dubbed their town Acheruntia "nest" because it rested on a mountain top and was a place of safety.[1078] A decree from Pope Gelasius to the bishops of Lucania, Bruttium, and Sicily speaks matter-of-factly about the region's woes.[1079] Pope Gregory the Great exhorts bishop Cyprian of Sicily through the story of the Lucanian convert Petronilla who, with her bishop Agnello (Lucanian too?), seek refuge in

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[1077] Procop. *Goth.* 3.22.1-3; 20-22 (=*De bellis* 7.22.1-3; 20-22).

[1078] Porph. *Comm. in Hor. Carmina* 3.4.14: "Acheruntia oppidum est Lucaniae, quam nidum appellavit, quod parvum sit, et in summo monte constitutum, sicut nidi avium in summis arboribus solent esse."

[1079] Gelasius I, *Epist.* 9, in J.P. Migne, ed., *Patrologiae Cursus Completus, series Latina* (Paris, 1844-1864), vol. 59, col. 47-9.

Sicily from war in Lucania.[1080] One late catalogue (tenth century AD) lists the cities of Lucania and Bruttium not as *opulentissimae urbes* (as it does the cities of Campania), but just *civitates*.[1081] In the twelfth century AD Guido of Pisa called Paestum "*destructa nunc*."[1082]

Internal disorder plagued the area, too. The region's infrastructure had deteriorated to some extent in Late Antiquity. Symmachus, corrector of Lucania and Bruttium, complains in the late fourth/early fifth century AD that his friend Theodorus should have written him sooner, but he understands if Theodorus cannot get the letter to him very quickly on account of the difficulties of communicating via Lucania.[1083] This is not the Lucania of Cicero's day, when numerous letters past freely every week from himself to Rome and elsewhere. Even worse, banditry had gotten so out of hand that the emperor had felt it necessary to ban the use of horses by all but the highest officials, presumably because these bands of thieves and murderers struck too fast and would

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[1080] Greg. *Epist.* 4.6, in J.P. Migne, ed., *Patrologiae Cursus Completus, series Latina* (Paris, 1844-1864), vol. 77, col. 672-673. Technically, Gregory just refers to the *cladem Italiae*, but given the context of Petronilla's life, it seems likely that they left Lucania.

[1081] *Catalogus Provinciarum Italiae*, in G. Waitz, ed., *Scriptores rerum Langobardicarum et Italicarum saec. VI-IX, Monumenta Germaniae Historica, Auctores Antiquissimi*, I-XV (Berolini, 1877-1919), p. 188: "...Quinta provincia Campania ab urbe Roma usque ad Siler Lucaniae fluvium extenditur. In qua opulentissime urbes Capua, Neapolim et Salernum constitutae sunt. Sexta provincia Lucana inchoat a fluvio Silere cum Oritia usque ad fretum Siculum per ora maris Tirreni, sicut et due superiores provinciae, dextrum Italie cornu tenens, pertingit. In qua posite sunt civitates, id est Pestus, Laynus, Cassanus, Cosentia, Malvitus et Regium."

[1082] Guido Pisanus, *Geographica*, in J. Schnetz, ed., *Itineraria Romana*, vol. 2 (Teubner, 1940), 74: "Item iuxta mare magnum Gallicum quod Tyrrenum civitas est Bibona Valentia, Tenno, Tempsa, Clampetia, Herculis, Cerellis, Laminium, Blandas, Cesernia, Veneris, Buxonia, Bellia, Herculia, Pestum quae est destructa nunc, Silarium, Salernum, Nuceria, Amalfi, Minverva, Siratum vel Sirrentum, Stabium, Sarnum, Pompei...."

[1083] Symmach. *Ep.* 5.13.

escape before they could be intercepted.[1084]

Perhaps it is fitting to end with Libius Severus, one of the last of the western Roman emperors (461-465), himself a Lucanian.[1085] Like most of these Gothic puppets, he did very little, and apparently was poisoned; the Eastern emperor Leo did not even recognize him.[1086] After his death, and the fall of the Western Roman Empire, Lucania became the site of numerous battles, first between Byzantines and Goths, then Lombards and Charlemagne. What remained of a "Lucanian consciousness" is impossible to say. But we may note that today the people of the area take pride in their unique Lucanian dialect and culture, and, in fact, a tiny strain of independence still lives on—numerous private websites reject the official name of the province, Basilicata (which has its own antiquity and cultural distinction in the Hellenic *basileus* and *basilica*), instead preferring one with an older heritage: Lucania.

[1084] *Cod. Theod.* 9.30.1-5.

[1085] Though Libius is the only Lucanian known to have attained the purple, the emperor Commodus married a Lucanian Bruttia Crispina (Mello, 120).

[1086] Cass. *Chronica* 458-465.

Conclusion

Almost every study of the Lucani begins with something like a dirge and a *caveat*: a lamentation of the supposedly minuscule literary record, and a warning about the Greek and Roman lenses through which we must look to see the Lucani in our sources. It is unfortunate that we have no explicit voice of the Lucani themselves, and we certainly must be careful when using any written source, ancient or modern. But archaeology also has its faults: as Tagliente admits, "*...l'archeologia delle genti italiche [è] troppo spesso l'archeologia delle loro necropoli.*"[1087] The reality of where a particular ancient civilization's artifacts may be found also constrains purely objective interpretation. And our literary sources on the Lucani—though scattered, brief, and difficult to collate into a coherent picture—are not so meager. In fact, this study implicitly urges a return to the literary sources as an essential source for Lucanian history.

Early scholarship on the Lucani laid some important groundwork for our understanding of these people, and volumes of Italian archaeological work have added to this picture. But throughout this study we have seen that some fundamental suppositions drawn on rather sketchy evidence, such as the fifth-century Lucanian invasion, must be abandoned, for they skew this very picture. I hope to have mined our various writers with a very critical eye, in order to illuminate Lucanian culture and history. We have seen that fundamental Lucanian institutions like the meddicate, kingship, and religion all reveal exciting new details about these people upon closer examination.

[1087] Tagliente, *Edilizia Domestica*, 9.

We have seen that for centuries the Lucani were a people pulled in various directions by external forces, while driven by the internal forces upon which their society rested. It would not be too strong to say that, starting as early as the eighth century BC, Greek influence transformed Lucanian society. The Lucani adopted writing and artistic, architectural, and even armament styles from the Greeks. But the Lucani did not simply Hellenize; they incorporated these Greek institutions within their own culture. And the process worked both ways: Greek cities incorporated Lucanian elite families and the peasantry to remain viable throughout the turmoil of the fourth and third centuries (and before: much of the history of these Italiote poleis revolves around internecine strife). Proximity between Greeks and Lucani led to a great fusion of the two, and war, at times, as the history of Thurii attests. Throughout all this fusing and bolstering, Lucanian tribal society shaped the history of the region: for example, Alexander Molossus's invasion could have turned out very differently had the Lucanian tribal system been of a much weaker character, such as at Rome.

With the advent of Rome came the gradual death of traditional Lucanian society. Some would call this the result of Romanization, but this covers the reality of Tacitus's *Pax Romana*; Lucania could almost be a case study of this process. Certainly something falling under the rubric of Lucanian culture continued through the Empire and Late Antiquity, and even today, since the Italians of the region call themselves Lucanian as often as Basilicatans. But the Lucanian culture of the sixth century BC, let us say, had disappeared by Augustus, and probably earlier. Certainly a part of it lived on in the aforementioned "fused" centers like Paestum. But the demographic and ecological

consequences of two centuries of the peninsula's most grievous wars (along with deadly malaria epidemics that appeared often up to the twentieth century) essentially killed a culture, if not a people. Something new replaced it—we are forced to use a clunky term like "Roman-Greek-Lucanian"—but even then the area was still a shell of its former self; population numbers after Sulla could only have been a fraction of their fifth-century values. Lucania became simply an area with borders, part of Augustus's *regio III*; "Lucani" were just its inhabitants, and not the unique Sabellian people who once prospered there.

Greek and Roman authors during and after the period of the Lucani ascribe a varied and often contradictory identity to these people. Perhaps obviously, this derives (in part) from the oscillating relations between the former and latter. Sometimes the Lucani are a brave, noble people, who disdain laziness and embrace hospitality. At other times the Lucani are prone to deception and treachery, and they earned a bad name for it, too. These contrasting images coincide well with the topography of Lucania, which is a land of contradictions: the lofty, inaccessible Apennines shelter wolves, bears, and thugs, but the peaceful Tyrrhenian coast offers repose to the wearied senator. No wonder ancient Lucania now comprises two modern provinces (Salerno, Campania region, and Potenza, Basilicata region).

Finally, this dissertation's contributions to the study of the Lucani add to our understanding of the Italian experience in Magna Graecia, both with respect to the Greeks and the Romans. The Lucani were only one of many people whose cultures radically changed (if not disappearing entirely) with the coming of the Greeks, and especially

Rome. The Sidicini, Aurunci/Ausones, Alfaterni, Serdaioi, Chones, Morgetes, Picentines, southern Etruscans, and Lucani all disappear during the period surveyed, or at best become simply geographical terms. A similar process happened over the rest of central and northern Italy, though certainly with regional variations. These obscure peoples almost never left a written record, but Greek and Roman authors did pass an occasional glance in their direction. While we must be responsible when collating accounts in various authors from different periods, regions, and worldviews, we can, nonetheless, carefully scrutinize them, and perhaps assemble a sufficient corpus of legitimate evidence in order to understand better these important peoples.

Appendix A: Timeline of Lucanian History

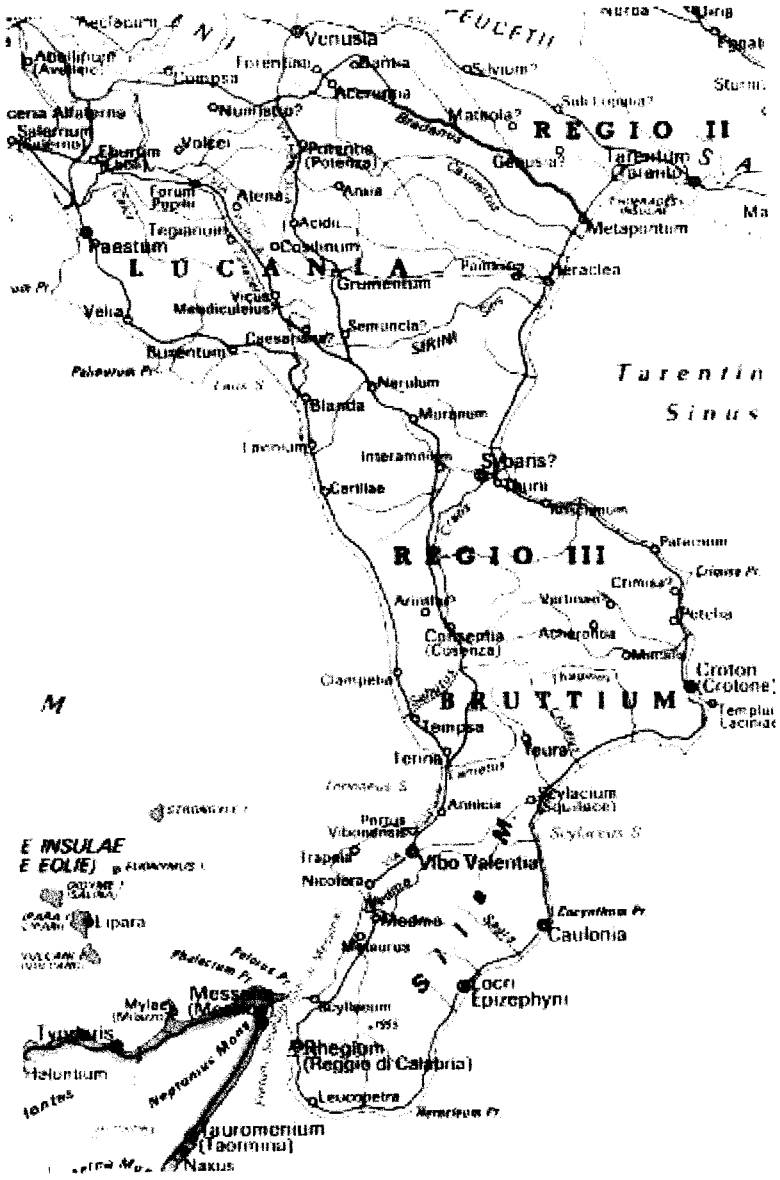
Date	Events in Lucania and Magna Graecia
Iron age	Arrival of Sabellian peoples, including Lucani, to southern Italy
late 6th	Pythagoras arrives in Italy
mid 5th	Emergence of independent Lucanian tribes in sources
	Supposed arrival of Lucanian *ver sacrum* tribe(s)
	L. attain dominant position at Paestum
early 4th c.	Supposed friendship between Samnites and Tarentine elites
389	L. (allied to Dionysius I) defeat Thurii at Laos
350s	Death of Archytas of Tarentum. Greeks abandon moderate government, adopt radical democracies. *Staseis*. Opposition to Rome begins
356	Bruttii secure independence from L. Bruttii sack Terina; Messapii sack Metapontum and Heraclea
343	**Archidamus** of Sparta (first of the *condottieri*) arrives to assist Tarentum; some success against L. and Messapii
338	Killed at Manduria
c. 334	**Alexander** of Epirus (**Molossus**) arrives in Italy desiring empire, but ostensibly to help Tarentum; he continually defeats L., extending Greek control almost to southern Campania
	L. lose Heraclea and other cities(?). Alexander captures Poseidonia(?), only briefly; captures Consentia, chief city of Bruttian league; strained ties with Tarentum
331/0	Alexander killed by L. exiles near Pandosia
330	Spurious(?) treaty between L. and Rome
327-304	**Second Samnite War**

	Naples, allied with Nola and Tarentum, vs. Rome; *stasis* in Naples results in Roman occupation, very favorable treaty for Naples
326	L. make treaty with Rome; Tarentines attempt to disrupt alliance; L. break treaty
320	Tarentines mediates between Rome and Samnites, who lose at Luceria
318	Rome makes 2-year truce with Samnium, campaigns in Apulia and L.
317	Rome secures Forentum and Nerulum in L.
315	**Agathocles** of Syracuse makes first intervention into Italy
315/314	**Acrotatos**, son of Cleomenes of Sparta, allies with Tarentum and attacks Agathocles
303/302	L. allied with Rome against Cleonymus(?). **Cleonymus**, allied with Tarentum and Messapii, attacks L. and the Romans
	Cleonymus allies with L., demands 200 female hostages and 600 talents of silver from Metapontine nobility; defeated late in 302
301	Unpopular with Italiotes, Cleonymus departs
300-295	**Agathocles** of Syracuse makes second intervention into Italy (Calabria) at behest of Tarentum; ignores L.
290s	Beginning of extensive Roman contact with L.
298	Samnites attack L., allies with Rome, provoking the Third Samnite War
296	Cos. L. Volumnius Flamma puts down revolt in L.
295	Roman victory at Sentinum: probable use of L. troops
293	Velia supports Samnites in Third Samnite War; conquered by Carvilius
291	Venusia founded as a Latin colony
283?	Cos. C. Fabricius Luscinus liberates Thurii from a L. siege, leaves a garrison behind to protect city
280-275	**Pyrrhic War**: Thurii appeals to Rome for aid vs. L.

	Anti-Roman leader elected in Tarentum; appeal to Pyrrhus of Epirus
	Pyrrhus allies with Lucani, Tarentum, Etruscans, and Samnites
280	Campani in Rhegium take over city
	Negotiations between Rome and Pyrrhus include freedom/autonomy for Italiotes, return of traditional lands to Samnites, Lucani, and Bruttii
	Pyrrhus marches through Lucania, defeats Romans at **Heraclea**
279	Pyrrhus defeats Romans at Asculum
278-6	Romans defeat Lucani repeatedly. Greeks request Pyrrhus' return; he is defeated at sea by Carthaginians
	Pyrrhus marches through Lucania
275	Romans defeat Pyrrhus at Beneventum; Pyrrhus returns to Epirus
273	Paestum receives a Latin colony
272	Tarentum falls to Romans
268	Beneventum founded as a Latin colony
265	Rome executes Campanian mercenaries in Rhegium
244	Foundation of Brundisium, threat to Tarentum
217-202	**Second Punic War**
212	Tarentum and other cities secede from Rome
209	Sack of Tarentum; damage to other cities
209	Complaints of Latin colonies of stresses of war
194	Buxentum receives a Roman colony; beginning decline of Roccagloriosa
186	Refoundation of Buxentum

132/1	Building of Via Annia Popilia; establishment of Popilius' achievements at Forum Popilii
123/2	Foundation of Colonia Minervia/Minervium at Scolacium/Scylletium and Neptunia near Tarentum
91-88	**Social War:** L. join Marsi et al. in revolt against Rome
89	All Greek cities incorporated into Rome either as *municipia* or *coloniae*. Adoption of Roman law and Romanized constitutions
88	Mithridates slaughters thousands of Italiotes
88-82	**Marius-Sulla civil wars** damaging to southern Italy
82	Battle of the Colline Gate; L. support Samnites under Pontius Telesinus. Presumably many L. slaughtered
73-71	Spartacus' revolt may have devastated part of L.
65	Horace born at Venusia
c.6 AD	Augustus' division of Italy into regions; L. part of region III

Map 1: Southern Italy



http://www.telemaco.unibo.it/rom/italia/lucania1.htm

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